

NAPOLEON

BY

BERTHOLD VALLENTIN

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HODIERNO HEROI

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To the Hero of this Day

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INTRODUCTION

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The history of Napoleon has yet to be written. Around his life scholarship has piled so vast a heap of material that here, more than in any other field, one understands the modern historian's reluctance to attempt the whole. The labor spends itself in single studies that for the most part only swell the already endless pile and never afford a view of the great man's life as a whole. The total history of Napoleon lies tangled up in the broader chronicles of his epoch, and whoever desires it must piece it together himself from works conceived for another purpose. Napoleon, who more than any man of the post-Christian era was the pivot and the moving spring of his time, becomes visible to posterity only as the exponent of the men, the conditions, the movements, the currents of his age. Yet that age, and the centuries down to our own, will not be properly grasped until the great apparition that turned them stands at their beginning — until the history of the time can be written outward from the history of this apparition. This is no taking of sides for an individualist or a collectivist science of history; it is a postulate set by the historical fact of Napoleon. Even the most extreme collectivist cannot deny that the building blocks of state and world, and the impulses behind the nineteenth century's movements, all lie ready in the person and work of Napoleon. Napoleon did not merely end the Revolution: he created the space in which the political and cultural formations of the nineteenth and twentieth centuries arose — formations whose only premises in history are his designs and his being. Until the complete and final history of Napoleon has been written, the history of these centuries will not be understood.

Yet plainly the hour for such a portrait has not yet struck. We have not yet recovered the gift that a Ranke or a Mommsen, even a Giesebrecht or a Treitschke, possessed: the power to make a great human destiny rise out of the rubble of accumulated facts. Indeed that gift no longer seems even to be the chief thing the present asks of the past. For more than a century men's minds have been fed on the unfolding of historical processes, on the becoming of phenomena, on the development of conditions, and have gained from it nothing but a flat and unreliable sense of their own conditioning. To add to this hoard yet one more such record of becoming — even were it that of the greatest of men — can serve no purpose now. It gives the spirit no living food, only fresh matter for the brain's habit of mirroring itself in the past. This craving to feel oneself a single link in a chain of conditioned events has sealed the unhappy state in which the world finds itself today: a state in which everything seems the issue of opaque and unaccountable development, with nowhere any unconditioned given, any personal power, any great man bearing his authority in himself, on whom this irresistible torrent might find its check. But in the despairing souls of today — and in some even before the collapse of all outward things — there has come alive a knowledge of the spiritual condition the world needs for its recovery. They feel, more than they know, that no insight into connections and causes, no explanation drawn from these of their own historical plight, can lift them out of it: only the contrary image can — the conception and the awareness of forces and figures so great and self-sufficient that their conditions vanish behind them, and they stand surety in themselves for their own being and worth. What the soul of this age craves is the visible, nourishing presence of men and things, not their dubious flux of motion. That Napoleon was so or otherwise made, that he was conditioned in this way or that by men and circumstances, can yield her nothing; but the figure and being of this great Existence has become the most pressing need for a world dissolving or stiffening into mere relations.

The book of the great man Napoleon — which, as Stendhal thought, would surely be written by 1860, or at the latest by 1880 — is, in 1920, still not at hand. Stendhal, when he set down that opinion in 1837, overestimated the speed of Europe's spiritual transformation. The bourgeois doctrinairism whose first beginnings he had himself seen has needed a whole century, instead of half of one, to spend itself and make room for a temper once more capable, once more longing, to behold an original greatness — not merely to derive and assemble the materials of which it is made. With this prophecy Stendhal anticipated reality by as much as, with the other prophecy concerning his own reception in Europe, he fell short of it. He thought he would first be read and understood by the spirits of Europe at the dawn of the twentieth century, and was so already in the 1880s. He was the spiritual pioneer who, together with Jacob Burckhardt and Nietzsche, had first to ready the air for a generation that should once again have heart and eyes for what is greatly alive.

That hour has now come. After the breakdown of the bourgeois world and its economic systems, the so-called Spirit of the Age still bears itself, to be sure, as if a further dilution and disembodiment of the formed man threatened, in favor of the social ideal of mankind. But the spirits of the time, who, independently of the Spirit of the Age, shape the spirit of the generations to come, are once more filled with the eternal craving for the living powers of the world: man, form, deed. In this air alone has it become possible to begin the book of the man Napoleon. Even now it is not yet the book Stendhal awaited. He thought already of the heroic, spiritual chronicling of Napoleon's deeds and destinies — of the *épopée* of that life. What can be offered today is only the precondition for it: the picture of his bodily person. The life, the myth, of the Emperor cannot be told before his being is set forth, his figure shown.



There have been so-called character-sketches of Napoleon before now; but they spring from the spirit of the bourgeois world, which is in its very nature the counter-world to that of Napoleon. They exhaust themselves in catalogs of so-called qualities — conceptual marks abstracted by a schoolmasterly idealism out of the human whole. At bottom they all come down to one move: to draw forth from the whole that is Napoleon some single endowment, the only one accessible to their critical spirit, that of his calculating, ordering understanding. The world-wise reason of Napoleon did indeed declare itself in the forms of the Enlightenment, and so to the analyst it appears as a separate gift — not as the generative reason of the world that pervades a man and welds his powers into one, but as the laboring intellect that sets the other wheels of his life in motion. To the bourgeois mind, Napoleon's truest, deepest, most peculiar energies could never become visible. He became for them the cold reckoner, before whose supposed 'inhumanity' they shuddered, even while admiring, with no small willingness, his administrative innovations. Because they themselves did not have life as a unity, but only the schema of life produced by the understanding, there remained in their intellectualist nets, of all that is Napoleon, only what they could grasp: the force of his understanding, an outgrowth without blood and without soul.

The new way of seeing which the present work makes possible gives the converse picture, in which this single talent as such disappears altogether. If the man Napoleon is to be made visible and to be lived through, this cannot be done by lining up some distinguishing endowments, but only by bringing before our eyes the indissoluble interpenetration of his powers. Such an interpenetration the discursive mind can of course set down only piece by piece, in sequence; but it must remain conscious — and keep the reader conscious — that this is only an exigency of our limited powers of knowledge and expression, and that the intuition working creatively behind it must, out of this sequence, restore the unified picture of the undivided man. Always, however, against the rationalistic characterology of Napoleon

touched on above, this difference must be insisted upon: the new portrait will offer not attributes conceptually abstracted or intellectually mirrored from his being, but the powers of life secretly at work within it; and in their working it will show his unity. The reckoning understanding is not in itself one of the powers that constitute or build the man Napoleon; it is one of the mirrorings by which his perfect formation casts itself outward. In this book, therefore, of the supposedly all-mastering force of his intellectual brain-powers — which were always at last moralistically construed as a soulless faculty for calculation — there will be next to no mention. Of the labor of thought behind his political combinations, his strategic plans, his administrative organization, nothing will be told: that thought-labor which has hitherto formed the chief substance of accounts of Napoleon, and has always had the look of a bungling coloring-in of some gigantic cartoon. What will be spoken of are the last still-thinkable, still-utterable powers at the root of his entelechy, the elements of his being, the kernel of his radiance, the humanity peculiar to him alone. Three things make us, gazing astonished, take Napoleon for a rounded whole over against the boundless host of partial and special beings: the fullness, the thrust, and the immediacy of his existence. Two of these — Activity and Intensity — can in a portrait of his being be touched on only in passing. They belong so much to the active life that any picture of them is bound inseparably to the recital of events, and only there, never within the frame of a portrait of his being, can fully be given. The third element alone, Immediacy, is built decisively into every taking-in and every utterance of his nature, into the inner life — its perceiving and its feeling — as into the outer, the doing; and is therefore of necessity the kernel of any portrait of his being. The innermost and the outermost, the being and the working of his nature, alike spring from his unmediated way of being in the world about him. This it is that lifts Napoleon incomparably above his age. While the world about him had sunk wholly into a mediated, translated, conditioned 'relation' to men and things, and was thereby cut off from any primordially simple life,

Napoleon alone remains the man of immediate reception and of immediate utterance. More than all the single gifts and distinguishing qualities of his mind, this immediacy, this absence of any go-between, is the spring of his inexhaustible work. It is what makes that work, properly and from moment to moment, a fresh creation, a 'making', while all the other qualities can only ever exercise themselves as labor upon things already made. A portrait of Napoleon's being can therefore build itself on nothing but the calling-up of this fundamental trait.



The task of this work — to show the original, the essential man Napoleon — determined of itself the means of its portrayal. Otherwise than in a history of causes and consequences, there was here less room for paraphrase and interpretation of the facts on the author's own part. The facts are not argued, they are presupposed. Anyone who has but distantly touched the literature on Napoleon knows that the abundance of source-material is, as in the case of no other historical person, beyond all surveying. A portrait that does not wish to break its banks is therefore thrown back on a selection from these sources; and given a mass of material no single reader can wholly compass, that selection — apart from the chief and nearest sources, his own writings and the records of those about him — is necessarily as much determined by chance as by deliberate choice. Anyone who has searched the Napoleonic literature, even with a quite fixed object in view, knows how much he was thrown upon the favor of circumstance, lest some unfruitful or untrustworthy tradition lead him aside. In a portrait which pursues so divergent a goal as the present, and must therefore take an altogether new path, it could not but happen that much which would have belonged in its line was passed over and left aside, while other matter, perhaps less weighty, found its way in because it lay in the road once chosen. Some source, given the novelty of the standpoint, may not at once have yielded all its content; oftener still, perhaps, some source has had to give more than at the

strictest reckoning it should have done. But the writer had no choice; for above all what was decisive for him was the goal: to set up the spiritual picture of Napoleon which his total view of the Napoleonic existence had granted him. In this it mattered less whether some single source was not exhausted, or whether too much was demanded of it, than whether the sum of the source-material justified the total drift of the portrait.

This total drift of the portrait determined too what historiography hitherto has called source-criticism. Its in part very disputable theses are not here to be called into question. In an unfolding narrative of historical events as hitherto framed and intended they may find a certain justification. For a portrait of being such as is here attempted they do not, in their present compass, hold; here criticism has other laws to follow. For this portrait it is not so much the authentic warranty of a single fact or saying that decides as its inner genuineness, which discloses itself out of the total appearance. One may in general grant the mendacity of the Duchesse d'Abrantès and of Bourrienne; the subjectivity, swayed by the most various motives, of Marmont, of Savary, of Rémusat, and above all of the *Mémorial* itself; and one may on that ground doubt some incident or utterance reported by them on a single source's authority, and reckon it unusable for a history of causes. For a portrait of being it can come precisely into reckoning, because the one-sidedness of the reporter has compressed a true total view into a single fact only seemingly true. And then — how much nearer to the inner reality stands always the anecdotal, the legendary tradition than the so-called objective facts demonstrable by the unimpeachable apparatus of criticism. By no means has every tradition here been credited uncritically. Yet the task and meaning of this work demanded that the inner probability — itself decisive even for the strictest source-criticism, and disclosing itself out of the total view — be set before any documentary source-criticism. That the latter has not been left out of account will be shown in many a place.



The picture of Napoleon that thus arises must, to a glance accustomed to the previous portrayals, appear strange. Showing not the General nor the Statesman but the man Napoleon, it must take in regions of life where hitherto no comprehensive portrait — at most some out-of-the-way special study — has sought him. As important, indeed more important than Napoleon's activity on the battlefield and in the cabinet, was the radiance of his being in his commerce with men, with God, and with the spiritual powers of life — above all with art. Some striking deed, some arresting word from this circle has at times been heard from him as anecdote; but never has the expression of his being as a whole been developed out of the ground and the living context of these final givens of human existence. By such a tracing-back of Napoleon's humanity to the springs of life that have hitherto been left unconsidered — although they are the deepest element of every nature, and most of all of every nature of genius — the man Napoleon receives a face that looks new and strange into the world. New and strange, of course, only into a world that has unlearned, as the nineteenth century did, how to grasp man as a whole within the frame and upon the ground of ultimate simple facts of life — folk, God, art — and could grasp him only any longer in the discolored utterances of the bourgeois at his profession. That world, which calls itself, oddly enough, the humane, does not seek man at all, but a puppet of life that can mechanically execute a few abstracted and developed functions of ensouled nature. The world that seeks ensouled nature in the substance of its being, in its undismembered actuality — the world that with heroic eye seeks and beholds the hero — that world finds in the lineaments of Napoleon as they appear here nothing new and nothing strange. It looks for no other; in any other it would not find its image of 'man'. To it the countenance of Alexander and of Caesar is familiar as the largely-formed expression of a gathered scope and fullness of life. A Napoleon who looked out upon it through the soulless, however shimmering, eyes of the most bourgeois of all ages would be to it as foreign as it would be unbearable. The bourgeois world has its

caricature of the man-of-profession, the strategist, the politician Napoleon; the spiritual world has its total view of the man and the hero.



What is here essayed is the supremely human content, the heroic figure of Napoleon as he was and as he lived. Only at a distance, and in the merest outline, does there sometimes become visible that super-heroic radiance — the symbolic figure of the hero which, detached from his bodily person, formed itself as an independent world-power in the spirits of his own day and after. It cannot be the task of this book to hold also that manifestation of the Napoleonic genius which oversteps personal humanity. It is enclosed almost more in the name and the figure than in the being and the work of the man Napoleon. It belongs, therefore, not in a portrait of his historical being itself; nor is its formation yet at an end. The symbolic content of the Napoleonic existence is not yet fixed in those final forms in which Alexander and Caesar have grown for us into eternal symbols of mankind. To utter that content the poet's mouth alone is, today, capable — that mouth for which the working forces of the time have no secret, through which they reveal their inmost meaning, the myth and symbol of the age of the world.

BOOK ONE — DEED AND EXPERIENCE

I. ACTIVITY

Three things give the apparition of Napoleon its first overwhelming impression and — independently of any closer examination — keep hold of one again and again: the immeasurable abundance of actual life-stuff, the unmistakably eventful quality of his every act, and the plain 'meaning' that seems to declare itself in the course of his life. They distinguish him, and at the same time mark his distance from the great personalities of the last centuries to whom one might ascribe a central European significance and with whom one might compare him: from a Frederick, a Eugene, a Gustavus Adolphus, say. Neither the bare measure of these men, nor the originally arresting force of his actual doing, belongs to them. One has only to compare, even by the bare numbers, the campaigns, the pitched battles, the treaties, laws, edicts, and ordinances of Frederick, of Eugene, of Gustavus Adolphus with those of Napoleon; one has only to bring before oneself how few directly palpable acts from the histories of Eugene and Gustavus Adolphus have stayed in our memory beside those of Napoleon — while in this respect, the intense impress of his historical person, Frederick already lets us catch something like the foreshadowing, the bare outline, of the Napoleonic being. Yet even Frederick — to say nothing of Eugene or Gustavus Adolphus — stands behind Napoleon in this: nature, station, and destiny denied him the imprinting upon his life of so symbolic, so unequivocal a determination as the cycle of the Napoleonic life sets before our eyes. 'He has lived in a few years as many centuries,' his Palace Prefect says of him — and thereby utters a deeper truth than perhaps he himself grasps.

In these features of his life, which communicate themselves without need of any special historical instruction, lies grounded the suprahistorical character of Napoleon. They make up the mythical, heroic content of his being, which sounds out into time

and world simply, beyond the frame of any one moment's political stage. Through them he loses the significance of a historical greatness conditioned in this way or that, of a factor to be set into the great political reckoning of time at some particular place. Through them it becomes plain that his being is nature itself, substance, the stuff of spirit and of form, out of whose stock the historical persons, enterprises, and institutions that follow him organize themselves. The fullness of his conquests, his foundings, his refashionings of states — the tangible power with which they set themselves before the eyes of the world in unequivocally outlined acts, deeds, and proclamations — becomes for nineteenth-century Europe the inexhaustible material of its struggles of state and of its parties at home, struggles that lack alike the wealth and the palpableness of the Napoleonic creations. The Napoleonic creations are something like the Platonic ἀρχέτυπος for all later organizations of states and institutions. Indeed the single person and deed of those who come after is a circumscribed, formulated expression of one portion of his nature's inexhaustibility. So the third Napoleon, Cavour, even Bismarck and Moltke, appear as great single perfectings of his genius — now as embodier of the nation, now as builder of states, now as commander.

The fullness of his actual doing forms the substance of his history, and can fully be brought before us only in the telling of that history. It is the direct utterance of a nature unceasingly at work, quickened by the intense tempo of its working. These three elements — the unstemmable drive to turn what is within into outward happening, the prodigious compression of that turning, and the immediacy of its utterance — determine the being and working of his person so finally that they have, upon his lips, condensed into a battle-cry: that fanfare-like *Activité, activité, vitesse* heard from him again and again (so to Masséna at Donauwörth in 1809: *activité, activité, vitesse. Je me recommande à vous!*). They explain that boundless heaping of his deeds which goes beyond all measure of individual achievement hitherto. Activity, the active outward-working of his person, pure

deed in itself, fills all his powers continually, and so fills all his desires as well. 'He could not let body or mind go a single moment without occupation,' says one of his Counsellors of State. The greatest pain to him is enforced inactivity, the curtailment of his freedom to move. This is why painters and sculptors had so much trouble getting a 'sitting' from him. And on the larger scale, it was the curbing of his prodigious craving for activity at Elba and at St Helena that produced, on the one occasion, his last desperate, miracle-working break-out toward France, and, on the other, his torment-filled extinction. For him there is no emptiness in which his spirit might crave relaxation, play, diversion. No flute-playing breaks for him the seriousness of his hours of work.

Chess he had cast aside as a fruitless squandering of mental effort. But when on occasion — and even this happened only in his later years — a feeling of overstrain came upon him, he sought relief for the strained spirit not in loosening, in play, in any dispersal of his powers of thought, but in the sharpest of bodily exertion: he hunts — an occupation for which he otherwise had aversion, even contempt, and which his reliable inner economy held in readiness for him, not as a pleasure, but precisely as the strongest counter-weight to his over-taxed intellectual energies. So too with riding, which he pursued not as an art (he was no skilled horseman all his life), but only as an outlet for his bodily powers after the over-stretching of his mental ones — and he chose then the sharpest paces.

The thought of disporting himself at a table-circle of refined and unbent spirits in the literary play of problems certainly never came to him. Even his conversations with Monge, with Berthollet, with Denon, with Chaptal, with Laplace, with David, with Talma during the Directorate and the Consulate — which call up Frederick's intercourse with Voltaire, with d'Alembert, with d'Argenson — represent for him no mere brightening of the spirit, no diversion he wishes to give his working brain. They remain wholly within the frame of his immediate statesman's striving; they are wholly devoted to his own instruction and

intellectual enlargement; they are wholly filled with thoughts and problems fruitful for his most peculiar political ends. It cannot be overlooked here how much this divergence of Napoleon's from Frederick is bound up with the changed condition of culture. Frederick's musical and intellectual conversations are perhaps not so much the outflow of unrestrainable, most personal gifts as the unconscious yielding of his temporarily less-strained intellectual powers to the rococo culture, which with its fixed forms of sociability would suffer no individual mind a complete break-out from its bounds, and in his weaker hours enclosed him within itself of itself. Even Goethe is in part still held by this binding. The wholly loosened constitution of society and of mind in the revolutionary epoch threw open every road to what was most personal, and lifted away, for the mind sufficient to itself, the necessity and the possibility of falling, even with the lesser part of itself, with its weaker hours, into a part-form of merely social conduct. Where Napoleon — and this hardly happened any more after the elevation to Emperor — gave himself over to private conversation as a pure human enjoyment and brightening, the intent upon any kind of play with the mind always remained foreign to it. It was here no otherwise than with his bodily exercises mentioned above: such conversation was more an extension of his humanly social powers, pressed back in his work of mind, than a diversion of his thoughts onto the side-paths of intellectual activity. It worked itself out more in jests and games of immediate high spirits, even to the burlesque, than in witty word-combats — in which, moreover, he preferred the unmotivated, unforced paradox to polished forms of wit. In this manner he occupied himself and his suite during long hours of the crossing to Egypt, all the while keeping his eye on how the several individuals met the demands of active intervention, of taking up a position toward the most arbitrary paradoxes. So even this play, given over more to the bare exercise of the mind than to any stimulating amusement, remained in the service of his most immediate doing.

The same holds, and in still sharper form, of his commerce and conversation with the scholars and artists named above, and of the works of theoretical, scientific character carried out by him in this connection. When, upon his reception into the Institut after his return from the Italian campaign, he held a mathematical lecture that moved the presiding Laplace to admit that the members had least expected to be instructed by him on their very own ground, the solution of the mathematical problem — great as his inclination was for that discipline — was for him not the true spring of his effort. The true spring was the need, arising of itself at this point of his career, to enter into living relation with the spiritual forces of the nation as well. And it speaks precisely for the inner certainty unconsciously governing him — that only immediately active participation in such an alliance is fruitful — that he sought at once to realize it through the means of common professional work. Even purely theoretical, purely scientific occupation is for him a doing, dedicated to his most peculiar, his innermost ends. One may say of him that from doing he rested only in doing — that activity took with him the place of every other unburdening of the mind. Hence that otherwise quite incomprehensible heaping of the most diverse pieces of business in the same hour. So much so that even from the scene and day of his battles we possess from him an astonishing number of written orders, reports, dispositions for entirely remote regions of civil administration, even of private affairs. One has only to run through, with his battle-dates in hand, the many volumes of his correspondence. Of the eve of Austerlitz a witness informs us that at six in the evening he gave his generals their instructions for the next day, then dictated the decree on the organization of the Maison de St Denis, only to turn back at once to the preparations for the battle. This multiplication of his work was made possible — and further heightened — by his power to hold and to work over inwardly several conceptions in the same instant. It is this gift of multiplied inner sight that Mme Junot has in mind when she speaks of his conception *vive et rapide*, qui embrassait tout d'un regard — the gift that makes it so hard for

his hearers to follow the flow of his narratives, and brings his secretaries to despair, since he dictates so swiftly that they can only follow him in shorthand sketches, and never returns to words once thrown out. The redaction is left to them; and it speaks for the matter-directed nature of Napoleon, governed by what he himself was and not by any formal punctilio, that he is as a rule content with this redaction so long as his style is preserved. And in this his secretaries, given the way his suite was personally selected and trained, are so practiced that, as a glance into his correspondence shows, scarcely anywhere can one mark a slackening of the characteristic Imperial voice.

This extraordinary multiplying and intensifying of his own activity was made possible to the Emperor by the admirable mastery he held over his body. It is not true, as rumor has it, that he slept on the whole only four hours. But all the animal functions of his life were, by endowment and by training, so wonderfully regulated that they served his higher ends in the most fitting and exact way. One of his Counsellors of State, who followed his behavior with particular critical sharpness, puts it thus: 'Spiritual and bodily powers, in a happy equipoise, supported each other.' He slept much, and had, as befitted his strained spirit, a strong need of complete bodily release. Often he stayed unbroken ten or eleven hours fast in bed. But he could satisfy this need at any time, according to place and occasion. 'He had the precious faculty of sleeping when he willed. Sleep came to him at command.' Even during sleep he remained at any hour accessible for business; he could hold out long, when need was, without any sleep and without weariness, paying himself back later, or, in expectation of coming exertions, sleeping on store. The whole week before the day of Austerlitz he had not touched a bed, had not even changed his linen — only to seek, on the evening of the third of December, release from his over-strained tension in the bed which Kaunitz had just left.

The bath was to him a welcome substitute for sleep. In this too he stayed unbroken a full hour, and felt himself afterward, as he

said, paid back for four hours of sleep. This over-long lingering in conditions of bodily release marks the elementary force with which his human constitution secured its right — setting, against the full measure of activity, the full measure of rest, and against the restoring fullness of rest, the whole of his outward-working powers.

The elementary bearing of his nature toward all natural conditions came to his profit through an extraordinary heightening of his most essential powers. It is known of him that the open air gave wings to his thinking, while he did not feel his powers of flight so free when hemmed in by the walls of a room. A certain measure of warmth was, on the other hand, an indispensable need of his body if he was to remain active in his accustomed way. It was as though his nature stood continually in want of an inflowing proper to it from the elemental forces of the world around him.

With eating he held himself no otherwise than with sleep. He ate where and when his body required, while the proper meals were 'got over' as untimely interruptions of the day's work, with the greatest swiftness. While he dictated, ready dishes always stood somewhere from which he ate as the dictation went on. This power of holding out with bodily needs set aside comes from the fact that his uppermost need is to be in action. 'He seems to me active' is for him the decisive judgment on a young officer. Those who did not have this need in his outsized measure had a hard time of his tirelessness. During the beginnings of the Empire — beside the Consulate, the time of his most concentrated working — he often kept the Counsellors of State at the chateau of St Cloud from nine in the morning till five in the afternoon in common deliberation, granting them only a quarter-hour pause. During this pause he withdrew, while the Counsellors found a few dishes set ready for them in the great gallery. At the close of these deliberations he was as fresh as at their beginning, and always found that close premature — over which Cambacérès, who now and then drew his attention to the advanced hour, had

to bear his mockery. His passionate zeal for deeds spared no one. As he demanded of his adjutants and Counsellors every measure of work and exertion, so he wished too to lose nothing of the full working power of the people. During the negotiations on the Concordat he reproached the Catholic worship for its overlarge number of feast-days, and would have them reduced to four in all the year, remarking: 'Festivals of saints are festivals of indolence; I will have none of that; the people needs work for life.' He suffered so under the feeling of lost time that wherever he could he combined several festivities into a single day. So in 1805, when the National Festival fell on a Saturday, he moved his celebration over to the Sunday, though here the date was of essential significance for the popular imagination — a thing he certainly knew how to value.

His being was doing, and exhausted itself wholly therein. To act was the outlet proper to him — the only outlet his personality could find — so much so that a contemporary German writer could say of him: 'Not children, but deeds shall be the consolation of his old age.' It was a thought to which Napoleon himself in 1805, in a conversation occasioned by the elevation of his brother Joseph to the throne of Naples, gave the sharper stamp: 'With my fingers and with my pen I made my children.'

II. INTENSITY

The unceasing stream of activity in which Napoleon's life moved drew a still sharper drive from the inward compression and thrust of each single life-wave, from the intense tempo at which every separate act of his doing took place. So violent and unstemmable was the unrolling of his ideas and conceptions that one pressed upon another, and often their author, to hold them fast, was forced to throw them — still in the first moment of their dawning, still bearing the marks of their making, still unripe — into the pen of his confidants; who were left at times with no choice but to explain to the surprised recipients how these utterances had come about. So the Counsellor of State and later Westphalian minister Siméon had to write to his friend Thibaudeau, prefect at Marseille, regarding one such sudden ordinance about the bearing of arms, which soon led to the most unpleasant frictions between the local civil and military authorities: 'As you know, the author often gives himself over to his brilliant fancy; every thought that comes into his mind he throws down, careless whether it is yet ripe.' This manner of his mental production gives his pronouncements and decrees often the air of the abrupt and the accidental — but also of the seizing and the forceful. His secretaries, as has already been remarked, are often unable to keep up with the flight of his inspirations in their writing-down; and when he writes the inspirations down himself, the older he grows the less he troubles about the legibility of his drafts. It vexes him little. He always finds the springs of his thoughts again within himself, and expresses them, if need be, in a new form. 'Do you suppose,' he says to the Counsellor of State Berlier, when Berlier, dismayed, lays before him a wholly illegible draft of a law in his own hand, 'that I can read myself? I had better tell you straight away what it is about. Sit down.' And he dictates his intentions afresh. To mark and to register what he has read, he contents himself with a short, sharp pressure of his fingernail in the margin. This serves too as a means of communicating his intentions to his preferred secretary

Bourrienne in the years of their close working together. At most he resolves on a brief, decisive word in the margin.

Once his correspondence grew with his entry into more responsible office and into public life — roughly from Vendémiaire onward — he felt it more and more as a burden and a check. From the very beginning, true to a nature aimed at immediate effect, he had a decided aversion to the written handling of the matters that lay before him. When the field of great actions first opened to him, after he took over the Italian command, his branding word fell against the paperasserie — the paperwork — that lay heavy on the course of operations and held them up. He gave orders that during the campaign only urgent dispatches were to be dealt with at all, and brought about thereby — beyond the maintaining of an ordinary course of business, even in non-military matters — the astonishing result that when the campaign closed and the work of clearing up the accumulated material began, the greater part of it had settled itself by lapse of time. This experience he afterwards turned to use in his peacetime administration as well. Only urgent dispatches were opened at once in his cabinet, and at least in the first years of the Consulate he himself dealt with the letters addressed to him personally. The rest of the mail was first taken up after several days had passed, and a portion of it then turned out to be overtaken and obsolete. If by this means one or another private interest doubtless suffered, he attained in this way such an intensifying of public business that the immediate hand he kept on every department of state administration remained possible to him — the very thing that lent his rule its characteristic stamp of a living, personal unity, and that so served, even at the cost of certain individuals, the whole and the common good.

In oral exchange he pressed for shortness and brevity of report. To questions he demands a swift and unconditional answer. Silence, hesitation, wavering is less bearable to him than a false answer, even one that misleads his decisions. This first rule of

military intercourse governs his whole personal bearing. Imprecise, long-winded answers he himself reduces, by summary repetition, to a precise form. Every postponement in business is hateful to him. Everything must be done at once, in the moment of decision. In 1812, in preparing the great campaign, the matter for Napoleon was to obtain reliable information about the fortifications, the geography, and the other conditions of Ragusa. Even Marmont, formerly governor of Illyria, was unable to meet his demands. Then word reached him of a gifted engineer-officer in Antwerp who had served in Marmont's army and was said to have more exact knowledge of the works at Ragusa. On the spot the man was ordered to Paris by dispatch, had to make the whole journey 'at full gallop', and the moment he stepped from the saddle, was to appear in the Imperial cabinet to present his report.

To wait in uncertainty of an outcome was an unbearable agony to his nature, and goaded him to the most extreme outbursts. As late as 1813 at Dresden, when Drouot delayed the deployment of the artillery he had been ordered to bring up, Napoleon spurred over to him and tugged him violently by the ear (in milder form his preferred caress and mark of favor). The great financial crisis that broke out in France during the Austerlitz campaign, and almost called its happy outcome into question, kept Napoleon in such tension that, after a hastened departure from the field and a journey covered at full speed, on the night of the 25th to the 26th of January 1806, as he stepped from the carriage, he pronounced — still on the staircase of the Tuileries — the dismissal of the treasury minister Barbé-Marbois, and called a finance council to convene at eight the next morning to deliberate on the necessary, and presently so successful, measures.

When statesmen came on important business, he had their arrival announced to him even in the middle of the night, and summoned them to him at once — even after a long, troublesome journey, just as they were — only to hold them then in hours-long negotiations. Or he pressed them, when they were already in the

act of departing, into fresh negotiations, which they had then to conduct, restless and hampered, in the midst of their luggage. In just this fashion he had the aged Cardinal Consalvi taken by surprise, on the occasion of the Concordat negotiations, through the Abbé Bernier. This procedure brought him the incidental advantage that he or his negotiators, rested, informed, and well-prepared, held from the start the upper hand over the surprised and exhausted partner.

III. IMMEDIACY: ACTION

Fullness and compression of action are the first impression-giving manifestations of the Napoleonic being. To them is added the uncommon power of human immediacy that streams from each single one of his acts. There is in Napoleon's life no act, no utterance, that is merely the expression of his civic-political existence — merely a purposeful means to its furtherance. There is in his life-work no abstract, no conceptual action, no willing or accomplishing detached from the person and stripped of her power and her impress for the sake of some bare object-purpose. All his deeds are filled to the brim with the sensible presence of his immediate apparition; they overflow with its abundance of life and force of impression, and drive — even, indeed especially, where they seem to belong wholly to political action — the human center of him outward with unrestrained passion. The most extraordinary, the most monstrous spectacle of his working is perhaps this unhampered stepping-forth of his personality onto a stage that seems wholly reserved for the differentiating expression of de-essentialized relations and conditions, for the play of problems: the diplomatic-political stage. Here, within the frame of an action that has wholly become tradition and routine, his way of life, willing, and motion — which makes the most primal humanity into a present object — works with the force of an unbridgeable opposition, like the entry of a blood-creative figure into a realm of essence-less shadows, of a renewed world-power into the circle of the old, used-up ones. Between his existence as a person and his working as a statesman there is no boundary; the one passes inseparably into the other; this draws nourishment from that as much as that is wholly and always filled by this. He has no ministers and no generals, but confidants, followers, and retainers, whose personal nearness is at once a lasting working community. So living is this unity that the business of government becomes an exchange of human conversation and easy banter. At times they so wholly lose themselves in it that the Emperor must call himself and his

collaborators back to the present business at hand. 'Let us seriously do cabinet politics' — such a word from him to Caulaincourt, expressing how aware he was of the contrast between his own living, immediate manner of conducting affairs and the mechanically de-souled forms of traditional professional politics. It means the same thing as a German observer, in April 1797, stigmatized as the chief defect of the Austrian command in Italy: 'The man escapes them and remains hidden behind his functions.'



Well known is the form of intimate intercourse Napoleon kept up with the men of his circle even into the latest period, when they were already great dignitaries. That he tugged them by the ear is constantly attested. And this — usually meant as a caress — physical familiarity fell not only upon those known to him from boyhood (though chiefly on these — most of all on Junot), but also on those he had attached to himself only later, in riper years (for example Beugnot, the former minister of the Grand Duchy of Berg). Hair and nose too were sometimes the object of his attentions. They were the expression of an even-tempered friendliness, while a handshake or a taking of the arm had for him a deeper, an inwarder meaning, and in later years was vouchsafed only to a few chosen ones, and only on a special occasion. Bourrienne reports that, since the Consulate, Napoleon gave him — his long-standing confidant, fellow worker, and friend from youth — his hand for the first time in 1805, at his farewell audience, when Bourrienne was setting off for the embassy in Hamburg and the Emperor was making him privy to far-reaching political plans. So bound were even the simplest symbolic acts, for Napoleon, with their original meaning and their immediate life. He was slow and reluctant, even as Emperor, to give up the use of *du* in addressing those with whom an old and genuine friendship bound him. Even in 1807 he uses it to Junot; and Lannes too long enjoys this privilege. Both, on their side, are sometimes free to permit themselves, in their bearing toward

Napoleon, the freedom of their original relationship without rebuke, while otherwise he sharply rejects any unjustified, presumptuous claim of long-since-lapsed familiarity. But corresponding to these immediate expressions of an enduring personal relationship was also the tone of unbridled passion in which he poured out his displeasure on anyone, even the most highly placed counselor. Not even foreign diplomats were proof against it. Every form of business dissatisfaction or complaint struck through to him as something human, and worked itself out at once with human means. That he assailed his ministers and counselors with coarse abuse, called them niais, sots, imbéciles (his favorite epithet), was no rare thing — but did not prevent his singling them out, when his temper had calmed, with all the more conspicuous public mark of distinction, to strengthen their standing in the eyes of the world. Even so, the sharpness of his tone was bitterly felt as early as the first days of the Consular government, and noticed even by the representatives of foreign powers. A deputation of the Senate that brought him in Berlin in 1807 their congratulations on the victorious end of the Prussian campaign, but ventured most temperately to advise against an advance over the Oder, he treated as étourdis and hommes sans réflexion. The minister Beugnot he once berated in the presence of Berthier: ‘You blockhead, have you found your wits again?’ He often poured out the bitterest reproof and mockery upon Berthier himself, on Augereau, and on other men of his circle. He declared the tested chief of staff Berthier incapable of leading a battalion; Augereau was incapable of drafting an even slightly extended battle plan; and so on.

Undeserved misfortunes of war he let pass — he even consoled Masséna with great kindness over a setback, treated Marmont, returned wounded from the unhappy Spanish campaign, with unaltered esteem and consideration. But where he believed he must recognize defeats as the consequence of poor leadership, or even of irresolution, faintheartedness, or want of dignity, his whole being dissolved into a flood of wrath and accusation. When he learned in Vienna of the defeat at Talavera, he raged against

his brother Joseph and Jourdan; the further unhappy management of Spanish-Portuguese affairs by Soult, his being taken by surprise at Oporto, kept him in such lasting agitation that long afterwards he charged Soult's chief of staff, General Ricard, in audience, that he had deserved death for letting himself be drawn into such a félonie. He saw things in their simplest forms and named them so. He even thought, at the time, of bringing Soult before a court-martial, and refrained only because of the painful public stir it would cause. The capitulation of Bailén — the first and only voluntary surrender of a major body of troops to the enemy under his rule — struck him with such personal force that, utterly broken with grief and rage, he could not contain himself and burst into tears. With his brothers his displeasure took on the form of the most personal outbreaks. When Louis in 1804 declined the crown of Lombardy for his recently-born son, Napoleon went at him like a boy or a Corsican — the unbridled wildness of his youth and homeland seemed to rise up in him again — seized him round the body, and threw him out. So unrestrainedly did political experience translate itself in him into the most passionate human agitation. Negotiations with the representatives of foreign powers, which one had grown used to seeing carried on in the most impersonal forms of social conversation, took place with him always as the immediate meeting of human temperaments. The Prussian envoy Sandoz-Rollin expressly notes the 'frank and impassioned tone' in which the First Consul, after Marengo, makes him reproaches concerning Prussia's stance.

The human movement and passion of feeling with which Napoleon penetrates diplomatic negotiations more than once streams out into great personal demonstrations. After the signing of the peace of Campo Formio he flung himself, in an enthusiastic surge of feeling, into the arms of the Austrian negotiator, Count Cobenzl, and aloud, transported, praised his good fortune at having at last, with this signature, ended the suffering of the peoples and given them back the happiness of peace.

Far more often, however, the force of his passionately participating inwardness leads to collision and to dreadful outbreak. He himself recognized this early, and explained as much in apology to that same envoy Sandoz-Rollin in 1800: 'My liveliness sometimes makes me transgress against the rules of propriety, never against those of truthfulness. I sometimes speak and act as a soldier.' All this is literally true. His outbreaks are in fact the utterances of his inner conception of reality, which — with the immediacy of truly soldierly action — he can neither hold back nor soften, and for which the envoy finds the perfectly fitting circumlocution *un certain despotisme de volonté*, while his further reproach of 'haughtiness' remains stuck in superficial moralizing.

How Napoleon, during the Concordat negotiations, set the aged Cardinal Consalvi in the most peremptory form the choice between conclusion and breaking-off of the negotiations within five days, threatening him with a change of state religion, and tearing the draft Concordat to pieces because no agreement could be reached on a single article; how, in the carrying out of the Concordat, he reproached Cardinal Caprara with the dishonesty of the Holy See; how, before the assembled diplomatic corps, with no regard for any ceremony, he hurled the most violent invectives against the British government at the English ambassador as if they were meant to strike him personally; how, in the negotiations at Udine, when Cobenzl made difficulties, he flung the Austrian plenipotentiary's precious tea service — a gift from the Empress Catherine — to the ground at his feet so that it shattered into pieces, in token of how he meant to dash Austria to pieces if his terms were not accepted; or how, on a similar occasion before Chancellor von Müller, he threw his hat to the ground to symbolize how he intended to trample and destroy the Brunswick dynasty: these are a few examples out of a boundless abundance of how the dispatching of the most refined and far-reaching political questions took on in him the immediate form of a human, individual life, and so called forth the whole force of his humanly immediate motion. Beyond that, these last incidents

show too the elementary power that brings inner conceptions to life — the inner sculptor-compulsion of the Napoleonic being, with which his angry surge discharges itself in symbolic action.

In general his whole being was bent on flinging the inner motions of his soul outward in passionate bodily movement. That incident with the Austrian ambassador is only the noteworthy intensification of a steady habit in his hours of strong agitation. 'He pushes away his breakfast, his chair; he flings down his napkin; he runs up and down; he orders three cups of coffee within the hour.' For a long time the danger stood before him that his nature should exhaust itself wholly in such violent outbreaks, that his passionate will should pour into the outer world without check or aim, and, instead of finding its bound in the great deeds of his life, should only fall, intensifying, into the feverish, tumultuous current of the time. In the years before the thirteenth of Vendémiaire — his first call to a great positive activity that filled his creative powers — he was often given over to inner shocks that turned his whole being outward, and dissolved him, helpless, into the feelings of the time, into baseless enthusiasm, and its political expression, humanitarian rhetoric. These states were particularly intensified in the unhappy summer of 1795, just before destiny opened him the way into the public world, before that thirteenth of Vendémiaire brought him the victory over the Paris sections and the first command of an army. In those summer days, when his career was wholly at stake and yet seemed open in every direction; when his mind, hungering even more than his body, pressed toward every visible possibility of stepping into the world; when he pursued in turn his return to his old branch of service from which he had been removed, then real-estate speculations, then again marriage projects, and finally even the plan of an instructor-mission in the Turkish army — in those days of feverish plan-making and various aimless doing, his mind, free of all binding by an active firm will, roamed through every space and time of fancy. There were evenings of joint walks in the Jardin des Plantes with a friend, in which he poured his whole being into the most

immediate sensations, gave himself over to moods like the youths of the long-since-passed Werther age, whispered half-confessions of love, and burst into laments over lost happiness and a missed life: all these unsteady half-feelings stepped outward with so uncommon a reality of original experience as did later the workful creations of his balanced and ripened inwardness, and shook Junot, the companion of those bad days and solitary walks, so much that he worried whether even the great gift of his beloved general could maintain itself, and prevail, in this unstemmable storm of feelings and passions. In later years, when he described these scenes to his consort, Napoleon said: 'If Bonaparte had not himself torn the bonds that made his soul the slave of his passions, he would have come to feel them in a fearful way.' Napoleon was conscious of the danger that these formless suspended states might reach over into his active life; he felt his powers of will slacken under the weight of unclarified feelings. All the more strongly, in such moments, did his powerful drive of self-assertion lash the failing energies of action upward, drive him to restore inner equilibrium by mustering all counterforces. Against deepest sinking, against extremest melancholy, he sought the counterweight in the wildest outbreak, the extremest danger. This is the meaning of that cry in which he seems passionately to rear up against the burden of life that oppresses him: 'There are moments when I call upon danger. For there are days when life is hard to bear.' This lifting of his inner distress through bringing about an outer one acts like a valve which, in the extremest moment of tension, gives the compressed steam its air.

To master the immense danger of his unbound feelings stepping immediately outward, there is in truth, within the frame of his nature, only one means: the equally strong compulsion to creative shaping of the contents of his thinking and his conception. This, as soon as a sufficient fullness of essential material for activity offered itself, becomes master of the disorderly streaming-out of his drives, brings them into balance

with itself, and subordinates them, made serviceable, to its higher unity.

This stream of passionately experiencing and feeling-through what lies before him, that runs through every utterance of his life, is what gives his actions, his words, even his institutions the immediacy and concreteness that turn into a wonder of life, for us, what we are otherwise used to seeing only in the forms of conceptual exposition and intellectual debate.



His army orders, his proclamations, hold themselves as far from the old schemes of such announcements, from political justifications, as from the doctrinaire glorification of traditional soldierly virtues. They are characterized in their most famous pieces by the compressed concreteness with which the simplest soldier is made to grasp the necessity, aim, and reward of what is demanded of him — precisely what is fitted to make an immediate impression upon him. The unforgettable, the lasting model of his own and of all later army orders remains the 91st piece of his Correspondance, the first proclamation of his career as a commander, issued on March 27, 1796, at the beginning of the Italian campaign: a perfect work of the most immediate artistic creation, the shaping of his conqueror's will brought forth with the great stroke of a real poet and his most peculiar formative means, a piece equal as a spiritual achievement, as the living, continuing type of an army-subduing leader-spirit, to any of the deeds of victory that came after it. It runs:

‘Soldiers, you are naked, badly fed; the Government owes you much, can give you nothing. Your patience, the courage you show in the midst of these rocks, are admirable; but they bring you no glory, no splendor reflects upon you. I will lead you into the most fertile plains in the world. Rich provinces, great cities will fall into your hands. There you will find honor, glory, and riches. Soldiers of the Italian Army, would courage and steadfastness be wanting in you?’

It is not for this place to set out in detail with what sure mastery of various poetic means this proclamation works. Let us only point to the special form of artistic pathos — which one might call the military pathos — to the impressive arrangement in antitheses that press forward again and again, and finally to the rhythm that swells and ebbs in their wake, making the call into a single fanfare. More emphatically must we point here to the living sensuousness of vision, of shaping, and of effect. The proclamation lacks all political dressing-up: no allusion to the cause of the campaign, to its diplomatic roots, hampers the soldiers' minds in their access to the leader's word that is meant for them and concerns them. It strikes them at once: 'You are naked, badly fed' — that is what they are, where they stand, as the new general sees them, as anyone sees them — the immediate, unembellished image of their visible misery, hewn out in two great strokes. Linked to this, without circumlocution, without political softening, the thought of what the soldier looks to and must look to as the nearest source of help: the Government. And the answer at once, naked, clear, cold: 'can give you nothing.' No enumeration of justifying impediments, no flattering excuse for the Government, which, as *causa remota* of no concern to the soldier, would only embitter him — though for the leader at the time, even toward the Directory, it would have been almost a commandment of self-preservation. Compare in this respect the foregoing instructions and reports of Schérer, and his consequent steady inactivity and want of success, to which incidentally the next sentence of the proclamation refers. Here the troops are given recognition for the soldierly capacity they have so far shown, in spare words, as if each were conscious of its worth, and almost as if in passing — but in the admirable falling on the ear with the original liveliness of what is truly felt, and reinforced in tone by the concrete naming of the place of their hardship — only to flow into the desolate close, the confession of their undeserved want of success and glory, which moreover finds in the *rejaillit* still a word of glittering vividness. And against this, set with the first, almost violent springing-

forward of the new I, the personality of the new commander, and a pathos great, broad, full, which seems to burst the language of the time, and would in the mouth of the seven-and-twenty-year-old be monstrous if it were not filled from within by the consciousness of his overpowering capacity: a promise, the true promise of Moses or of one of the Judges, in whose will is the will of God: 'I will lead you into the most fertile plains in the world.' Unconditional, unrestricted, absolute — the picture of the Promised Land in the great sweeping outline of Eastern imagination, filled with the objects of the soldiers' naïvely sensible vision, which speaks to the imagination of the revolutionary soldier as well, because in him lives the great simplicity of a new humanity. Then the strong, rhetorical, instinct-goaded, rousing close: the appeal to the most primal sense of honor in the form of a question, of possible doubt, the would courage and steadfastness be wanting in you? — which can know only one answer, that of defiance, of deed, and of triumph.

Not without reason did contemporaries already find this proclamation Roman — though it remains an open question whether they were aware of the deep oppositeness of its original Romanity to their classicistic, blown-out picture of the same. Napoleon does not speak 'like Scipio before New Carthage'; he is Scipio. He has not the manner, the gesture of his being, his copied form, but the original power that produced Scipio and which now once more, in him, becomes a late but living apparition: this it is that makes him the last Roman. Roman — not classicistic — is in this proclamation the complete freedom from any kind of sentimentality (which has shown itself, indeed, not incompatible with classicism); the compressed simplicity, free of supposedly enlivening single touches; and the capacity to remain vivid in wide, great, and general conceptions. This — to us scarcely accessible except conceptually — gift of the immediate, sensible grasp and concrete shaping of comprehensive, typical complexes of conception, of his proclamation's 'cities, provinces, treasures', goes back, however, beyond Rome to a still deeper spring of mind: that of the homeland of all inland fancy, to which

we have already pointed above, the imaginative power of the original peoples of the East. Biblical and orientally legendary is the air of the sensible breadth and force of the diction in these few lines. This claim, this capacity to grasp even the most general thing with a bodily face and to let it rise again in a sensible impression, is one of the most essential explanations of why the apparition of Napoleon works upon us with the full force of the un-graspably monstrous, of the natural-elemental.

His proclamations, his decrees, his oral utterances, have through this their characteristic force. They are full of mighty, immediate inspirations of his prodigious imaginative power. They overflow with images that pass without intermediary from what is thought and conceived into what is sensibly visible. There is no like, no as if; the inner world steps without aid of thought into the forms of the outer visible: his images are not comparisons but the sensible expression of an inner, lived reality. This, together with that broad sweep of his imagination, is what made a contemporary woman feel his manner of expression as 'half-Oriental, half-bourgeois.' The 'half-bourgeois' which strikes us as strange means in her mouth only the improbable nearness and immediacy of his powerful inspirations, for which she has no other explanation to hand. Without intermediary the world of his inner formings, of his deeper reality, stepped into that of the outer, so-called real one. In a proclamation of June 14, 1796, he threatens the Tyrolese, in case of their resistance: 'We will be terrible as the fire of heaven.' The army contractors — always the object of his particular wrath — become 'the scourge and leprosy of the peoples.' His inner connection with Italy he feels with the primary passion of the blood, and gives it the prodigious expression of his sensibly experiencing, image-making nature: 'She is a mistress whose favor I will share with no one.' The Queen of Naples is struck with the shaking immediacy of a seen image by his prediction of her house's fall: 'her children would go begging for the support of their relatives in every country of Europe.' Similarly he sees the émigrés in 1796: 'They run to Germany, to carry their remorse and their misery there' (where,

however, the inflection of the sentimental and conceptual style of the time, hindering the image's effect, should be noted as well). Then let us recall the violent forcefulness with which he gives image-power to his will of intellectual procreation, in that already-cited word: 'With my fingers and my pen I make my children.' And finally let the long list of citations — which could be many times extended — close with that picture of the dignity of the French Republic, which in its striving for a final, unsurpassable expression already passes over into the boundlessness of that Oriental world of conception, which because of its rise into the immeasurable already lacks for us almost every image-impression and works only as a formula of expression: 'His Majesty the Emperor recognizes the French Republic; the French Republic is like the sun in the firmament, and blind are they whom her ray has not yet struck' — an image which terrified the Emperor's own circle as much by the immoderacy of the conception as by the immoderacy of the claim that it symbolized, so much that they rebelled against the inclusion of this turn of phrase in the draft of the Treaty of Tolentino, for which it was destined, and prevented it.

So heaped is the treasure of his inner images, so strong is Napoleon's drive to bring them out at once, that this overflow and overstrength is not satisfied by the demands of his active life: a part of it pours into the stream of pure social entertainment, indeed becomes the object of an independent play of fancy. Nothing else can his earlier attempts at narrative and drama mean; nothing else the adventure tales with which during the Consulate, on free evenings, he used rather to terrify than to delight Josephine and her ladies. That precisely the heaping of the monstrous, the unforeseen, the overwhelmingly event-shaped formed for him the charm of these improvisations is expressly emphasized by the reporter. He sought and found in them an opportunity to free himself from the unceasingly pressing stream of inner images and visions. The tale 'Giulio,' as transmitted by Bourrienne, is by the way a weak example of this kind. One still recognizes in it the spirit that violently and immediately drives

the action toward the collision of the most elemental world-forces — passion and law in their most pitiless form, the ecclesiastical-monastic; but as it is told there, this opposition does not come to a supra-personal, symbolic expression, but remains stuck in the naive narrator's form, in the novelistic rendering of a charming individual case. This is partly because Napoleon was not at all inclined to let this form of the working of his unoccupied imagination grow into a spiritual artistic labor — think of his parallel aversion to chess — and accordingly let himself be carried willingly by the Rousseauesque-romantic forms of feeling and types of narration of the time. But chiefly it is because the tale, in its transmission, has passed through the imagination of two persons wholly determined by the feeling of the time: namely, a court lady who recorded it, and Bourrienne, who, little faithful to his sources, is always inclined to refashion them after his own bourgeois-sentimental cast of mind. This at least insofar as the tale, in the form in which it has come down to us, lacks just that heaping and intensifying of extraordinary and palpable events, occurrences, and images for the demonstration of which it should serve, and which, given our other knowledge of the products of the Napoleonic imagination, we should have to expect of it.



Yet even this free and willed exercise of his imaginative power takes up only a small part of his powerfully streaming need for unmediated life-expression. Wholly and ultimately and perfectly it spends itself only in the living, ongoing flow of the most present life — in conversation and the talk of the day. There he lives, there he lives outward, all the force of his inner self that ever presses into form. There he streams unhindered by any choice of expressive means the power of his most original and deepest inspirations. 'He did not seek to shine by the rounding of his sentences, the choiceness of his expressions, or the care of his delivery. He spoke without artifice, without embarrassment, without seeking to represent anything, with the

unselfconsciousness and tone of a conversation that animated him from within, just as the subject of the talk, the give-and-take of opinions, and the state of the discussion required' — so it is said of his utterances in the Council of State. This means that conversation — even political conversation — is for him not a special, purposefully-cultivated form of personal effect, a diplomatic means, but his most immediate life: called forth by the subject, the interlocutor, the occasion for sensible utterance, and reaching, with the totality of his being, an immediate personal effect. He is so organized that the innermost stirring becomes at once visible apparition in him. 'His muscles express on the spot, at his will, the smile or the displeasure in all their shadings.' It is the same thing that another woman observer designates as the cause of the unrenderable charm of his smile: 'There was soul then on his lips and in his eyes' — an image of so uncommon a sensualizing of the soul that it sounds almost German, and in the speaker's mouth can only be explained by the overwhelming force of her impression. In fact between the workings of his world of thought or conception and their expression there is no need of any special preparation, any rephrasing or translation: they step out, just as they arise within, immediately outward, fulfilling themselves as in the artist already in lived form, and need only, to become effective, the bare physical means of utterance. It is the shortest possible road to bringing inner life present.

How much the nearest expression seemed to him the dearest, the most immediate designation simply the only possible one — let that reproof from the Consulate (the time when his being struggled for the most concentrated stamping and effect) serve to prove, which he gave General Dumas when the latter, in a draft on the reorganization of the formerly Austro-Belgian troops, brought in the Austrian Emperor under the designation 'His Imperial Majesty.' Displeased, Napoleon began his factual objections to Dumas's proposals with the words: 'His Imperial Majesty... Just say: the Emperor!' It is well known that he later, with the advance of monarchical state forms, attached an

increased significance to the matter of titles, ranks, and orders. But here he had let himself be driven only step by step — against his innermost drive — by the force of events; and even the founding of the Legion of Honor shows, in the novelty of its constitution, the wide frame of its conditions of conferral, the kind and form of its distinctions, how even in the decorative shaping of the state apparatus the creative-immediate tendency of the Napoleonic genius at first held sway. The deliberations on this institution in the Council of State give, moreover, a clear picture of the fact that for Napoleon it belonged wholly and immediately to the living state-edifice he carried in his head: that as a factor of state power it followed necessarily from this, and was not merely the gratification of some decorative bent of the Emperor's. Wherever an essential need of state or man came into conflict with an institution or formula — even one of his own creating — Napoleon abandoned it without scruple and without conditions. When the former minister Beugnot, at the outbreak of the great final struggle in 1814, made difficulties about taking over, with a reference to his rank, the prefecture of Lille — important in face of the nearby theater of war — Napoleon threw him a word as immediate in the force of its stamping as in its substance: 'Imagine yourself as prefect, as minister, or, if you wish, as Emperor... one occupies oneself with that when one has nothing better to do': an irrefutable testimony of what for Napoleon, as a man, the monarchic-legitimist build-out of the state apparatus meant; what he saw as its task and its limit. Though it must not be overlooked that this regression into outworn forms — which corroded his realm and work — followed of necessity from the line of his realization of state power. With the same clearness he speaks himself in the Council of State of March 27, 1806, on the occasion of the organization of the Banque de France: 'I am content for the head of the bank to be called gouverneur if it gives him pleasure. Titles cost nothing.' At the same time, in the instruction he gives Talleyrand for the new organization of the Dutch state: 'In place of the Grand Pensionary there shall be a King. I have no scruple even in giving him the

title Stadtholder.' Here too only the installation of a central bearer of state power was essential to the Emperor; in the form he willingly satisfied the inherited inclinations of the people.

Office, rank, title had for Napoleon's personal consciousness only the meaning that came to them as attributes, as marks of being or working of a certain living person; and they were bound up wholly with that person. Hence in written and oral commerce with his princely circle, even in later years, the designation that came of itself, again and again, was the one which the subject or the hour made nearest, and which he in this connection felt as the living, given one. Thus in 1806, in a military order intended for the garrison of Wesel, he called its sovereign, the Grand Duke of Berg, simply the *Maréchal Murat*; and of his adopted son Eugène, even in the time of his viceroyalty, before generals and ministers, he never spoke otherwise than briefly as Eugène. This was the expression of the immediate human relation in which he felt himself bound to the helpers in his life-work; and this prevailed, after his example, in their relations among themselves as well. Rapp too, for example, even in 1806 in his letters to Bourrienne speaks of Napoleon's adopted son, the son-in-law of the King of Bavaria, only as 'Eugène.'

It is known of Napoleon that in moments of passionate excitement, or when he wished to give his words a special expression of feeling, he involuntarily — though, as the years advanced, ever more rarely — fell into the Italian language. Nothing else reveals itself in this than the need to be wholly himself, to give a final experience, an extreme feeling, an unequivocal expression. This he finds only in the world of his primary impressions, and so he steps with elementary suddenness back into it, and speaks with transformed tongue in the sounds of its original expression, his native idiom.

This power, and this need, to bring his whole being to apparition immediately in every utterance of his life, produces that concentration on the momentary-present which one of the contemporary historians designates as the great secret of the

immeasurable extension of his effectiveness: 'It lay in the fact that he gave himself entirely, without any distraction, to the business of the moment.' Or as Goethe puts it, looking more at the being than at the single act: 'Napoleon was particularly great in this, that at every hour he was the same man. Before a battle, during a battle, after a victory, after a defeat, he stood always on firm feet, and was always clear and decided as to what was to be done. He was always in his element, and equal to every moment and every condition — just as it is all one to Hummel whether he plays an adagio or an allegro, whether in the bass or the treble. That is the facility which is found everywhere a real talent is at hand, in the arts of peace as in those of war, at the piano as behind the cannon.' What Goethe — in the more conditioned manner of expression of the contemporary social culture — calls the facility of a real talent is precisely what we today, living and seeing in a more unconditioned reality, understand as the drive and capacity of a genius to bring his universal being immediately present in the given moment.

This unmediated stepping-forth of the wholeness of his person, even in the single utterances of the day, gives his conversations that doubled impression of original freshness and streaming abundance which takes hold of all those involved, and remains in their memory as the most essential mark. Countless testimonies speak to this. One of them comes near the just-cited word of Goethe. Marmont in the same sense as Goethe notes the unexampled facility of the Napoleonic conversation (it may be remarked in passing how this recurring use of the word facility in the mouths of various contemporaries justifies our reading of the social character of this expression): 'He gave himself willingly over to conversation, in the consciousness of shining in it. None gave it more enchantment, and developed with facility a richer, indeed superabundant flow of ideas' — and elsewhere: 'Bonaparte had no eloquence (*éloquence*), but a fluent manner of delivery (*élocution facile*), powerful dialectic, and penetrating logic. His mind was streaming, fruitful, creative (*sa tête était abondante, fertile, productive*); in his words there was a richness

of expression (*richesse d'expressions*); in his thoughts a depth such as I have never since seen in any man.'

The opposition stressed at the beginning of this passage between *éloquence* and *élocution facile* shows clearly how Napoleon possessed, not the special gift of an outright orator, but the immediacy and fullness of expression-power that belongs more to the human totality. That Marmont aims at this in the distinction is shown by his further remark on the *tête abondante*, fertile, productive, on the incomparable *richesse d'expressions* — expressions that mean to designate an elementary natural endowment, not the special capacity of a gifted individual. Originality and fullness are also for other steady observers of the Emperor the essential marks of his conversation. One of them, the wife of his boyhood companion Junot — herself accustomed to his society from young days — emphasizes 'that peculiar form of expression' (*ce tour original*) 'which his brilliant and rich fancy had given him.' This does not contradict her saying elsewhere that his expression was 'trivial.' By French usage trivial means at first only the generally usual expression, in contrast to the choice or sublime, *exquis*, without the blemish of paltriness or flatness that attaches to it in German. What she calls *tour original* is not surprising turns of phrase as the product of formal oratorical gift, but a personal style as the immediate expression of overwhelming imaginative power. And precisely the unmediated rendering of pressing inner events can require a falling back on the simplest forms of speech and expression, and so explain a falling back too into the language of childhood and homeland. 'Triviality' of expression — simple, naked reality-form of speech — has always been the privilege, censured indeed often by lesser minds, of geniuses. Their pressing fullness, in moments of last intensification, can bear no circumlocution, not even an elevation of expression: rather only the widest, the most all-encompassing word, the one which has already become colorless to general consciousness, can take in the whole compass of their visions and hold them in their breadth and original liveliness. This is the

secret of the 'triviality' of which even the geniuses of language, Shakespeare and Goethe, are sometimes accused.

To this circle of unconcernedly concrete forms of expression belong some of Napoleon's most often repeated sayings, like his familiar *la poire n'est pas mûre*. The repeated employment of such words, pre-stamped by the speech of the people, proves how lively, how immediately his inwardness reacted to impressions. His mind does not take time for its own forming, but seizes the next-best form that offers itself. And this not only in occasional and jesting talk, but also in talk of deeper meaning. So in 1797, in a conversation with the statesmen Miot and Melzi, he dismissed with that saying the thought, even at that time, of taking into his hands the leadership of French as well as Lombard state affairs. In a Council of State of 1802, Napoleon dismissed a formally juristic question raised by the member Siméon with the words: 'I ask myself whether I am crazy; that was clear as day.' His often-heard exasperated cry, 'That comes of having no ministers,' likewise represents such an unconcerned reaching-back to the simple forms of the speech of the people. It is what the witness cited above calls his 'half-bourgeois' expression. His complaint sounds no different from that of a private man about a clumsy clerk. So immediately did his feeling and expression hold themselves, in matters of state too, within the frame of personal experience. The unconcernedness of expression can — over against a particularly distasteful apparition — climb from the merely 'trivial' to the unbridledly brutal retort. When in 1811 at a festival he saw Count Henckel von Donnersmarck not dancing, and on his question for the reason received the answer that the Count was not used to French dances, he spat — close past the Count — to the floor.



As in conversation Napoleon's living being came forth most immediately, the impression his conversation made — whether of originality or of fullness and density — had to mirror the various

stages of his development. After the great expansion which his personality won by penetrating the foreign world of the Orient during the Egyptian undertaking, an observer with sharper eyes finds his conversation surer and more nourished than before (*plus ferme, plus nourrie qu'elle n'était autrefois*). The whole treasure of extraordinary experiences and almost legendary adventures had entered, strengthening and quickening, into his person and into its immediate expression. At the same time the violent temperament that had held his youth in lasting tremors and tensions had won an inner equilibrium that brought itself to bear in his conversations through a certain softening of tone and expression, even though the original storm of his passionate inwardness was not yet wholly cleared away: 'He was less violent and sought to give his words a certain grace, although his natural impatience often made itself felt still.' The inner lightness and movement of conversation came at this time to expression in its outer forms as well. The Prussian envoy receives a lively impression of it. He reports to his court: 'For the rest, no formality whatever is observed; one converses sitting or standing, as suits the visitor.'

During the later years of the Consulate and the Empire, Napoleon's being draws itself more and more inward, comes less outward, helps itself more and more with the apparatus of inherited forms and ceremonial turns of phrase that his state authority puts at its disposal. It is the time when many of those who once, out of a living feeling of human belonging, had sought his nearness recoil — alarmed at the look of solemnity and unapproachability that now surrounds him — when an intercourse that had been wholly the immediate expression of the human need for exchange becomes a commerce destined only to satisfy the demands of duty or of business, as one of those affected by it confesses: 'One goes to the Tuileries out of duty or out of interest. For those drawn there by taste or inclination there is no longer any room.'

The originally immediate expressions of Napoleon's life now closed up into an inner, narrower circle, where they then often came forward with all the more passion and intensity. Let us recall here those evening improvisations of Napoleon's in Josephine's circle, in which his imaginative power, without any particular occasion and without given factual delimitation, exhausted itself in free play of an artistic kind. When then, after the failure of the Spanish and Russian undertakings, his life was again exposed to violent shocks — when his political and later even personal existence was set in the most immediate struggle for its standing — the personal impression came forth more livingly again in his conversation. But it was no longer of the same immediacy, the same welling fullness, as in the years of his rise. A certain weariness, a dragging heaviness entered into his speech; it no longer flowed lightly and in the unstemmable stream as once. 'He no longer gave himself to conversation with the old abandon,' found one of his counsellors, after the first part of the campaign of 1813 during his stay in Mainz, who had not seen him for some time. But he expressly remarks the still unaltered measure of inner powers: 'imperturbability and readiness of mind.' The mental capacity preserves its old standing; only it has no longer the same drive and the same density of utterance.

At the middle and height of his life, however, the drive and fullness with which his inner inspirations turned themselves immediately outward were unstemmable and shoreless. So much so that of this most matter-directed genius it cannot be said that he always allowed himself to be limited in the utterance of his inwardness by a given subject. He is so subject to the strong current of his inner powers, so pressed by the fullness of his inner visions, that even in sittings of the Council of State he digresses from the subject of the deliberation to other discussions: discussions that, however, as a witness reports, gripped all those present, because they unexpectedly disclosed Napoleon's state of soul, or his secret political aims and plans. Just as often, in single conversation, in audiences and

negotiations, suddenly out of the depths of his inner world a thought emerged that stood in no connection with the matter under treatment, tore the course of negotiations apart, and turned him to the object of his inner preoccupation. The first traces of Napoleon's greatest plans for life and state seem to have come first to light in such outbreaks of an otherwise occupied inwardness, at unsuited points. To the envoy of the Republic in Florence, Miot, who in 1797 sought him out at Mombello in his camp shining with fame and festivity to come to an understanding with him on the diplomatic stand to be taken in Italy, Napoleon developed at large his plans, directed at the building-up of a new regiment, his regiment, in France, and so an outline of his whole life-plan, as it probably pressed in this hour, out of long-cherished forebodings, into its first form. So great, so unconquerable, so unconscious to himself, comes upon Napoleon this drive, that occasion and surroundings become not a barrier but rather the point of attachment, passionately seized, for his disclosures. Miot loses his composure entirely at this kind of unexpected and unbounded confidence, of whose motive he remains in doubt. But he too seeks an explanation in that insuperable, spontaneous need of communication of Napoleon's. He says: 'Whether the trust we inspired in him moved him to open himself unforcedly, whether he was pressed by the often-felt need to discharge upon the first comer he met the ideas that crowded stormily in his mind — he hid from us nothing of his plans for the future.'

In just the same way, before the Bourrienne who had already become estranged from him, Napoleon, at the farewell audience he granted him before his departure for the post in Hamburg, disclosed the basic thoughts of his planned new shaping of Italy. Bourrienne, familiar with the Emperor's nature, knows the indammable force with which his inner conceptions break forth: but here he too stands taken aback. He had been prepared for explanations of the policy to be observed in Germany. Instead, he — long removed from imperial confidence — has revealed to him a plan of so basic a meaning, wholly without connection to his

own task. At the close of this conversation the Emperor too must have come to the consciousness of the extraordinary and unmotivated character of his disclosure. For he feels driven to give it a justification, which however comes down to nothing other than a confirmation of the lack of any factual connection — a confirmation of the immediately personal origin of his communication. He says: 'You see, Bourrienne, it just gives me pleasure now to tell you this; for so long it has been locked up in my head. With you I think entirely aloud.' It is the most undisguised confession of the power Napoleon grants to the current of his thoughts and conceptions over the givens of surroundings and occasion — a power that is the expression of the most pitiless, undeniable necessity to make room in the outer for the inspirations of his inner world, even at the cost of interrupting its given course. The 'thinking entirely aloud' designates the most immediate breaking-in of his thoughts upon the world of fact. Yet such breakings-out of his mind are not the product of any essence-less arbitrary impulse: they are in a deeper region always linked with his great human total organism, and owe their arising to some latent power of his inwardness set in motion: as in the last case to the suddenly reawakened feeling of bond with the man who, for many a year, had been the trusted vessel of his most secret disclosures. This is the meaning of the 'so long it has been locked up in my head; with you I think entirely aloud.' The surprising re-emergence of the complex of old friendly feelings and habits set the conception-world of that sphere again in motion, and lured it forth.

Often his sudden inspirations and disclosures stand, however, in a connection with the surrounding circumstances of a less hidden, though no more factual kind: they are the product of a linkage of conceptions and thoughts to some outer given that presses the Emperor to immediate communication. So in 1812 he surprised that engineer-officer who had been ordered with all speed to Paris from Antwerp to give a report on the conditions of Ragusa known to him from earlier campaigns, after the satisfactory outcome of the report, with a long discussion of the

possibilities of the siege and defense of Antwerp, with the help of plans hastily fetched. The next stimulus to this discussion was clearly the merely outward fact of the officer's provenance, which set in motion in Napoleon at once a train of thought directed at the fortifying of Antwerp. The proven competence of the officer reinforced this train of thought, made it natural for the Emperor to enter into the problem; and the understanding reception and answering of his explanations by the officer brought the Emperor then to a complete unfolding of his views. But just as the spontaneity of Napoleon's utterances is always conditioned by some deeper, often not easily seen-through given of his being, it is also always destined somehow to serve the meaningful course of his life. However outwardly purposeless his disclosures may seem to interrupt the flow of his planned action, they never lack the deepest, inner purposefulness, the boundedness with the line of the creating ground-powers of his life. Always they serve, with the sureness of a genius's natural certainty, somehow as a presupposed building-stone for the shaping of a portion of the life-work: so in the last-mentioned cases his plan, in the making, of a final ordering of Italian conditions, and of the securing of an inviolable bulwark against English sea-mastery.

Sometimes, however, Napoleon's surrender to the apparitions of his inner world is so great, his sinking so deep, that even his active and expressive mind brings nothing of it to the surface — but rather its only expression remains the immediate sinking itself, a dreaming brooding. This unreserved giving-over to the most secret springs of his being, this listening inward, he often sets — for long hours, doggedly — against the course of the liveliest negotiations and deliberations, and thereby hinders their orderly progress: a bearing that must seem incompatible with the active-immediate ground-trait of his being, were it not itself the very expression of his deepest immediacy — that self-acting securing of his inner organization which in this way determines and restores its equilibrium, by throwing the weight of its own thinking and feeling powers against the untimely or excessive pressing-in of factual material.

Toward society too, this falling back upon the springs of his inwardness, this closing of himself within himself, is the immediate expression of his self-assertion. In the midst of its noisily aimless motion — at balls or at the theater — one sees him suddenly without participation, without connection to the general line of the festivity. To the laughter of others he answers with an icy silence, or a smile that is worse than silence, since it seems to come from regions of his inwardness which by their mere being deny the whole surrounding world of trifling pleasure. This is the 'false and often very ill-placed smile' that Mme Bourrienne takes so amiss. More fearful still it is when out of these undergrounds of his being a real laugh — the very sound of laughter — frees itself. It is of so dreadful a wildness that, as Mme Bourrienne confesses, it positively pains her, and stifles in her every possibility of good will. Not without reason. She, like her surroundings, feels instinctively in this laughter the consuming fires of a daemonic inwardness which threaten her world — the bourgeois — in its most immediate stock. This is that power 'undissolvable through understanding and reason' which Goethe too sensed in Napoleon.

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IV. IMMEDIACY: EXPERIENCE

This is that power "undissolvable through understanding and reason" which Goethe too had sensed in Napoleon.

Napoleon's doing is the unmediated translation of his inner world into the outer. But another thing than the immediacy of the outward-placing of his inner being is the immediacy of this being itself — the immediacy with which he becomes aware of the world, outer and inner, takes it into himself, feels through it, the immediacy with which it enters his world of conception and feeling and works upon it — in short, the immediacy of his inward bearing toward men and things. In the visible and audible utterances of his life this drive toward an original, untransmitted, untranslated bearing toward men and things expresses itself most forcefully. Therefore — according to the plan of this work, to proceed from the simplest and most graspable to the deeper and more hidden — its presentation was placed before this complex of appearances. But the world of his inner happening too, which cannot be taken hold of by the senses but must be inferred from deed and bearing — the world that causes these outward appearances — is wholly ruled by the drive to set outer and inner immediately at one. It wills, just as his doing casts the most human of primeval experiences immediately outward, that the outer in its sensory, bodily form be drawn into the most original experience and made the immediate substance of his being. His access to the world and his effect upon it are one and the same: the unmediated taking-in of the exteriors of things and persons into his inner experience, and their equally unmediated casting-out again in his doing.

Napoleon takes in the world with the most original of all creative organs: the eye. His is the power of a seeing that goes from the outward sensory impression to the innermost kernel and determines his whole relation to men and things. In this seeing he is master of the inner content of things and familiar with it. His is more the artist's eye than the statesman's, certainly not the

scholar's. All men who have an organ for these differences of seeing have become aware of it, astonished and often dazzled. The great statesman whose art it was, with the most polished intellectual means, to weigh the things of the world and carefully balance them, Talleyrand, was so struck on first encountering Napoleon's early successes by this way of grasping the world, so contrary to his own — he recognized in it, from his limitations, something so fundamental, the truly genial element of the new conqueror — that at Napoleon's return from the Italian campaign he placed it at the center of the speech of welcome addressed to him and emphasized with all his force as the essential object of his wondering admiration "the sudden inspirations which through unforeseen resources threw the most artful calculations of the enemy into confusion [déconcertaient]." The choice of the words inspirations, déconcerter, ressources inespérées leaves no doubt that Talleyrand here intended not a general praise of Napoleon's capacities as a commander but that peculiar, inspired, immediate way of his inner seeing and understanding. All his ministers and councillors of state recognized this as the core of his talent, as the truly genial content in him that set him above themselves and above all the world. One writes: "What he did not know, he had in his feeling or found through inspiration." Another: "Napoleon had no conception of the forms of pre-revolutionary government. But he had done much dreaming [beaucoup rêvé], though never really studied [jamais étudié]." This is, of course, factually incorrect insofar as Napoleon during his officer years had studied hard on all fields — and not only in matters of the art of war — and had gathered a broad, many-sided body of knowledge. But what the observer expresses with these words is the inner truth: that Napoleon's knowledge and understanding were not won by threshing through the material by study, but were, for essential realms of his activity, immediate inspirations that sprang from his own being, supported and fertilized only by the accidental and irregular reading of his youth.

Creative seeing is the means of every creative spirit. How it works itself out — in artistic, in statesmanlike, or in world-

shaping, religious creation — depends on the interplay of the manifold inner and outer conditions to which the development of man is in general subject. In the most richly endowed spirits this gift will press toward expression in various fields, will long waver, and will often find its decisive determination only through a particular inner or outer impulse. That Napoleon's most proper field of activity became that of the military commander is not yet grounded in the way he saw and grasped the world; but it is certainly no accident; rather, aside from various outer conditions, it is the result of the particular kind — the immediacy — of his need for expression and effect. That this, moreover, did not remain the exclusive field of his activity, but that his effectiveness very soon embraced all fields of state, proves how extensive were his possibilities of giving visible form to his inner inspirations. This breadth of his possibilities of expressing inner world — together with a central and comprehensive experiencing of outer reality — is what properly constitutes the being of his universality. To be sure, he was also not far from it — his genius lacked not much of the capacity to express his inner images, his inner experience, in immediate and absolute artistic form. In his youth he long and much occupied himself with poetic works, and the nature of his human bearing — think of the scene with Junot depicted earlier — shows something of a born artist and portrayer.

Thus he once, before the painter David, developed his ideas on art in a way that anticipates the deepening of vision that the most recent spiritual movements have brought to the theory of painting. David had asked to paint him and for that purpose needed him to sit. Napoleon at first refused with what would today be called a "historical" argument: "Sit? What for? Do you believe the great men of antiquity, of whom we have portraits, sat for them?" And when David insisted, with the objection: "But I paint you for your age, for people who have seen you, who know you; and they want to see you true to life," Napoleon developed out of that historical argument the inner, deeper meaning — the reason why in his opinion the great men of antiquity had not "sat"

for their artists. He says: "True to life? Not the exact reproduction of the features, not a little wart on the nose, makes the likeness. One must paint the character of the physiognomy — what animates it"; and further: "Surely Alexander never sat for Apelles. No one asks whether the portraits of the great men are like. It is enough if their genius lives in them." In substance, and even in its form, this comes to the same thing that the last decades have developed as the fundamental content of artistic knowledge. The contrast of the painter of genre, detail, realism, who wants to characterize through surface-reproduction and to interest through surface-traits, with the artist of primary stamp, who brings up the inner reality of things and sets it before us in a large-featured form — this is the position from which the spiritual science of the modern age has made possible the right appreciation of ancient art and furthered the rise of a new living art. It is no flattery when David replied to this discussion: "You are teaching me to paint." Napoleon had disclosed to him — who as an artist was still thoroughly the representative of his age, which, despite the Revolution, saw in a social and socially-mediated way — a principal means of art: that of the primarily artistic seeing as opposed to the derivative-secondary kind.

But — for the line of this investigation — this relation to art is only one expression, if the most spiritual, of a general attitude that grounds and determines his whole relation to the world: of the want of things and persons that can exercise a fertile effect on his nature in his particular way of sensory, experience-bound apprehension. Only from objects, men, events constituted in such a way can he take the stuff for building his inner world — i.e., nourish inspirations of an independent spiritual carrying-power and formation — while everything derivative, already passed through concept and thought, handlingly worn down by the understanding, can exercise no immediate effect on him but can have only the value of a spiritual tool. One of his most gifted generals, who had been close to him from early days, grasped and brought to light, almost with second sight, this deep inner conditioning of his creative doing. It is on the eve of the Battle of

Wagram. Napoleon has finished inspecting the preparations for crossing the Danube and receives Marshal Marmont, who has hurried from Dalmatia with his troops and whom he has not seen for a long while. Still wholly filled with the consciousness of the triumphant course the campaign has so far taken — which he has conducted with only a small force — he gives Marmont a brief, factual account of all that has lately happened, the day of Essling, and then basks in the feeling of strength of his now assembled army, for that time enormous: 187,000 fighting men and 700 guns. His certainty of victory is confirmed, the force of his inspirations winged. Marmont says: "I have always seen him extremely susceptible to the display of his power. When his senses were struck by the sight of a great mass of troops, he felt each time a living impression that influenced his decisions. A man of his superiority should have been proof against such an enchantment; his senses should not have had so much power over his mind; for he knew beforehand, before he saw them, how many troops he had." This is the most unequivocal establishing of the unconquerable force with which Napoleon's creative power was bound to his sensory, bodily apprehension of the concrete situation. And it is not only the sight of his military apparatus that gives wings to his inspirations; the whole setting of a great enterprise must be bodily present before his senses to become effective as impulse. The plan for the march into Italy, the artistic heights of his strategic career — he conceived it impetuously, as he himself says, at the sight of the map of the theater of war, "with a passionate grip of his right hand." The map is only a symbol for the spatially-present, tangible reality of the things; it is the substitute, the compression into the short formula, of the world of sensory objects of action that his nature demands for the release of his creative powers. The drive, unheard-of for his time, of a military man to go back not only to historical accounts and compilations but to the source-documents themselves, is again only an outgrowth of his nature, which seeks original phenomena, the first living, sensory impression. That is also why, wherever he can, he supplements the insights into the situation

and condition of the theater of operations that he has won from written sources, through oral reports from those familiar with the locality. Often he would expressly and suddenly summon to him, from the most remote regions, those of his officers who had already served in a theater of war unknown to him, for such reports. A case of this kind has already been touched upon: in 1812 he telegraphed for Battalion Chief Bertrand to come from Antwerp to Paris to give him a report on the conditions of Ragusa. Whatever his lively, gripping senses had once seized in tangible reality stood fixed in his inner conception for all time, with indestructible plastic clarity, and became the living starting-point and nourishment of his thoughts, plans, actions. It was on the battlefield that what his demand for a purely visual overview of his troops, for an exact foreknowledge of the terrain, the enemy's strength, and so forth, really meant, showed itself. The whole battle lives and moves with tremendous concreteness in his brain as its most proper plane. This constitutes the most primary of his gifts as a commander — that gift which even his spiteful daily observer had to concede with the words: "He possessed on the day of battle, in the highest degree, that perfect knowledge of the reciprocal positions of both armies."

That the sensory presence of things was an inescapable need for his imagination became obvious to all who worked with him. He demanded facts from whoever reported to him, no reasoning, no conceptual construction; least of all would he tolerate any oratorical flourish. Again and again in the Council of State the words: "Facts! I must have facts!" were heard. A document or a report that could represent an indispensable requirement for a practical decision, but whose bare conceptual content could make no sensory pictorial impression on him, he often laid aside without reading, and gave the order to reduce the same content again to pictorial reality. Once when the Police Ministry submitted him, before a decision on the extradition of one of the plotters of the infernal machine, who was in Prussian territory, a lengthy juridical and political exposition of the lawfulness and timeliness of the step, he threw back the document directly and

ordered: "Two words: will the government cede him or not?" The fact reduced to its simplest form — that was what related to his nature; everything else was superfluous, unclear, disturbing.

Thus he demanded from everything that concerned his person and his activity the most concentrated factual expression — an expression that for him could only be won from the living, sensory impression of the things themselves. The same need for objectified reality is shown by his grasp of persons. Here too he needs the apparition itself, the bodily sensory appearance, the visible, audible phenomenon. When, as First Consul, he sent General Lejeune as courier to Vienna to conduct negotiations at the imperial court for the return of the art treasures taken by the French, he demanded from him, on his return, first of all not the result and details of the negotiations but a description of the persons and a portrait of the Archduchess. Then, without regard for the silently waiting Lejeune, he throws himself upon the portrait across the table, close under the lamp, examines it carefully, and questions the general in detail about every particular. That during the first years of his marriage to Josephine he constantly carried her portrait with him and often showed it to his generals means for him more than a merely conventional bearing — to which he certainly gave little room — indeed more than the expression of a general tenderness: it means with him the satisfaction of his need for her sensory presence and his joy in it. From his envoys he demands, first of all, accurate information about the living, human appearance and bearing of the foreign princes and persons who fall within their sphere of business. He himself subjects every newcomer who may in any way become important for his plans to the sharpest examination of his appearance. His glance at such moments has such a piercing force that it utterly unmans anyone he meets for the first time. This is attested by Napoleon's later cabinet secretary Meneval, who in describing his reporting for duty expressly emphasizes that only his knowledge of this glance had saved him from extreme dismay: "He looked at me for a moment with a piercing eye that would have intimidated me greatly, had I

seen it for the first time." Even at ceremonial visits and receptions he seeks a pose that allows him this examination unobserved. He himself confesses this, in intimate company, on the occasion of the reception of the king and queen of Etruria whom he had set in place: "Sometimes, seemingly occupied with something else, I observe and eavesdrop on the two." And reads with his sensory organs, with eye and ear, from their faces the inner relation that will determine their future government. "She says or does something that shows she is a true Spaniard, full of pride." What Napoleon is here enacting as a deliberate method is nothing other than the conscious directedness of his talent of immediate, sensory perception on the given task: a talent that otherwise, in the natural course of his life, is active in and of itself as automatic function.

From this gift of immediate sensory apprehension is explained that unheard-of certainty with which Napoleon, at the very outset of his career, from among the undistinguished youth of the Revolutionary armies — distinguished by no rank — picked out those who later proved themselves the most valuable and reliable members of his following, capable of bearing the weight of his gigantic work. One must bring before one's eyes that under the very walls of Toulon, himself still only a captain, he picked Junot from the non-commissioned officers and Marmont from the subalterns — both of about his age — and saw their initial proving in the smallest tasks afterward confirmed through decades and in the greatest. Here the attaching of Junot in particular — Marmont had been known to him superficially from their military school days and, thanks to his rank, had had the opportunity to show higher intellectual capacities at once — was entirely the result of the living apprehension of a person, inconspicuous in his outward position, in the kernel of his being. It is reliably attested by the agreement of the most various sources — what makes altogether the impression of a legendary event — that Junot alone through the absoluteness of his human bearing in carrying out some subordinate military commissions and the compressed hitting-power of some utterances very

characteristic of him, awakened Napoleon's attention and at once held his confidence. These facts gain weight as evidence of Napoleon's essentially experience-bound selection of men when one considers that under the besieging army of Toulon there was a whole series of officers — older and proven men as well — whose carrying-out of professionally more significant tasks Napoleon, by virtue of his position as commander of artillery, had the opportunity to observe, without their prompting any personal approach in him. So decisively did the immediate wholeness of a human being outweigh for him the most thorough technical reporting of capacities not stamped by it.

Napoleon's words to his brother Lucien at the first state council after the coup: "All men of talent who are in France I summon to myself; they will serve me as long as they want; after that they can go wherever they like" — these words are the theoretical formulation of this talent: they express the consciousness of the certainty with which he identifies and captures creative forces immediately present to his perception — and with which, later, he also lets them run free when they have fulfilled their function. The phrase, mystical and almost schooled in Neo-Platonism, is a variation of the thought developed above: that the genius is capable of grasping and appropriating foreign being through immediate experience because all such being is primarily present in him. Goethe, who was akin to Napoleon's genius, finds a matter-of-fact, self-evident expression for this capacity: "Napoleon, who certainly had a quite particular tact in the choice of his men, who knew how to set every significant power at the place where it would appear in its proper sphere, and who was therefore in his life, in all great undertakings, served as hardly another has been." Napoleon himself designated this way of entering, wholly humanly, sensorily, bodily, into relation with another being in order to learn its fundamental disposition, its soul-tone, as the most proper means of his finding and testing of men. In a placard that appeared suddenly everywhere on the walls of Paris before the 18th Brumaire, with the obvious intention of winning the population through making the personal

impression of Napoleon living in their imagination, it says: "One of his gifts is to set every man in his place and keep him there. Even before his time as general, he had created for himself an effective means of seeing through men. He would rough them up at first encounter. From the way they answer, he declared, I know the ring of their soul. Strike with a glove on bronze, it gives no sound; strike with a hammer, it rings." What is here given out, in the rationalistic manner of the age, as a means, a procedure, is only the immediate, automatically working expression of the man's being. The designation of this procedure as "roughing them up at first encounter" [brusquer du premier abord] shall only forcefully bring to expression the violence with which, in such moments, he casts his whole being into a single word, a single gesture, and from the reaction of the man before him receives back his inner bearing like a firm, sure sound, and with final certainty determines his worth for his work — just as in his political actions he lets himself be ruled by the immediacy of his passion, so here in his political judgment by that of his visual perception.

The manly dignity and unshakable firmness that the head of the conspiracy of 1804, Georges Cadoudal, had once shown at a personal meeting with him worked so enduringly in him that after the conspiracy he had a regimental command offered to him instead of any punishment — which Cadoudal, however, declined. Indeed, he considered the possibility of later making him his adjutant. And that not groundlessly or lightly. For this kind of living expression of inner self-command and closure was indeed the decisive yardstick for his selection of adjutants. The power of his personal, immediate experience here leads Napoleon to one of those acts that, by turning a political problem into a supremely human one, bear that trait of simple, sensory magnanimity which works on the imagination of the world more than political or military successes, and first lends the great statesman the legendary radiance of the heroic man. How this gift of immediate apprehension of foreign being opens up its deeper humanity to him and enables him himself to those acts of supremely human,

supra-political character that constitute his essential distance from the merely great statesman — that he himself deeply felt and, on this occasion, with a side-glance at Moreau — who with his characteristic uncertainty had entered into a half-connection with the conspirators — expressed: "Moreau saw in Georges only a man of force; I see something else in him."

One day, near the camp of Boulogne, two captured English sailors tried to escape on a skiff hastily cobbled together with their knives. They were caught, brought before Napoleon, and by his order released with a gift of money. The deed is noble and popular; it is also conventional — it could have been done by any monarch of the old stamp. But what gives it a particular, stronger emphasis is Napoleon's word on this occasion, which in its brevity illuminates the depth of his immediate taking-in of the two men's being: "These seamen! with such seamen!" — a word he would not have spoken had it been two soldiers of the great Frederick caught at an escape attempt. In it the whole man is present, with the fullness of his sense for the self-reliant, venturesome spirit of the English seafaring folk that had been his first and strongest experience of foreign power in his youth — before the walls of the English-held Toulon.

The effect of the immediate human appearance of a foreign being on his perception was so powerful that it shaped his political decisions. Thus he, who knew no political sentimentality, but the hardest practical evaluation of the political balance of forces, nevertheless omitted after Tilsit — visited now by a flood of personal impressions from Russia and the Russian Imperial House — the weakening of Russia that had lain in his plan. The personality of Alexander had fixed him, with all its questionable, still undecided character; the sensory, bodily impression of the vast Russian Empire — the boundlessness of its spaces, the strange, not-to-be-overcome uncanniness that the foreignness of a world and a people lying outside all European measure awakened in him, had cast such a spell over his political judgment that he abandoned the advantageous proposal held

ready. So too he undertook the campaign of 1812 with quite differently tempered intentions from those he would have had but for the personal impression of Alexander and his Empire. Similarly he failed in his Spanish policy to follow through on the liquidation, clearly recognized by him as necessary, of the Bourbon rule in Spain, because he was disarmed by the personal appearance of the old Charles IV and his wife, as it presented itself at the meeting in Bayonne. That this impression, in its unshapely misery and helpless confusion, was of a directly opposite kind to that which the picture of Alexander had produced, makes no difference in principle: in both cases his political action is determined by the power of his immediate sensory impression. He subordinates the conditions of the situation in which he stands before such an apparition; he lets himself be ruled — as in his political actions by the immediacy of his passion — so here in his political judgment by that of his visual perception.

The same effect that a self-collected human appearance exercised on him in men revealed itself too — and with special force — when this appearance had the stamp of a higher spiritual culture. Goethe's being as it was expressed in his whole person had won from Napoleon at their Erfurt meeting that ever-memorable word "Voilà un homme!" and had determined him to acts and effects that reached deep into the cultural policy of Germany. That same effect was produced on him by Goethe's princely friend, Karl August of Weimar, who through the force of his personal appearance — the embodiment of a purely formed human being — overcame the political animosity that Napoleon, as the head of the Rhine Confederation, felt toward the independent-minded prince. Franz von Dessau, the founder of the Wörlitz Gardens and of the picture collection in the Gothic House, through the spiritual significance that expressed itself in his whole figure, attained with Napoleon a veneration similar to that of Goethe himself. Napoleon showed himself constantly inclined toward him with particular favor, and was concerned to accede to his wishes and interests. It is well known how Karl August's consort,

Duchess Luise, solely through the effect that emanated from her majestic, firm bearing, quieted Napoleon's wrath and saved the state and house of Weimar from certain ruin. In the same way a similarly constituted German princess, Pauline of Lippe, through her personal dignity, determined Napoleon's judgment in favor of her house. Napoleon himself was conscious of the peculiar effect that the bearing of these and other German women of princely blood produced in him. He contrasts them with the ladies of the French court, whose excessive excitability often painfully disquieted him, in the words transmitted by the princess herself: "Nevertheless, the German princesses have differently constituted nerves." He, whose whole being was set upon assuring himself of foreign being through sensory perception, found here, in contrast to the shimmering way of the great French ladies, a firm closure of higher human formation that confronted him with the assuring calm of a figure and guaranteed him duration and inviolability of appearance. Of all French women of the higher rank he felt the same impression only from one — that Duchess of Angoulême, of whom for that reason, to the disadvantage of the male members of her house, he said she was the only man of the house of Bourbon who deserved to wear trousers. For in a French woman a calm, firm closure of appearance was inseparable for him from the form and attributes of masculinity. An opposite effect was exerted on him by the boundless flexibility and unresisting amiability of the Queen of Naples, Caroline Murat, wholly lacking in that closedness — an effect that could at most be called entertainment.

And not only the higher, extraordinary phenomenon of consummate humanity, but also the simplest, the peasant woman of the field, could exercise an influence on him and on his political action through the mere appearance of her firmly bounded being — if it was only a true, unbroken, naturally tangible apparition. In the year 1805, when he was about to determine the extent of the share of Marshal Ney in his victorious army of that year, a woman from the people forced her way to him in the camp at Strassburg. She came from the Alsatian

border region and asked him to protect the harvest of her little field from the damage of the troops, as she depended on it for her living. Napoleon asked her name and what she had to lose. She answered: "Barbara Wagner; all that I have in the world is a small field of wheat." The immediate impression of this simple, bounded existence — the condition of a little human being wholly concentrated in the possession of a field of wheat — forced Napoleon to the highest, to the very highest measure of what she had dared to ask. He gave her a detachment to guard her field and ordered the protection of harvests throughout the area. And that he should say of the owner of this little field: "Well, I have to take care of Barbara Wagner" — this humorous exaggeration only shows again how strongly his immediate perception of the simple, self-contained phenomenon held him. And this in a man who had just received on the heights of Strassburg, at the end of a march of unheard-of boldness, the report of the capitulation of Ulm.

Thus within him the simplest sensory conception of being stands at the side of the most comprehensive and universal, and in such a way that both spring from one and the same root: the immediate sensuous taking-in and feeling-through of his world. Richest fullness and simplest limitation of human and worldly apparition work upon him with equal elementary power and move him to the same kind of unmediated effect, sometimes touching, sometimes terrible, but always direct and from the fullest individuality — an effect, to use a characteristic expression of his, like "a blow with a hammer on bronze." So too his first sight of the Swiss landscape once struck him, as he confesses, in the old rationalistic language of the Encyclopedists, with the force of a moral effect: "At last I begin to understand moral feeling; I have been a rationalist until now." A thousand-times-literary and common feeling, that of the sublime in mountain nature, becomes for him, who knows only the effect of the directly living, the living-sensory impression, a new experience, an at last opening eye for a kind of effect that had previously been closed to him.

This possession of a naturally sensory, immediate conception of men and things had from early on filled him with deep mistrust of the confusing, endlessly talking garrulity of great society. Here too, as with women, what alarmed him was the ungraspable formlessness in which the factual, the thought, the felt all flowed into one another, the conscious met him in the forms of the unconscious. Against this he invokes the meager but compact and unambiguous judgment of the poorest in spirit, the peasants — with whom he feels himself connected because they, exactly like him, are thrown back on the immediately concrete, the originally workmanlike. "What do I care" he once cried out bitterly, "what the salons and the gossips think. I don't listen to it. I know only one opinion — that of the simple peasants." Here lies too one of the deepest grounds for the permanent aversion he felt to everything parliamentary; here too is probably the ultimate cause to be sought for the complete — even physical — collapse he suffered before the Council of Five Hundred on the eve of Brumaire. The immediate sensory impression of the gigantic assembly, which seemed ruled by no unified thought and capable of being ruled by none, threw him, as it struck him with the force of a first experience, so entirely out of himself that all his power of thought, feeling — even of movement — failed him as before a terrible, elemental event he could not overcome. It is the same consciousness of powerlessness, of helplessness of his being — set as it was upon deed, upon effect — before an invisible, formless, tangibly ungraspable adversary, that fundamentally determines his bearing toward the press as well: it subjects the part of it that falls within his sphere of influence to strict unifying censorship, but leaves him defenseless against the attacks of the foreign press. For these too are nothing other than that same formless void that resists the effect of his immediate personality.

Now these observations on the nature of Napoleon's world of sensory, immediate inner experience have taken us farther into the next, and central, region of his being: the life of conception and feeling, the second book of this work. One more observation, which at the same time forms the transition, is the question: what

do these operations of his nature signify for those who approach him? How does the abundance, always fresh, always the first, the only one of its kind, of this immediately experiencing nature affect its environment, the circle — chosen with such certainty — of the men destined to serve his work, the great world with which he acts and creates? The answer to this question is at the same time the closing chord of the account of his personal being, allowing the picture of his inner nature to go over into that of the shaping forces of his life: it is the question of the personal relations of his life — of friendship, hospitality, and human nearness.

BOOK TWO — HISTORY AND THE PRESENT

I. THE EXPERIENCE OF HISTORY

The world and the being of Napoleon stand in living reciprocity. What he by his action exerts on them, enriching them in figure and form, he draws back from them in turn as raw material for the shaping and expansion of his own nature. Spatial nearness and distance he penetrates with the force of his sensuous intuition and brings back the most bodily reality of it as booty into his life and work. So it is in the present of his immediate Lebenskreis. But also what lies outside and before him, back in time — the apparitions and events of history — he seizes with the same elemental power of the senses as the objects of his surrounding world; he seizes from them only what is capable of sensuous impression: yet they then swell under his gaze and spiritual breath into an immediate life-force such as scarcely the hand of primary historians, only that of poets could give them. History is for Napoleon a field of experience, not a storehouse of knowledge.

He grows up in an age to which the living power of historical tradition was foreign, for which history was only a tool and material for the exposition of its a priori doctrines ("which wished at once to sit in judgment over the past and on the other hand to instruct the public by highlighting individual historical examples." Below, *Deutsche Geschichtsschreibung*, p. 6). Rousseau and Raynal, yes even Montesquieu, use historical facts only as evidence for their magnificent structures of ideas. It is natural that Napoleon, raised under their influence, shows traces of this influence in the writings of his youth. The manifold collections of excerpts that he makes from all the historical works he reads can only strengthen this impression, even if in truth they are to be valued differently. At the mature height of his life, however, every connection with the doctrinaire historiography of the 18th century is extinguished. Then he turns with passionate attack against every attempt to write history from the standpoint

of a particular system of thought, as expression and instrument of a particular moral code. He says: "No systematic historiography, none of those declamatory interpretations that explain great men wrongly and falsify events in order to draw a moral to order." The well-known saying to Goethe, handed down to us in German by Chancellor Müller — "History wants no illusions, it should enlighten and instruct, not merely sketch impressive pictures" — rightly understood, says nothing else; only its wording echoes the usage of the rationalist-ethical conception of history in the 18th century. But one must reckon, first, that Napoleon's expressions underwent a reinterpretation in Chancellor Müller's translation into the doctrinaire thinking of the age (especially that "enlighten and instruct"); second, the possibility cannot be dismissed that Napoleon used the terminology familiar to him from his youthful reading, from the Encyclopedists, for the task of history, summarily in another, far broader sense of his own, opposed to theirs. In substance this utterance too comes down to the demand for an uninfluenced investigation and presentation of historical reality. This becomes clear at once from the continuation of the Emperor's remarks. Napoleon says, according to Müller's report: "Tacitus did not sufficiently develop the causes and inner motives of events. He did not deeply enough investigate the mystery of actions and convictions, their mutual interconnection, to establish a just and impartial judgment for posterity. Such a judgment must take men and folk only as they are in the midst of life."

This is nothing but the demand for a pure causal presentation of facts. He wants to know the inner connection of events and their outer — even economic — conditioning. Only in this way, through the mode of his immediate sensuous intuition, does the true factual character of things and men, the deeper spiritual face of reality, become manifest to him. With this demand he only brings to mind — as so often, from the intuitive drive of his unconditional nature — what later doctrines have developed through painstaking intellectual labor. In this demand for a clarification of the deeper factual connections, for a

consideration of all the inner and outer conditions that determine individual action, the conception of history of the Romantic School is anticipated, as it came to its purest and highest flowering especially in Germany and there in Ranke. The aforementioned portrayer of modern German historiography credits one of the precursors of this school (Justus Möser) with the chief merit: "With sharp sight he recognizes the connection of state institutions with economic conditions and presents historical formations before us with a vividness that corresponds to genuine joy in the contemplation of the past." These qualities and achievements can with far greater right be designated as the hallmark of the Romantic historical school itself. At the same time they summarize, in remarkably exact agreement, what Napoleon sees as the task and requirement of true historiography. The ground and motive of the object-oriented mode of presentation is for the Romantic school of historians no different than for Napoleon — the drive toward, indeed the "joy" in a livelier grasping of reality. Entirely banished from view is the treatment and manner of presentation of the earlier rationalist historiography.

The use of history for didactic purposes, its employment as a model and object of comparison — Napoleon in his mature years rejected this most emphatically at every opportunity where it confronted him. In the address he gave to the Council of Ancients on the day before the 18th Brumaire, he says: "Let no one seek in the past for examples that could hold back our course. Nothing in history resembles the end of the 18th century; nothing at the end of the 18th century resembles the present moment." This utterance surely pursues, like almost all of Napoleon's statements, a specific present purpose. It wants to keep the Ancients from drawing parallels from history that could prove disastrous for the constitutional overthrow he planned. But this outer purposefulness determined only the utterance as such, not its intellectual content. There are no such detached special-purpose actions, separated from the inner being of a man's fundamental outlook, in the genius. The genius finds no occasion

to do or say what does not in some way correspond to his whole human constitution. Thus the sentences above, while they seek to ward off the concretely unwelcome use of history for proof purposes, nonetheless express only Napoleon's true conviction about the value and meaning of history. History is no collection of examples for immediate practical application. The great historical phenomena are incomparable givens, like all organically vital nature — unique, to be explained only from their own conditions, each demanding and asserting its own full present. For this reason alone he is opposed to their subordination under an individually willful system of thought, to every kind of constructive historiography. It sounds like a verdict against Hegel, his school and all his followers, like a justification of the Ranke school, when he says of history: "It should not deal in systems."

In his youth, to be sure, Napoleon could not yet give intellectual expression to this breadth of his personal historical conception. Then he still lay entirely, as already mentioned, in the fetters of Rousseau, Raynal, Montesquieu, and Mably. We read in the *Discours de Lyon* his well-known words: "Great men are meteors, destined to burn up in order to illuminate their age." For him, as for the school under whose spell he stands, history concentrates itself on a "conscious, calculating reciprocity" of individuals and the ultimate task of historiography on the presentation of the values that those individuals, according to the judgment of the Enlightenment, created for their age. In this way, for the youthful Napoleon "great men become meteors, destined to burn up in order to illuminate their age"; their mighty existence and being, which purposelessly creates and shapes world, is not — as later — accepted by him with admiration as such, as the foundation and measure of his whole world-view, but valued as an unhappy excess of personality, as hubris, which finds its justification and meaning only in the fulfillment of the Enlightenment and world-improvement purpose peculiar to the 18th century. The whole work from which these words are taken — the *Discours* on the prize question set by the Academy of Lyon in 1791, "Déterminer

les vérités et les sentiments qu'il importe le plus d'inculquer aux hommes pour leur bonheur" — reflects nothing other than the principles of the contemporary school. What historical apparitions are mentioned — principally the folk and men of the ancient world — are accepted as given, almost formulaic magnitudes, without deepened intuition, and are now praised, now condemned from the standpoint of a eudaemonistic rationalism, always used only as evidence for the ethical demands of the age. The younger Cato, who later appears to him as the highest perfection of ancient human formation, is here the blinded victim of his measureless ambition. What he later praises as the highest and most legitimate triumph of his heroic nature — that he could present himself to the folk of the Orient in the image of Jupiter's son — is branded by him then as an unsurpassable excess of his ambition-heated brain. In a strange alignment he sets Richelieu at his side, who, having reached the summit of earthly power and dignity — minister, poet, cardinal — now also longs for heavenly glory, seeking to push through his own canonization just as Alexander usurped the divine name of Bacchus.

While in this youthful attempt at his own literary engagement with the problems of the age the heroes recede entirely into the significance of allegorical bearers of the age's ideas, their being exhausted in the use- and teaching-value they have for the immediate present (a conception that the Goethe utterance cited at the outset does not even claim for history as a whole), he already reaches as an observer and learner, in the beginnings of his development, beyond this school-limitation; he practices in his studies that deepened conception of history which inheres in his later utterances. So too the excerpts we see him making from historical works have, in complete contrast to the first impression that such heaping-up of scientific facts always produces, no pronounced purpose. They are undertaken neither to support the humanitarian-rational dogma of the age in any form, nor to satisfy a particular professional or otherwise didactic need for instruction. This is contradicted already by the fact that the

notes, without discernible limitation of material, range through all levels and circles of history — and not only from history, but also from other fields.

He makes against Rollin the same reproach that he raises almost twenty years later against Tacitus — that he had not sufficiently clarified events and institutions: a reproach as foreign to the standpoint of rationalist historiography of the 18th century as it is entirely belonging to that of the Romantic, the newer historical school. In its spirit it is when later on St. Helena he casts doubt on the reliability of Greek historiography of the Persian Wars because he lacks the reports of the opposing side for verification and establishment of the true facts. He says: "As for the pompous details about the victories of the Greeks and the defeats of their countless enemies, one must not forget that it is the Greeks who tell the story, that they were vain, prone to exaggeration, and that no Persian chronicle has ever been brought forward to give our judgment a sure basis through adversarial examination." This is thoroughly an application of the principles that determine the procedure of modern source criticism. If he on the other hand places a more unhesitating trust in Roman history without knowledge of counter-reports, that is from his standpoint entirely unassailable. The Roman events continued to work in the world — bearing witness to their own truth — were especially present to him inwardly through blood descent and related spiritual constitution, so that for him — as the authority expresses it — as "facts as obvious as the sun" they needed no confirmation by documentary evidence. His evaluation of memoir literature is born entirely from the spirit of the newer historiography. He attacks the value of memoirs with the argument that they transmit not the events themselves, but only the opinion of their authors about them: these, however, could never reproduce the meaning that the creators themselves gave to their deeds.

Outer facts may agree, yet even here sources of error creep in, to then demonstrate the approximate impossibility of reliably uncovering the inner drives of actions. He recalls how even to

himself, of whose highest consciousness he was certain, the thoughts of his own battles, the motives of his own orders, were denied. And he pours out the indignant accusation that once surely comes to the lips of every great doer against the race of describers and interpreters: "Does that not mean that the creature gives the lie to its creator?" The creating genius revolts against those whom he encompasses as part of his creation, but who in turn want to sit in judgment over his creator-thoughts. From this spirit, from the longing for reliable historical tradition, is to be explained his repeatedly emerging plan for large-scale publications of documents and a historiography built upon them. In 1808 he ordered the transfer of the archives of Venice, Genoa, and Sardinia to Paris in order to publish from them the portion relating to French policy since Charles VIII. To be sure, his political aims were no less determining here than his scientific interests: it concerned justifying French policy in Italy through documentary material. But it should not be forgotten that his policy was an inherent part of his total being and only an efflux of his inner vision of world and foreworld. Deeper and purer, however, wholly turned toward the proper task of history and drawn from a sure knowledge of its living conditions, is that project he mentions on St. Helena: that he had wanted to have a general European history since Louis XIV written on the basis of the ambassadorial reports preserved in Paris. With this, the principles of the modern historical school are indeed recognized.

It was wholly consistent with his plans for national reconciliation, but not merely their expression, when he sought the causes of the great state-upheaval not in any failings or merits of particular contemporaries, but in more deeply hidden sources. He speaks of this in an instruction to the Minister of the Interior on April 12, 1808, which develops the principles of how he wanted French history written. He sees the causes of the Revolution wholly in the sense of modern research, in the inner decomposition of France: "One must make clear the lasting disorder in the finances, the confusion of the provincial assemblies, the presumption of the courts, the lack of system and drive in the

administration; this motley France without uniform legislation and administration, rather a union of twenty kingdoms than a single state." What is missed here, however, are the spiritual driving forces of the movement — the effects of Montesquieu, Rousseau, the Encyclopedists, the Physiocrats; all the more so as Napoleon himself betrays the living effect of at least Montesquieu and Rousseau in his initial stance toward the Revolution. But to be sure, through the superabundance of great events that the years up to 1808 had brought forth, the apparitions of Montesquieu, Rousseau, and the other precursors of the Revolution had sunk far back in Napoleon's consciousness and were shaken in their authority. Characteristic utterances on this exist. Let us especially recall his dismissive remarks about Rousseau on the occasion of his visit to Ermenonville.

The basic conditions of the Reformation he recognized with an astonishing sureness of vision for a Romance man, precisely also in their national significance. He finds in it already the first beginnings of the political consolidation of Germany and censures Charles V for not having used it to make himself German sovereign. His discourse on this must have exercised an original compelling power even on the most instructed minds of the age. Johannes von Müller stood speechless, moved, disarmed by the power of this purely spiritual argument even to his political convictions, transformed from political opponent into an unconditional adherent of Napoleon: a transformation that, similar to Goethe's, drew upon him the ill repute of the German "patriots."

Naturally Napoleon's studies were directed primarily to military-political history, although, as already noted, he did not neglect other spheres of life — internal administration, religion, custom, trade. He was from the start directed to the history of external states and of war by the inborn drive of the commander and statesman. Not, however, in the sense that he pursued these studies in the consciously purposeful striving for a particular professional training or in preparation for a life-task to be

fulfilled. He is not tormented — as most interpret the feverish intellectual appropriation-need of his youth — by an early developed eagerness to gather treasures of knowledge for the achievement of ambitiously set goals. The genius, the great spirit of unified human formation, does not work that way. In him intellectual appropriation proceeds according to deeper and more secret laws, a drive unconscious to himself of his total being, which is destined for and strives toward perfection. He is driven by the natural need of this being to make itself master of the substantial content of the surrounding and fore-world as the strongest, sensuously-spiritual nourishment from which it builds itself up on all sides. Only because we later ones see the deeper knowledge, the richer insights, become fruitful in some of the many fields of his activity, are we exposed to the temptation of the false conclusion that in these youthful studies the intention of their later application was already consciously at work.

That whatever they take in from the world around them, which is destined to perfect their own being, later becomes effective in one or another of their actions, takes shape in a particular institution, is never entirely lost — this is to be ascribed to the distinguishing trait of these elemental beings: that they can take in and incorporate nothing from the outer world that is not also once destined to step forth from them as living apparition and exert its force. World-incorporation and world-efflux are bound together in them in an autochthonous-organic way in the medium of their living personal unity, and in their reciprocal measure and bearing determined by this medium. This naturally does not exclude that the young officer also pursues determinate professional studies — especially military-scientific and mathematical ones. They too belong to the organic rounding-out of his nature, which also wants to become master of its particular working-tools. But history as such, its great apparitions and deeds, do not become for him in this way a field of particular professional instruction. He reads its traditions not in search of the special refinements of strategy or the tricks of diplomacy, but with the drive toward the total human impression of great doers.

In this realm their choice practices fall to him of themselves — without special, purposeful seeking — as the means of their work-accomplishment. Besides this there are the own literary or otherwise written manifestations of the great doers, in which they have brought the particular knowledge, the particular art of their working-tools to intellectual expression. These indeed form an object of expressly purposeful studies for Napoleon, no differently than the professional-scientific presentations or discussions of their deeds from third parties. Caesar's and Frederick's writings, just as the reports and factually oriented investigations of their deeds, ...

They contain nothing false; they only put forth, as always with Napoleon, at the given moment that trait of his real being which the hour demands, which best serves it. They are moreover confirmed by other, disinterested utterances: in 1812 in a conversation of Napoleon with his adjutant, Frederick is for him the only statesman of the 18th century: "The 18th century, with the exception of Frederick the Second, understood nothing of the art of governing. He alone — while he waged his wars — had learned politics." Thus Frederick, apart from the great total-human impression of his historical person, had to acquire a special significance for Napoleon's professional studies through his writings and his military-political achievements — no differently than the other great commanders and statesmen who, independently of their historical apparition, have once again presented themselves in works or deeds of objectively enduring significance (Caesar, Condé, Turenne, Vauban, Prince Eugene). But here again it must be pointed out that not every following of models by Napoleon, not every appeal to them, is thus purposefully caused, a conscious and willed result of factual studies of their work. On the contrary, he has appropriated spiritually the life and work of most of his great predecessors solely through his elementary experiential grasp of their history — without particular professional effort toward their thought-work.

For Napoleon history is no different from the presently surrounding world — a part of living nature, and like this has no other determination for his being than that which lies in the mere existence of its things and men: namely, to form the nourishing atmosphere of his existence, within and with which he has to live, to behave, to arrange himself. This is the most original, the only given relationship between the individual and the world, and thus the one that alone can serve as the standard for assessing what history could mean for him.

Only through the impression of the living present does the earlier time become — what we call history — as he needs it: conscious to him as being, experienceable and comprehensible. Therefore he can do nothing other than also employ toward it the means of pure intuition. He makes certain of the figures and events of the fore-world by seeking to catch their expression still present in his contemporary world. Never has he failed, where time and occasion at all allowed, to let historical events work on him at the site through immediate eyewitness. Not only in Egypt did the course of his undertakings lead him to visit the monuments and memorial sites of the past. Already during the Italian campaign of 1796 he devoted attentive observation to them. From that very time a particularly emphatic testimony is preserved that those great remains interested him not as antiquarian documents or sights, but seized him with the immediate liveliness of a present apparition. So extraordinary is the power of the impression he receives from the sight of the amphitheater in Verona that immediately after his entry into that city, in his first short report on it to the Directory — thus in an important state document — he cannot suppress it, but must let it stream forth mightily and irresistibly in the longest of the four paragraphs of that brief communication: "I have just seen the amphitheater: these remains of the Roman folk are worthy of it. I could not suppress a feeling of shame at the thought of the pettiness (*mesquinerie*) of our Champ-de-Mars. Here sit a hundred thousand spectators, and with ease they could understand everyone who spoke before them." His sensuously moved imagination fills the stone benches

of the old circus with the crowds of their autochthonous spectators.

When after the landing in Egypt he arrives in Alexandria, his first act is to climb the pedestal of Pompey's Pillar. Likewise in 1800, when he descends from the Great St. Bernard into the Piedmontese plain, he climbs at Aosta onto the Triumphal Arch of Augustus. In all this he is guided not by a particular artistic interest in the buildings, but solely by their witness to the great classical past to which he feels inwardly connected and which he here sees with its men and conditions set before his bodily eye. Therefore he is also driven to link his own history with them at once — which certainly would not have been the case had he regarded these monuments as artworks (since with the instinct of the genius he always honored in them, as will be shown, the independent, inviolable structure). In Alexandria he orders that the names of his soldiers who fell in the storming of the city be carved into Pompey's Pillar. He experiences in these buildings the time to which they belong and which they express, as a constituent part of his present life, and can thus connect this with that without misgiving or difficulty.

There are not many places of historical ground in Europe past which he would have gone without their sight opening to him the living secret of their history, without their setting a great past with all the magic of the present into the world of his own deeds and creations. In 1809, riding along the Danube toward Wagram between Berthier and Lannes, the sight of Dürrenstein Castle held him long. The figure of its one-time great prisoner, Richard Lionheart, rises vividly before him. In the middle of the highway he halts and sketches for his companions, in his own passionately short strokes, a picture of his life, always with a glance brushing the most immediate present.

When he then, summing up the features of medieval culture in the history of the English king, contrasts the boundless use of all external means of power in that epoch when "father betrayed children, wife husband, subject his prince, soldier his

commander," with the milder "advanced" customs of his civilized age, with the forbearance he himself has shown to so many overthrown emperors, kings, commanders, and states — an uncanny shadow falls, unbeknownst to his own consciousness, from his life onto the illustration of medieval violence thus gained. Berthier, who rode with him, in almost twenty years of war inseparably bound to his destiny, was no Blondel; he was the soldier who betrayed his commander, the later captain of the "Petrus" company — as the popular mouth, because of his defection, called the royal-guard company he commanded after 1814. St. Helena, however, was certainly no lesser, no lighter captivity than that at Dürrenstein: more ghastly and more pitiless through the spatial remoteness of the rock-cliff and the inescapability of the end — the solitude slowly consuming his body, a more boundless use of hostile power-means, a more unscrupulous violation of trust and treaties than was ever suffered on German soil by the royal ancestor of those who perpetrated it on him.

From the sight of the castle there released themselves to him directly the destinies of its royal prisoner, and with them those of his whole age and of whole dynasties (yes, with uncanny power, the vistas onto his own future fulfillment of destiny as onto a present pre-lived). So bodily is for him the inner being and becoming, their history, bound into the apparition of things. Thus penetrating into them with vitalizing senses, he lifts history, the courses of life and time, visibly into the present.

At Aix the ruins bring before his eyes the incursion of the Germanic migrating folk and the significance that belonged to Rome as the steadfast bulwark against these incursions. From these ruins his recognition of the eternal European antagonism between the Roman cultural realm and the new formations of the northern conquering folk inspires itself. He himself describes in 1812 at Narbonne the awakening of these impressions: "Marius ... twice annihilated the hosts of the North at Aix and Vercelli and thrust back the incursion of the Gothic tribes by

three centuries. I saw the traces of this in the ruins of Aquae Sextiae near Marseilles. Marius called Caesar into life. The annihilation of the Cimbri is the first legal title for the founding of the Empire."

From the intuition of the local given, from which they arose, the sense and meaning of earlier military actions often become clear to him with lightning-flash and new revelation. On the route he takes through Switzerland to Rastatt after the end of the Italian campaign in 1797, he stops at Murten to visit the chapel where the bones of the Burgundian knights fallen in that battle are interred. Unrecognized, in civilian clothes, he mingles with the crowd that awaits him and questions two native officers — the Bernese General von Erlach and a former colonel of the Swiss Guards, d'Affry — about the terrain, the troop numbers and positions in that battle. From their signs and numbers there grows for him so living an impression of the whole event that he cannot suppress the categorical verdict "Charles the Bold must have been a proper fool!" and thus reveals before all eyes who it is they are dealing with. Reverently struck, the questioned officers bow before him.

During the campaign of 1806 he surveys the battlefield of Rossbach with his retinue and moves on it with the most complete certainty as on his own most present operational field. The Egyptian undertaking, introduced by comprehensive studies including source-work, became itself a single great voyage of exploration across the fields of the ancient Nile kingdoms and the actual starting-point of Egyptological science. More thoroughgoingly than in Italy, where he had already proceeded thus especially in art matters, he here surrounded himself with a staff of the most reliable scholars who, as they had prepared him beforehand for his operational field, now had to interpret for him what lay before his eyes. In the company of Monge and Denon he explored Cairo and the Pyramids, Suez and the coasts of the Red Sea for the still dark secret of their history. He himself, with

Berthier and Caffarelli, uncovered the ruins and traces of the old connecting canal from the Nile to the Red Sea.

As here the sites of a great historical past rose up before him from a field on which he had to present the power of his new personality, with all the impression of their former reality, binding his senses and spirit and summoning him to the further pursuit of research foreign to his actual intention — so too later he was again and again captured by the living testimonies of great historical apparitions. He has never been in Aachen without descending into the tomb of Charles, never in Potsdam without descending into that of Frederick the Great; and the insignia he took from Frederick meant more to him than mere booty and showpieces of his triumph — they meant sensuous signs and memory-images that embodied the great shadow for him and thus grew into his own similarly constituted existence.

The sight of the Pyramids so overwhelmed Napoleon that the effect communicated itself to his most present planning and acting, gave its fire to his famous address before that battle and thus from the outset lent to the army itself and the new feat-of-arms the consecration of the historical. In the letters and reports of his retinue this experience suddenly appears as a surprising radiance that outshines the usual sobriety of their factual enumeration, only to sink back just as quickly into the lesser, the rational spirituality of the writer. How Napoleon stood seized before the wonder-work of Verona — a breath of this touches the eye and soul of his most susceptible follower, Marmont. In his spirit, on which Napoleon exercised his formative influence constantly and consciously, Napoleon's vision of antiquity experiences a veritable mirroring on another level. Partly with the same words as his general, Marmont gives five days later in a letter to his father the living effect that this building had on him; quite like the former, this impression at once links itself for him with the most immediate present: "I have seen in Verona one of the most beautiful monuments of antiquity: a perfectly preserved circus, large enough to hold eighty thousand spectators. This

sight has widened my ideas and elevated my imagination. We are worthy of a like work; there ought to be something similar in Paris."

By its concluding sentence this utterance is unmistakably the result of a shared viewing of the building, indeed evidently the reproduction of what Napoleon, in the sight of the arena — anticipating the content of his report — had already expressed orally to his retinue, unless one wants to assume that Marmont used that five-day-old report itself as a model. The same ideas recur (the number of spectators), cause similarly directed impressions (relation to the beholder himself and to native architecture), and even occasion the choice of the same words, if in different context (the "worthy" in Napoleon referred to the Roman folk, in Marmont to his own nation). What Napoleon saw sensuously and expressed spiritually was captured by Marmont.

That his impression of historical sites demonstrably radiated onto his surroundings — his atmosphere was powerful enough to let the great past rise up before his companions from the scene of his heroic deeds. At the entry into Nazareth the Emperor halts with his men a moment by an old well. The sheikhs of the village come to greet him. Lavalette, one of his most favored officers especially close to him, finds in this sight the events of biblical legend immediately alive: "Before he entered the village, Napoleon halted at an old well where many cattle were watered; here the village heads awaited the commander. Everything recalled those scenes of antiquity so childishly simply described in the Bible." The same is meant when it is reported of Napoleon's inspection tour through the Rhineland, especially of his stay in Trier, that he everywhere made the memories of Rome and the Roman legions arise.

Also the abundance of his own past deeds becomes history for Napoleon, and as such again material and nourishment for his substance-and-intuition-needy spirit. In 1805 on the battlefield of Marengo he held a maneuver; in 1808 on the occasion of a court hunt with Emperor Alexander and Karl August, a survey of the

battlefield of Jena; in 1809 one of that of Austerlitz. So strongly did he feel driven, even toward his own completed experiences and deeds, to a new sensuous reception and inner presentification. The retrospectives and reflections he dictated to his faithful ones on St. Helena are a testimony of this drive, no less destined to make his life, which had become history, once again an experience for himself and them and to make its great meaning vivid than to serve as justification before the wider world. But only because and insofar as his life had become history for him.

II. TRANSFORMATIONS OF HISTORICAL EXPERIENCE

Resistant to all analysis and conceptual dissection: he was as little a self-reflective, brooding spirit as a self-contemplating, histrionic one. But just as his own life could become an independent object of contemplation and presentation only insofar as it was for him completed past, so conversely of history only that could enter into his intuition and representation which still bore in itself seeds and shoots of present life, which reached as sensuous apparition into his own world, which was co-experienceable with his substance. For historical antiquities and curiosities, for all secondary specialized knowledge, merely interesting detail — he lacked understanding. As from the surrounding life, he demanded from history sensuous existence, present power of impression. Therefore he rejected, however much he was concerned to give the folk a tangible picture of its significance, yes of its predestination to rule, even the refreshing of memories of his family history, when these struck the imagination not through their naked existence but only through artificial relations.

The offer of the magistracy of Montpellier to erect for his father, who had died and been buried in that city, an allegorically ostentatious tomb with the meaningful inscription: "Sors du tombeau! Ton fils Napoléon t'élève à l'immortalité" — he declined, and this at a time when he was already striving to prepare the ground among the folk for his plans of heredity, not so much out of republican restraint as from the deeper resistance of his nature to the merely thought, merely mediated, artificially-intentional quality of the plan. To himself the project lacked the immediate-sensuous impression; to himself his family-historical derivation was not visible and palpable as a living foundation of his present action: therefore he rejected it, however much it might have served his political moment.

He never cared about the research that related to the genealogy of his house. His brother Joseph kept that in hand, whom he often jokingly called the "généalogiste de la famille." Therefore he also had no ear for attempts to bring closer to him earlier known bearers of his name, although sometimes the connection was strange enough and would have given another, less matter-of-factly directed intellect occasion for histrionic speculation. So then, when at the negotiations of Tolentino in 1797 one of the papal negotiators pointed out to him that since the Constable of Bourbon he, Napoleon, was the first Frenchman to march again against Rome, but that it was a Bonaparte who had handed down that first campaign to the memory of posterity (alluding to the description of the "Sacco di Roma" by Jacopo Buonaparte). Equally little welcome found the pressing pleas of an old canon of San Miniato from the Tuscan collateral line of his house, Filippo Buonaparte, with whom he had stayed during the campaign of 1796, to use his influence to push through the canonization of a member of their house, the Blessed Bonaventura Buonaparte. He also heard the Pope's own proposals in this direction — who on the occasion of the imperial coronation wanted to convince Napoleon that he owed his successes to the heavenly intercession of this transfigured relative — silently and unmoved. Still more dismissively he disposed of such attempts at an artificial legitimization of his authority, still more emphatically insisted on its originary character on an occasion when everything seemed to depend on letting a great family tradition speak in his favor. When the father of the Empress Marie Louise, Francis I, from a genealogical tree prepared by the zeal of court genealogists, to his highest satisfaction discerned Napoleon's connection with a line of petty tyrants of Treviso ...

Life-unity. In himself — no further than he feels it livingly, than he presents it bodily — does he seek the origins of his rise. One time he speaks of the day of Montenotte, his first independent military success, as the birthday of his nobility. Another time he even publicly rejected as insulting the attempts to give him a family tree, to present him as the descendant of a secondary line.

He had the *Moniteur* of 25 Messidor XIII (July 14, 1805) say: "These researches are quite childish, and to all questions of when the house of Bonaparte dates, the answer is very easy: it dates from the 18th Brumaire. How can one make oneself so ridiculous in our century as to entertain the public with such silly nonsense? And how can one have so little tact and so little feeling for what one owes the Emperor as to attach importance to the question of who his ancestors were? Soldier, official, and sovereign — he owes everything to his sword and the love of his folk." One time, then, the day of Montenotte; the other, the 18th Brumaire: these are for him the birth-dates of his house. So far and no further reaches, for the not-constructing but sensuously apprehending spirit of the Emperor, the history of himself and his family. All earlier family history that one might assemble is contrived curiosity, not livingly effective and bodily proving its effect as precondition of his being and acting.

Also of history in general he takes up only what is linked with the roots of his life, what in some way forms the substantial foundation of his life. Only that can be bodily seized by him, livingly carried over into his intuition. Memory-images of representation, mere material of memory of an antiquarian character, he rejects. "Victories of the day before yesterday, seen from a distance, no longer have effect," he threw out.

Apparition of those who, like him, have united the fullness of organically bound forces in a definitive, impressively formed individual form of world-significance. Only these are his peers, his ancestors, and the content of what signifies history for him. All else — preparatory and explanatory intermediate links — he passes over, likewise and even more so the so-called "movements" and "currents" that first bring about the historical apparition but are not yet expressed in it. In his maturity world-history compresses itself for him into the few great single figures who have condensed and predetermined the content of whole ages in themselves. Through Caesar he sees the imperial being of Rome; Alexander with Hannibal reveals to him the heroic

greatness of the ancient world; Charlemagne the universal-reich idea of the Middle Ages. Below them, from the historical complexes of the second order, there are only very few who have thus presented themselves to him in their sense-bearing carriers: the Germany of the Reformation in Charles V and Luther, the flowering of the French monarchy in Henry IV, Louis XIV, Condé and Turenne, the awakening of the Slavic world in Peter the Great. Gustavus Adolphus, Prince Eugene, and Frederick mean to him more the masters of modern warfare — the latter beyond that the type of the modern regent — than that they represented for him properly historical figure and epoch.

If those other great figures embody for him the meaning-core of a whole world, this is not to be understood in the modern attenuation that they, as it were representatively, present the expression of an age or the sum of its forces: they are for him not mere sense-signs through which he wants to represent to himself something more proper, deeper-lying — currents and vibrations of the folk or even of the Spirit of the Age, which today are regarded as the actual motive force of history. He drives as little conceptual analysis of history as of his own life.

In Alexander the substance of the ancient, in Caesar the Roman, and in Charles the substance of the medieval world is present and radiates. Napoleon is neither inclined nor created to tear the great historical beings, once he has recognized them as such, out of their given constitution, the closed life-unity in which he experiences them, to dissolve them into parts and relations and to order these into another, speculatively determined context. Hence his already mentioned aversion to constructive, to ideational historiography. He is in the deepest of his nature reverent before what has once become life in great and definitive forms, before the uniqueness and once-only nature of organic world-expression: he does not want to see this degraded to comparative material, to object of utilization, because his own existence is the most extreme realization of it, and because he himself, from the drive of his total human experience, takes up

foreign life organically-sensuously as a grown unity into himself. Hence his warning to the Ancients before the 18th Brumaire, not to compare one age with another.

It does not contradict this, but confirms it, when he himself says of his way of receiving history: "I have not so much studied history as 'conquered' it — that is to say: I wanted and kept from it only what could give me one more idea, by leaving out the useless and making myself master only of certain results that suited me." The emphasis here falls heavily on the experiential immediacy of his historical apperception in contrast to a disinterested intellectual reception of its meaning-content. With the whole violence of his inner power of representation, history becomes for him something like a hostile territory that he must take possession of like a conqueror through the power of his person. And the criteria he sets up for the method of his appropriation — the turns of phrase, "I wanted and kept from it only what could give me one more idea," and the "results that suited me" which he takes up — are determined not by an isolated direction of thought, a caprice of the brain, but by the need of his powerfully unfolding total-human life-core. All these turns of phrase mean no more than that he takes up from history — just as from the surrounding environment — only what he needs for the organic growth of his being; they are nothing other than a circumscription of this fundamental law governing the becoming of every genius. Sainte-Beuve, with his fine eye for spiritual beings, expresses this quite similarly: "He takes from history only what is suited to him: Hannibal, the Roman legions, Alexander; he cites them at the given moment, but he does not abuse them." This is the establishment of his vital mode of receiving history, of his experiential appropriation of the historical content suited to him, at the same time the acknowledgment of his deep and inviolable objectivity toward the givens, of that reverence which the greatly constituted man necessarily has for everything truly grown.

What history offers of accessible representations, he applies where they belong, but he does not force, does not violate them. He is, by virtue of that reverence, as already shown, the most sworn adversary of every kind of historical construction, of every kind of rational-willful interpretation and exploitation of history. "He does not analyze history," says a modern historian of him, "he does not make a subtle pleasure out of it." But Sainte-Beuve has also already — far ahead of his time — designated the content, the substance of what Napoleon feels as akin to his being in the men and things of the fore-world. Hannibal, Rome's legions, Alexander: that is the great gestalthaft expression of heroic-universal creative power, in which Napoleon senses not something like a causal presupposition of himself, but rather the earlier presentation and preservation of his own being.

The named and unnamed hero-spirits of the ancient world, who in one way or another always mean the same temporally-sensuous presentification of this originary-definitive type of man, and are thus experienced and seized by Napoleon. The ancient world is uniformly and uniquely the realm in which all being and happening expresses itself through human figure, in which man — not some metaphysical abstraction of him — is the measure and center of all things; therefore for Napoleon, as for every elemental human ingenuity, the eternally valid and symbolic revelation of historical life as such: for him, the man of state and deed, most immediately accessible, most illuminatingly visible under the image of Rome. "His thinking ... wholly filled with the contemplation of the Roman Empire," says one of those who still knew of his spirit on the basis of oral tradition. A word of his own, however, shows how the Roman for him signifies the archetype of all human being and its fulfillment: "The Roman folk had the instinct for everything great; not in vain did it conquer the world." Ancient history is for him so definitive an expression of true mankind that every perfected historiography appears to him under its image. When on St. Helena he discusses his former plan of a documentary history of Europe since Louis XIV, he characterizes the significance of this undertaking, from which he

had expected a completely new and definitive view of European development, with the words: "It would have been as if one had published ancient history itself." But this is meant only comparatively to denote the highest achievement of modern historiography. Fundamentally he is aware that the newer, the post-Christian age cannot have the primary form of essentiality that belonged to the ancient world, that in its forms of apparition it reflects the conditioning of its inner formations.

This is also the real sense of his bitter cry on the day after the imperial coronation: "I have come too late; men are too enlightened; there is nothing great left to do ... My career is beautiful, that is true, I have a beautiful path behind me, but what a difference from antiquity." The new age, with the great heroic apparition of visible embodiment, has also lost the capacity for its reception. In place of sensuous vision and total-human experience have stepped the detached expressions of cerebral partial forces — analysis, combination, metaphysical speculation, and rational utilitarianism. On that day after the completed unfolding of his power before the eyes of all the folk, on the day after his coronation, this transformation in the spirits becomes clearly conscious to him. The thought presses upon him how naturally the ancients of the Orient accepted Alexander's elevation into the sonship of Jupiter. They experienced the hero sensuously in his once-only unconditional apparition: so he became to them a revelation of definitive, fundamental-lawful human measure, which of itself passed over into divine form. The men of today, however — Napoleon's train of thought continues — see in all gestalthaft closed human greatness the details of its coming-into-being and are clear about it before the miracle of its living apparition can become palpable to them.

"Just imagine," he cries bitterly, "if I were today to call myself the son of the heavenly father and make known that I wanted to offer him my thanks in this capacity — not a fishwife but would hiss at me on the way; the peoples are too enlightened nowadays, there is nothing great left to do." He himself, however — he too once

represented this enlightened unbelief and praised it as the source of happiness for the human race. In the *Discours de Lyon* he condemned Alexander for his pretension to divine descent.

He was occupied with the sketch of "The Battle of Thermopylae." He knows neither what to make of this nor of the justification of his sketch drawn by David from his republican-classicist vocabulary, while a few years earlier he himself, from the same circle of ideas as David, had equally glorified the Battle of Thermopylae and rejected Alexander. He sees with his rejuvenated and renewed eye only the fact of the bygone feat-of-arms as such, the historical event without the revolutionary feeling- and concept-disguise: then it means to him nothing but the defeat that it was for the Greeks, and therefore an unsuitable subject for the painter of an ascending, victorious epoch. He warns David against further work on this painting. And when the latter persists in his plan and appeals that the vanquished of Thermopylae were equally heroes and had held the Persians at bay for more than a century, Napoleon dismisses this objection with the short retort: "It does not matter. Only the name of Leonidas has come down to us. All the rest is lost for history."

David's plan and its defense flowed not from any immediate intuition of the ancient hero or event, but from an — however superior to the *Zeitgeist* — intellectual interpretation and sentimental empathy. To this bourgeois secondary enthusiasm for heroes of the republican, Napoleon opposes the primary hero-experience of the great individual, for whom history is expression of his inner visions, presentification of the world-forces suited to him, the hero presentation of his own being in the pre-form. In David, as his life otherwise also proves, the artist outweighed his doctrinaire political dilettantism too much for him not to have been struck by this argument born of creative sensuous power. Under the sweeping impression of this conversation he halted his work on the painting.

That he should have been inaccessible to Napoleon's effect on his soul is less believable than the opposite — namely, that his

mobile artistic impressionability must have fallen almost willlessly to the magic of Napoleon's apparition and speech. Let one consider how many weightier and more firmly self-contained, indeed outright skeptical spirits succumbed helplessly to this impression (Goethe, Johannes von Müller, Cardinal Caprara, Talleyrand), while David had not even been able to resist the rhetorical pathos of the republican rulers. He was, like many artists, especially susceptible to the impressional power of the political personality. Positively, however, there speaks in favor of that tradition that it goes back to an eyewitness and earwitness of the events, who moreover as a student of David was more immediately familiar with the kind of his person and his work than his late-born descendant, and evidently impressed that memorable moment in the development of his master very vividly in his memory. However that may be, unmistakably genuine in any case is the controversy itself that preceded this transformation, especially that utterance in which Napoleon condensed his living conception of the sense and content of history to epigrammatic expression for the artist. It bears in content and form through and through the stamp of Napoleon; it could have been said by no one else, let alone invented or imitated. So experientially did no one else at that time see history: no one but Napoleon could then have experienced the essence of Greek history so concentrated on its heroes, no one but he could have limited it to this experiential expression, and no one but he was so superior to the age as to be able to pronounce this limitation in such authoritative form without reasoning.

Of this word holds what Villemain says on occasion of the tradition of Napoleonic utterances in general, "that their invention would be much more improbable."

It came about only as he freed his creative power from the constricting political constraints of the time, making himself from a person conditioned in political combinations into one dominating them. This is around the turn of the century, after his

entry into the Consulate. Then he becomes from the great state official of the French Republic the shaper of this state as an expression of his creative individuality. This unfolding of his personal being proceeds, according to the law of his organic nature, uniformly outward and inward. As outward it presents itself in the new state-building, so inward it creates for him his renewed world-picture of personally essential formation, opens to him in history the realm of great individual creations of universal character, in antiquity the once-and-for-all valid pre-, sense-, and expression-form of it.

This unity of the development of his creative inner and outer, the unfolding of his classical (Roman) mode of historical seeing within and on the ground of his active-present Romanness — one of the great living French historians has already recognized this with penetrating insight. He describes how in Napoleon the consciousness of himself as the completer of the Revolution takes hold and says: "Bonaparte sees him (the completer of the Revolution) as Mirabeau and Catherine had foreseen him; but with his wholly Roman intuition of history he sees him more clearly before him than the others; yes more, he feels him with all the vehemence of his growing ambition, for this history which unveils itself to his spirit lives in him and seems to live for him. He does not analyze it, he does not make a subtle pleasure out of it, he moves in it by clearing obstacles aside; he goes toward the Empire as Columbus reached the new world by believing he was sailing around the old." And this own inner Roman Empire.

He turned toward the conditions of the *ancien régime*. By following these conditions, creating space for them in his new state, letting the France of monarchist-national tradition revive, Napoleon contributed to the definitive elimination of the last expression of antiquity. He puts in its place the cultural forms of that nearer epoch, which he feels as the more living foundation of his work. Around the turn of the century the classicist costumes and manners disappear. Noticeably striking to all contemporaries, the medieval courtly elements press forward in

the ceremonial and regalia of the court, in the conduct of business of external and internal state administration, in the costume and bearing of society, in the content and form of art. Even if to our backward-turning gaze, confronted with the sharp developmental break that the Revolution signifies, the connection of these forms with the existence and bearing of the epoch may not appear causally given — for him who in his glances and his head carried the figure and forms of a new, great, pan-European reality, they in any case belonged more to its bodily preconditions, represented more its sensuously-visible origins than the classicist costumes and life-forms, which for the state- and society-formation of the living present could only come into consideration as the illustration of a timeless ideal world.

That was the real meaning of Napoleon's criticism before David's Thermopylae painting. It returns still more clearly, still more immediately expressed in the approving exclamation with which he, to the astonishment of all present, greeted David's courtly-ceremonial depiction of the "Couronnement": "Good, very good, David. You have entirely guessed my thoughts, you have made me a French knight." Here lies the solution to the riddle that seems to many insoluble: Napoleon's turn, around the turn of the century, away from the classicist expression of life.

Beyond all limited earthly life-forms he rises to the bearer of a suprapolitical life-content, of a heroic-tragic destiny, to a symbolic figure, a new Prometheus. As his corporeality becomes imperceptible and fades away, his spiritual significance also develops into a superterrestrial sphere of meaning. (These phases of his development naturally do not coincide with the datable sections of his life: thus in an essential assignment the first section of his imperial being and acting still belongs to his consular epoch, and conversely the last of the consular epoch to that of the Empire.) To Napoleon himself and his contemporaries this detached significance of his life-periods became tangibly conscious. Like no other great person in history, he himself speaks, foreign ministers and envoys speak, his retinue and his

counselors, of the individual epochs of his life as of independent, history-become life-complexes of their own personalities. Fox compresses his image of this powerful separation and multiplication of Napoleonic existence under the image of the different apparition-forms that it assumes during the Consulate, the most concentrated life-epoch of Napoleon, and symbolizes these forms in the three residences of the First Consul. He explains: "The first consul in Malmaison, the first consul in Saint-Cloud, the first consul in the Tuileries — these are three men, each of whom embodies entirely that ideal whole of admirable greatness. I wish I could paint in order to give an image of him in these three different places. I would obtain three different faces that resemble the same man, but with three different physiognomies." In the time of the Consulate the Prussian envoys in Paris — in their reports to the Berlin court — look back upon the just concluded general-epoque.

As an officer in the garrisons and in Corsica he seeks to make himself master of the intellectual material that the epoch puts at his disposal, his conception of history remains essentially caught in that of the time. In this stage, as already mentioned, history for his consciousness still retains entirely its character as a means of education, as evidence and illustrative instrument of the rational time-doctrine, while the unconscious striving of his self-instruction already drives him onto his own path of experiential intuition of historical facts. In his studies he already penetrates to the originary forms at least of external reality, is at pains to assure himself from the sources of the factual process for living intuition. But the deeper, the inner reality of events, considered from the angle of the doctrinaire time-understanding, does not yet grow for him into bodily intuition. He already finds the external causes for Hannibal's downfall and other historical events, but their deeper causation — Hannibal's or the other leaders' being — is still veiled for him by the contemporary-rational disguise. Still the great men of ancient history do not yet mean for him the expression of that world-creating substance that they later represent for him, but rather of specific ethical

forces that the age attributes to them according to its political bent. Leonidas, Aristides, Thrasybulus, Themistocles, Cincinnatus, Fabricius, Cato, and Brutus become, without livingly putting forth any personal content, the stewards of the republican demands of love of fatherland and civic virtue. Their whole merit is the sacrifice of their private interests for the purposes of state freedom, and the preponderance that Napoleon even now gives to ancient over more recent history consists solely in the decisive civic sense of its great men compared to the personal ambition of the bearers of modern history.

And deed. Still, they are heroes in the general, enthusiastic sense of the word, a vitalization of an inner, inspired sense for greatness in given historical forms. This has the consequence that the ethical-rationalist division of great men into evil and good, into high-minded republicans and selfish tyrants, does not entirely disappear but does recede greatly; that it now becomes possible for Napoleon to experience the great man as such even in the enemy of bourgeois freedom. The position of Caesar and Brutus still does not change for him in the way that his later violent attacks against Brutus show, but for the first time Caesar becomes experienceable for him as the great, heroic type, independent of the contemporary moral verdict: still now entirely in the general, broad significance of the greatest Roman, the heroic accomplisher of deeds beyond human measure, without closer presentification of their content and meaning — which precisely he later made newly visible in him. At that time he exclaims: "Who would not want to have himself murdered like Caesar, to attain Caesar's fame!" To this dark comprehension of Caesar's personal greatness corresponds the form in which Napoleon attempts to present it: the poetic form, which, mixed indistinguishably from conscious and unconscious, where knowledge of the hero, his traditional representation stops, lets this grow out of his own imagination. On St. Helena Napoleon told that in his youth he had carried around the plan of a Caesar tragedy, an assertion that, even if no trace of this plan remains to us, nonetheless appears credible. It entirely corresponds to the

characterized course of his development. Caesar is among all historical apparitions the one who, most akin to Napoleon in being and destiny, most lastingly engaged his power of representation, to whom he devoted the most comprehensive studies.

An experience, a profoundly shaking spiritual upheaval, he describes. In 1812 he speaks to his adjutant Narbonne on the occasion of a school inspection conducted by the latter about his own plans for the history instruction of youth. He turns sharply against the school treatment of history still carried over from the 18th century, the rhetorical-doctrinaire interpretation of men and events in the manner of the dialogues of Thomas. There falls his already above-cited word: "No systematic historiography, none of those declamatory interpretations that explain great men wrongly and falsify events in order to draw a moral to order." His own youth rises in his memory. His need for historical representation too was initially fed by such misleading dogmatic school-treatments: instead of the living presentation of great men and their deeds, moralizing excerpts second-hand from the old texts, such as his teacher Domairon had himself published for school use. "We were taught very badly in Brienne; at fifteen I was given only tasteless excerpts of Domairon. Excerpts! Wretched method!" he continues, to set against this bitter accusation the still vividly present longing of his own youth for the original historical fact, the immediate, uninterpreted greatness of events. "Youth has time to read fully, and imagination to seize all great things." He describes accordingly the further development of his own historical education. "Later I filled this gap and read extraordinarily much, but without special selection — whatever there was in a garrison library. The great sense of history had not yet opened to me. In Valence my soul still lay asleep, and what I wrote."

Not as historical seeing, but as a slumbering of historical consciousness is it to be characterized, and he says: "The great sense of history had not yet opened to me. In Valence my soul

still lay asleep." Then, however, came the revelation through Bossuet. He continues: "On the day when I came upon Bossuet by a lucky chance, when in his *Discours sur l'histoire universelle* I read the succession of empires and what he says splendidly about the conquests of Alexander and about Caesar, who, victor at Pharsalus, becomes visible in a moment over the whole earth — on that day it was as if the curtain of the temple tore from top to bottom and I saw the gods stride forth." So there steps before him out of the twilight and half-darkness of his dull emotional hero-worship the bodily figure of great men, their actual being and accomplishing in historical forms: "Caesar becomes visible over the whole earth." He now grasps what history wants to mean altogether: the purposeless deep experience of the course of facts, the "suite des empires," as it expresses itself in the figure of its great founders and bearers. When "the curtain of the temple tears from top to bottom" and he "sees the gods stride forth," it is those half-divine reich-founders who embody for him the striding of the gods — that is the divine powers as they exert themselves in the course of history. In their person the ages converge and have their determining expression. This is now the meaning of Alexander and Caesar for their late-born spiritual kin. They are for him no longer a deterrent example for the present world, no longer a fabling-stuff of his dreamy imagination, but the central impression of the history that has become his inner vision, of the factuality bodily intuited by him. Therefore at the height of his governing power he now demands.

That everything world-happening lies open to his again boundless will and gaze, he encompasses the great historical apparition not in the details of its exercise of power, but in the significance it has as a whole, as total power-expression for the course of the world. Caesar is for him not yet the conqueror of Gaul, not the proconsul, not the consul of the Roman republic in detail, but the bearer of his personally great individual destiny worked out in state power-unfolding in general, the person-become expression of the Roman state-power will. Where then his vitality, following the given political powers and events, presents itself in more

conditioned political formations, Napoleon's historical representation at once concretizes itself onto the historical circle corresponding to this sphere of action. It is soon dominated by the proconsul Caesar, then by Alexander, by Charlemagne and Louis XIV. Beside this, to be sure, there always remains in force that primary historical conception of his, which exhausts itself in the admiring reception of a general heroic quality and in the Roman antiquity, ultimately in the person of Caesar as its crowning type, beholds a definitive fulfillment of human forms of existence. This conception, born of Napoleon's most originary and most personal disposition where it is not yet determined by any actions — and grown together with it — remains the accompanying chord of this primal substance. When this, which feeds all individual circles of his life, is not hindered by the particular conditions and formations of the active political present from letting the human basic type Napoleon step outward, that heroic basic view of history at once also expresses itself. Caesar, the great individual expression of state power-exercise, forms for Napoleon a latent power of representation that upon any slackening of the particular epoch of action.

He lays the foundation stone. Chateaubriand has compared me, uncomprehendingly, in some number of the *Mercure* with Tiberius, who only moved away from Rome to go to Capri. A fine notion! Trajan, Diocletian, Aurelian — that is something else: one of those men who, born from themselves, lifted the world from its hinges. Are you, who know history so well, not struck by the similarities of my government with that of Diocletian — this tightened net that I spread so wide, the eyes of the Emperor that are everywhere, and this civil power that I have known how to keep all-powerful in an empire wholly based on war?" At this moment there presses before the consciousness of his actual political situation that of his central life-meaning, of his originary being-core: the consciousness of state- and world-creation from one's own individual power ("one of those men who, born from themselves, lifted the world from its hinges"), as the most general expression of human greatness, and throws before him as its

most extreme historical presentification the image of Caesar and the Caesars in the broad outline of their reich-founding, universe-pervading personal power. All the attributes with which he describes his historical assimilation to Diocletian are traits of the general sovereign life-force that constitutes the absolute type of the Emperor ("the tightened net that I spread so wide, the eyes of the Emperor that are everywhere, the civil power," etc.) to the exclusion of any more specific political characterization. He feels in this hour alone his immediate vitality as ruler by birth and destiny powerful within him, and is therefore accessible only to the historical representation that expresses it most completely. A few months earlier, on the occasion of that earlier conversation with Narbonne, parts of which have already been given above, the great theme had already emerged.

With the classicist form of the age — this means the designation of the new polities formed from his conquests as Transpadana, Cispadana, Ligurina, finally as Cisalpina. This is no arbitrary transfer of old Roman province names fetched from the atlas antiquus, no impersonal adoption of the classicist time-costume: the "Republica Cisalpina" signifies for him the reawakening, the living presentification of the old Gallia Cisalpina in the image of the new state. In Napoleon's consciousness the present conditions of their foundation have called up the proconsul Caesar and the old province into tangible reality. Like him, he orders the new state unhesitatingly according to the pattern of the conquering state power, sets up a directory and two councils, determines their members from the plenitude of power of the victorious commander before elections have taken place. The new structure enters for him entirely into the position of a Reich province. Hereby, however, a remarkable shift of standpoint takes place in him. The "Reich" that the province presupposes is not yet identical for him with France, not yet certain to him in this adoptive fatherland; it still represents for him more an imaginary personal structure whose external forms he sees rather in a greater Italy than in France. He aims at Rome, at united Italy, wants to strike the hearts of the Italians with the

impression of their old Empire. He takes power and methods from the conquering adoptive fatherland, but the inner image of the new Upper Italian state does not present itself to him from the viewpoint of the foreign conqueror from beyond the mountains, but from that of the state restorer on this side of the mountains: it is as if he set out from the reconstruction of the old Roman *res publica* from its outermost province. Therefore the new republic steps entirely into the representation of the old Cisalpine Gaul.

He who felt as the field-commanding genius Caesar renewing Rome in Italy had to remain inaccessible to this urging, could not do otherwise than name what he saw as Roman and Caesarean after Rome and Caesar. Thus what could at first glance appear as an outflow of the time-idiom was a confession of his deepest personal nature and worked as such on his time: since his first appearance all his public pronouncements, through the unveiled emergence of his most personal expression of experience, had startled his own and foreign governments. The Prussian envoy complains about their tone, "which reminds one of the vandalism of Robespierre," and receives from the Directors Rewbell and Letourneur the answer: "We are no less outraged about it than you, and you can count on it that we have at heart to root out such an outrageous language." The bitterness over the autocratic tone of Napoleon's correspondence with the Directory was quite general in Paris and escalated to the threat of transferring the "jeune héros" to the Place de la Révolution in Paris and pumping twenty bullets into his skull.

The presentification of Caesar — first of the proconsul and commander, then of the reformer of the Roman state — continues in Napoleon's representation through that whole epoch where he is the General Bonaparte, where his effect on the world still has essentially no other foundation than his personal will and drive, no other expression than in the shaping of his own life and destiny: the time of his "avènement." As his own being and action call up before him the apparition and work of Caesar, his

surroundings and environment bear all the signs of his living, the Roman world. These too are no longer attributes of school convention with which an alien present masks itself, but the sense-signs in which for the central man of the present the world of the earlier hero embodies itself.

From the living seizing of a past great reality, which he still feels powerful within himself, and, permeating historical experience and present action, makes effective on the present. In his troops, while still on his Alexandrian campaign to Egypt, the Macedonian phalanxes as well as the Roman legions become alive for him and embody the Roman state-thought that triumphed over Carthaginian mercantile interests. Rome's triumph becomes for him the living historical expression of his own struggle against England, which he wants to strike in Egypt. The historical presentification strengthens itself — as in the Italian campaign — through the scene of the new undertaking, which touches the sites of the ancient world-struggle. Inwardly deeply seized by this correspondence, he makes the greatness of this impression palpable also to his troops. He speaks to them in the first proclamation of the campaign: "The Roman legions, whom you have sometimes emulated but not yet equaled, fought Carthage alternately on this sea and in the region of Zama." The Roman army-power carried the same state-thought through the world that he himself wants to carry with his troops into the East: that of a great republic which wants to win the peoples of the earth for a state unity by all the more carefully sparing their particular being in customs and faith. In the next proclamation he says: "Show to the ceremonies that the Koran prescribes the same tolerance that you have shown to the religion of Moses and Christ. The Roman legions protected all religions." He seizes in Pompey's Pillar in Alexandria, by climbing its pedestal, almost bodily the Roman past as the historical pre-apparition of the present state-given, the great final struggle of the republic. Still deeper does he drive the consciousness of this unanimity, still more emphatically its effect outward.

One cannot gauge how much the elementarily vitalizing power of the young commander, who originally experienced the Roman world in himself, strengthened the general intellectual direction and drove it to more excited and passionate expression. So much is certain: those young officers — the later General Thiébault and his comrades — who in 1796, inspired by Napoleon's first feats-of-arms, pressed under his banners, were seized not only by the time-mood but already by the genius of Napoleon renewing the ancient heroes, when on the journey to their longed-for goal of Genoa during a stay in Nice, wrapped in cloths, they suddenly overflowed with verses from the antique tragedies of Racine and Voltaire. Thiébault himself records: "Thus attired in the manner of the Greeks and Romans and so near to treading classical soil, we began to declaim antique scenes of Voltaire and Racine." Certainly their soul was from the start classicistically attuned by the general time-feeling — they had visited the buildings and ruins of the great past at Montpellier and Nîmes — but this mood does not suffice to explain the elemental outburst of their spirits. In it works a more intense fire than the weak embers of doctrinaire classicism; and also nothing of the more passionate breath of antiquarianizing republicanism is to be felt in it. What carries them away beyond all givens of the time must be a more elemental, a more immediate life-power: it is the inspiring and binding hero-figure they are chasing, the heroic breath that wafts toward them from the new glorifier of the old, of the Roman ground, the reawakener of its greatest figure: as at Montpellier and Nîmes the monuments of antiquity, so at Toulon they had visited the fort l'Aiguillette "made famous by Bonaparte." The same may even be said of the rapturous movement of the folk that surrounded Napoleon at his triumph.

Of commander and a population still living it naturally, if in last dilution — a moment in which the generally classicistic feeling of the age grew up into the visible reality of ancient triumphal days. This for us almost unimaginable revival of antique spirit is captured with poetic vision and expression on the pages with which Stendhal opens his "Chartreuse de Parme": from this spirit

the life and destiny of his hero nourish themselves, take their departure, are the product of these hours. Into the post-Napoleonic police-state the unconditional spirit of pagan-bright sensuousness and objectivity attempts to realize its pure form. This earned this book and its poet the veneration of Friedrich Nietzsche.

The passionate surge also seizes France as soon as the nation is struck by the surprising splendor of the piling victory-news of the Italian army and, through the emergence of the twenty-seven-year-old commander, sees the political situation suddenly changed in its favor. There follow the triumphal signs — flags, cannons, artworks — that the young general, taking up Roman customs, sends to Paris by the most select of his retinue. In all the newspapers the representation breaks through that a new Caesar has stepped onto the world-stage. This is no mere revolutionary-classicistic fame-talk. The figure of Caesar did not belong to the traditional ideal representations of the republican age; it was, as already shown, as the symbol of the usurper and tyrant precisely excluded from them. When it now suddenly appears — and not in the indefinite outlines of the heroic-legendary reich-founder and world-ruler, but in its concrete significance as the great unity of the Gallic conqueror and organizer — this is to be attributed solely to the overwhelming impression with which Napoleon.

Renewed. Precisely their stubborn glorification of Napoleon at Caesar's expense proves this: it betrays the reluctance with which the republican-classicist spirits defend themselves against the forced-upon-them new conception of Caesar in his originary factual significance as commander and statesman. A vivid example of this reluctant reception of a purer type of Caesar is given by the above-cited newspaper polemic. But it was not long spared to the age to see its own doctrinaire representation of the dictator and freedom-murderer Caesar livingly presentified through the hero of the day in embarrassing proximity. In Napoleon this part too of Caesar's life-course is called up into

astonishingly equal expression. Already his indirect influence on the Fructidor coup through the sending of Augereau and the threat, accompanied by addresses of the troops, to march on Paris with twenty-five thousand men, let the representation of a "new Rubicon" arise in many heads. Barras himself, who had just been at pains, not without political intention, to fix Napoleon as the great freedom-hero, it is now who helps to bring the Caesarean element in Napoleon to unfolding. A few weeks after the just-reported address, he himself carries around the plan of a coup d'état to overthrow the Directory in his favor: Napoleon is to create the external situation for the new government as dictator. The rumors seep through, and at once, under Napoleon's image, for the sharper eyes of the nation the apparition of Caesar, who overthrows Rome's constitution, begins to grow into tangible liveliness, while the great mass still dreams its dream of Napoleon's pure republicanism for a time. It comes to Brumaire. Then the curtain tears even for the duller spirits that had concealed in Napoleon the Caesar rising to sole rule. Already the title "Consul," which for the new government.

Caesar. To the deeper-seeing spirits the willful displacement of concepts became painfully conscious. They disapproved of the inappropriate use of the republican reminiscence for the living authoritarian greatness: "This masquerade with the name First Consul," says the French envoy in Rome, an admiring follower of Napoleon, in confidential conversation, "is ridiculous. Napoleon has taken it from Rome, where it never existed." The general public, however, overlooked this discord: for them Consul was the Premier Consul, awakened only the general representation of Roman sovereign power, expressed by its summit-apparition Caesar, and let them forget the actual meaning of this republican state-institution. The sense that historical pre-apparitions have for a living present is determined by that of their traits which the genius representing the present vitalizes in himself. Then, however, on the days of the overthrow, the 18th and 19th Brumaire, Caesar himself stepped forth in his central meaning and a monstrous repetition of his destiny, immediate and for

every eye unmistakable, into present apparition. The parallelism of Napoleon's development up to this point, the correspondence of his present undertaking with Caesar's, is so overwhelming that Caesar at once becomes no longer merely the legendary-hereditary expression of state-overthrowing tyrannical power, but his newly experienced symbol. His violent acts against the republic are seen to occur bodily in those of Napoleon, he himself in Napoleon's armed irruption into the hall of the Five Hundred to violate the state territory, "to cross the Rubicon." That is the cry that from many throats meets Murat as he prepares, on Napoleon's order, to disperse the Council of Five Hundred with his grenadiers. The air trembles with the execrations of Caesar himself. When the day is over, the deputy writes.

"Be a Brutus." Against this reawakening he must direct his representations in public, by having Roederer's leaflet — "Dialogue entre un membre du Conseil des Anciens et un membre du Conseil des Cinq-Cents," which he himself had reviewed — meet the anxious objection: "If he is a Caesar, a Cromwell ..." with the words: "A Caesar, a Cromwell ... evil, worn-out roles, unworthy of an honest man, how much more of a sensible man ... So Bonaparte has expressed himself on several occasions ..." Cromwell, who in these and other publications of the time accompanies the apparition of Caesar, is a merely external, merely literary assimilation brought into general consciousness for clarification, neither developed nor represented in Napoleon himself. He rejected this comparison as decisively as he never did and never could do — also dialectically — toward Caesar. He says to Barère on such a reproach: "But I am no Cromwell; see what traits he bears in English history and draw the parallel between his conduct and mine!" The parallel of his and Caesar's life, however, he could not reject and never rejected in this generality. If under the compulsion of the moment he had to ward off the embarrassing correspondence of Caesar's coup d'état with his own action, it could always only be a question of warding off an all-too-clear correspondence of concrete life-turns, from which precisely the completion of their

deeper community of destiny was threatened. Caesar in his personal wholeness remained for him the certain and unmoved center of his existence-consciousness, as soon as he placed it in a wider historical perspective. Therefore he was also incapable, for polemical purposes, of asserting a fundamental difference of being between himself and that one.

This can be traced to many other grounds — details of the writing, manner of its dissemination [under the seal of the Ministry of the Interior], the embittered action of Josephine, Sieyès, Moreau, Fouché, Talleyrand against him. Also in this pamphlet, from the start reproducing Napoleon's own conception — over against his alleged kinship of spirit with Cromwell and Monck — it is maintained: "France and Europe find in him a more striking correspondence with Caesar." He was too conscious of his inner measure of greatness to admit at all the thought of a comparison with the ephemeral apparitions of more recent political history: "One must go back two thousand years," it continues, "to find a man who is in some degree comparable to him. That man is Caesar." Following this, the author presents with full consciousness the thoroughgoing correspondence of their life-courses thus far: in order, passing to the critical point of comparison, to establish indeed a decisive divergence in the state-upheaval of both. But — and this is the characteristic thing — this divergence is traced no further than to the different internal political conditions; Caesar is merely set up as the head of the demagogues "contre la sagesse patricienne," the actual forefather of Robespierre, the "usurpateur et tribun du peuple," opposite Napoleon, the defender of the free social order against anarchy, the "consul légitime," who has Brutus on his side. Before a deeper motivation reaching back to their personal being, a decisive halt is made. For this — and therewith, despite all differences of political situation, the personal-historical ground and meaning of the upheavals — was for them both, as Napoleon was deeply conscious, identical. He himself said it openly in a later conversation, where he was not forced into such diplomatic disguises.

"One would earlier have believed infallibly that he stood under the protection of a genius, of a particular deity: in that ancient age when the love of the marvelous filled all spirits, and religious conviction, by bringing the mission of heroes and lawgivers to heightened expression, secured their institutions and the peace of peoples." Here the writing flows into its ultimate intention. The timeless effect of the Divus Caesar is no longer assured in the modern age by the believing veneration of peoples. The memory of the word that Napoleon spoke four years later on the day after the imperial coronation, in that self-comparison with Alexander to Decrès, echoes: "Just imagine if I were today to call myself the son of the heavenly father and make known that I wanted to offer him my thanks in this capacity — not a fishwife but would hiss at me on the way; the peoples are too enlightened nowadays ..." So the effect in temporality must be secured by temporal, state means instead of by religious experiential power. The writing continues: "Happy republic, if he were immortal! But the lot of a great man is more exposed to chance than that of ordinary men ... If Bonaparte were suddenly lost to the fatherland, where are his heirs? ..." The Consulate for life, the heredity, and the imperial title are prepared; from Caesar's apparition, which had been the living historical expression of Napoleon's development up to that point, his future destiny is prefigured. Napoleon himself follows this pull of representation when the title for the new hereditary dignity is to be chosen, and he decides among the variously proposed ones for "Emperor." "Napoleon had long spoken to me," reports Bourrienne, "of the imperial title as the one that best corresponded to the new sovereignty he wanted to found in France. He found that this signifies."

Thus the representation of Caesar, with all the modulations of his life-course, accompanies the phases of Napoleon's up to the point where the Caesarean life-circle is fulfilled in Napoleon and another takes its place, which presents itself through another historical apparition. This change prepares itself during the Consulate. The Consulate itself, however, as the span of time in which Napoleon's being expresses itself in the inner formation of

the state, is still wholly filled with the vitalized memory of the state-ordering Caesar. With this meaning Caesar flows into it and gains still more visible embodiment in his great successor Augustus, the definitive builder of the Roman state-edifice. His traits return in a striking obviousness, surprising the whole world, in those of Napoleon — the speaking expression of deep unanimity of being. Napoleon's renewed state-order, his reconciling unification of all capable and willing from the parties of the Revolution, is the state-regiment of Augustus: after the state-destroying feuds, the creative restoration through fusion of the diverging. As a symbol he sets the reconciler Augustus over this part of his life. The great word of Augustus to Cinna in Corneille's tragedy, which sums up his whole state-conviction in poetic visibility — "Soyons amis, Cinna!" — is constantly on Napoleon's lips, the living guiding-word of his state-shaping plan and its symbolic expression: with a plasticity such as has surely scarcely ever befallen a state-maxim. In official place, at the first deliberations of the newly created Council of State, it appears in intellectual paraphrase. Emphatically Napoleon avows himself to the basic law of state restoration through reconciliation of party antagonisms as pre-lived for him by Augustus: "One must stir up nothing, one must forgive like Augustus or take vigorous measures, there is no middle way."

The great poet native to this landscape was able to call up his "origins" once more to living image-power: "Rough hunters, shaggy hounds / Shrank from white marble limbs, / Halls invited as in the south ... / We still received the shimmer. / From the churned-up pits / Steamed the breath of legion / And of camp-followers' women and boys: / Here your gold, your ore, your clay! / On the mountain path see the troop / A stamping cohort! / Open stand bridge and gate / For the Caesar-son's eagle."

In France, which increasingly saw itself as the renewed Rome and the development of things more and more in terms of its purely national effects, the representation of Caesar in his significance as internal-state power-factor still persisted longer

alongside that of reich-founding Emperor. Particularly those who, not converted by the personal impressional power of Napoleon in their political willing, thought they could stand on the ground of the finally secured state, perceived with horror in the daily more unrestricted unfolding of Napoleon's personal power the Caesar rising over the ruins of the republic to monarchic state-regiment. Their number, however, became ever smaller, and the monarchic idea used for its presentification, in place of the threatening shadow of Caesar, more and more the misty opaque outlines of the legendary figure of Charles. But even before the introduction of the legislative bill that instituted the Consulate for life, the representation of the most influential men of the state is dominated entirely by the apparition of Caesar, the military dictator who usurped the republican state power, and Napoleon's significance and further destiny are circumscribed for them in that of the dictator and party-leader Caesar, while his further-reaching determination, flowing into the Augustus Emperor, remains invisible. The President of the Senate lets himself be heard in this regard: "He is a young man, he begins like Caesar and will end like him. I hope."

The actual political source of the undertaking lay not at all in him, as was long assumed under the influence of falsifying memoirs, but in the lap of the Paris government. On July 3, 1797, Talleyrand had already re-opened for discussion, in a session of the Institut, the plan that went back to the ancien régime (Volney had revived it in 1788 in a writing). At Ancona, with his gaze on the Adriatic, the Ionian Islands, Macedonia, equally seized by their great past and by their present significance as part of the crumbling Turkish dominion, Napoleon discovers in the distance Egypt as an attainable goal of his own drive for enterprise, grounded in political actuality as a French colonial undertaking and base of attack against England. Shortly after that lecture of Talleyrand's at the Institut, the Egyptian thought appears for the first time in Napoleon's correspondence. He writes on August 16, 1797, to the Directory: "The time is not far when we will notice that, to truly destroy England, we must make ourselves master of

Egypt." Similarly on September 13, 1797, to Talleyrand himself: "If it should happen that in our peace settlement with England we were forced to cede the Cape of Good Hope, we would have to make ourselves master of Egypt." How strongly he was driven to these proposals by his personal need for deeds can be recognized in the first of these two letters by one of those outbursts in which his most immediate willing usually gives itself vent: "The islands of Corfu, Zante, and Cephalonia are more important for us than all of Italy taken together." This primordial dismissive dismissal of Italy — "all of Italy taken together!" — shows that for him Italy as a field of personal effectiveness, of his deed- and fame-longing, is exhausted. Corfu, Zante, Cephalonia are the stages for Egypt, in which a new field opens itself to his unceasing drive to action.

His answer-letter to Napoleon of August 23, 1797, makes clear that in the thought of the occupation of the Ionian Islands, the first stage of the Egyptian undertaking, Napoleon and the Directory met. The letter then continues, passing to the more eastern territories: "Nothing is moreover more important than to place ourselves on a good footing with Albania, Greece, Macedonia and the other provinces of European Turkey, and in general with all that the Mediterranean washes, especially Egypt, which can one day be of great use to us." He thus takes up Napoleon's intentions toward the sinking Turkish Empire and its old Hellenic cultural components, as already indicated in a letter from Napoleon to the Directory of July 28, 1797; takes up the hint on Egypt itself contained in the letter of August 16, 1797, without with a word indicating that these thoughts had originated from himself in the lap of the Paris government. On the contrary, the initial emphasis on the agreement of the Directory with Napoleon regarding the Ionian Islands, in an unbiased interpretation of the whole letter, seems to show that Talleyrand wants to establish — not only regarding this preliminary stage of the later undertaking, but also regarding the Egyptian plan itself — an uninfluenced concurrence of Napoleon's with the government's intentions. If Napoleon's gaze had first been directed to Egypt by Talleyrand's Paris policy, Marmont, the confidant of the Italian

campaign, would scarcely have introduced his description of the Egyptian expedition with the general statement: "Then again the favorite plan of the Egyptian expedition entered his representation, with which he had occupied himself in Italy and which had then so often formed the subject of his conversations about the future." This general statement seems moreover also to exclude another hypothesis for the origins of the Egyptian plan.

In the last days of Napoleon's Italian epoch, it was so generally designated as "the favorite plan" with which he had occupied himself in Italy. As so often, and as is precisely the distinguishing property of the genius, Napoleon's personal inspiration must have coincided with the state-givens then developing, unfolded in the lap of external conditions, and thus been enabled to its swift and promising realization. If there is anything that guarantees the emergence of the Egyptian plan from Napoleon's own drives, it is the stamp with which it announces itself from the start outward. It bears clearly the marks of his still politically unconditional, wholly heroic-greatness-breathing, world-embracing I-drive. Napoleon seizes the first thought of the Egyptian expedition under the living image of its great ancient pre-apparition, which the near Macedonian coast reflects to him: "I see the coast where Alexander embarked to conquer Asia." Not that Alexander's campaign gave him the actual impetus for his undertaking. For that Napoleon's passionately moved imagination is always too much held in check by the force of present facts. To plunge from the intoxication of a tempting train of representation into an incalculable adventure never occurred to him. Alexander was for him a model, Charles XII an abomination. But these present facts — the utility and possibility of taking possession of the dying Ottoman Empire — pressed themselves upon him from the old cultural ground itself, in its highest leader-figure, the universally valid conqueror-type of heroic apparition. That from the regions he wants to tread with present foot, each of his steps grows before him in the image of Alexander is, according to Napoleon's nature, the most irrefutable proof for the originary-autochthonous emergence of the Egyptian plan.

His most personal development, for the time being sated on the Romance cultural soil, demands the reaching over into a new territory of lands, the eastern dream-realms of his youth, whose nearest goal is called for him, through the given of the political-military situation, Egypt. He himself says it all too clearly: "Everything wears out here; I have no more glory; this little Europe does not provide enough of it. One must go to the Orient; all great glory comes from there." What he here calls glory is the validity of the name, the need to bring it and in it himself to expanded apparition in the world. That is the content of what, grasped ethical-rationally as the concept of fame, appears in the genius as the natural efflux of his personality-drive. The whole temporal environment, insofar as it had insight into his being, saw the Egyptian undertaking realize a new necessity of his unfolding being. Marmont observes: "His personal interest demanded movement. He wanted to continue to work on spirits, to hear his name pronounced again with admiration and to keep alive the enthusiasm he had inspired." And his embittered opponent in later times, Barras, says of this epoch: "Bonaparte absolutely needed something new, and he recognized that the situation was not yet ripe for his ambition; however he did not want to expose himself to sinking or fading in the representation of men." Not much differently express themselves his two colleagues, the Directors Rewbell and La Réveillère-Lépeaux: all in any case variants of the explanation given above from Napoleon's own mouth, but variants that remain entirely in psychological abstraction. Only his own word breathes the power of the compelling experience that grows toward him from the first immediate contact with the East. He sees, he feels, he experiences it as the home-soil of unrestricted heroism: on which the great.

The factual requirement of the present first becomes reality for him through a personal world-impression. Only by experiencing the East as the land destined for him, illuminated in this destiny by the great pre-appearitions of unlimited heroic unfolding, does the next present problem — the struggle against England — find

for him its path to solution on these fields, while until then and long afterwards the French general public had looked for a more direct means of attack, the famous "descente en Angleterre." The path via the Orient, however, was his path, therefore also the path of the time-problem that was entrusted to him for solution. The experience of Alexander, who extends the borders of his reich to those of the world and in this world-creation embodies his own being and existence, opens for Napoleon the view onto the possibility of acting from national borders into the universe. His Egyptian expedition, born from the intoxicating drive toward self-fulfillment, but in its core an anticipated part of his later world-state plan, remains in its whole course penetrated by this representation — the image of him in whom alone among all apparitions of history Napoleon feels the same world-encompassing personal fire as in himself. And even if the passionately immediate experience of Alexander was not the originating cause or even the impulse for the Egyptian plan, in any case it was the apparition-form under which it communicated itself to Napoleon and through him continually to the world. When he summons Desaix, the most select of the republican generals, on whose cooperation he placed the highest weight, to participate in the campaign, it happens entirely under the image, under the most present representation of Alexander and his paladins. According to Desaix's oral tradition, his son-in-law described this event. "In the measure that Bonaparte's inspired words opened the way for his paladin."

The basic mood, but the direction of representation, went out from the undertaking itself and its leader. He carried into the souls of his retinue and his contemporaries the great shimmer of the past, made it possible for them to see in him the new Alexander or also Jason, in Egypt the old Alexander reich or also a new Colchis. (So in the letter of another general from on board the "Orient" during the crossing.) Even after the defeat of Aboukir, Napoleon calls to his army: "We are perhaps called to change the face of the Orient and to set our names beside those that call before our soul the history of antiquity and the Middle

Ages with the highest splendor." All heroes arise in his spirit who realized their being in the Orient, linked their name with it; all earlier history serves him to illustrate his new undertaking to himself. That this is a matter not of a play with historical memories, not of rhetorical embellishment, is clear from the fact that the allegorically pale figures of mythology, the romantically shimmering ones of the crusader epoch, recede entirely in his representation, and in the foreground always remains the essentially radiant figure of Alexander. Her apparition and the presentification of his deeds fill during the whole campaign his conversations, addresses, proclamations. It is the livingly necessary, inwardly innate accompaniment of his whole undertaking, the mirror in which he sees himself and his world. Alexander's presentation in Napoleon's historical consciousness during the Egyptian expedition is the most striking example of how his historical intuition was set in motion and nourished from the most immediate of his active life, how history only became significant to him insofar as it was bodily graspable and visible — which, by virtue of the condensed activity of his nature, could only happen where his.

III. HISTORY AND DEED

The Consular epoch receives its essential characterization from the building and elaboration of the French state. The establishment of the internal state-order, carried out with inconceivable speed, received its concluding expression in the clothing of the state-leader with the monarchic-hereditary power of the Empire. As this event once represents the conclusion of that period in which Napoleon's being realizes itself in the creation of the internal state, it also already contains the elements of the spiritual image under which Napoleon will present himself in the new period, that of his world-reich plan. With the elevation to Emperor a double claim arises. The imperial title conditions an exclusivity of spatial dominion, which on one hand necessarily collides with the universal dominion-character of the Roman-German Emperor, and on the other had to bring its bearer into the old conflict with the spiritual world-lord, the Pope. The Roman-German imperial dignity, faded to a pure concept, abdicated before him without further ado; beyond the inner claim of the title, it yielded to him a great part of its external power-territory for the formation of a more tightly organized dominion (the Confederation of the Rhine) and cleared the path to universal monarchy. The confrontation with the Church dragged on in far longer negotiations over many years and — despite the Concordat, the anointing by the Pope, and even his expulsion from Rome — also did not bring the definitively decisive success to the new unlimited and unconditional bearer of the worldly sword that had been denied to his inwardly and outwardly bound medieval predecessors. Between them and himself Napoleon feels, as soon as he takes up the struggle for the universal validity of the Empire against the Pope, something like a living inner connection. It is their claims.

He had reoccupied the position from which the political speculation of the Middle Ages had set out, in its old extent of most immediate actuality. Only the speculative-mystical tracing back to the divine foundations of all world-government is lacking;

otherwise it is as if we read the arguments of Aegidius Romanus or Ptolemy of Lucca. The national tradition, that of the French kings, falls out entirely in this connection. Napoleon is aware how weakly his predecessors of Bourbon stock had exercised worldly power vis-à-vis the Church. So he does not want to let himself be pinned to their succession in this domain. He declares expressly that with his enthronement he has not "inherited" their rights: they had not even ruled over half his territory and were therefore not legitimated to represent the old universal reich-claims. He passes entirely over their relations with the Pope by taking up only their titular claim as "eldest son of the Church," but giving this the — for them surely unimaginable — very factual significance of an exclusive protector of the Church, and at once steps into the position of an heir of the "empereurs français," that is the Roman-German Emperors of Frankish stock, the Carolingians. Charles Martel, Pippin, but above all Charlemagne — it is they whose inheritance he unites in himself; from their position toward the Pope he draws the means for his own struggle against him. He appeals to the fact that Pippin was crowned by Pope Zacharias, that Charles had not been enfeoffed with the reich by the Pope, but, as the sword of the Church, summoned by the Pope for its protection, had made him a gift of the Papal States: a gift, however, that had been tied to the tacit condition of permanent community of interest, and that he — Napoleon — could and would now revoke because of non-fulfillment of this condition. Indeed he revokes it.

"I am Charlemagne, the sword of the Church, her Emperor, and I must be treated accordingly." These utterances are not merely the expression, heightened by the excitement of the moment, of vehemently asserted power-will. They must beyond that count as a testimony of Napoleon's living inner consciousness. This saw itself thoroughly driven in the direction of Charles, the reich-founder, filled with his plans and thoughts, determined by his bearing. With Charles's figure the representations of a world-monarchy to be extended over all of Europe link themselves. The representation of the *res publica Romana* flows into the

apparition of the imperial Charles. Talleyrand establishes this with a startling lack of restraint in tone that betrays his whole displeasure at this turn of Napoleon's spirit: "There was a linking of Roman republic with Charlemagne that turned his head." Already the project of the "Grand Empire" spins itself out. Quite generally and to everyone he designates himself not only as the successor, the heir of Charles, but as his spiritual rebirth, as Charles himself. And that already in the time long before those outbursts against the Pope, in the time between the imperial election and coronation. His envoy in Rome, intimately familiar since the beginnings of his career with him and the expressions of his being, laments to his secretary: "There you have it — he calls himself Charlemagne." In Paris itself the impression of a new unfolding of Napoleon's being, symbolized by the person of Charles and directed toward his goal, had been predominant for the initiated circles for even longer, already since the last years of the Consulate: evidently nourished by Napoleon's own utterances. The Prussian envoy reports on July 20, 1802, about Napoleon to his court: "A man who proclaims ... and undertakes to revive Charlemagne in his person — enlightened by the Enlightenment of our century."

They are precisely the most essential life-content that passes from the old to the new Charles: "Desirous of every kind of glory, he strove, a new Charlemagne, not only to extend the borders of the Republic, but to erect a monument to the sciences that would correspond to their utility and splendor." And it is not entirely to be dismissed that also in that limiting addition of Lucchesini to his remark about Napoleon's tendency to reawaken Charles — "enlightened by the Enlightenment of our century" — the representation of Charles as the spiritual promoter of his people has contributed. Napoleon himself has not always found in the apparition of Charles this deep culture-forming content, not always in him the presentification of his sovereign task and dignity. Still in 1801 in the Council of State he evaluated his significance quite conditionally and restrictedly as the expression of an epoch of crudest external unfolding of power, by saying: "At

that time the most important quality for a general or a head of state was physical strength. In this way Clovis and Charlemagne were the strongest, the most agile men of their army; they signified by themselves a number of soldiers, a whole battalion. That procured them obedience, and this respect corresponded to the military system of the time ... Today it is no longer the man of five feet ten inches who does great things." Soon, however, this valuation of Charles's person changes. When the ecclesiastical power-questions, soon afterward the reich-idea, become reality for Napoleon, the figure of five feet ten inches permeates itself of itself with the spiritual life that, with all its properties attributable to the primitive epoch, made him the worthy opponent of the Popes, reich-founder, world-ruler, and capable for Napoleon's representation of presenting his own image and willing. A modern historian has recognized the spiritual ground of this transformation.

The passage must have remained in his memory, which had so intensively occupied itself with this figure: "Charlemagne, the lord of Italy as of Germany and France, the judge of the Pope and arbiter of Europe, comes at the end of the year 799 to Rome ... Leo III proclaims him Emperor of the West during the Christmas Mass. The son of a domestic servant, of one of those Frankish captains whom Constantine had condemned to fight with wild beasts, raised to the dignity of Constantine." To be sure, the designation of Charles as the "son of a domestic servant" contains a maliciously witty misinterpretation of the majordomo office of his ancestors, which, however primitively one may imagine those beginnings of Frankish state-order, however completely one may equate the mayor-of-the-palace in its origins with a personal court office, could in no case be exhausted in the functions and attributes of subordinate servitude. And how far was the son of King Pippin, to whom the anointing by the Pope had taken the last trace of subjecthood and in exchange given unassailable royal consecration and legitimacy, from those origins of the family office! But in Napoleon's representation that impressively heightened image of Voltaire of Charles's

development may have continued to work and may have let him see in Charles's life-course something like an after- and mirror-image of his own. If he, following Voltaire's presentation, sees Charles, the descendant of a family of court officials, rise over the steps of Italian, German, French dominion to the overlordship of Europe and over the Pope, and finally have himself crowned Emperor of the West — should not the shudder of a kinship with his own destiny have overcome him, which had led him, the little lawyer's son from a remote province, over the steps of Italian, French, and German sovereign power to the arbiter and overlord of Europe, to Emperor of the West, who now too.

To give symbolic consecration to the world-significant event, the birth of a reich-founder's son. From the most immediate drives of his state-forming, better his reich-creating spirit, the historical apparition of Charlemagne stepped into Napoleon's circle of representation and filled it the more livingly as the most present state-activity constantly kept him in connection with the deeds and thoughts of his great predecessor as the foundation of his own action. The citations of Alexander, Caesar, and the ancient world — if they do not entirely cease — recede; in their place the image of Charles and the cultural formations dependent on him sets itself everywhere. Medieval history now forms a particular and express object of his occupation. A draft from Napoleon's own hand for a note of Talleyrand to the Holy See indicates it: "His Majesty does not seek to learn from history whether in unenlightened times the Roman Curia actually arrogated to itself the right to dispose of crowns and secular rights to the princes of the earth, ... but if one found that in earlier centuries the Roman Curia deposed princes, preached crusades, placed whole kingdoms under interdict, one would also remark that the Popes have always regarded their secular power as deriving from the Frankish Emperors." The passage shows that Napoleon, despite his ostensible refusal to engage in historical investigations, followed the great world-struggle between Pope and Emperor in all its phases. Many other utterances of the Emperor bear witness to this. So his attack on d'Arezzo, the papal envoy at the

Russian court, in November 1806 at Dresden: "Down there there are no longer the great men as in the time of Leo X. Ganganelli would not have behaved thus." He even turned his attention to the development of canon law.

"Enemies of truth and knowledge formerly exercised this monopoly; they told us everything they wanted — that is, everything that corresponded to their interests, their inclinations, their views." He expressly attests his occupation with the chronicles of the earliest Middle Ages in the deliberations of the Council of State on the reorganization of the educational system: "My usual reading when going to bed is the old chronicles of the third, fourth, fifth, and sixth centuries; I read them myself or I have them translated." From their highly inadequate traditions the transition of the ancient into the new, medieval world clarifies itself to him; the penetration of the barbarian kingdoms with the remnants of ancient culture becomes intuitive to him: problems that were then only beginning to arise and still today hold our interest and work in breath. His astonished seizure before these problems breaks forth vividly in his words before the Council of State: "Nothing is more remarkable and more unknown than the transition of the old into the new culture, the transition of the old states into the new ones founded on their ruins." The utterance shows how essentially the contrast of ancient and medieval world had become conscious to him, but also what new, independent significance the post-Christian European had gained for him compared to the ancient culture that had until then dominated him alone. Although, as mentioned, under the immediate impression of place and occasion he is still occasionally inclined to present himself to the nation and army under Caesarean representation, from about the autumn of 1804 onward the decided predominance of the medieval circle of ideas establishes itself; Napoleon steps entirely into the representation of Charles, with whose image and memory-signs he nourishes his own and the national imagination. In Aachen he descends — the first mortal since Charles V — into the tomb of Charlemagne.

Of Dalberg's draft for the reorganization of Germany under Napoleon's overlordship. This draft concludes: "May Francis II succeed in being Emperor in the East to keep the Russians at a distance, and may the Western Empire rise again in Emperor Napoleon, as it was under Charlemagne, consisting of Italy, France, and Germany." Napoleon's imperial coronation flows into the forms that Charles prescribed for the coronation of his son in Aachen. The Pope, excluded from participation in the coronation itself, remains limited to the anointing. The crown Napoleon sets on his own head as a sign that he wears it only by the grace of God and the folk. Likewise the coronation as King of Italy in Milan on May 26, 1805, stands wholly in the sign of Charles and the Lombard kings. Their Iron Crown, his sword, are what are carried before him at the ceremony; he himself sets the Iron Crown on his head. As intended, for the representation of contemporaries these insignia presentify in the new ruler the figure and being of the great predecessor. But his person, having attained the throne in an era of peace through the resolution of the folk, outshines the historical pre-apparition, which had first to destroy the reich bloodily with its own hands in order to found it anew: at least thus the conception of the time reflects itself in a report of Talleyrand to the diplomatic representatives abroad. Official costume and household of the state-leader as well as the whole political-social intercourse had already during the Consulate begun a transformation from the graecizing-Romanizing forms into those of medieval courtly world, and with the Empire enter entirely into them. The great court offices of Grand Ecuyer, Grand Maréchal, etc., are modeled on the old hereditary offices of the German reich connected with the electoral dignity, of which Napoleon says that they are simply exemplary for state-formation and that one should have.

Since the Renaissance had not yet been set off as a particularly characterized epoch in the historical consciousness of the age, the Middle Ages, in contrast to antiquity, could appear as the entrance and first embodiment of the uniformly conceived modern age. Its formations were felt by Napoleon as more

immediately conditioning him and his momentary action, therefore his forms as more objective and impressive than those of antiquity, which indeed corresponded to his spiritual basic disposition, but now within the given circumstances could mean for him only a reality-emptied ideality. Therefore — however strange this appears to us today — Charles's state-foundation, the hereditary offices, the Spanish court-costume, understood as expressions of medieval world, have for Napoleon in this period the most present, most impressive reality and fill the whole foreground of his historical representation. Hence his already above-cited approving exclamation before David's Couronnement: "You have entirely guessed my thoughts. You have made me a French knight!" Here the new national pathos, which seizes not only France but the whole of Europe and determines its culture, historical conception, fashion, and art in the direction of Romanticism, condenses itself as it were into symbolic expression. Charlemagne and the medieval world, as the new era awakened them, penetrate all genres of literature and become especially a preferred object of novelistic representation, e.g., in the then much-read novel of Madame de Genlis, "Les Chevaliers du Cygne ou la Cour de Charlemagne," which mirrors the apparitions of the Revolution under the image of Charles and his knights. The reorientation of Napoleon's historical consciousness from antiquity toward the Middle Ages is one of the most powerful sources from which Romanticism drew. It, like all earlier and later changes.

There is no lack of testimonies of such unease from the circles of timelessly idealistic statesmen. With relieved breathing one of them lets himself be heard in his memoirs of this time: "This epoch with its memories of things that harmonized so little with the new imperial ideas was soon over!" By regarding on one hand the forms and institutions of court and state life secondarily as external instruments of an abstracted "inner" state-spirit, which he calls the "new imperial ideas," and on the other not accepting the medieval world as a historical given but rationally comparing it to his imagined state-ideal, this witness is unable to gauge how

necessarily unified for the primary, sensuously-experiential disposition of the state-leader the "nouvelles Idées impériales" were with their medieval cultural presuppositions — how much more essentially linked with them than with the timeless ideal ones of antiquity, how much those signified the most immediate presentification of his deepest personal and state direction of being in this period. The more immediately could Charlemagne and his world penetrate Napoleon's representation, as at Napoleon's time — as already noted — the historical view of the Middle Ages was not yet blocked or hindered by any epoch-division of post-Christian history. It was separated from none of the following epochs by scientific divisions. The whole post-Christian era formed a unity that had only antiquity as its opposite and seemed held together in all its apparitions by a uniform world-face and feeling. Therefore already in the first years of the Empire Napoleon could experience beside Charles a new historical presentification of himself in the person and world of the French national monarchs of the 16th and 17th centuries, without such a change.

But beside the continuing care for the external position and inner strengthening of the mother-state France, Napoleon was unceasingly penetrated by the plan of a European world-reich, the "Grand Empire"; the imperial title meant for him not only the immediate and unconditional dominion over France, but also one over the old world excluding all other powers — thus beside Henry and Louis, Charlemagne as founder of the Roman-German world-reich, as continuer and bearer of the universal imperium mundi had also to continue to dominate his spirit; he had to find this part of his living power expressed through Charles's apparition (although such elements were also present in Louis XIV and did not fail to make their impression on Napoleon). This harmonious coexistence of historical representations that for the present-day view seem to fall so far apart has its ground, as already indicated, in the fact that for Napoleon the new and the figures present to him from earlier — the children of the third dynasty, Henry and Louis, like those of the second, Charles and

his people — do not represent the expression of two different worlds, but only the different expression of the same world: namely that of the modern Franco-European as a uniformly seen historical complex opposite that of antiquity as an equally uniform one. Therefore the figures of these princes, the memory of their epochs, could simultaneously pervade Napoleon's representation; therefore Napoleon on occasion addressed Charles and the Bourbons together even as his "prédécesseurs de la troisième race," who had together bequeathed to him the claim of the "fils aîné de l'église" and the sole right to carry the sword for the protection of the Church; therefore Louis XIV could appear as heir of Charlemagne and even as bearer of his universal reich-idea. Only in this do the two series of representation separate in Napoleon's mind.

To the extent that the completion of his state-plan becomes, to the same extent he presents himself before his inner eye under the apparition of Henry and Louis; Louis is his model and Bossuet his oracle. This subordination of the freely creative spiritual powers to his own state-authority he wants to make Goethe feel when he presents the age of Louis XIV to him as exemplary for the relation of artists to princes. And that he would have made Corneille, had he lived in his time, on the basis of the Cinna, into a "prince" — this belongs in the same context of historical seeing.

HISTORY IS for Napoleon no different than nature — an immediate appurtenance of his personal unfolding of being, life-stuff, destined to be sensuously seized and spiritually mastered by him, to enter into his work and with this to form, expanding his person. Therefore in his case one cannot speak of a "relation to history" in the secondary sense of a particular spiritual attitude toward it. Its representations are, like the apparitions of the present, for him first the inner vision and then the self-evident expression of his own existence and being. They are for him neither a means of enriching one-sided knowledge, nor a detached impulse for his undertakings. They become this only insofar as they have somehow become for his total person an

experience, somehow become a constituent and representational content of his inner unity. Therefore the manifold appeals to history that we hear from his mouth more than from that of any other historical person, the frequent presentification of its figures and events in namings and memory-signs, are no consciously purposeful application of their teaching or formative contents to the world to be shaped, but the expression of what he has experienced in them, what they mean to him as confirmation, expansion, symbol of his being and his present.

And Holland. The former have emerged entirely from the horizon of his Roman-oriented epoch, the Caesarean world; the latter from that dominated by the apparition of Charlemagne, that of the medieval world; and already thereby they reveal their inner connection with the basic directions of his presently immediate experiencing and acting, where it is to be noted that the same object, according to its temporal aspect, releases a quite different representation in him: in the epoch of his Caesarean-Roman-determined bearing it is called "Batavian," what in that of his medieval-modern-determined one presents itself of itself as "Holland." To be sure, he is aware that the representation which these names awaken will work not only on his own but also on the imagination of the inhabitants of the land, and it would mean belittling his primary knowledge of men and the treatment of men if one were to regard this effect as not willed by him, as merely a reflected effect of an unconscious inner stirring. Rather — and he has said this too often to overlook it — in this appeal to the great past of the states he founded there lies thoroughly the will to act on their population: but not in the form of purposeful intent, rather simply as an outflow of his own drive to realization that determines all his inspirations and actions. What has become present to him shall and must also become present to others, effective on the outer world: the ultimate basic law of all originary creative human power, which is self-evident to us in artistic productions, but estranges us in the statesman and commander, with whom we unaccountably habitually associate the representation of secondary-rational modes of action.

Even where he quite expressly and emphatically has great apparitions of the foretime presented through palpable representation in the memory of the folk.

Their first distribution to the army is not a merely externally added instrument for strengthening the prestige of the action, but the innate sensuous embodiment of their inner content in the soul of their originator. He must have something — a tangible object, a visible sense-sign — under which his inspirations first become representable for him in the world of apparitions. And his spirit, in the deepest objective-sensuous in its direction, which disdains the artificial formations of speculative phantasticism, finds quite of itself the formations of history no differently than those of surrounding nature — as sense-carriers of his inner experiencing and representing. And only because and insofar as they become this for him, do they become it also under his shaping hand for others, for the folk.

Even the festivals and commemoration-signs that he devotes to the great events of his own life have in their ultimate meaning no other cause of emergence. He is neither so vain as to long for enjoyable self-contemplation in what is accomplished of past days, nor so poor in deeds that he would have to occupy the imagination of the folk with what has been — on the contrary, such memory-renewals often emerge precisely in connection with the new accomplishments of his most active present: so in Egypt, where in the sight of the Pyramids he has the commemoration festival of Vendémiaire celebrated; on the eve of Austerlitz, where he has that of his imperial coronation celebrated. They also mean to him not merely a mechanical means of working on the spirit of his troops, any more than was the case with the commemorative celebrations for foreign persons and deeds. In itself every leader strives to seize the troop through its own achievements and thereby to fire its fighting power: for him, however, these celebrations are first the vitalized mirroring of his present in his history-become life, the palpable expression of his great human.

The parades on the battlefield of Marengo, where he wears the specially brought coat and hat of the battle before the whole army; on that of Austerlitz; his inspection of the battlefield of Jena with Alexander and Karl August and many others — these are the mother-events for the military and other commemorative celebrations that characterize the 19th century almost more than its inventions and discoveries. The same holds for the titles of nobility with which he adorns his marshals and generals. The great names of Abrantès, Ragusa, Montebello, Eckmühl, Moskowa are the predecessors of "Wahlstatt, Dennewitz, Wartenburg, Nollendorf" and all later ones. For the imitators they mean a willingly displayed decor; for him the vitalized presentation of his history-become work in the most immediate present and its bodily bearers. Therefore they are for him also not merely imitative resumption of a custom of antiquity, which symbolized the merit and significance of its commanders in the titles taken from their triumphs — Scipio as Africanus and Metellus as Numidicus. Rather it is his trait of being parallel to that of antiquity, which for the same immediate experiencing finds the same creative expression-form; for which of itself as sense-sign of man and deed, which belong transiently to time, the indestructible, imagination-nourishing corporeality of space offers itself, in which the man acted, the deed occurred. Therefore also — conversely — he attaches to fortifications the name of those who contributed to their storming, as at Toulon the name of the young Captain Muiron; sets at the very place where they fell the memorial stone of the generals dear to him: thus for Duroc the mighty block of stone on the highway between Görlitz and Bautzen. Sometimes also in the greatness of a merely natural impression the sublime manner of a comrade of his glory becomes so livingly palpable to him.

It strives to remain, to translate itself gestalthaft and pictorially into bodily present. Therefore the choice of the name Muiron for a ship of the Egyptian expedition means more than merely the fulfillment of piety. This life had passionately belonged to him, had been passionately seized by him, and had sealed this

belonging through its fall on the first battlefields it had trodden for him. The shock that Napoleon himself suffered through this event, which worked on him with the immediate impressional power of the first sacrifice brought to him, held him permanently fast, demanded to continue and co-live visibly in his active present, could not sink back to a mere object and play of memory. Therefore he wrote this name on a ship of the Egyptian expedition, and if it is this ship of which he avails himself for the return to France, for the definitive realization of his state-creating destiny, there rules here not merely chance, still less playful superstition, but a — perhaps even unconscious — need to maintain in this decisive moment the connection with the earlier powers of his life. The name Muiron becomes for him, after the manner of the ancients, a symbol, a magic sign, with which he wants to bind to his destiny the secret forces of youth, which had unfolded in the sphere of its bearer and had experienced their consecration, their sealing in his blood, to lead them over into his future deeds. He who believed his life determined by the power of a star — because without this ultimate measure his ultimate I-will would have fallen apart — needed these life-assuring sense-signs: not as the playful decor of an over-full, but as the ultimate encompassing of a boundless existence in the frame of nature.

BOOK THREE — THE CLASSICAL

I. CLASSICAL DISPOSITIONS

...is the channel through which the renewed antiquity conveys itself to the French folk-consciousness. Rousseau himself is only a very indirect conduit. The immediate passage, the actual influx of reawakened classicism, occurs through the rhetorical works of a writer of meager talent, who precisely by tying into ephemeral occasions or academically simulating those of the ancient world as current ones, and thus satisfying the native representational need of the national spirit, is first able to assimilate the new vision into the existing cultural consciousness. Thomas, a former teacher at a collège and later member of the Academy, as bearer and expression of a middling national educational level, experienced the renewed classical cultural content only through Cicero's treasury of speeches, with the soul of a professor of rhetoric. What had already become derived concept and rhetorical means of expression from the ideas of the ancient world, he then — with yet another doctrinal dilution and the formalist smoothing that higher instruction in the Latin language brings with it, without deeper meaning-content, only with the drive of the elegant language-handler and period-builder — poured out over the great mass of the educated in numerous "Eloges" (now on his contemporaries, now on Cato, Brutus, Thrasesas), and precisely thereby first opened access for the striving of ancient renewal to the French folk on a wider scale. With him we encounter those accumulated invocations of Roman civic virtues and Greek freedom-ideals that a few decades later would thunder through the world from the benches of the Convention and from the field-camps of the Sansculottes, making the nation itself and the world almost forget the national stamp of the great upheaval — those rhetorical invocations of the great men of antiquity that seek to create the appearance of having retreated wholly into original classical simplicity and greatness, and yet are nothing more than a satisfaction of the need dwelling

in the middle part of the nation for scenically formed gesture. With him also that revival of classical school-rhetoric: the dazzling tropes, the bold metaphors, the striking antitheses, the ringing cadence of the periods that later from the speeches of Convention members would often strike the formal excitability of the nation instead of substantive content. One will not be able to say, of course, that the stylistic exercises of this renewed academician could from themselves and by themselves have set in motion the actively forward-pressing spirit of the revolutionary epoch. By themselves they would have worked only as a humanistic rejuvenation of the old classical Academism from the 17th century and would have flowed fully into the originating culture of the Ancien Régime, had not from the soul of the great century-awakener, Rousseau, the quickening breath come that breathed its fire into the sluggish schoolmaster-brain of their author and gave his rhetorical hyperboles their inner impetus. Only thus did they become accessible to the great swelling of psychic and spiritual experience that is the strongest motive-force of the Revolution. Only that final indescribable spark of inner experience, which still let even these empty rhetorical school-exercises appear as a new and quickened image of antiquity to their author and his readers, made them capable of becoming the expressive means for the tremendous upheavals of the revolutionary spirit. They coincide with this spirit in that — however hollow they may sound to us today — for their author and his time they were enjoyed as the new representation of ancient heroes, of classical civic virtue, and therefore as the autochthonously native expression of the new Spirit of the Age. In essence, however, the entire renewed ancient life- and expression-form remained thoroughly within the current and a continuation of the inner national educational form, of secondary Latinism, which, deriving from the origins of the Roman province, had received its definitive fixation in the classical Academism of the age of Louis XIV.

Thus a notable recent French literary historian sees this movement: "There is a certain 'antiquity,' not exactly false, only

somewhat conventionally seen, real like a theater or tribune reality — an antiquity produced from the originality of Plutarch, the nobility of Livy, the laments of Tacitus, the outbursts of Juvenal, and the great gestures of the Stoics — an antiquity that generates in the imagination of the educated a glorious, precious ideal of strict virtue, self-conscious simplicity, somewhat affected moderation, untiring energy and steadfastness, which through the ever-recurring image it sets before us of selflessness in the face of a sublime final destiny begins to become something like a religion. The French are very susceptible to the power of such an idea... This cult belongs among our sacra. Our 16th century brought it to honor, our 17th century kept it in force. At the beginning of the 18th century understanding for it was lost, but toward its end it revived with strange power, expressing a half-laughable, half-terrible reaction on culture and history." Even the new experience of antiquity in Montesquieu, this researcher traces back to the spirit of the old Provincia (Narbonensis) dwelling in him: "A great monument founded on great strength, the Roman Empire erected on Roman prowess, the shining Capitol forged upon its unshakeable rock: this inspires this southerner, this Gallo-Roman... born on Latin earth, in the land of an Ausonius and the Girondists." Another scholar emphasizes — against the rise of sentimental realism in the 18th century — the unbreakable continuity of the classicist in the national spirit of France: "As long as there is a court, salons, a social life in France, the classical form remains as the most appropriate to its culture; and when at the end of the century culture itself changes, a kind of national vanity or dependency of taste prevents laying hands on it."

It was thus still the ancient world itself — if in provincially adapted and temporally much modified form, yet in substance still itself, in the living continuation of its unbroken tradition — into which Napoleon was born, which he absorbed with his studies at Brienne and later at Auxonne and Valence. He still stood within the ring of classical world-comprehension, and the ancient historians, poets, and great men were for him already as

a mere member of his time and nation — apart from his personal aptitude — still bearers and expression of the same humanity of Roman or Greek stamp that they had once embodied alive, even if one now regularly realized this humanity under the formulas of an abstracted ideality. There lay a desensualization, but one within the maintenance of the Roman tradition. Already the originally Roman state-spirit had oriented all phenomena of sensuous life toward itself, had related all cultural formations to the state and permeated them with state-elements. Greatness of men and dignity of women, beauty of art and depth of knowledge: everything found its measure and expression in the significance it had for the purposes of the state. In France of the 17th and 18th centuries — the nation of provincial-Roman descent — this permeation of all world-conception with an omnipotent state-spirit, which once in Rome had not hindered but intensified the force and fullness of national life, had disintegrated into empty references to the mere attributes of state-perfection; in place of the living-corporeal Roman commonwealth, a few of its imagined motive-forces — fame, honor, civic virtue — had become the elements that one believed to find fulfilled or symbolized in the heroes and artworks of antiquity. But still the great figures, images, and words of the ancient world had not become alienated from their inner meaning, had not become circumlocutions for social-economic currents of a wholly different world. They were still themselves — the afterglow of their original apparition in the eye of a humanity that saw less sensuously than conceptually decoratively, and had turned outward, disguisingly, those properties from their fulfilled total being that seemed to this humanity, according to its own impulses (yet connected with the ancient world), to represent their ultimate meaning. And one endowed with a more immediate eye could at that time still quickly and easily penetrate through the veils to the original core, did not have — as today — first to reconstruct this core from a disembodied world through the power of a renewing imagination. In his youth Napoleon did not even feel the disguise of ancient ideas into national-temporal modes of apprehension as

hindering. "Honor," after Montesquieu the main motive-force of monarchical states, had already under his own and even more under Rousseau's influence receded as an element of ancient communal life in favor of republican "vertu politique" or "civique" — civic virtue; "fame," as the elevating form of history actually the result of the Napoleonic era, had not yet matured into the general expression of national understanding. But with the reduction of all classical greatness to the proving of republican civic sense, Napoleon was in his school and training years, up to the threshold of his own independent action under the influence of Rousseau and Raynal, thoroughly in agreement. Only when from his own greater undertakings man and deed became accessible to him in their immediately bodily impression, free of conceptual disguises, did he gradually become free also toward antiquity from a conceptually disguised attitude. Until then he stood essentially under the spell of the temporal-national conception of antiquity in the sense of a once-and-for-all exemplary realization of all civic perfections. Under this image he showed at Brienne such an extravagant reverence for the Spartans that his schoolmates gave him the nickname "Le Spartiate." This idea guided his first thoughts to Plutarch. Plutarch's work — in its true being a glorification of heroes in the unconceptual, objective-essential spirit of antiquity, later also grasped by him in this spirit and made the constant companion of his life — conveyed to the young Napoleon the ancient heroes as illustrations of republican virtues in the Spirit of the Age: love of fatherland and freedom, incorruptibility and civic sacrifice. Yet for him all these moral distinctions meant less than they did for his contemporaries as empty commonplaces, merely conceptual formulations of vague temporal feeling. For him these ideas were — unlike for the orators of the pre-revolutionary clubs — bound up with a near and certain reality.

II. CLASSICIST PREREQUISITES OF THE AGE

THROUGH the quickening power of his vision, history becomes for Napoleon a field of experience, and through his experience, a world of new contents and apparitions. It is the primary, unreflected, underived forces of his total human being that, as they subdue and reshape the outer world for him, likewise open up the inner world of his ideas and bring it into new form. In the preceding section we saw these forces proving themselves upon the traditions of the ancient world, and under their influence saw those traditions "prosper into new form and color." But the ancient world is neither for the time in which Napoleon grew up and through which he received it, nor for his own spiritual constitution, mere tradition. All other epochs of history the men of the 18th century — and even Napoleon himself at times — could regard with the eyes of the uninvolved or merely interested spectator; only antiquity is more and nearer to them, is for them — in a form to be more precisely determined — atmosphere of their existence in which they stand and act, an element of their immediate life in which they have an active share. Therefore its effect on Napoleon does not exhaust itself, like that of the rest of history, in the formations of his imagination, nor as content of his consciousness, but seizes upon several deeper and wider realms of his inner person and must be grasped and presented in connection with these, with the fundamentally conditioning dispositions of his life's development. Antiquity is for Napoleon something like a central growth-component of his nature: akin to family lineage and landscape origin, and like these it expresses itself directly in the formation of body, spirit, and soul. Hence the discussion of its significance in Napoleon's being leads beyond the frame of the investigation up to now — which treated the particular manner of Napoleon's world-comprehension and world-conduct — into the center of his inner formations and becomes, as it deserves, a pivot of the representation: in that, proceeding from Napoleon's vision and experience, it lets us recognize the object of this vision and experience — antiquity as

the final and essential substance of his nature altogether and as the main moving force of its activity.

It is hard to make present-day people understand what antiquity meant to the men of the 18th and the turn of the 19th century. We barely sense as a strange, external breath in our atmosphere what was then still a living air-current. For moderns it is a bundle of school-memory and educational material that, when they do not consciously recall it, does not touch their present, but sleeps in a corner of their imagination. To the people of that time, antiquity was still — even if transformed and weakened — a daily visible and palpable present, content and form of their thinking, seeing, comporting: and this not, as our historical conception (misled by the term "Classicism") would have us believe, in a new sudden breaking-forth of buried forces, but as the temporal apparition-form of its unbroken efficacy reaching into the 18th century. This is the strange thing — and will still have to be appreciated in its particular significance — that only with the most perfectly classical man of the post-Christian era, with Napoleon, does the true force of antiquity, still working in living tradition, reach its end, only now sink to a formal educational resource. Up to that time, since the days of the oldest Hellas, the ancient spirit — in varying condensation and expansion — had been the living expression-form of the European spirit, always in immediate and unbroken tradition, without intellectual transmission or renewal on ground that had become foreign. The repeated revivals of classical educational elements — the Carolingian and the great Renaissance and what we are accustomed to call "Classicism" in the 18th century — all grew from a ground in which these educational elements were present not only in their material but still in their — admittedly weakened or distorted — apparition-forms. The 18th century, even before the classicist renewal setting in around mid-century, stood under the rule of classical tradition. State, society, and art are built upon its — if nationally and temporally modified — elements. The educational treasure from which all disciplines of life take their materials, models, and rules is antiquity. To other stages of the

past the thought of men around the turn of the 17th and 18th centuries does not reach back. (Charlemagne and perhaps Charles V remain merely personal, isolated memories, without entering the imagination as representatives of a culture, without their culture becoming the life-stuff of that age.) As an educational world — and it is the foundation of all life in the 17th and 18th centuries — only one exists: antiquity. Even the ending 17th and beginning 18th century — though perhaps to a lesser extent than the ending 18th — has the names of ancient models on its lips in all areas of life and builds the systems of its doctrines upon classical pre-forms. Public and private law, philosophy and military science know no other, especially no new-European, no national basis. Tragedy moves in a school-form that goes back to an abstract-misunderstood imitation of supposedly classical dramatic ground-rules — those of Aristotle. Indeed, the consciousness of the exemplary character of the one-time all-human ur-form, the classical world, rules all minds so thoroughly that the actual form of all action in this age is "imitation," and even the most creative talents quite automatically set their works within the given frame of classical ideas. Even the boldest and most daring spirits, the great French painters of the 17th and 18th centuries, tie their inspirations to some classical event or other. Think of Poussin and Lorrain — and even Watteau, who seems the most personal expression of his time, maintains classical tradition simply by letting his delicate and profound dreams rise from the social play-forms of the age: apart from the fact that there is hardly a picture of his where, despite all inclination toward the distant and foreign, even the chinoiserie masquerade, some emblem or symbolic remnant of ancient conception is not appended, even purely externally. All these considerations hold primarily for French culture of the age, but since in this epoch it was the exemplary stamp of all European culture, they will, with minor deviations, hold for that as well. For this investigation, however, only France comes into question as the operative base of the Napoleonic

phenomenon, and so these observations concerning its culture may suffice.

The Frenchman stands even before the onset of the new "classicist" movement beginning around mid-18th century in an unlost and firm classical tradition, which admittedly — omitted earlier for greater clarity — had to suffer now outward-swelling (Baroque), now extravagant (Rococo) deviations at the hands of the powerfully working national spirit. But the French national spirit could all the more firmly root itself even as such in classical tradition because it is not directed toward independent creation — which appears to it rather as something immoderate, barbaric — but toward representation and application, toward adaptation of already existing cultures, in a deeply grounded secondariness of being and experience. It needed a pre-form in and through which it could realize itself. "Imitation," which is so much the principle of its artistic doctrine and thereby of all European art at the beginning of the 18th century, represents merely the self-evident activation-form of these innermost conditions; and antiquity remains for it, even if it adapts antiquity to its national-temporal requirements, precisely thereby a necessary element of its own most proper life-effect. The movement of the later 18th century, which we call "Classicism," is, from the standpoint of French culture, precisely the attempt at liberation from this classicist-national narrowing of a mere culture of imitation. For these renewal endeavors, because no other educational element lay within men's horizon, no arbitrary historicism and no so-called "realia" were available as counter-forces, there could be only one goal and one path: the more bodily awakening of the same ur-form in which they always self-evidently and indissolubly stood: antiquity. Even Rousseau, who strives from a present he hates as artificial and corrupt toward an unconditional primal world, falls quite automatically back into the givenness of antiquity, cannot separate his utopian ideas and formations from the classical circle of ideas and education. Even for his designs, which aspire to a wholly new world, antiquity becomes the given ur-form. Even for his great purification of the age, it puts its

heroes and poets at his disposal as symbolizing figures. He seeks and finds — by drawing from Homer, from Plutarch, from Lucian the more private, more bourgeois, simply natural processes — a Greek and Roman identity that is meant to represent a more original, a purer form of existence than that which the degenerate, academic-artificial culture of the age had developed from the heroic-epic content of these writers. And precisely through striving from this tradition into another, completely renewed culture, he became one of the most effective renewers and purifiers also of the classical spirit for France of that time.

More essentially and with more deliberate endeavor and expression, however, Montesquieu had already tried to give his contemporaries a new and quickened vision of the classical spirit. He worked less from outside, less from the a priori calculated speculations of a human ideal state as Rousseau did, but — so far as was possible for a French spirit, always somewhat doctrinally bound — more for the sake of the object itself and proceeding from it, from the mere contemplation of antiquity and with the goal of restoring this human foundation purely once again. He seeks in this quickening not utility-values for a timeless-eudaimonistic improvement of mankind, but an origin-form of the national-temporal culture-spirit that he assumes as given. Admittedly, his illumination of the actual, original spirit of ancient state-orders sometimes flows into praise of bourgeois virtue and its prerequisites. But it only flows there; he goes the opposite way from Rousseau, comes from the givens of the classical educational world and its renewal to the foundations of a better world-order as their result, whereas Rousseau seeks in the given classical treasure of ideas the pre-forms of his a priori dogmas. Both, however, belong together as the most important and actual promoters of the temporal movement we call Classicism — a movement that for France has found its expression less in finished individual artistic creations than in the overall stance of state and society in the epoch. The Revolution and its social-ornamental pre- and accompanying forms — the style of Louis XVI, Directory, and Empire — are the apparitions in

which this movement essentially exhausts itself for France. The Revolution, seen as a spiritual expression-form, contains the elements of the new classicist swelling, the antique rejuvenation, that the mid-18th century had produced. But admittedly everything that in the 1750s and 1760s had been vision striving toward form, feeling pressing toward origin, had now succumbed to the national spiritual disposition, had become doctrinal thesis or rhetorical phrase. The great men of antiquity, who for a short time had really won something like the shimmer of a living figure from their classical-academic outlines — Caesar, Scipio, Cato, Brutus, Hannibal — had now already faded back into ideal schemata, bearers of attributes, and worked only as names, as showy disguises of a certainly refreshed memory for temporal doctrine and temporal sentiment. Likewise the renewed idea of Roman state-institutions and their human foundations had retreated into the hollow frame-concepts of ancient simplicity and civic virtue, just as a century earlier the age of the Régence had conjured its pompous dignity in the triumphator-mien and gestures of the Roman imperial era. The scarcely interrupted current of uniform French Classicism as an once-and-for-all valid expression-form of national culture had been taken up again. The idea of antiquity as renewed by Montesquieu, as still seized upon experientially here and there by Diderot, had not been able to assert itself against this current, not to implant itself in the consciousness of the wider nation.

The French national spirit is by disposition and origin a secondary Latinity. France preserves within itself the spiritual stance of the former Gallic imperial province, which drew its spiritual expression as a finished copy from the great center of the Empire. From this inheritance there remained to it for the whole duration of its history the unfreedom to develop an autochthonous national culture, the inner bondage to social tradition. It was ever incapable of bringing forth primary creations from its own womb, and was instead permanently directed toward the reception and brilliant exploitation of already formed cultural values. Its entry into European history fixed the

spiritual development of the nation for all time. Roman culture as it received as a province within the framework and according to the receptive capacities of such — a diluted, formulated, and adapted classicism — is the spiritual expression it could never shed. Hence the nation this time in the 18th century, as already earlier during the Renaissance — quite unlike the peoples of Germany, Italy, England, capable of more original formations — falls back at once from the first upsurge and swelling of a renewed antiquity into the derived form of classical culture assigned to it. The quickened intoxication with ancient culture reached only a few of its leading spirits. Only Montesquieu, Diderot, Rousseau, Voltaire, and those nearest them grasped something of the renewed content of the old world, felt something of the being and essence of the Roman statesman and citizen, or even of the Greek poet and artist. Only to them did these enter the imagination as personal apparition, only to them did Roman state-institutions become visible formations of a foreign, great, self-grown culture, while for the nation as a whole, under the compulsion of the secondary-Latin cultural current, they could realize themselves in their renewed form only as the accustomed national imprint or as rhetorical example, and thus soon continued the predetermined classicist national tradition in modified form. Not Tacitus but Cicero, not the actual presentation and vision of the historian but the useful and ornamental preparation of the rhetorician — through these the renewed antiquity became accessible to the wider French educational circle. Not Montesquieu, not Diderot, not even Rousseau

III. THE CLASSICAL BLOOD

...gods," the reference to Napoleon gives it a more essential meaning. Napoleon's eye measures the things of the world with its inborn standard and therefore glides unmoved over the phenomena of the ephemeral environment, in which the lesser man must each time seek his standard anew in a new orientation. In this difference of the eye lies expressed the opposition of two types: the spiritual, factually engaged, inwardly concentrated — as perfected only antiquity developed it — and the outwardly radiated, peripherally oriented — as it is the result and mark of modernity. "The characteristic of the earth-gods" points toward the first type. That this word means for the author not merely a general trope or pompous circumlocution of worldly power-position, but includes the idea of a most highly intensified humanity, is proved by the use of the same expression at the just recalled passage where he speaks, with reference to Caesar and Napoleon, of the "feeling of power of an earth-god who can summon harmony out of chaos." It remains strange that the author wants to find this type realized in the "noble princes" of his epoch. The enlightened absolute monarch of the classicist era may have absorbed some of the gifts of perfected classical humanity through his education and may have sometimes developed approaches to a type of this kind, but he never realized its true being, let alone its definitive expression as apparition; he never bore "the characteristic of the earth-gods" — that is, the visible signs of the spirit descended to earth, become flesh — upon himself. This bold and beautiful formula — let it be especially noted for the author — encompasses a deeper, a more spiritual reality than belongs to the prince of this time, signifies almost the same as that rapturous word of Hegel at the sight of the Emperor in Jena: "I saw the Emperor — this world-soul — riding out of the city on reconnaissance" — a word that still always shakes us through the enormity, the immediacy, with which it lets the spiritual step into the world of the bodily: a word that could spring only from a German's imagination. Down to our

own day, the ancient hero is the only true realization of this earth-divinity. It is his features, not those of a classicist prince, that Napoleon bears. Compare the unambiguously clear consciousness of his eye, the undistracted closedness of his head, in contrast to the many-times-illuminated eye, the furrowed features of the greatest prince of classicist education-time, Frederick — who, capable of manifold interpretation, did not realize that ultimate unity of the heroic man.

Other observers too find in the form and mien of Napoleon's face his earth-divine, his heroic-classical perfection and originality vividly expressed. Especially eye and forehead seem in a definitively impressive way to have expressed the fullness and closedness of a perfected inner world. A member of his court says: "Genius and power throned on his broad and high forehead. His forehead alone would have sufficed to express what in another the whole physiognomy conveys. Lightnings shot from his eyes and revealed all his thoughts. But when the serene calm of his spirit was not disturbed, then the most amiable smile lit this beautiful face and lent it an unfathomable charm, such as I have seen in no other man before. Then it was impossible to see him without loving him." Here then, in his forehead alone is perceived the full expressive power of a whole personality, in his eye the immediate reflection of his inner world, and in the equilibrium-state of his being that trait of smiling movement that made the face a compulsion to love for everyone who saw it, thereby lifting it above the impression-power of all other men.

To this charm the German poet also succumbed, who says: "A smile that warmed and calmed every heart hovered about his lips... It was an eye clear as the sky, it could read in the hearts of men, it saw all things of this world at once, while we others see them only one after another and in their colored shadows. The forehead was not so clear. On it nested the spirits of future battles, and now and then a twitch crossed this forehead, and these were the creating thoughts, the great seven-league boots with which the Emperor's spirit strides over the world." And the

observer who knew him since earliest youth gave the unsurpassable formulation to the feeling shared by all: "When this smile was occasioned by any noble feeling, however, his face assumed a superhuman expression. In such moments the man was no longer man." This essential power, exceeding human capacity, not expressible within the human, would within the Christian-ethicizing circle of ideas tend toward the beings of the heavenly sphere, the angel say; within the worldly-sensuous sphere, however, it would mean the hero of antique stamp. And it is he indeed who hides behind the far-reaching words of this enthusiastic description. The authoress — solely through the effort to express the inexpressible of the overwhelming apparition — hits upon that watchword of the new philosopher ("superhuman"), in which he, long after her, summarized the highest concept of man and proclaimed it to new-European humanity as its law. But this word and this law he did not draw from insubstantial fantasy: it was for him filled with the figure and spirit of the ancient hero, whom he first experienced again in original essentiality. And this experience was nourished for him by the stamp that this figure and this spirit had found for his eyes in modernity — was nourished by the apparition of Napoleon, as he confesses in the "Genealogy of Morals": "The ancient ideal itself stepped bodily and with unheard-of splendor before the eye and conscience of humanity — and once more, stronger, simpler, more penetrating than ever, there rang out, against the old lying watchword of resentment of the privilege of the many, against the will to lowliness, to abasement, to the downward and westward of man, the terrible and delightful counter-watchword of the privilege of the fewest! Like a last signpost to the other way appeared Napoleon, that most solitary and latest-born man that ever existed, and in him the incarnate problem of the noble ideal as such — consider well what a problem it is: Napoleon, this synthesis of the inhuman and the superhuman." This problem glows from the words of the description reproduced above. It was — Nietzsche has hardly known this description — given in the bodily apparition of Napoleon. Nietzsche's spiritual vision is

anticipated and justified by the eye-impression of that female observer.

Already in Napoleon's beginnings, the approaches of this highest human formation broke through for those whose gaze understood human nature. One of his future marshals describes him to us before Toulon. Even then eye and forehead vividly radiate the main powers of his inner being outward, but, it seems, still less condensed into unity than separated in individual expression: the eye more the passionately youthful life-movement, the forehead more greatness and dignity of the inner designs. Yet the whole of the face, the noble restraint of the features and its color — or rather colorlessness — give the face its closedness and balanced unity, from which those heroic ground-endowments in eye and forehead — passion and spirituality — emerge all the more powerfully and each enhancing the other. "His features had an unusual nobility; the pallor peculiar to his face heightened the glow of his eyes, which shot flames from the depth of their sockets; the thoughtful earnest stamped upon his powerful forehead formed to his youth a strange but impressive contrast. There was something mysterious in this man." The "mysterious" that determined the overall impression of even the youthful Napoleon seems, according to the words of the report, to have had its ultimate ground in the fact that the most opposed life-powers met in extreme intensification in Napoleon's head. But highest passionateness and deepest spirituality — though they seem unbridgeable in men of lesser degree — are precisely in their interpenetrating unity the fundamental prerequisite of genius, of the heroic, of the all-sided man. Others too sense as the "wonder of his face" the "force au repos," the "grandeur dans la quiétude." What makes these impressions into riddle and wonder is that they meet an age for which the bound all-sidedness of heroic expression is no longer visible as reality, but known only as pictorial outline and intellectual representation — that a figure of immediately ancient stamp steps into a derived classicist present. Precisely the equilibrium of seemingly opposing life-elements — "force in the state of rest" and

"greatness in the expression of restraint" — constitutes the sublime effect of the perfected humanity we admire in the statues of classical antiquity. The balanced interpenetration of passionate sensuousness and spiritual binding is the driving germ of all plastic art, whose definitive stage was ancient sculpture. Sculpture is the prescribed expression of heroic being, its inborn representational form. Therefore Canova unconsciously hits the right, fulfills only a human and artistic ground-law — where he thinks he is creating a new artistic expression, a new school-form, when he wants to develop a heroic style in sculpture. Sculpture is the heroic style. Therefore he can rightly say that he found in Napoleon's figure the ground-endowments of plastic form already present. As Napoleon realizes in himself the nature and structure of the heroic type, he necessarily also bears its perfected form, bears the cut and features of the ancient type on his body. It cannot fail that the eye of his contemporaries — accustomed in their greatest apparitions at most to the unfilled outline, the suggested sketch of a classical facial formation — noticed the elementary bodily form of the classical that confronted them here, as such, as the origin-type falling out of and surpassing the temporal form.

Thus he remained unforgettable throughout his life to the German poet who in his youth saw the Emperor riding down the Hofgartenallee in Düsseldorf, and it symbolized for him the heroic-half-divine nature and mission of the Emperor. In the Book *Le Grand* it says: "The face also had that color we find in marble Greek and Roman heads; its features were likewise nobly measured, like those of the antiques, and on this face was written: You shall have no other gods but me." The consistent reports of his daily surroundings convey the same impression: "His profile and the totality of his features were of remarkable regularity. In a word, his head and upper body yielded nothing in nobility and dignity to the most beautiful busts bequeathed us by antiquity." And a description seeking the antique form in the details of his facial formation: "The profile of his forehead, the hollow of his eye, the line of his nose — all that is beautiful and

remembers perfectly the ancient medals." In the republican-classicist usage of the Directory, the same impression appears, in a strange twist, as a similarity precisely with the Caesar-conspirators. "How should I convey to you the expression of Bonaparte's head? his painter Appiani said to me," it says in that Parisian placard of June 1798 already mentioned (page 48), "it encompasses the characteristic of the heads of all the Caesar-conspirators. He has several Bruti in him." Remarkable here is also the emphatic reference to the impression of a fullness of individual forces in the one head, to the supraindividual scope of his personality-expression. It recalls the just reproduced notation of that other witness who ascribed to his forehead alone the expressive power of a whole physiognomy.

But the actual bodily pre-apparition of Napoleon among all figures of antiquity remains — and is recognized as such very soon by those gifted with a more spiritual eye — that in which the heroic ground-form of antiquity has united with a luminous spiritual consciousness into an eternal symbol of the ruler: that of Augustus. Just as by itself in Canova's Napoleon statue the features of Augustus break through, so in the gallery, before the statue of Augustus, beholders stand struck by the head of the Consul or Emperor that looks at them from the ancient work of art. In Reichardt's notes it says: "At my morning devotions today in the Gallery of the Antiques I made the not-insignificant discovery that the colossal statue of Augustus has a quite strikingly similar feature with Bonaparte. It is the fine sardonic smile that must have been as fixed and permanent in Augustus as one always sees it on Bonaparte's lips; otherwise the Roman artist would surely not have given it to his imperial head. This was once found in Velletri, the homeland of Augustus, and is generally recognized as genuine. The rest of the face, to be sure, is different from that of the new Augustus, but yet not at all contradictory." Also the worldly-wise and humanly knowing Princess Pauline of Lippe, spiritual kinswoman of Duchess Luise of Weimar, noted during her stay in Paris: "Napoleon bears a striking resemblance to several busts of Augustus, especially one

in the Museum." In a strange way, Reichardt's critic, who with such penetrating gaze had read from Napoleon's features his essentially classical human type, goes astray from this palpable impression. Where he seeks to determine the concrete form of the classical pre-apparition, he lets himself be seduced by the strongest peculiarity of Napoleon's head-formation — his forceful chin — into likening Napoleon to another Emperor, Domitian, who with a roughly similar general ground-plan of the face also exhibits precisely this particularity.

THE CLASSICAL SPIRIT

What made the apparition of Napoleon for the classicist world an incomprehensible wonder, for the classical artist an unattainable ideal image, was that he bore the classical trait not — like many a great man of the time — as an acquired adjunct, as a personal note, but as a ground-element — a ground-element that by its nature precisely excluded the personal differentiation of the modern type and brought to expression only the suprapersonal form of objective human values, as the ancient man realized them. In the age of the last classicism, which had begun to dissolve ancient lawfulness from its late dilution into society wholly into individual chaos, this suprapersonally closed type had to work, conversely, as the most personal of all, as a violation of the generally valid temporal character by an individual formation. The classical means unity of form and content, body and spirit. The classical type shows only the great suprapersonal outlines, because it has to embody an elementary humanity, not personally narrowed or overgrown. As to the contemporary eye the external type, so to the Spirit of the Age the spiritual type Napoleon was monstrous and ungraspable. In an age concluding the ancient tradition, using it in secondary derivative forms, Napoleon stands as the man of originally ancient essentiality; in an epoch that heroizes man in conceptual and pictorial abstractions — the heroic man himself. A historian from the middle of the century, who already then undertook to interpret Napoleon's work spiritually, found the beautiful formula: "In the heart of modern

civilization, the deification of the ancient heroes once more took place. They became demi-gods because tradition heaped upon their head all the great and beautiful things that whole ages had accomplished. Napoleon is a hero of myth." This deification, this mythicizing, is however only possible where a hero, a man of universally valid measures, of a scope of being exists that condenses in itself the content of all other essences and has raised it to lawfulness. Therefore antiquity — in which the individual is always initially expression and bearer of a folk-whole and strives to develop in himself the type-representing and elevating essential endowments — is the given, the sole ground of true heroism. Modernity, in which the individual from century to century more and more seeks his validity as a personally conditioned particular being, offers from itself no foundation for the rise and even the reception of a hero. In this respect one can speak of the ancient as of a properly and essentially heroic type of humanity; in this respect, antique, classical, and heroic are in a certain sense synonyms. If Napoleon, as that historian rightly says, was once more capable and partook of such mythicizing in the heart of modern civilization, this lies precisely in the fact that he was not of modern-personal but of suprapersonal-heroic, of ancient essential stuff.

IV. THE CLASSICAL SPIRIT

...the representation of the sitter with Augustus is weakened and the bodily Napoleon is realized more closely and penetratingly through the ancient statue of Augustus than through his own. There is no stronger proof that Canova did not piece together details of the Augustus image into an ideal picture of Napoleon, but that all the essential traits of Augustus that his Napoleon statue exhibits stem from his living original, the Emperor himself, and that he, as the artists of the classicist epoch always did, took away more from the forceful origin-expression of antiquity — in which a primordial humanity here embodied itself — than he added, in order to attain his intellectually diluted ideal schema of it. Where the artists more strongly assert their personal dispositions against this ideal schema, surrender themselves more independently to the great present-day expression of the hero — as Houdon in his famous bust of the Emperor and the makers of the above-mentioned portrait-sketches from nature — the origin-peculiarly total expression of the Augustan head immediately emerges more strongly than in Canova's antique-style statue. Canova himself repeatedly testified orally how perfectly the formation of Napoleonic forms fulfilled the conditions of plastic creation — that creation which he called the heroic, because it was to realize for him the classical model of unconditional human greatness. His biographer reports on this: "Canova loved to say that he found in the features and facial formation of his original the forms most suitable for statuary representation and most usable for the heroic style of the figure as he planned it."

Through the art of drawing and sculpture, Napoleon's figure has been transmitted to us most nearly and completely. Painting has done justice to his image only to a very limited degree. The art of drawing had from itself the advantage of more immediate proximity to reality over painting. But sculpture in this respect has hardly any advantage over painting. If nonetheless it has come as close to the true image of Napoleon as drawing has,

while painting has not, this must have a yet deeper ground, rooted in the nature of the various visual arts — a ground that the cited judgments of David and Canova indicate. By its nature, painting is not capable of capturing and holding ancient substance. The painterly and the classical are two elements that separate like oil and water; painting can as little be the likeness of the classical as the ring can be the likeness of a sphere. For this reason too, painting had to be denied the ability to grasp and reproduce the last, true antique ur-being-content of Napoleon. But even to capture his modern apparition-form, it was not capable. A painterly style that should reflect the impression of an essentiality of Napoleon's kind relatively unabridged cannot be conjured out of the ground. This would have required the art to fall back on a Giottoesque ethos — that of a Piero della Francesca. Painting can only give the atmosphere of a thingliness, not the thing itself. And Napoleon was too isolated an apparition for his person to have found its expression already in his time in the style of painting and to have transformed this style according to its true being. Only a considerable time after his death did something of his atmosphere communicate itself to painterly style under the hands of Delacroix — but also only something of his atmosphere, the air-circle of his surroundings, not the density of his own being. All the painters who sought to shape his personal bearing or gesture during his lifetime must, the more they grasped his being, have become the more aware of the limits and conditioning of their art. Through the artistic means of color, only the semblance of essentiality can be given, its mirroring in the eye, not its invisible but feelable core (which poetry and also sculpture can accomplish). Thus the painters of that epoch were from the outset directed to make less the peculiarities themselves of his outer body than the shimmering frame of his peripheral apparition — uniform, decor, accessories — the object of their artistic striving. But even in the reproduction of these things, in which the painterly style of an epoch most properly manifests itself, their artistic impotence shows itself.

Where it is not a matter of representing the central phenomenon of the age and its particular atmosphere, but of general events and apparitions of the time for which a constant typical artistic expression still existed — as in the conventional glorifications of battles, equestrian and women's portraits — these artists by all means maintain the height of their task; something like a unitary, supraprivate total style impresses itself in their works. Here the unexhausted sources of force of earlier cultural epochs — of Baroque and Rococo — still serve them, which had created and transmitted for these events and apparitions a social, yet still unbourgeois, life-sustaining, and thus truly artistic expression. But where a new suprapersonal temporal expression is being prepared, where the life-circle of the heroic ruler sets tasks of indeed also typical, yet from his creative power swollen breadth — for which in any case all external prerequisites and promises (developed technical artistic means, highly endowed commissions, and the immortal content of the theme) were given — there, naturally, their artistic incapacity to create for the unitary suprapersonal life-formation a binding artistic expression, a "style," emerges shamefully; each artist suddenly stands with his particular conditioning alone in artistic airlessness. The spiritualization of which they are capable, upon contact with the elementary spirit, falls apart into a helplessness that reveals their wretched person with its inadequate technical striving. Even the most eminent among them — a David, a Gros, an Ingres — have in the struggle for the solution of this task diminished the total value of their work, regardless that they were borne by true admiration, indeed by passionate veneration, for the hero of their work. They misunderstood the impossibility of the demand they wanted to fulfill — an impossibility that had a deeper ground than this inadequacy of their person, let alone of their artistic abilities.

One must recall the pious admonitory words of the German poet, with which he denied his far more expressive and personally almost boundless verbal art the attempt to utter the ungraspable force of the new genius:

Holy vessels are the poets,
In which the wine of life, the spirit
Of heroes is preserved.
But the spirit of this youth —
Would it not smash the vessel,
The swift one, where it would grasp him?
Let the poet leave him untouched,
Like the spirit of nature.
On such stuff the master becomes a boy.
He should live and remain in the poem?
He lives and remains in the world.

These verses of the seer-spirit Hölderlin mean more than a trope of glorification. They set the sacred measure of things, which the balanced, self-certain sense may not overstep: the natural breadth and fullness of the hero, which no ordered art-creation can attain. From painterly reproduction it is removed many times further than from the other arts, because painting has the least means to approach the substance of the apparitions themselves, while conversely the seer-poet stands closest to it, since the word is at once the most contentful and most expressive artistic means. Drawing and formative art hold approximately the middle between them. Therefore even those painters who failed so utterly before the Napoleonic phenomenon in their finished works were able, in studies and sketches, to attain a more essential expression of his person, a higher degree of artistic perfection. Among the visual arts, however, sculpture represents the direct opposite of painting. Where the latter strives to capture the charm of the moment, of color and light, and to that extent belongs to the circle of romantic soul-movement, sculpture struggles for the eternity-content in its bodily givenness: is from itself classical, sensuously elementary. This is what Canova means when in his above-cited utterance he speaks of the

immanent suitability of Napoleon's bodily forms for sculpture and the "heroic style." Hence the masters of sculpture were never exposed to the same perils before the apparition of Napoleon as those of painting. While Napoleon's figure pressed down the level of painterly art, indeed burst and dissolved the genre, here it is able to help anonymous, indeed purely handicraft attempts to the breath of mastery. The space and time of his appearing are connected, as with a fading of the painterly, with a brief revival of plastic art. The most concentrated content, the most immediate element of Napoleonic being, seems captured in the coins and medals of his time. In struck metal, in cut stone, his image — since he became a figure of European public life and soon its center — experiences, beyond all other representations, an intensification into the essential, which under the hand of a Galle, Droz, Bresset comes very close to his completed expression, his typical form. This proves that among all image-forms, striking and cutting are the most appropriate to the givens of his apparition, that being-content and expression have interpenetrated in it to that final unambiguousness, that symbolic-quality of a type of thought, which is the goal and ground-form of the striking and cutting art. His bodiliness is not only, as Canova says, sculptural and heroic (which we have called "classical") pure and simple, but in its concentrated and representative part — his head — all this at the stage of perfection: symbolically monumental of the kind of coin and gem. "His profile gives," as David expresses it, "by itself a perfectly finished medal or cameo." More than that of Caesar — indeed, in Christian times only one head, that of Dante — was his predestined for enduring stamping. His features are plastic ur-forms, such as from historical men only Alexander and a few Julians were granted.

THE CLASSICAL TYPE NAPOLEON: REPORTS

Works of art only reproduce what the living eye of knowledgeable beholders saw, and reproduce it with all the attenuation conditioned by the humanly and artistically limited personality of

their creators. Canova and David, in their oral utterances, struck precisely the essential core of Napoleon's apparition, while in their work they only more or less approached it. "Sculptural" and "heroic," as Canova says, "medal- and cameo-cut," as David says, are unchallengeable characterizations of his bodily essentiality, definitive formulations of the artistic impression that these masters were able to shape only suggestively. To their person and time it was not given to capture perfectly in material the ancient man who suddenly stepped before them, to renew him bodily in bronze or marble: but in the more mobile word, in those highest and definitive generic designations, the natural re-existence of the ancient type — for whose artistic reawakening they labored a whole generation — stamped itself completely and unconditionally. And even that formula of school-jargon with which David introduces his rapturous exclamation to his pupils — the "pure, great, beautiful like antiquity" — gains in application to Napoleon, and precisely from his being, another, more factual meaning than it had according to the general understanding of the time. In these adjectives, which are the extreme expression of what the powerless school-language offered for the characterization of a bodily ancient apparition, are hidden — admittedly emptied — the husks of those comprehensively simple descriptive words with which the ancient authors designated the far-stretched but factually condensed, the elementary and wholly unsentimental being of their heroes. They are the afterglow of the key-words of a Plutarch and Livy for Alexander, Caesar, and Hannibal. Thus even they, so discolored and abstracted as they are, are a reflex of the classical origin-type stepping mightily and unpreparedly among classicist humanity.

That this was their deeper meaning, even if unconscious to the speaker — that Napoleon at his first sight actually realized the great objective, feeling-wise not yet decomposed endowments of the ancient heroes, and precisely thereby threw out of countenance the men of his time who strove toward antiquity more from a sentimental than from a spiritual drive — this is proved by the effect he produced on one of David's pupils who

saw him for the first time, on the occasion of that sitting. "Etienne," as the historian of the David school describes this encounter from the latter's recollections, "was first struck by Napoleon's youth, thinking of all he had already accomplished, but an attentive observation let him perceive in the facial features of this man an extraordinary reserve... Bonaparte looked attentively, without letting his impressions be recognized in his face in the least, at the two paintings, 'The Horatii' and 'Brutus,' one after the other. The only feeling that appeared in his expression was a certain impatience, such as one feels when one senses that one is wasting one's time uselessly." Without any leaning on classicist models and formulas, an attempt is made here to reproduce the actual impression the informant received. And one recognizes already from the uncertainly strange circumlocutions how alien and extraordinary this impression must have been — that here a new and unknown essentiality surpassed all the accustomed ideas of the beholder. His cultivated and moderated spirit, to whom social participation and devotion was the self-evident foundation of all life, scarcely found words for the inaccessibility and impenetrability that confronted him in Napoleon. The "extraordinary reserve" only faintly indicates what he wants to say. But the twice-emphasized absence of any expression of feeling (except that of impatience) in Napoleon's features leaves no doubt as to wherein the actually strange aspect of the apparition lay. This impenetrability and inaccessibility: these were, in the midst of a world wholly attuned to stimulus, peripherally radiated — the endowments and signs of another kind of humanity, gathered inward, factually and sensuously engaged — precisely that whose definitive apparition-form was the ancient man.

More completely and immediately in bodily expression, the musician Reichardt — trained by Goethe, and granted by his critic Julius von Voss, for the sake of this school, a particular reliability of human observation and description — captured these endowments: "The sharply taut skin is as much olive-color as yellow, without the least trace of blood-color and without

noticeable mobility." What stretches the skin so firmly and — as other observers say — almost fleshlessly over the bones, is the intense fire of will that holds the whole man core-like together, consumes all forces in itself, and permits no swelling or fleshing-out. What produces its indeterminable color, its "pâleur" or colorlessness, as others clumsily say — and its almost complete immobility — is the inaccessibility to the ephemeral stimulus-phenomena of the outer world, the deep absorption, the impenetrability of his inner world. In him, in truth, outer and inner are one: nothing accidental shows itself, nothing about him that is not determined and formed by his being; he has nothing essential that has not expressed itself bodily in him. How the skin is described here — its tautness, the indeterminability of its bronze tone, its immobility — this amounts to the idea of something statuary, as a type of living humanity was realized only once, only in the ancient man, who brought in himself a perfect world of most mobile life to impenetrable unity and balanced bodily expression. All this remains unsaid beneath the surface in Reichardt's description. He keeps himself, an anxious pupil of his great master, only to the immediately visible and describable. Thus even the most central and most proper organ of genius — his eye — betrays to him nothing definitive about his essentiality. He relates all sorts of details about it, which, incoherent, lead astray as a whole. Only with the "gray inconspicuousness," as he somewhat clumsily tries to render the color of the eye, does he hit something right, without however being able to give this unsettling strangeness a deeper interpretation. It finds, with an astonishing sureness of intuition, his already mentioned critic. This otherwise insignificant writer, notable more for the number than the value of his novels, has here, as happens to secondary minds occasionally, risen upon an imperfect model to insights that otherwise lie far beyond his spiritual horizon. In his "Illumination of the Confidential Letters about France by Mr. J. F. Reichardt," from which an astonishing, almost visionary word about Napoleon's heroic essentiality was already communicated above (p. 110), he remarks on Reichardt's

description of Napoleon's eye: "I found the eye neither too small nor unfiery, but very interesting through this: that the characteristic of the earth-gods lies so perfectly in it, as if Bonaparte had been born from the cradle for a high throne. In the eye of noble princes without exception, whether otherwise beautifully organized or not, lies a great indifference, a half-strength of all interest and passionateness." Again it is remarkable what unusual circumlocutions the author must use to clarify his impression. "The great indifference and half-strength of all interest and passionateness," which is supposed to lie in the eye of all noble princes, recalls the "extraordinary reserve" with which that pupil of David circumscribed his impression of Napoleon's being. This strange turn of phrase, according to its nearest literal sense, was certainly meant only to designate the inaccessibility of the courtly prince, but the context, the combination with "the characteristic of the earth-gods," the relation to Napoleon, gives it a more essential meaning.

V. THE CLASSICAL TYPE NAPOLEON: PICTORIAL REPRESENTATION

The originally classical human formation that Paoli recognized in Napoleon, whose essential traits his teachers at least found in him, could not have been overlooked in an age that had more eye for the external appearance of a man. Every being and willing expresses itself in the well-organized man somehow in his bodily form. The constitution of soul and spiritual disposition must, in a man who lives, thinks, and acts from a totality, in whom all organs participate in whatever he does, also come to visible appearance in the great central means of expression — the countenance. This is precisely the antique way: the living-together and interpenetration of spirit, soul, body, whose separating conceptualization first became a device of Hellenistic thought and thereafter an educational device and operative life-foundation of the Christian ages. But Napoleon still stands with body, soul, and spirit in the old, classical human unity. Earlier sections showed with what immediacy spiritual and psychic excitation passes bodily outward in him, what immediate power conversely the bodily capacity and comportment exerts on his inner forces, how unconditionally and unremittingly he is subject to the compulsion of this spiritual-bodily bond. It could not fail that the enduring participation of his bodily appearance in his spiritual accomplishment, and of his spirit in every sort of bodily doing, should penetrate into a realization of his inner being in expression, that his classical, his classically unified human formation should, after the manner of the ancient man, create its unambiguous form in the features of his face.

We possess from his youth pictorial representations by his schoolmates, born from an indubitably personal, uninfluenced impression, which capture the antique-simple and antique-unified greatness of his being more truly and naturally than many of the later portraits created by significant artists, yet always with the consciousness of their particular artistic purpose. First, there is a caricature by the hand of an unknown schoolfellow, showing him

with distorted bodily and facial forms, as he wants to hasten to the aid of his revered homeland-hero Paoli but is held back by a teacher at his pigtail. For all its distortion, for all the awkwardness of the drawing, and precisely in contrast to it, one is surprised how — with merely natural instinct — it captures something of the classical-elementary formation of Napoleon's being. The eye, drawn fully forward into the corner, seems to carry an unyielding energy toward a specific goal, an impression strengthened by the uniformly oblique line of forehead and nose. The mouth tightly compressed, the chin immeasurably lengthened, complete the expression of wild determination in the eye with one of self-confident unshakeability. Through the unifying slant of forehead and nose, through the vertical line connecting mouth and chin, the drawing already hints at something of the simply clear greatness of the features that in later years would give Napoleon's head the stamp of the classical. It is admittedly obvious that the unbroken transition of forehead into nose — the conventional mark of the classical type — did not in reality correspond to Napoleon's individual form. The nose set off from the forehead rather with an aquiline curve. The young schoolfellow probably made a virtue of his lack of drawing ability and sought to render the classicism that was darkly present to him in the heroic origin-form of Napoleon's face, but not depictable, through the generally valid expression of even-featured classicism.

How a deeper classicism, a more essential, more inward content of ancient human formation belonged to the personal, the individual facial formation of Napoleon — this speaks from the second drawing, an excellent portrait-sketch by his schoolfellow Pontormini from 1785. There the eye is indeed not strained with wild eagerness for action, but directed forward with a calmly open gaze, the nose set off strongly from the gently rounded forehead, bent forward with moderate curve, the mouth not so exaggeratedly compressed but the lips slightly parted, revealing the upper lip in its very delicate, later world-bewitching curve, the chin alone pressing forward with stronger emphasis of

energy. The overall impression, however — in a youthfulness that very convincingly only hints at future formations — shows thoroughly a deeper consciousness, a personal spirituality in its individually particular apparition-form, shows the great, unusual cut of the features as embodiment, as radiation of an inner self unfolding powerfully: and in this interpenetration of a greatly disposed outer and inner, the closed image-form, the secure, unwavering repose-in-itself of the classical human unity. Yet the details of the facial formation — the lines of nose, lip, and chin — still hold too firmly to the original passionateness of tribal origin for that measure and balance of classical portrait-quality to appear in them already, which about fifteen years later would break forth in Napoleon's face like a miracle, that of Augustus. It is another classicism, a classicism of the spirit, that this youthful facial formation expresses: a classicism wholly foreign to his epoch, to the faded, diluted Classicism, and last realized with the great and violent new outbreak of ancient world-forces in the Renaissance. The great willfulness, which naturally reigns over the firmly self-contained and closed unity of being and presses outward with power in nose and chin, is the sign of an ancient humanity that wants to realize itself anew in a rebirth. Like a softened outline, a muted breath from the great profile of Dante — in whose tremendous head the classical genius won its new-European formative power and stamped its apparition-form — it lies over the features of this apparition.

Eleven years later — and the correspondence, the emergence of the Dantean content in Napoleon's countenance, is unmistakable. We have an engraving made in Milan during the Italian campaign by an unknown hand. There the great compulsion of will that makes Dante's heroic facial formation unforgettable emerges mightily in the forceful projection of nose and chin, the pressing gaze from the darkly arched eye, and the extraordinary emphasis with which the cheekbones seem to burst forth under the taut skin of the fleshless, gaunt face: all as if sealed by the sharply cut lips held together in impenetrable closure. This portrait works in its details and in its overall impression indeed like the

rejuvenated resumption, advanced by several ages, of the great facial features of the creative usherer-in of the Renaissance. To doubt the reliability of its representation there is no reason. It is supported by the previously mentioned portraits, and precisely those features that constitute the essential sameness with the Dantean facial cut are attested again and again in the written descriptions of the time: the prominence of nose, chin, and cheekbones under a taut-stretched skin that seems to lack all flesh, "l'air maladif, chétif, misérable" — a characterization meant to convey "the hollow look," but also understood as dark wildness, such as fancy attributes to Italian bandits. All that the engraving contains in its own way, and it is legitimized from the outset by deviating from the mass of banal general-portrayals that most products of the time offer, and by clearly striving for individual forms.

In this face, which awakens the deepest Dantean traits of being, there remains nevertheless its temporal and human particularity, which gives it the character of "rejuvenation," or better almost "tempering by the age." The imperious and unbending will-to-form that drives Dante's facial formations outward more mightily than any others known to us, so that they work like a violent symbol not only of his inner being but of the great temporal movement he inaugurates and represents — in Napoleon's countenance on this engraving this does not have the equally overpoweringly symbolic expression of world-forming force, nor the equally unyielding world-judge severity of the gaze, nor the equally violent forward-burst of nose and chin, nor the equally deep-shadowed cave-like setting of the eye. Everything — gaze and eye, nose and chin — is more drawn inward by a restraining total power, more pulled into itself, more brought to a secret inner equilibrium of forces, a reciprocally conditioning measure — the truly "classical." This surprises at first. One would rather seek in the twenty-seven-year-old genius of a commander, just entering his first great deed-eruption moving the world, an intensification of all these forces and their bodily expression — unbridled wildness, imperious severity, hardness of will — than

this tempering of the Dantean measure. One might think the milder spirit, the gentler gaze of the classicistically attuned age, the softer hand, the thinner soul of the artist formed in it had shrunk before the full terribleness of the apparition. One may not assume this. The milder, weaker, classicistically smoothed spirit of age and artist is for our eye thoroughly legible from a portrait in its weakening and smoothing effects: they realize themselves in a quite specifically toned manner of expression and form-giving, without being able to falsify the depicted being beyond recognition. We possess from the classicist epoch itself a Dante portrait that, through all the softening reformulation in the taste of the age and despite the artist's meager talent, still lets us recognize every essential trait of Dante as transmitted by Giotto's picture in its core. The expression, the tone, is softened, but not the being-content that causes the bodily formation and expresses itself in it. In Napoleon's head, as the engraving of 1796 reproduces it, on the other hand, it is not only that the essential expression of Dante is attenuated and softened, not only that the tone of the mien-language is altered; rather, despite all direction of the features toward the Dantean ground-form, a change of inner measures lies here. The face is indeed, understood in the most general sense, "more classical" than Dante's, classically purer: nose and chin, gaze and eye have not undergone formal smoothing and softening, but they express, as said, an inner equilibrium, an inner measure, an inner taming that one will certainly not feel as greater, but perhaps as lighter and less violently achieved than in Dante's features, in which the most vehement storms of the inner seem only just to grip each other with the last effort and hold together in the image.

As strange as it may sound, this face, and the being of Napoleon truthfully realized through it, possesses in truth a more easily acquired and more freely commanding equilibrium than Dante's. The opposition of ages, better the progression of temporal stages, works here primarily. It is not a world to be newly formed, not the world of the antiquity to be reborn, but the already formed, all-sidedly developed world of the classical spirit become new-

European culture, into which Napoleon was born. He is not, does not need to be first the creator of this — the classically renewed life-form of the European man, is not its shaper. The tremendous eruptive force that alone produces such a shaper-capacity does not strike in him in this direction, not toward the side of new-creation of a human and cultural type. He is rather its perfected realization, the representation of original classicism in new-European expression, and his ur-formative activity goes in the direction of giving this primary human form, perfected in him, supraindividual general validity, universal validity through establishment in the expression of state power. This too — and precisely this is ur-formative activity, namely the proper one of the classical man, insofar as it means the corporeal making-visible and general symbolization of the individual human type. Therefore his face does not realize the hard breakthrough-force with which, in the figure of the seer-poet, one world-age presses into another — that of new-European ur-forces into that of classical human form — but rather the formative force already dwelling within this newly conquered classical human form itself, whose ownmost part it is to make on the level of equilibrium its own well-poised measure the measure of the world. Therefore all passionate will-to-realization, all original drive-to-actualization is absorbed in Napoleon's countenance into the deep equilibrium of his forms, into the firm restraint of his features, in which his unwaveringly self-contained inner being has its visible expression. This gives him that pure and primary classicism in which the well-balanced measure of the formations is not yet emptied of its nourishing, driving origin-fire, but appears precisely as its inborn and inwardly aglow life-form. The classicism captured in the Renaissance and its great awakener Dante is in its essential content renewing life-glut; Napoleon's is a life-mastering spiritualized force in which that glow still works vividly enough to make it creative.

This radiation of the classical type in Napoleon, in which the Dantean fire has been struck into a luminous consciousness, is captured in a strangely convincing way by a portrait-sketch we

owe to the hand of the painter Gros. He made it in November 1796 in Milan as a preliminary study from nature for his famous stormer of the bridge at Arcole. It serves, insofar as it at least preserves the elements of the Dantean origin-fire — the bold projection of nose and chin, the pressing eye, the will-firm mouth — also on its part to confirm that engraving which illustrates these marks so emphatically. To be sure, to bring this fire in its intense essentiality itself to luminous apparition, the inner scope was lacking to the more soaring-pathetic than passionate-creative pupil of the cool master David. Even the finished picture translates the inborn passion-force of Napoleon into an impetuously sweeping theatrical gesture of great style. But the finer art of the artist sufficed to have grasped the spiritual significance of this head with sensitivity and to outline it in its essential particularity. More decisively than that engraving, this sketch pursues the new classical human form in the spiritualized expression of its apparition. It goes so far in this that one finds oneself reminded with astonishment of the most pronounced type of the spirit-born new apparition of the classical man. It is overwhelming to see how a common European spirituality seems to be present that brings this element of Napoleonic classicism to unconditional unfolding in a German poet. Like a breath of the seer-like transfigured spiritual power of Hölderlin, it lies over this representation of Napoleon's facial features. More than by the drive of an absolutely tremendous doing, the eye seems animated by the drive toward the realization of inner high visions: it is more the type of a poetic than a warlike man — and thus proves anew and strikingly the undeniable, stirring fact that the perfect man of classical stamp is poet and doer, seer and ruler in One. But not only the eye — the whole formation of the head emphasizes here an inner kinship with the poet who renewed and represented the classical ur-form in the spiritualized blood of the German. Even the finished Arcole picture itself gives a distant reflection of this: all the more convincingly as the French painter must have found not only the person of this poet, but also the general mode of being of this specifically German spiritualization

of blood (unity of spirit and blood) foreign, indeed incomprehensible, so that what his reproduction of Napoleon's head conveys to us of Napoleonic being in this direction can only be what his eye immediately perceived.

The later representations of Napoleon that adhere to nature help themselves more and more by emphasizing one of the two elements to which one can in the main reduce his being. Some give the personal-eruptive, the great will-force, that which in the engraving runs so strongly toward Dante's apparition, and thus reflect this more or less closely. To these belongs the famous drawing by Guérin, depicting the young general during the involuntary leisure of the year 1795 and awakening in him — with the strained gaze from shadowed eye, the feature of the nose cutting weightily through the face, the narrow curve of the lips as if forcibly pursed from within, and the mighty projection of the chin — the image of those closed and eruptive natures that, the Dantean fire of will turned toward the warlike, stride across the political stage of the 15th century. Stripped of his contemporary clothing, it is the head of a Colleoni, a Piccinino, a Hawkwood that springs at us from Guérin's drawing. Humboldt reports the utterance of an artist who sees the same. Under New Year's Day 1798 he notes a conversation with the painter Sembat. In Sembat's opinion, Bonaparte's physiognomy resembles the sort of faces "such as one sees from the oldest painters, still a few centuries before van Dyck." Humboldt adds: "I find that he resembles some faces I have seen by this painter." What is here called in the undeveloped terminology of contemporary artistic understanding "the oldest painters still a few centuries before van Dyck" is precisely the painters of the early Renaissance, the immortalizers of the condottieri — Andrea del Castagno, Uccello, and their like. Humboldt's own remark about Napoleon's similarity to some faces by van Dyck betrays only that he misunderstands van Dyck — the accomplished painter of a social (but certainly socially vivid) culture and its type — by seeing him from the perspective of his own even more diluted social atmosphere as elementary, and the grand gesture of his knightly

figures as the expression of a heroic mode of being wholly foreign to them.

The other artists, belonging to the new classicist school of David, fasten upon what the ardent will-to-deed of the young descendant of the condottieri brings to spiritual expression in his own figure as his new classical life-form. In Gros this element of a spiritualized classicism, as shown, is still driven far with the violent originality of first discovery, up to the borders of the highest embodiment of this type in the German poet. The leader of the school, David himself, with less overflowing, with the formed masterly artistic will, holds a middle measure of the classical in Napoleon's facial expression. He, who purely by education possessed knowledge of the classical type before all others, was deeply struck by its clear recurrence in Napoleon's features, but his secondary idealizing mode of art hindered him from a sensuous-immediate reproduction of what he saw and quite rightly grasped as the ur-image of the classical. His impression is preserved more originally in the exclamation with which he confronted his pupils after the first sitting Napoleon granted him: "Friends, what a magnificent head he has! Pure, great, beautiful like antiquity... These bunglers of Italian and French engravers have not even had the stuff to make a passable head from a profile that by itself yields a perfectly finished medal or cameo." The first words still betray the schoolmasterly artistic view. The purity, the greatness of the classical measure he truly felt in the future Emperor's face, he describes somewhat meagerly with the abstracted sense-devices of classicism — "pure, great, beautiful like antiquity" — as a realization of the lines and measures he had taken as models from ancient artworks. But then, in what follows, his immediate experience breaks through. The reference to the medal- and cameo-cut of the Napoleonic profile is not, as it might seem, merely another citation of classicist art-formulas. It is the spontaneous and pregnant artistic expression of an artistically seen life-substance. The "cut of medal and cameo" means not only a particular purity of measure and line of the apparition, but also its depth and

density, force and penetration — in short, a particular human form — the highest level of the classical-heroic — whose inborn art-form it is.

VI. THE CLASSICAL TYPE NAPOLEON: REPORTS

...and cameo-cut of the Napoleonic profile is not, as it might seem, merely another citation of classicist art-formulas. It is the spontaneous and pregnant artistic expression of an artistically seen life-substance. The "cut of medal and cameo" means not only a particular purity of measure and line of the apparition, but also its depth and density, force and penetration — in short, a particular human form — the highest level of the classical-heroic — whose inborn art-form it is. But this extraordinary impression of the antique essence stepping unbidden before him, David could not lift into creative consciousness: one must first read it back into the product of his interpretive artistry, by substituting for David's signs of antiquity their primary meaning. Then from the unfinished sketch he made of Napoleon at this encounter, the spiritual expression of the classical man opens itself up, which Gros in his evidently deeply striving study pursued to its core. As immediate and deep as in the latter, the spiritual being is not captured here. More than in Gros's study, the classically original spirit is fused into the classical image-form, the classical human unity is more suggested. Admittedly only suggested, and we must infer from the measured nobility of the facial formation — in which the fire of the eyes, the curve of the nose, the projection of cheeks and chin appear bound as by a higher, inner power — this power, the spirit that binds the contending titanic ur-forces into the equilibrium of a perfect human form. But this spirit of a creative order pervading the world all-sidedly according to its own new law, the spirit of classically primary humanity, must have moved the soul of one who in his representation cast over the boldly demanding eyes and lips something like the veil of a slumbering inner world-vision behind them. Napoleon must have borne before David in his apparition the great cut of features that sensuously realized the perfect, individual world-form and was the expression of the classical humanity fulfilled in it. This David's picture reproduces in outline and suggestion. It is not entirely an ideal portrait, not the transference of a willed

classical conceptual form onto a living model. Rather, it retains enough essential individual features of the sitter — if in the tempering of the new artistic festival — to show how the artist strived to reproduce what he actually saw. The idiosyncratic form of eyes, nose, cheeks, mouth, and chin is preserved despite the contemporary classicist artistic tendency inclined toward equalization, and gives, in cohesion with the expression of the inner classical human form — which the artist admittedly wrestles for more than he achieves — to the picture that strange mixed character of the toned-down original, the noble-bold, the heroic-romantic, which lies more outside the nature of the depicted than of the depicter. For Napoleon's external appearance and inner formation were entirely in agreement and yielded no break, no faceted interestingness. He was outward what he was inward, and in this and thereby a heroic-classical and not a heroic-romantic type — which only the classicist artist, not equal to this totality but ardently pursuing it, had to counterfeit out of his need, not out of his will.

Thus the threshold of the age is reached in which the European significance of Napoleon, and thereby the more general influence of contemporary art-forms on his pictorial representation, but on the other hand also the transformation of these under the impact of the consular genius, begins. The striving of the classicist artists — a secondary educated generation — toward what was inwardly most opposed to them, the primarily antique expression of Napoleon's being, led quite generally to that inner break in nearly all their representations in the direction of the Romantic, which David's sketch already discussed exhibited, and which further received a remarkable promotion from the development of Napoleon's state- and life-forms. For as Napoleon's being realized more and more an immediacy and objectuality of being and acting equal to the ancient man, it removed itself — as already noted and as must be discussed more thoroughly — all the more from the literary-classicist temporal forms and sought its external realization in a more immediate historical givenness, which presented itself to him in a mixture of the cultural forms of

the ancien régime with those of the later Middle Ages. But in the midst of this strangely contradictory direction in which it sought and found its temporal state-expression, Napoleon's classically essential nature in the formation of his exterior emerged ever more irrefutably. No romanticizing disunity of representation could entirely conceal this ground-form. The pictures by Isabey in Versailles and by Ingres in Liège, which at the same time illustrate the progression of this inner conflict of representation, bear witness to this. Isabey's well-known portrait of the Consul quietly walking through the garden of Malmaison in the uniform of the Grenadiers holds itself more than David's outside any pronounced classicist striving. This shows itself in his painting only through a clean emphasis of the features, the measured calm of figure and surroundings that seems to breathe in restrained solemnity. But on this ground the characteristic of Napoleon's apparition is all the more captured — the still idiosyncratically intense youthful formation of his facial features: chin and nose project forcefully, the latter robbed of its light curve by disfiguring smoothing, the lips firmly folded in their incomparably sweet curve — the eye shadowed and from it that darkness of the inner suggested, which all reports transmit, but which here has assumed the expression of a gentle melancholy rather than that of a grimly restrained passionateness. The overall impression works a little strange: precisely because the mentioned softenings have not effected a general classicist restyling of the apparition, but have only altered some characteristic particular forms while evidently aiming at fidelity to nature. This alteration, however, as a glance at the painting proves, has not led to artistically strengthening emphasis of the antique essential content of the sitter, but only again — if not as strongly as with David — brought that break and breath of the Romantic into the otherwise almost classically restful-simple picture. The classicism of the sitter emerges precisely contrary to these intended smoothings of the passionate-characteristic. It lives in the calmly conscious eye that no melancholy shimmer can conceal, in the simply clear articulation of the facial planes

through the noble-strong projections that the equalizing hand of the master, for all his softening of individual form, did not dare to eliminate, and in the deep unanimity with which the total formation of the countenance, yes of the figure, receives and expresses the living-clear spirit symbolized in the eye. These are — in contrast to the contradictory, unbalanced facial parts, the ambiguously folded mien of a modern human type — the in this perfection surprising marks of an antique life-form.

Ingres's representation, which shows Napoleon in the new state-garment of the highest official with embroidery, dress-sword, knee-breeches, white stockings, and pumps, has already taken up with this alone elements of the time-style shifting under Napoleon's influence in the direction of the courtly-medieval. Through a drawn curtain the Gothic towers of Liège become visible: a new strengthening of the medieval-romanticizing admixture. To be sure, the fall of the drapery is still pronouncedly linear and holds to the classicist style-form, but the accessories of the city appearing in the background in their relation to the depicted person as a symbol of paternal care, its towering spires and buildings, are an unmistakable intrusion into the classicist artistic law. That the artist otherwise attempts in the representation of the essential parts — of head and posture of the person — to bring this law to validity, does not weaken this impression but strengthens it, especially since his idealizing simplifying striving in the treatment of these parts conflicts with the greatness and fullness of life that the depicted face mirrors despite everything, and thereby yields that falling-apart of content and form, that inadequacy of experience-expression, which evokes the idea of romantic pressing toward a fantasy-image, not that of a classically unambiguous reality. This reality, however — Napoleon's bodily essentiality — is what, despite all secondary-artistic transformations and through them, creates space for itself, and precisely by awakening in life outside and here in the picture the first shimmer of the disunited-romantic, only the more strongly sets off its classical unconditionality and form-quality against it. Again, as in Isabey's picture, through the

only stylistic restraint of the facial expression the inner closedness and bound unity of the features can be sensed. The eye, which at first seems only to indicate solemn ruler-dignity, expresses in truth the incorruptible dignity of the self-certain, self-contained spirit — mouth, nose, chin behind the softened vehemence of their expression, the origin-force with which this spirit wants to realize itself outward. The deep equilibrium in the proportions of the facial parts, however, at which the doctrinaire Classicism found nothing to change, symbolizes the balance of his inner powers: of will and idea, blood and spirit, deed and thought. However much the picture as artwork lets its beautifying classicist impulse pass over into the uncertain shimmer of a first romantic breath, it is in the last analysis quite unambiguously the expression of an original type of classical humanity, of a formation all-sidedly perfected in its core.

Understandably, the great decorative compositions come less into consideration as sources of knowledge for the true essential content of Napoleon than the simple figural representations, although here and there precisely in these the heroic trait of the depicted actions develops a surprisingly clear-sighted view of his person. The limited significance of Gros's storming of the Bridge at Arcole was already touched upon. David's Crossing of the Alps likewise shows more a general heroic-romanticizing sweep than the concrete view of a heroic reality. The same holds for Bouchot's 18th Brumaire. On the other hand, in the glorification of the Battle of Rivoli by Philippoteaux, which on the whole is also not free of romanticizing pathos, the pathos in the central figure of the commander is produced not by a rapturous gesture but by the concentration of his total being in the very true-to-life profile. The profile bears entirely the features as in the individual representations of that epoch we have discussed: the energy of the facial projections and the demanding eye reproduces still more the intense fire of will than already the completed form of spirit. The famous picture of the Visitation of the Plague-Stricken by Gros, however, which — avoiding both a classicistically diluting and a romantically exaggerating beautification — strives

in all its forms for a forceful-noble expression of reality, grips through the perfectly antique formation of Napoleon's facial features. This is all the more significant and revealing as the artist, both in the whole of the picture and precisely in this main part, does not content himself with a pale suggestion of the apparition, but tries to capture it in the full vividness of its essential details. Much more true to life than in the Arcole picture, Gros here gives the passionately personal cut of mouth, nose, chin, the large planes of the clearly articulated cheeks, the firm and conscious eye: and, by visibly seeking without any exaggeration only to bring out the outward trait of the essentiality to be represented, there arises in the formation of the features the unadulteratedly objective expression of that originally perfect human disposition we call classical, in the total apparition of the commander touching the sick a clear heroic presence.

With Napoleon's unfolding toward completion, however — as his most personal forces, released from the constraints of the world, gathered and turned outward — his closed unitary human form stepped into his countenance with such unwavering unambiguousness that no artistic stylistics or idiosyncrasy could alter anything about it. Then Napoleon's face received that clear memorability of the greatly articulated planes and sparsely expressive features with which, before all other European heads, it has become the ever-present possession of our inner eye: as a form that, unimpaired neither by the challenging expression of private feelings and passions nor by that of busy thoughtfulness, exhausts itself entirely in realizing the driving ground-forces of the great creative man: the will that excludes rivalry as much as accommodation, the self-certain world-surveying wisdom, the formative imagination, and a comprehensive humanity to which nothing earthly, but also nothing of the deeper divine, is foreign. These are those generally valid and essential endowments in which the ancient historians and sculptors make visible to us the unitary and unambiguous figure of their great contemporaries, while their modern descendants must first bring closer to us,

through nuances, the modern man made ambiguous by feeling and thought. And precisely through this simplified unitary form of a factually determined, objectively great impression against the background of a sensually irritated, individually fragmented world — in short, through the apparition of an ancient man in the turmoil of modern personality — has the bodily-pictorial representation of Napoleon the force of a non-recurring, incomparable, dominating uniqueness.

There, under the moderately high, moderately obliquely descending forehead of light convexity, set neither too deep nor too shallow, is the eye, in which a calmly clear consciousness is fed from apparently unfathomable inner sources of vision and brought into connection with all essential environment through a livingly awake feeling. The now quite nobly tempered curve of the nose expresses a self-certain will without exaggeration, the inimitable enchantment of the lips the restrained-pressing fullness of life and once more a deeply felt kinship with all living things. The cheeks are now filled out to even rounding. Everything has drawn itself from the intensified urge of youth into a definitive form as the expression of eternal human values and brought itself in the whole to an equilibrium of a centrality unthreatened by any individual forward-pressing: no longer does the deep-cave-shadowed eye threaten, no longer the hollow cheeks dark world-hostility, no longer the violent projection of the nose, the closed lips, bitterly whipped-up combat-forces. Only the mighty forward-thrust mass of the chin remains as the indestructible outer bulwark of his unrelenting self-assertion against all outer world — the innermost ground-force on which this great singular being, in the midst of everything differently constituted, builds itself.

Thus the portrait-sketch drawn from nature during a Mass by an unknown hand shows us the Emperor — a sketch that through a rare penetration of life-pursuit and reproduction surpasses all finished portraits of the famous artists. By bringing out a timeless greatness in the living individual form, a passionless ultimately

valid world-force in the passion-pervaded body, it awakens the eternal model of such ur-stuff stamping: the coins and medal-portraits of the Roman emperors. Without any classical stylization, which is wholly foreign to it, solely by letting the inner essential form of the existing apparition emerge outward, this sketch achieves that typical image-form of the heroic. Not this itself, but some of its basic elements are captured in the sketches that Girodet made from nature of the Emperor, and also David's Emperor-portraits — both the half-length and the full-figure — still contain something of it. These two, by aiming at a classicist typification in the outward, precisely weaken the definitive inner formations embodied in him, give more a softened form of human everyday impression than the original one of heroic eternity-impression. Girodet's sketches, on the other hand, in their supposed inconspicuousness, capture this form somewhat better. Both the reading Napoleon and the well-known double view of the Emperor in his chapel on March 8, 1812, and the triple one of the Emperor as spectator in the theater at St. Cloud on April 13, 1812, let emerge, under the very true-to-life individual facial formation, precisely the same features of an unerringly factual world-knowledge and will as that nameless sketch transmits. Especially the left view with closed eyes presents in the part of forehead and cheeks an extreme measure of unmoved self-certain factual superiority, the properly heroic inner formation. The emphatic emergence of this form precisely in the views made from nature without particular artistic pretension proves that it was incorporated into the features of the present apparition, that Napoleon in his essentiality realized that individual embodiment of supraindividual spiritual powers proper to the great ancient man — the precise counter-image of modern human formation (where the personal belongs to the psychic capacity and no longer to the bodily expression). Thus the astonishing phenomenon that the coins and medals struck of him — they alone among all modern ones — seem taken out of the series of Roman imperial coins, is only a self-evident effect of his actual existence, which no

classicist temporal conception needed to aid nor could have, since it could not equal the origin-force of this great individual growth realizing its own form. And it is only a further self-evident consequence of this growth that Napoleon grows more and more into that antique individual form, bodily takes on the features of him whom he repeats also in his particular life-realization given the same life-substance: that his head in its most present-day expression becomes that of Augustus.

Canova's statue in the Brera evokes the memory of related representations of Augustus not so much through the externally heroicized posture of the forcefully striding Emperor, the left arm led triumphantly around the imperial staff, the Nike carried forward in the right hand: the kinship is inner, has its origin in the youthful ruler-form of the head. Here the artist has somewhat deviated from the profile-force of Napoleon in details, especially in the idiosyncratic curve of the nose, and has thinned the round-going Napoleonic head-form as he has the whole body. He believed he had to sacrifice the more conditioned object-form to plastic monumentality and to lift out the supraindividual greatness of the sitter from what seemed to him accidental peculiarities of personal formation. But the much-attacked Canova — as his own notes also reveal — was evidently so seized by the supra-emotional essentiality realized in Napoleon's apparition, his breaking through the human-utilitarian formations of the age with heroic particularity, that he was compelled and enabled to capture in his artistically simplified head-form this supraindividual essential power, wholly realized only in the individual Napoleon. He knew how to gather it into the general cut of the head, the slender mightiness of the cheek-parts, the forcefully graded sequence of forehead, nose, chin, the firmly directed eye, to which the retained, apparently not suppressible remainder of personal particular formations — the massivity of the chin, the forceful grace of the curvedly closed lips, the deep setting of the penetrating eyes — gave the unsurpassable emphasis of bodily apparition. And now the wonderful thing is: that although — yes, precisely by — the statue in its great lines

and many details holds fast the Napoleonic nature with its essential stock, it simultaneously seems to quicken within itself the features of Augustus. Compare the Augustus of Prima Porta and the two bronze busts preserved in the Vatican. It is surprising how, down to the details, the facial formation of the Augustus statues recurs in that of the Brera statue. One may assume that these or similar heroic representations influenced the general configuration of the figure; precisely in this work the artist comes furthest beyond his usually eclectic mode of representation; precisely here he achieves a degree of immediacy, fullness, and breadth of inner vision and expression — that is, of monumentality — not otherwise granted him. This remarkable enhancement of his artistic capacity cannot have its ground in the adoption of however significant ancient pre-forms — which the artist also otherwise cultivates; it can have its source only in the unusual power-effect of the bodily apparition he wishes to depict, in the simultaneously compelling and enkindling impression of the visible Napoleonic essentiality. Precisely where Canova deviates from his model Napoleon, the similarity of the sitter with Augustus is weakened and the bodily Napoleon is realized more closely and penetratingly through the ancient Augustus statue than through his own. There is no stronger proof that Canova did not piece together details of the Augustus image into an ideal picture of Napoleon, but that all the essential traits of Augustus that his Napoleon statue exhibits stem from his living original, the Emperor himself, and that he, as the artists of the classicist epoch always did, took away more from the forceful origin-expression of antiquity — in which a primordial humanity here embodied itself — than he added, in order to attain his intellectually diluted ideal schema of it. Where the artists more strongly assert their personal dispositions against this ideal schema, surrender themselves more independently to the great present-day expression of the hero — as Houdon in his famous bust of the Emperor and the makers of the above-mentioned portrait-sketches from nature — the origin-peculiarly total expression of the Augustan head immediately

emerges more strongly than in Canova's antique-style statue. Canova himself repeatedly testified orally how perfectly the formation of Napoleonic forms fulfilled the conditions of plastic creation — that creation which he called the heroic, because it was to realize for him the classical model of unconditional human greatness. His biographer reports on this: "Canova loved to say that he found in the features and facial formation of his original the forms most suitable for statuary representation and most usable for the heroic style of the figure as he planned it."

VII. THE CLASSICAL MAN: END OF THE CLASSICAL TRADITION

It is not possible here to point out the characteristically classical in his individual actions. Everything said in earlier sections about the immediacy of his acting and comporting is in the last analysis characteristic of the type of ancient humanity. For the ancient man there is no separation of soul, spirit, and body, no falling-apart of inner and outer reality. What things appear to be, that they mean to him, that they are for him, and so he addresses them. A particular political, diplomatic, social sphere does not exist for him; everything is subordinated to the general-human, to the personal, and finds its utterance in it. Therefore it is essentially ancient human nature — and to the contemporary world strange to the point of horror — when Napoleon carries his original human relations, connections, feelings into his political actions, which the modern diplomat views as a factual sphere strictly separated from the personal-human; when he persists, in state acts and disputes, in calling his princely brothers and sisters familiarly by their first names and treating them accordingly; when he sees in his high dignitaries, even into late times, still the comrades of his first deeds and for a long time still addresses them, even at official occasions, with the familiar "thou"; when his political dissatisfaction discharges itself in human agitation that strikes the great men of his realm — unmediated and uncurbed — no differently than his family members, and does not even respect foreign envoys according to new-European convention as bearers of foreign state-power, but attacks them as personal opponents. One certainly also records from the lives of Gustavus Adolphus, Eugene, and Frederick acts and utterances of emphatically personal stamp, but with them they always work as striking individual instances, because they fall from the framework of a social culture they otherwise maintain as self-evident; they are more rugged than original, more violently intensified outbreak than inborn expression of a type of being.

Only from this immanent unity of the Napoleonic nature, in the last analysis, is the unoverlookable fullness of his actions to be explained. Precisely a modern multi-faceted life would not have been able to bear and produce them. They were conceivable only as radiations of a unitary, inwardly bound and resting life-core. To all the un- and over-measure of passionateness that feeds this inexorable flood of deeds, the measure of their forming, the inner supraempirical knowledge, the secret law of their embodiment, their binding and realization in the formation is co-born. The particular action does not seduce him, means nothing to him, is indeed painful to him. The countless battle- and ceremonial-pictures in which he appears, he can scarcely have approved as representation of his person, only as necessary adjunct and attribute of his regime. When David wanted to paint him in the warrior's frenzy storming the Lodibridge, as he later actually painted him dashing across the Alps, he admonished him: "Paint me in calm posture on a fiery horse." In the midst of external movement that may and should express itself in the surroundings, the man with his forces and deeds must remain restrained in himself and encompassed into one. Only thus does he express more than a gesture; only thus does he express in apparition the being; only thus does he become for the whole of the picture the informed meaning that animates and dominates it, for the world the figure that forms it — through its mere existence, its impression more than through command or instruction. Napoleon was, as shown in earlier sections, too permeated by the laws of both human formation and artistic creation not to have been conscious of the deeper meaning of his utterance, not to have willed it. With this instruction he only sums up what he himself constantly realizes through his bearing. He has impressed himself upon the memory of his contemporaries, delivered himself to the memory of posterity as the small figure in the unadorned gray overcoat and bicorne hat in the midst of the troop of his marshals with their glittering uniforms — the impressive-significant apparitions of a Desaix and Marmont, the bravura of a Ney and Lannes, the fantastic finery of

a Murat. The perfect, in itself saturated, the definitive being expresses itself only through itself; the shining periphery serves only, serves precisely, for its emphasis. What Napoleon says with that word to David, what he practices with this bearing, is the ultimate secret of the classical man, the law that gave the Greek-Roman spirit its worthy body, that pre-stamped it as the ur-image of all sculpture and thereby as symbolic figure for all later ages.

All domains of life that Napoleon actively rules are gathered around a living center, fed from a living center. His luminous military successes do not stand for themselves as the effect of a particular talent and power of action; with his state-activity and accomplishment they form an inwardly, an essentially bound whole. Think with what self-evident unity of idea and will he transforms every military actuality into state duration, captures the flow of campaign operations into state organizations. Hardly a victor in Lombardy, he creates, without commission and to the painful surprise of the Directory, the new Italian republics. He was driven by the urge of the classical man, for whom deed and success demand sensuous and enduring form in the work, for whom the self-evident and inborn goal of every effective action is a formation — for whom the commander is one with the founder of states. Not an external parallelism of actions makes Napoleon the brother of Caesar and Alexander, but the agreement of the life-unity they alone brought to perfection. This developed in Alexander also a perfectly bodily expression, while the definitive and apparitional representation of Caesar's life-content was reserved to his chosen heir Augustus. Hence it is no game of blind chance, no accident, but the expression of a deep inner lawfulness that in Napoleon's facial features those of Augustus emerge. As beholders of the Augustus statues stood struck by the external resemblance to the Emperor, as sculptors unconsciously bound it into their representations of Napoleon, so spiritual observers discovered with astonishment in Napoleon's being and work the elements of the Roman founder of the empire. Recall that word of Lord Hawkesbury in his letter to Talleyrand: "Of all the famous men of history, Augustus is the only one who

resembles the First Consul." In truth, Augustus and Napoleon are the prototypes of a perfectly state-wrought individual destiny. Among all historical figures, to them alone fell the determination to present their being and essence in the unification of a falling-apart world into a new state world-face, and in this itself. Lord Hawkesbury expressly emphasizes the reconciling element that in both creates the new imperial state-formation from the ruins of the collapsed republic. The same essential dispositions were set in motion toward the same life-goals. The agreement of apparition-forms was then, in men who fulfilled their human form substantially-unitarily according to the ancient law of formation, the necessary consequence.

This unitary unfolding of the Napoleonic being toward the perfected nature of the Roman Emperor is presented from another side by a later author: "When Napoleon became Emperor, his voice grew with his destiny. With the Roman eagles and the cloak of the Caesars he took on the proud, compressed manner of expression of the ancient emperors — the ponderous impact-force, the sublime simplicity of the Latin: the '*imperatoria brevisitas*.' Thus the expression of his face changed with the man." But to develop in himself this most perfected expression of state power-will — the language of the Roman emperors — Napoleon must from the outset have possessed the elements of this language: the unconditionality of its idea-power, the immediacy of its force of expression, its sublime sobriety and simple greatness; he must have borne within himself the classical spirit that nourished it — that spirit of elementary thingliness which received and uttered the phenomena of the world in their sensuous substance without sentimental discoloration. His writings and utterances, once he had gained a certain independence from the Spirit of the Age, prove it. Where in all the world does the un-rhetorical concision of fact and thought in his proclamations and decrees find its equal, except in the objective exhortations of the Homeric heroes and their last historical radiation — the addresses of Caesar to his legions! All this is more than the short-breathed borrowings of images,

names, and concepts in the classicist writings and speeches of the time — it is reawakening, better new realization of antiquity: insofar as here not some details take on a classical coloring, but the man himself is of ancient, of Roman blood and lives in Roman fashion. Where he confronted the architectural monuments of the Roman people, he felt himself in his actual, his inherited world. That is the ultimate motive of his astonishing report on the Arena of Verona to the Directory. The breadth of the classical gesture of existence that speaks to him from this building seizes his imagination with the power of an inborn life-stream, and tears it from the narrowed forms of the time-style into the classical foreworld as its own most proper domain. In the ancient circle filled with a hundred thousand spectators, he sees himself standing in the circumference belonging to him, and can no longer endure the meagerness of native folk-assemblies on the Champ de Mars. To be able to live, to be able to act, he needs the undecomposed atmosphere, the unconditional greatness and breadth of antique-heroic humanity around him. By realizing himself in the multiply conditioned and fragmented European humanity and compelling it to receive his new, alien unity, he brings to it the humanity of antique-heroic stamp.

Later, when he becomes conscious of his actual meaning and mission as creator of a new European world, he understands that he cannot fulfill this mission without having first permeated the European world — fallen apart into dynastic private interests — with the breath of ancient life-unity and greatness, without having spread around it the breadth and clarity of heroic human consciousness. That is the meaning and intention of those memorable performances at the theater in Erfurt in 1808. When he had the great tragedy of the French stage performed piece by piece for the German petty princes, he did this not — after the manner of subordinate minds — to dazzle the modest German court society with the splendor of the imperial theater, but — as Talleyrand says, who with his sharp eye often penetrated Napoleon's most secret being — "to uproot this whole old German nobility, in whose midst he found himself, from its soil

and to transport it with the help of fantasy into other expanses, where under his eyes men walked, great through themselves, mythic through their deeds, creators of their lineage and boasting divine origin." It goes without saying for Napoleon that the coming generation is to be nourished on the origin-spirit of antiquity, free from the ethical-rational disguises of the preceding epoch. Just as he himself once in his youth could not endure the exercises in Latin rhetoric as unworthy of the great classical object, so now as Emperor — in the reorganization of the educational system — he rejects excerpts made from the classical writers after the manner of a Thomas, and demands that instead one place in the hands of youth the concise, impressive ur-material of most definitive classicism — Caesar's Commentaries themselves. In his head press the ideas of ur-image and ur-germ of ancient essentialities. When he says "Rome," with which he is immediately connected through blood, it is a different Rome from that of classicist assimilations and allegories of a rationally feigned ideal state. For him it is the reality, the sensuous apparition first of past heroic humanity, then of the world-state, finally of the world-empire. He knows the simple ground-condition of Roman human greatness and world-significance, the heroic ur-content of the Roman soul, better, deeper, more objectively than the classicist republicans and expresses it in undogmatic simplicity and finality: "The Roman people had the instinct for everything great; not in vain did it conquer the world." The drive toward the "great man," toward the development of unconditional total-human perfection — an ur-endowment that lies before all ethical precepts — created the greatest, the ancient, the Roman human form. He sees the great general formula Rome through all temporal educational envelopes to its ground, its one-time heroic reality, in which the symbolic world-significance of the city had created its original and imperishably sensuous apparition-form. In this he seizes that reality and thus brings to expression an idea of Rome which, soaring over the shadowy image-borrowings of the time, realizes the universality of Rome in the origin-freshness and force of its

significance. It sounds different from when the republicans speak of the Rome of the Bruti and Catos, when he calls out into the world: "Rome is the city for everyone" and "I have only two cities, Paris and Rome." — Paris signifies for him here the seat of government of his immediate actuality, but Rome the site where European universality has embodied itself, as the focal point of all Mediterranean lands, for all time, and which he therefore wants to make the capital of his "Great Empire." This Rome — the Rome of heroic realization of a world-significance, not that of a representation of civic virtues — is what he means when he speaks of having wanted to make France the greatest cultural wonder, to have wanted to reawaken the Rome of the Scipios and the Greece of the Miltiades and Leonidas. In this ur-stock of his primarily heroic universality, Napoleon received the Roman blood in the course of his lineage: in this and in this definitive form of Romanity, Napoleon is Roman, is ancient man.

This form of Roman universality was grasped in him at the height of his life by some of his contemporaries. In a poem of Delille it finds an expression of astonishing symbolic force and breadth: "Rome est dans sa tête toute entière," and also that word of Lord Hawkesbury about the sole resemblance of Augustus to Napoleon belongs in this connection. All the select spirits who later — from Stendhal onward, through Sainte-Beuve and Taine to Sorel and Driault — have tried to form a spiritual image of Napoleon's being, have recognized and emphasized the Roman, the ancient humanity of Napoleon in its here developed origin-meaning as the basis of his being. "Precisely because he was spiritually wholly Roman and wholly classical, the First Consul understood the French of his age so well," says Sorel of him. And the historian closing the series wants to explain even Napoleon's actual political behavior from his inner Roman disposition, to trace its trace in the details of his being and work. "One can," he thinks, "record many Roman traits in the facial formation, political character, and work of Napoleon." He believes he can establish one such trait on the occasion of Napoleon's choice of the monarchical title. He explains Napoleon's refusal to accept

the title "Stadtholder" proposed to him thus: "The title Stadtholder, apart from designating an elective office, has a Germanic ring that could not appeal to the French people and the Latin spirit of Bonaparte."

THE CLASSICAL BLOOD

Napoleon is not, like the humanity that surrounds him in his adoptive fatherland France, a child of the 18th century: he has not received the classical like them as a far-transmitted inheritance, as a culture-form (Baroque, Rococo) modified from epoch to epoch, but — essentially regarded and not chronologically ordered — stands on the level of its awakener, possesses it at first hand, from his own. Before Taine, Stendhal already deserves the credit of having placed Napoleon out of the series of classicist epigones of the 18th century and among the great origin-apparitions of Renaissance humanity, of having uncovered in him the creative elements of that age rather than the imitative ones of his own. That was by no means only and far less itself than with Taine a psychological hypothesis, but an intuitive perception of the existing historical apparition. Taine then, without the certainty of this immediate seeing, but with the complete armament of the empirical historian, gave the historical derivation of this fact, filling the gap in the sequence of ages between the figures of Napoleon and the condottieri, seen isolatedly by Stendhal, through new use of the available historical material (in psychologizing modification of his developmental-historical method). But rarely did the result of this research method coincide with the most immediate historical truth as here.

Napoleon stems from a Tuscan noble family, whose origin appears to go back to Lombard counts, who are designated after an ancestor Cadolo as the Cadolingians, and who, upon their entry into history — at the beginning of the 10th century — settled in Pistoia and its vicinity, were directly subject to the Emperor. During the early Middle Ages, lineage after lineage emerges, like the beginning of so many great Italian families,

from the darkness into half-light and light; one finds them in the 11th century among the feudal lords of the Countess Matilda, as vassals of the Holy See; later, after the fall of the Hohenstaufen, they become associated with the Florentine Guelph party; with the turn of the 14th century some of them even gain the highest office of the Florentine Republic, the Gonfaloniership. But in the 15th century the family fortune declines. Of the two main branches into which it had split, the one in the second half of the 15th century produced a Francesco Buonaparte who joined the party of the Medici, which was then ruling Florence as lords, and there, in the service of the princes, the family took on an increasingly bourgeois character. For this branch, in contrast to the other, this signified a lessening of its original historical dynamic. It could not assert itself in the great, magnificent movement of the Renaissance, but sank into a more modest station. In the second half of the 16th century, after the extinction of the older line of the Cadolingians — the so-called lords of Montebuono — the family came to a definitive downward turn. The element to which the Buonaparte name owes its fame left the Florentine-Fiesolan ground, transplanted itself to the island that had been under Italian influence since the early Middle Ages and was then Venetian possession: Corsica. The departure of the Buonapartes from the Tuscan mainland and their settlement in Corsica coincides in time with the severing of the family from the movement of the Renaissance and of the Italian nation, and with their inclusion in the narrow political frame of the island — in which, however, the heritage of the Latin-Italian culture-spirit, broken off from the general European development, was preserved in an unbroken state of preservation, in an original, underived elementary form that favored the conservation of the original racial substance. Precisely through this extraction and relocation, the family enters a world in which the autochthonous preservation of natural clan-conditions, the force of blood and tribal ties, still rules, and in which those associations maintain themselves that were extinguished early in the larger, culturally rounded-up and

politically formed nations of the mainland. Here the classical element, universally disseminated in the whole Mediterranean region, was preserved as elementary inheritance of the surviving remnants of Roman colonists and their descendants, interpenetrated with the Greek and Etruscan elements of the aboriginal population — in a quite unbroken, substantially unchanged state, which the classicist culture of the European continent, in the long process of its modifications, had long lost. It was still present, the great universal form of classical life, in this island the last and most unadulterated Mediterranean racial ground, with its original force and fullness, its immediate sensuousness, its inseparability of personal and general, its lack of any distinction between public and private, state and individual, all of which the world has lost — or at least obscured — since the end of the ancient Mediterranean cultures.

The character of the Corsican folk — which constantly furnished the only trustworthy contingents to the Roman armies and drove out the Saracens and Pisans and Genoese not from any state-feeling but from native stubbornness and clan-aversion — was yet from the outset destined for the reception of antique elements: an essentially classically disposed folk-stock, which did not first need to appropriate the antique forms, but carried them latent within itself, and was able to unite them with the inherited elementary will-force. Under the influence of the Italian Renaissance, which in the 16th century also stirred Corsica with its liberating upward movement, the antique element bound with this folk-stock attained its ultimate momentum: the will to European independence of the Pope-ruled and foreign-ruled land, the striving for political freedom — which now surged in the island's heroes — drew all the antique forces latent in the blood to the surface. What followed as "patria," "libertà," and "indipendenza" in the struggles of Sampiero and Paoli, was the eruption of this elementary classical substance, thrown into life-motion by the Renaissance momentum. The Corsicans cried out in the original battle-cries of the ancient cohorts returning anew; Sampiero fought the Genoese with the weapons and devices of

ancient free-state heroes, Paoli gave his state, drawn from the ancient forms of the Roman canton, that exemplary stamp which dazzled the classicist world. How completely, under the influence of the Renaissance, the ancient substance of the island had become the common property of its higher families, is shown by the fact that the Corsican heroes are compared by historians and poets of the 16th century, and down to Rousseau and Napoleon's time, to the great figures of Greece and Rome, indeed often confused with them, and that the island was described as the true ideal of ancient republican freedom.

In the report of Filippini, the great historian of Corsica from the end of the 16th century, we find the elders of Sampiero, when they wanted to dissuade him from his venture to liberate the island from the Genoese, saying: "Colpa di fortuna, non di natura" and placing before him the fate typical for Corsica; their descendants, after the failure of his enterprise, honored him as Epaminondas. Sampiero himself called his struggle for freedom a return to the Roman simplicity and freedom of the time before Brutus. The surname of Corso, which the Buonaparte family had obtained as a prize in the later 16th century from the Florentine Republic for the surrender of the Corsican rebel leader Sampiero to the Genoese — a fact asserted by the Corsican historians — already points to the strengthening of the antique elementary element through the Renaissance. A few generations later, the attachment of Napoleon's great-grandfather to the old national party of Paoli, and even earlier his participation in the Corsican uprising of 1730, shows his family drawing ever more strongly into the stream of this classical insular Renaissance. Thus Napoleon's family not only gave him the general Tuscan-Latin tradition through blood and tradition, but in particular through its transfer to Corsica, the still unabraded element of the Renaissance, the most powerful eruption of the classical world in modern times, immediately incorporated into the blood. In him the old, the non-decomposed classical substance, preserved through the Latin-Italian Renaissance deep into the modern era

in an almost primordial island state, came to its final manifestation.

Napoleon himself felt his descent as a blood-heritage of the antique. His oft-cited remark to Roederer belongs here: "I am of the race that founds empires." This self-evaluation is not merely an outburst of vaulting self-feeling but has its deeper ground in the consciousness of a special inherited quality that distinguished his nature from the European continental character, and through which he felt himself in a line of chosen men of kindred substance. The comparison with Charlemagne — his comprehensive Carolingian idea of the empire — and the self-identification with him were based not only on the parallelism of the political situation, which after centuries again placed the Pope-crowned restorer of the Western Empire at the head of Europe; here also lived a feeling of the common Latin-German origin. He said of Charlemagne: "That man knew how to rule. He was of our race." And about himself he wrote in his notes from St. Helena: "My rule was founded on another basis, on a basis entirely different from that of all other European sovereignties: it is the privilege of the foreigner." This he felt as a distinct element of his particular being. Already the revolutionary propaganda had taken note of his foreignness. The authors of the lampoons that preceded his Italian campaign worked up the foreignness of his Corsican origin to brand him as a man without a fatherland. The later, more moderate Jacobins found in his foreignness the reason for his monarchy-creating tendency, which they regarded as un-French. Mallet du Pan says: "Bonaparte has rendered himself popular by his campaigns because he offered the soldiers the opportunity for devastaion; he acquired reputation through the language of a freebooter, this son of a large and rapacious family, who was born among all the excesses of the Revolution." The famous brochure of 1794: "Le souper de Beaucaire" was also used to attack his Corsican origin and his peculiarity deriving from it. And the more prudent Benjamin Constant — not intending to reproach him for it but only to designate him — says of him: "Corsican by origin and character, he was to be counted

among those violent natures to whom the human species appears as a conquest."

What, however, externally appeared as foreign element hostile to the French and European character, was in truth the survival of a more original, from the general development set apart being, which the evened-out and exchangeable individual of the great European nations could no longer comprehend. The survival of clan-solidarity in the Corsican, the fact that he was not a "citizen" of a great state but a member of his clan and his family, was incomprehensible to the abstract state-sense of the French Revolution; they saw in it only a violation of the uniform idea of the state, not a peculiar mode of being that perhaps could have offered a new foundation to a state-founding individuality. The reports of the administrative authorities of the revolutionary epoch to the Convention, as well as of the people's commissioners, are full of complaints about this tribal peculiarity. They could not grasp that the Corsican, not yet broken down to the equalized citizen, was inwardly inseparable from his clan; that the Corsican family is stranger to the idea of civic duty than to the original duty toward its own members; that it has no part in that abstract common spirit which elsewhere bore the Revolution; that within its family-absolute drive it appears rather as a power of dissolution of all supra-familial order and authority. Among the Corsican emigrants who flocked to the French revolutionary armies, the old family and clan-solidarities maintained themselves and formed a foreign body that resisted great-national permeation. The complaints of the army committees and people's representatives about this never ceased. A Convention deputy, Lacourbe Saint-Michel, who had a mission in Corsica, grasped the cause at its core and presented it strikingly in a report to the Minister of War: "Imagine a country where the common sense is unknown, where the inhabitants are split into a multitude of small mutually hostile parties, whose leaders all know only the one goal of procuring money for themselves by whatever means; whose first care is to surround themselves with creatures entirely at their disposal, and to give

these exclusively all positions. Now flattering, now deceiving the people to lead it better, the people do not grasp the abstract thought of a principle, they must connect it with the idea of a living being: then they worship it without using their reason; for example, they say to themselves: Paoli has maintained freedom, and from that moment they conflate Paoli with freedom, indifferent whether he fights or defends it... One is not a Corsican without belonging to a family and consequently also to a party. He who would serve none of them would be despised by all." That is in September 1793. Napoleon is then before Toulon, has drawn his family and old family adherents after him and is beginning to form the beginnings of his later following. For everyone close to him — for Joseph, for Lucien, for Louis, for the Arrighi, the Casabianca, the Ornano — he seeks and finds a place. It is as if that diatribe were directly aimed at him.

In this atmosphere of primary-human community-realization, the objective impression of house- and landscape-feuds, all heroes and deeds of the ancient world re-experience themselves in the most palpable vividness: Epaminondas in Sampiero, who is not only so called but is it through the primordial ground-conditions of his life and action, and Solon or the Decemvirs in Paoli, who likewise is it. And when Rousseau, Raynal, and in their following Napoleon transfer the names of the classical foreworld to Corsica and its heroes, it means something different than when they do this with conditions and men of the continent. Corsica is the source, the living ur-image from which they nourish their vision of classical being so far that they can clarify for themselves the present nature of the rest of the world and paint the blissful future they long for. Hence also Rousseau's uncannily clairvoyant insight, which years before Napoleon's birth lets him perceive the definitive destiny of the island: that it preserves the ur-image of ancient life-forms only to shake, from its unique womb, the Europe stiffening in the last classicism yet once more with a most extreme and powerful classical ur-formation. Rousseau, the most far-seeing man of the century, expected from the island separated from the great stream of history the renewal that it

then actually brought — though in a form he did not foresee. His foresight, only the result of his ideologically transforming the contemporary world and measuring its future formation accordingly, took the antique substance preserved on the island not as the firm, immediate reality that it embodied itself in the bodies and actions of the island-dwellers, but as analogue or attribute of an ideal-utopian ur-being imagined under their image. Thus also Volney saw it when in 1792 he formed the plan to withdraw to Corsica. Napoleon himself reports on this in February 1792 to his friend Sucy: "Volney wants to settle near me and pass his life quietly in the bosom of a free people, a fruitful soil, and the eternal spring of our landscapes." Therefore Rousseau's vision reached far enough to detect in the island the hearth of European renewal, but not also to perceive the terrible kind of fire that was to kindle on it and effect the remelting: he believed in the transfer of a happy ur-existence, for which antiquity was the current highest expression, from the island to Europe — and Napoleon, the man of the primary-heroic, terrible ancient ur-fire, came, the Prometheus and Heracles, where he had dreamt of a creature of Theocritus or Tibullus, the epic where he had dreamt of the idyllic man. Napoleon himself, grown up with the eye of reality in its most immediate center, grasped the figure of Paoli, of Sampiero, of the Corsican pure and simple differently. They were for him only dialectically and only in his educational beginnings the bearers of classical trappings; later and before his inner eye, Paoli, Sampiero grew into the apparition of classical-primary reality, whose substance, inherited via the Italian Renaissance, had remained unmixed in their origin-blood. For him, the primary classicism of Renaissance stamp brought by his own lineage to the island was certain and present as a living component of their visible and graspable heroic existence.

THE CLASSICAL MAN: END OF THE CLASSICAL TRADITION

After Sampiero, after Paoli, Napoleon is the third great scion of the origin-classicism struck into Corsican untouchedness, at once

its greatest, who concludingly expresses and realizes its formation: and this formation not only as particular Corsican but as European-universal development. For Corsica was the last refuge, the last purely preserved Mediterranean ur-substance, into which classical spirit could imprint its unconditionally comprehensive form, after all other substances that had borne it were exhausted or mixed with non-sustaining foreign elements. "An Italian," says a recent historian of Napoleon — "who had not let the polish of civilization pass over him, not refined, not smoothed nor whitewashed, who, transplanted to Corsica, preserved the character of the Middle Ages, strengthened by crossing with the Corsican, in all its harshness and extension." All that is true except for one thing: that it was not the manifoldly conditioned spirit of the Middle Ages but the reborn origin-universality of antiquity (the Renaissance) that he realized in the autochthonous-Corsican blood — a misjudgment whose originator, as shown above, is Taine. By ultimately and perfectly realizing the last classical germ-bearing European substance, Napoleon at the same time concludingly completes the entire European classicism: the highest peak of the extreme ridge of this dominating European cultural mountain range.

Equipped with the power of this endowment and determination, the island lost from the great circle of cultural peoples releases the young Napoleon, releases him into this circle, which at the turn of its inherited political formations also exhausts the last elements of the classical cultural formations transmitted to him in direct succession. The man of most originally classical being and aspect steps into a world of final classicist life-forms. What is the consequence of this encounter? For Napoleon himself, the hereditary-classicist temporal formation meant, despite all desensualization and dilution, still a life-element appropriate to his substance. His anciently determined thinking, willing, experiencing did not fall into a foreign world, but into one whose circle of ideas and expression worked with the same images, the same concepts, the same values — admittedly in abstraction — that he himself originally realized. Thus the young Napoleon was

spared the struggle against a counter-world. The difference in the mode of being — between his primarily creative and the secondarily utilizing one of his environment — did not yet become evident to him then, in his beginnings. His primary classical formation stepped into the secondary-classicist world with full unself-consciousness as into its own realm, and could grow and spread in it without resistance, as if in its own atmosphere. Hence, later — despite all differently directed development his own being took — he could advocate the retention of classical education (even Latin doctoral dissertations), without this position meaning an actual break in his life-unity. For him the classical was self-evident as the most general expression of all spiritual phenomena, to touch which seemed to him to endanger the continuity of the living course of history as much as its arbitrary retention and extension to the domains of active life foreign to it.

The possibility of existence that Napoleon's originally classical essentiality found in the classicist-derived spirit of the age of his beginnings must be continually clarified through its opposite: imagine what developmental conditions a nature of Napoleon's formation and measures would have found in the later 19th or our own century. Here, where every immediate connection preserved through living succession with the old cultural powers is interrupted, where these are treated without inner connection and occasion only as objects of instruction and research, where state, folk, hero are no longer the spiritual givens embodied by antiquity but concepts clothed in words to which classicist analogies are attached as ornamental forms — in such an age, the ancient human unity of Napoleon, which brings every spiritual conception sensuously outward, would have struck against an airlessness, against which it would first have had to struggle for its space to breathe. If under present-day conditions Napoleon had not been shattered by a sudden eruptive youth-violence against society, he would have had to renew these conditions, first to recreate the state in which a primary antique formation could live; he would have had to form a new time-myth

himself: in our time he would have become a poet. That this was spared him by the ground-form of his age, still homogeneous with his being, saved his life for the immediate realization in deed and apparition and turned his forces, strengthening them, all toward this one goal.

What, however, did the entry of his antique wholeness and immediacy of being into the world of classicist derived forms mean for this world? Here one must proceed from the decisive opposition of primary and secondary mode of being. His apparition alone — with its elementary, the essential emphasizing outlines, its classical stamp — worked upon his contemporaries, who were accustomed to a more agitated and conditioned expression (at best in prepared classicism), with the violence of an alien natural event. Think of David's outburst at his first encounter with the general just returned from Italy. His mere sight gave the art-practice of a hundred hands a changed direction. And in the unconditionality and inviolability of his inner bearing, the consciousness of the age found a counter-pole on which it could unite its empty shooting-apart renewal-plans once more into a more objective and generally binding mode of thought, custom, dress. Deeply struck, the contemporaries became aware of this effect of a single man on a whole generation and left the impression of it in countless testimonies. But it depends on the inner law that determines this effect, and on the development in which it is fulfilled.

Napoleon grows up within the classicist-republican convention of the revolutionary epoch, related to him in its basis, without his classical essentiality further recognizably emerging outward. But as soon as he lifts himself from the general crowd of party-leaders and revolutionary generals through personal testimonies of his power of action — in the Italian campaign of 1796 — his primary classical unconditionality falls frighteningly across the path of the political generality working with outlived classicist formulas. He leads the military-political happening back into a person who represents it; makes figurally visible what for

decades had been a back-and-forth between cabinets and cabinets or popular councils and cabinets; makes spirit out of dualistically isolating rationalization again into figure, this into the living bearer of meaning. Those who see it are so shaken that they misunderstand the process, confuse the concepts. The representatives of foreign governments, accustomed to the lukewarm bath of directory-classicist diplomacy, feel themselves, through the unexpectedly uprising bodiliness of a hero — the highest expression of classical existence — reminded of the most opposite, the most barbaric, only because it is temporally the nearest: the chaotic revolutionary pathos. It is a grotesque joke of world-history that they find the truest realizations of antique-sensuous state-spirit — Napoleon's proclamations — as "Vandalisme de Robespierre," and to their fellow-spirits in the Directory his decrees, which create the Cispadana and Cisalpina with the inner vision of his own experience, appear as a violation of their classicizing Spirit of the Age. For this had accustomed them to understand Rome as a mere allegory of their, the Parisian, regime. Now they could not comprehend, felt almost as high treason, that someone took "Rome" seriously and understood the "Cis" from its actual, nature-given side. They demanded, in their presumption, the naming of "Cis" and "Trans" from their classicist sulking-corner. But today it is certain that Napoleon had the true face of antiquity. Today from that report to the Directory about his impression of the Veronese arena, the awakening of the living ancient soul under the touch of living ancient structures dawns; today one can measure from the intellectualized description of the same impression by one of the most gifted disciples of the Genius, so opposite to this report, how violently-monstrous this classically objective, sensuously primary way of seeing, being, forming must have fallen into the soul of more distant and lesser bearers of the worn-out classicist life-forms.

The heroic-naked utterance, the heroic-bodily figure and creation of Napoleon worked in the age — which certainly strove for a renewal of the classical age, but took the hero, his nakedness and

bodiliness only as an artistic means of expression of this intellectually limited striving — precisely as an inversion of the general direction of thought and idea. As Napoleon threw his personal essentiality into the conceptual and factional web of the republican systems and — renewing state-power bodily in his person — tore through this rational renewal of the commonwealth, his originally antique apparition- and life-form began to dissolve also the classicist inherited forms of the epoch, which were in the process of intellectual rejuvenation. David felt before his picture of the Thermopylae, under Napoleon's objections, become uncertain about the validity of his own artistic renewal of antiquity. As then Napoleon, expressing himself further in the state, brought the state into ever firmer and more visible forms, whose outermost expression was his own central bodiliness, and already through this alone disposed of the bodiless state-forms, the more bodiless state-maker plans of the kind of a Sieyès, he simultaneously shed the antiqueizing aids and attributes of the revolutionary movement, which had once been able to appear as a new image of classical communal life. He resists the plan of Cassanova to depict him "en style héroïque" naked or with antiqueizing commander-insignia. He cannot see himself naked — i.e., unreal — in the differently conditioned reality (whereby it should not be concealed that a natural sense of shame also contended in him against this kind of public display of his bodily self). The heroizing classicism in a world of unheroic bourgeois life-forms is unbearable to him. The poet Fontanes, otherwise valued by him, to whom he entrusted important offices of state care for the arts, he used nevertheless to attack for his classicist taste. The lady of his court who transmits this reports in connection with this how generally in the Consul's surroundings his aversion to the style of the classicist French tragedy was known, and with what anxiety the artistic taste of his surroundings already then retreated before his. His figural apparition alone symbolized for the artists the vision of world-significant humanity in a different, more tangible way than the classicizing revolution-doctrinaires did in

abstractions and outlines; it was an ancient essentiality where they only spoke of its properties, and precisely thereby brought into the cautiously groping attempts of a last classicist upswing of the kind of Gros, Isabey, Ingres a break that already as such carried into their works the breath of coming Romanticism. The outlived and false theatrical pomp of the Directory had become unbearable even to the wider folk with the apparition of a real doer. Suddenly, with Brumaire, from the shop windows of the Quai Voltaire disappear the pictures of the Directors, deputies, and lawyers in their fantasy costumes; the previously all-prominent Sieyès is thrust entirely into shadow; and with liberated surprise a contemporary journal records the emergence of the national heroes: "there are only generals, all in uniform, all with manly countenance, all with fame-illuminated eye, etc. Kléber: what a beautiful apparition! Berthier: what noble self-confidence in the bearing! What an expression in the gaze of Bonaparte!" (That the Directory itself, with its ceremonial costumes reaching back to Spanish court-dress, had already been driven forward by the new heroic element in an anti-classicist direction was, quite consistently, not noticed by contemporaries. For the Directory remained even in this innovation secondary-declamatory, and only the powerful reality of the generals, particularly the general of the Italian army, brought up a new original world-mood essentially opposed to classicism.)

Napoleon's own origin-urgent need for sensuous pre- and representation, however, completes this astonishing inversion of an elementary type — the heroic-classical — through consistent development into its opposite, the heroic-romantic. Already that incisive conversation with David after the return from Marengo marks this path. Lucien, who leaves the Consul's cabinet with David, sums up its result: "He loves only national subjects, because he finds that he means something in them. That is his weakness. He is not displeased when one speaks of him." The smaller, egocentric brain of the doctrinaire Lucien here translates a primary life-force, ethicizing it, into secondary endowments. Napoleon has spoken out against David's

occupation with the "Thermopylae" and referred him to the living national present — his present. For Lucien that means satisfaction of egotism, for Napoleon, on the contrary, the compulsion of immediacy, which tears him toward the nearest and most sensuous that touches him vividly. Hence, apart from Leonidas, the mythical figure, the whole rest of the Thermopylae tradition is lost for history; hence he urges occupation with national themes. Already this recurring reference to the national should have deterred Lucien from his — as often — maliciously narrow-minded characterization. It is not about self-deification for Napoleon, but about strengthening and thickening his creative atmosphere. The national themes are for him not attributes of his fame, but representation of the conditions of his creating, of the material in which he must work and realize himself. The creator, not the actor-drive, determines the forcing forward of the modern-national in him against the timeless-classicist. This factual tendency emerges, like everything factual in him, with immediate personal will-power outward: this falsifies the impression for secondary and doctrinaire beholders. But it appears clearly and crassly in the word that almost programmatically seals this development. Before the picture of the "Couronnement," in which all the world had expected to see the renewal of the Empire by the genius of ancient essentiality presented in the artist's own antiqueizing formal language, while he now appeared placed into a scene of the newly created court pomp, Napoleon calls to David that confirming: "Good, very good, David," "You have guessed all my thoughts; you have made me a French knight." Napoleon sets the French-chivalric cultural forms in place of the supranational-classicist. He must. His genius has left the unlimited sphere of individual non-state effect and entered the space of creative self-realization in the work, in the state. There his antique genius, oriented toward "whole" and "immediate," must also will the givens of this realization. His state — the state he sets forth from himself, in which he forms his inner world-face — is the European, the modern-European state, not a schema of ancient republic transmitted to him in tradition.

He says it explicitly in the Council of State (1801): "Apart from... a few honest men who dream of the republic of Sparta, all of France wants stability and strength from the government," and rejects the humanistic-humanizing application of classicist reminiscences to his government. The French and the Roman tribunate have nothing in common but the name. In the *Moniteur* he turns against their equation, emphasizes the different circumstances that condition this and that, and derives from the autochthonous spirit of the French institution the impossibility that this could have condemned a Coriolanus or Camillus. Again in the Council of State after the execution of d'Enghien: "Have the Parisians not gone so far as to tell that the princes were hidden in the Austrian embassy? As if I would not dare to fetch them from this asylum. Are we in Athens, where criminals could not be prosecuted in the temple of Minerva?" The sense is: the present state cannot build itself from the elements of any ideally envisioned earlier one, even if it be the universally venerated ancient one. A new state-creation must itself, over the most sublime legal symbols, fall back on the immediate nature of human relations in order to form from it a foundation for a new legal order. (In this — in broad outline — is contained his whole justification of the violation of neutrality of the Baden state in the Enghien case.)

The consular government — the fantasy-formation of the "ideologue" Sieyès — he had to fill and live through with the requirements of the living present, the need of the state for centrally organized reunification of the torn folk-whole, with his powerful reality. His laws are not reflected mirrorings of present necessity in classical models, but essentially classical grasping of this necessity with the legal and administrative aids factually inborn to it. In the Code civil — in property, marriage, adoption — nowhere does he turn back to Romanizing abstractions; everywhere he draws the law from the immediate task of the present state and the nearest national tradition. This, as he vividly feels, skipping over the ideological-arbitrary revolutionary classicism, is rooted in the organically grown tribal life — the

French knightly and later great-king monarchy: Francis I, Henry IV, and Louis XIV are its sense-representing apparitions. The elements of knighthood and monarchy interpenetrate in the particular tribal trait of the French nature that constitutes the unitary character of France throughout its history: the gentil-höfische, the noble-courtly. It determines the new form of state representation in the regalia and ceremony of the imperial court: the fusion of French-medieval with the cultural forms of the Ancien Régime. From the latter Napoleon takes court-officials and etiquette; the former emerge rejuvenated in attributes and distinctions (crown, scepter, sword, Legion of Honor). This new national direction of the Napoleonic state-spirit is quickly noted and taken up in Napoleon's circle. One notes it distressedly as a breach of feudal spirit into the liberal state-institutions; another — the poet Delille — takes up enthusiastically the call to join the national against the antique in his didactic poem "Imagination." Similarly one of the Napoleonic generals in the memory of his youth: "We became men or rather we believed we were, and what men? Greeks and Romans! Through a clumsy division of our studies we scarcely knew France" — an utterance that seems to anticipate the programs and motives of the movement against humanistic youth-education that has never come to rest since that time.

From his struggle with the Church, this development of Napoleon receives strengthening influx. Once more knighthood and monarchy live for him here as a palpable ground-condition of present-state activity. The secular and the world-monarchy, heroized in the forms of courtly-knightly vassalage, becomes the sensuous counter-image to the state-dissolving, denationalizing, and deheroizing spiritual power of the Church. Roland is in Lannes a living present for him, and Lannes only the prototype of his whole following, which with its endowments approached a feudal bond. From this following and from his family, he sees a new vassal-kingship after the image of the German imperial constitution growing up around him: bound to his crown by hereditary offices, which, according to his saying, would have had

to be invented if they had not existed in Germany. So vividly, compulsively does he — the man of ancient mode of being — become through the realization precisely of its essential content, through his immediately original world-conduct, European-modern man, rooted and interpenetrated with the materials and forms of his historical past. And thus from his deepest and wholly ancient essential closure — strengthening the same effects of his equally ancient apparition-expression — the stream flows into the world that, instead of throwing European modernity back into its distant classical inherited form, presses it toward its autochthonous essential foundations, renews the Middle Ages instead of antiquity, and, tearing apart the overstretched and worn-out classical inherited form, carries the romantic-heroic type into the world.

However many various rivers and brooks of world-forming sources may have had to flow together to create it in such renewals of substance — never could the romantically expressed ideal have brought up the being- and effect-power to realize itself in the world out of and over the ruins of the antique symbol, had not Napoleon's figural creation and creator-figure lent it the hero in which it found the elements of an unconditional — albeit reaching far beyond its own contents — embodiment. Schiller's Wallenstein, who from weapon-bright roaming and wavering of individual cravings can let something like an eternally destined world-image blossom up; Chateaubriand, Béranger, Victor Hugo, and Byron, to whom from equally shimmering formations a supra-temporally heroic world arises; Beethoven, who at least from afar pursues it with his unboundly stirred-up rhythms — all these are nourished from the blood of the antique single-form Napoleon.

After three millennia, the classical tradition, propagated in living succession of generations, comes to standstill and break through a man who, reaching beyond its modified late formations, sets the ur-type against them and thereby lets gape open the contradiction that separates being and meaning of its origins — i.e., immediacy, essentiality, unity — from its last shadow-

knowledge — i.e., suggestion and circumlocution of an imagined beauty and truth — and through this rift kills its last remaining life-remnant. After through his ur-being the last inherited form is destroyed, there is no further connection. From then on, classicism is in truth no longer an inheritance of blood, but only of education — an autonomous body of knowledge and educational resource of the transplanted European humanity. The realm in which it now roots, the force that now drives it — classicism's counter-world, over against the ancient mode of being, the romantic movement-current: even this, in order to be able to carry through its sensuous realization, its creative representation, has had to borrow the means for it from the ur-being embodiment of the antique that stands at its beginning as the conclusion of the last classical modification: Napoleon.

BOOK FOUR — FEELINGS AND DRIVES

I. CURRENTS OF THE AGE

THE great life-unity of Napoleon rests upon a foundation that nourishes it uniformly in all its parts and radiations: the immediacy of his connection with nature, the immediacy with which he takes from her and gives to her, with which he stands within her. His feeling, the way he reacts to the surrounding world, is no different from perception and deed as the expression thereof: it is entirely determined by that natural ground which it finds within his living personality. Just as his perceiving and acting break through the circle of temporal custom and work with his personal means and signs, so too his feeling does not tolerate the constricting compulsion exerted by the surrounding common sensibility of the age's culture. This, in Talleyrand's phrase, is always a little his personal enemy, against whom he has to assert his original essence. But his original essence is precisely "nature," the pure primordial existence of a perfectly formed human totality — and feeling, like perceiving and acting, are thus connected in him with the sources of general human primal being, a primary givenness as its primary natural radiation.

To be sure, in the beginnings of his development his natural-immediate feeling is subjected to the same distorting compulsion of the age's culture that, as earlier shown, falsifies the world of his perceptions, his impressions. His nature, open to all life-currents, did not remain closed to the strongest of the century, that of Rousseau. The elementary passionateness of his feeling — which is nothing but the unimpeded working-out of his natural immediacy — throws itself in his youth, unconscious of its own essence, upon what appears to it as its essence, but in truth is only essence of the age (which does not realize nature but only strives doctrinally toward it): upon a mediate expression of nature. He, who wholly and from himself is immediately nature, cannot help but go along with this current of the age just as his

antique formation goes along with the classicistic direction. The primary, still unconscious of itself, always sensuously directed toward the nearest given, seizes with its originary vitality a secondary form. His entire literary activity of youth — it is insofar truly literary as it essentially only transcribes what others have felt before him — runs in the stream of the humanitarian rationalism of the age and in closest connection with its main bearer, Rousseau. The latter's imagined state of nature, limited by a reason that overlooks its own original center, the creative spirit, to the primitive-vegetative basic conditions of man and directed toward an individual happiness detached from all supersensible, suprapersonal determination as an ultimate goal, is accepted by Napoleon as reality and made the basis of his then world-understanding and feeling. He seems to know no other, no deeper, no fuller givenness. His diary-like notes, his independent elaborations "sur l'amour de la Patrie," his "Discours sur l'amour," his "Lettres sur la Corse," his polemical writings, the "Lettre à M. Buttafuoco" and the "Souper de Beaucaire," his novellistic attempts, the "Letter of King Theodor to Lord Walpole" and "The Earl of Essex" are all glorification, defense, or clothing of that supposed fundamental determination of man and entirely filled with a secondary all-humanity feeling, all-world compassion, the impersonal-dissolving "sentiment" of the age. The prize question posed by the Academy of Lyons in 1791: "Quelles vérités et quels sentiments importe-t-il le plus d'inculquer aux hommes pour leur bonheur?" was in this stage of his development as if addressed to him most personally: an invitation to express before all public what he felt as life-element. So he certainly could not pass it by.

But he also could not satisfy it. The submission he produced, the so-called "Discours de Lyon," as it turned out later, was thought too little by the academic judges in the sense of the time to merit the prize — and yet in its real content it reaches far beyond the time. Feeling, which he had called the fundamental power of man, he sees here entirely in a mediacy conditioned by the happiness of all for the individual. The pure being of feeling, its

originary fullness and power that slumbers within itself, means little to him. It is not there for its own sake. It is the purpose-determined bearer of man's social existence, the "bond" through which he is connected with the higher and with all environment, and through which the latter itself is ultimately held together. "Since one must feel in order to be happy, since sensation awakens that shiver that comes over us so delightfully at the manifold impressions of nature, since sensation binds us to the homeland, instills in us love, friendship, gratitude; since it is the bond that unites man with the highest reason, man with society, man with man, it is chiefly sensation through which and for which we live." All conditions of communal happiness are contained in the feeling of the individual. "Feeling rebels against coercion, makes us friends of the beautiful and just, enemies of the oppressor and the villain. On feeling rests conscience, and ... thus morality ... Woe to him to whom these truths have not dawned. He knows of life only its adversities, of joys only sensual pleasure." The truly original, supra-conceptual feeling-substance is valued by the author doctrinally as raw sensory drive, which degrades man and — strange play of concepts — makes him secondary. To eradicate this rank growth of feeling, but to cultivate the benign sort, must be human task. He says: "Above all, then, one must seek to develop feeling and to heighten it according to the impulses of benevolent nature, to remove all the thorns that strangle or corrupt it, that make man an artificial, secondary being, a tool of his fellows and of his own ruin." He should realize that unleashed passions lead to collapse, and learn to secure himself against them. "But Philoctetes, but Cato, but Lucretia, but Brutus who sacrifices his children, may elevate his soul, move his heart and course through his blood with the balm that reawakens energy, courage, heroism." In the right of the generality to a primitive happiness, consisting in nothing other than the satisfaction of the instinctual needs of the individual, nature has given to the feeling of the individual its limit and its innermost determination: an immanent contradiction that pursues sensual happiness with desensualization. In this divided

conditionality Napoleon then appears as what is the actual center of his vitality — which in deepest essence is unconditional, itself newly realizing the limit and determination of mankind: his own bodily ordinary feeling, with which he imperiously penetrates nature and world, passionately embraces all heroic doers of the pre-world — Hannibal, Alexander, Caesar — as his brothers, and grows up to be their equal, the last hero of the occidental world-age.

Then, when this mission became radiantly conscious to him, when he stands on the height of his imperial power, the small, long-forgotten writing, dragged into the light by Talleyrand with untimely obsequiousness, enters his field of vision as an embarrassing memorial of youthful self-misunderstanding. And he casts it summarily into the fire, thereby proving how far his pure, mature feeling was from all merely sentimental affectation. All genuine seeds of his life that had blossomed up to him from his childhood he cherished on in faithful, loving remembrance. An empty wallowing in childhood memories for their own sake, and especially where they mirrored a distorted image of himself, was thoroughly repugnant to him. The violation and strangulation of his drive-powerful inner being by the cultural-compulsion of the age is most clearly revealed not in the conceptual content but in the form of his youthful work: in the constant concrete-coloring of the experience, the force with which under the impression of his own representation the primitive stirrings of a real pity, genuine indignation break forth from him and tumble over each other: "An unfortunate man sighs in prison. You know his innocence and his persecutor who holds him there. This man passes by. Your eyes flame up, your heart swells, a general shiver runs through your nerves. That is the indignation of feeling ... You have read Tacitus, who among you would not cry out with the young Cato: Give me a sword to kill this monster... At the word 'America' my blood takes flame, my hair stands on end, the feeling of pain, of pity for its unhappy inhabitants, that of abhorrence for the robbers who have laid it waste, forces itself imperiously upon me." This recalls many expressions — only too

familiar to us Germans as well — of the rational-sentimental literature of the age, a humanitarian pity with all the oppressed and disinherited, e.g., Seume's "Canadier." But this all-humanity fellow-feeling, driven up and simultaneously flattened out again by the age's reasoning, concentrates itself here in the very living feeling-drive of a single individual and takes from him glow and color. The emotion and enthusiasm, even if at first only rhetorical, immediately passes over into action. "If Socrates awakens your veneration and your tears, this drives you at once under the banners of Thrasybulus. Your desperate arm knows no more danger and you give no peace until the thirty tyrants are driven from Athens." No less does the clothing of the investigation in the form of dialogues between the counsel-seeking man and his given advisers (priest, jurist, and finally the most natural, his father) prove the unceasing drive of the author to force personal feeling, the living movement of animate individual beings, into the doctrinal material.

With this the judges are — without realizing it — already on the track of the nature of the author, when one of them says of the manuscript: "The whole (number of the Napoleonic work) is a quite pronounced reverie," another: "It is perhaps the work of a man of feeling; but it is too badly disposed, too unbalanced, too incoherent, and too badly written to hold attention." For it does not lack that his passion seized by the object leaps over the boundaries of the barely learned foreign language, wants to heighten it to a power of imagery not given to it, mixes it with Italianisms that break forth from his pressing inner self: "Quelques hommes hardis, qui impulsés par leur génie." "La perfection naît du raisonnement, comme le fruit de l'arbre..." "Pour conduire les hommes au bonheur, faut-il donc qu'ils soient égaux en moyens?" "Tes richesses sont ton malheur. Rentre dans la latitude de tes sens." "Qu'à votre voix les ennemis de la nature... avalent de rage leur langue de serpent." The nearest reality, physical occurrence, sensory visibility dominates his imagination, seizes his feeling, forms his language. Without regard for the possibilities given to it — which as a foreign-born

speaker he is, one might say, happily unconscious of — he forces it to follow his eye and to give to his inner visions, his movements of feeling the expression of immediate, tangible concreteness, which his eye takes from nature and transmits to his spirit, which more "sees" and "feels" than "thinks." The judges are ultimately right in their astonished rejection: drive and feeling of a living I prevail more than the calm dignity of a treatise, especially one corresponding to the Spirit of the Age, can bear, and almost make one forget that the passionate agitation is aimed at praising the moderation of passion. How could this swelling-up of the doctrinal material, by which Napoleon appears spiritually quite permeated, come about through feeling? The answer is given by the concrete human figure in whom this development takes place. It is not the doctrinaire Rousseauian who here, against his better judgment, suffers the object to be so suffused and swelled with personal feeling; it is the young Corsican who does this. The naturalness of his being has remained so powerful that it far exceeds all that he has received and can receive from the age; it works in the raw material with such force that it bursts the theoretical frame. He cannot and will not write at all otherwise than as his Corsican eye sees, his Corsican heart feels — just as his spirit sees in the Corsican man the originally classical form.

For him there is in this period no other goal of his active willing than Corsica. All his thoughts, all his wishes, all his endeavors aim at freedom and happiness of the motherland. This is attested by his manifold elaborations on Corsican history and conditions, his petition to the government, his letter to Buttafuoco, and his interventions, undertaken again and again even from France, in the political unrest of Corsica. The primal state that contemporaries calculate and dream up with reason and imagination, and that they intuitively correctly relocate to Corsica — "we, who are called the forerunners of freedom," Napoleon appeals to it — here is the Corsican who carries it like all his countrymen in his blood and with it, with its unbroken strength, nourishes an unbroken native feeling of belonging. "From Corsica I have received my life and with it a vehement love

for my unhappy fatherland and its independence" is his passionate confession to the mother earth, placed in the mouth of an eighty-year-old man in his Corsican novella. And he gives it very emphatic practice. This small work, like particularly his *Lettres sur la Corse* and letters and petitions to the government and deputies, are borne only by the one drive to awaken sympathy for oppressed Corsica in the heart of the European, especially the French, world, to make comprehensible the value and greatness of his homeland nation. These lie in the unconditionality of its political originary formations and human primal being-structures, which no country of Europe has preserved, and which now through the French as previously through the Genoese conquest are to be called into question for all Europe. In his writing style, adapted to the secondary style of the age, this state of unconditionality is called — strangely enough — "de la raison." In an earlier draft of his "Letter to Buttafuoco" he says: "The Corsican people ... driven by its leaders ... seems to have gone to excess; but the spirit of the century ... the friends of liberty of all countries, with a resolute arm cast down ... this hydra of prejudices that nourishes itself only on injustice and will always hold you in chains." His fiery defense of the motherland flows here entirely into the stream of the contemporary renewal movement with its rational enthusiasm for an imagined natural state of peoples. But his own feeling, nourished on the reality of his originary motherland, remains a concrete kernel in these sentimental floodings and gives them a deeper essentiality than they had according to the understanding and wishes of contemporaries. The explicit emphasis on "feudal, money, and aristocratic rule" as opposed to the Corsican homeland constitution clarifies this deepening. Napoleon does not stop at opposing an indefinite "freedom of the island inhabitants" to the "tyrannical enslavement" of mainland Europeans: he goes straight for the factuality of the opposition that lies in the overrefined political ramifications of medieval culture versus the naturally simple organization of Corsican communal life. Because such a reality of natural state formations

exists on his home island, he can have an immediately sensory feeling for it; his language, which seems only to pour out the vocabulary of the age's thought-current, has the essential content thereof. When he advocates the right and independence of Corsica with exactly the same rational-eudaimonistic turns of phrase that everywhere are brought into the struggle for the liberation of peoples: in his mouth they take on the breath and color of a personal experience, a burning concern for the blood-near. Hear him: "Strangers and derided in our own fatherland, life flows by us in tribulation and discouragement. Poor Corsica, ground of oppression and fear! What fate has always made you the victim of the foreign nations that enslaved you?" he laments over his home island as over a defiled maternal body. This is the cry of a son over a painfully destroyed basis of life, not over a represented ideality. Even where it is no longer properly about the defense of homeland rights, where he streams into the distance, roves into the general, apparently pours himself out unbridledly into the pathetic feeling-rhetoric of the age, it remains the living homeland-feeling that drives up and pulses through these excesses.

He closes his report on the uprising in Ajaccio on June 25, 1790 with the embellished depiction: "The ashes of patriots are sometimes desecrated; families that have distinguished themselves by great sacrifices are at a stroke dishonored by the unworthy deeds of a son, a brother, a nephew; then these great men demand of the fatherland in the name of their fatherland that it avenge them on these unworthy descendants; that is the sweetest incense one can burn on their grave." But this emphatic summons proceeds precisely from the betrayed heroes of his native soil, and behind the cry for revenge on the degenerate offspring, which seems like a trope of the age's style, the particular note of the Corsican "vendetta" resounds, which is ever alive in Napoleon's imagination. To one of the Corsican leaders of the Renaissance period, Giocante, Napoleon puts in the "Lettres sur la Corse" the incitement in the mouth: "You deliberate, and one of you has a father, another a brother to

avenge, that one a nephew, and all of you together the wrong the fatherland has suffered." Here the transition is clear: from the private blood-revenge native to Corsica to the doctrinal phrase of the age about "revenge on the oppressors of the fatherland," for which the immediately experiencing Corsican surely possessed no originary feeling. The "amour de la patrie," the abstract construct of the age from pre-revolutionary ideologues, which first attained through the blood of the Revolution its baptism and thereby the bodiliness and concreteness with which it worked in the souls of the revolutionary contemporaries — this fabricated homeland-sentiment of the time appears to Napoleon at the same time as the vital force of his personal nature, which draws him to the native soil. In the Corsican youth the two are still one. Only gradually does the personal element separate from the general, and the immediately experienced homeland-feeling from the "amour de la patrie." He continues to write: "But you, my inexpressibly dear friends, from whom an unjust fate has separated me, you with whom I shared heart and sentiment, what sweet days, what pure joys we tasted! We felt all the bliss of mutual friendship!" Napoleon lives from the stronger, the immediate fire of the real friendship-bonds of Corsica, which he like only a Corsican has held fast his whole life long. One thinks of his connection with the Arrighis and Casabiancas, with the brother of the Duchesse d'Abrantès, Albert Permon, and of the enduringly preserved affection for his first mainland companions, into which he carried the intensity of his Corsican feeling of friendship.

Similar things hold for the many other movements of feeling shooting through his youthful writings. They maintain the style of the age, seem to give nothing but the rationalized sentiment of the time: but a certain more passionate coloring, a more concrete overtone, already the accumulation of their occurrence in the midst of factual discussion betray the more personal element of feeling that here shoots into the time-feeling and wants to — and must — make itself present in it, because it is still too weak to assert its full own heroic feeling-force against that of world-

convention. In the "Discours de Lyon" we read effusions of a nature-feeling entirely in the taste and attitude of the age: "He climbs one of the peaks of Mont Blanc; see the sun gradually rising, bringing comfort and hope under the thatched roof of the day-laborer. May above all the first ray it sends be caught by your hearts. Preserve the sensations you feel there well in your memory." — "Descend to the shore of the sea, see the star of day at its setting plunge with majesty into the lap of the infinite: melancholy will overwhelm you," etc. The more passionate wave of personal feeling that moves these pathetic exclamations is not to be mistaken. It comes from the more intimate, the immediate familiarity with an original, immediate nature, the mountains and sea of Corsica. He speaks in the most general address, but what he says testifies to his own possession, the possession of a native. And where he rises from the description of nature to the characterization of the human condition, we encounter the same phenomenon. When he writes: "Without energy, without virtue, without strength there is neither feeling nor natural reason, there is no happiness; the slave who trembles at the sight of his oppressor, who knows property, law, justice only as caprice, whim, or advantage of the powerful, has no feeling but that of his sufferings, no judgment but that of his tyrants; he becomes cowardly, base, arrogant, small": does this conceptual exaggeration of a human ideal of freedom in Napoleon's mouth not already point to the reversal of what it proclaims? Is this proclamation not inwardly already swollen by the passionate drive of a powerful individual soul, unbreakable by any age-doctrine? In the diction, in the thrusting momentum of the strung-together synonyms, it makes its way. The sequences of words: "without energy, without virtue, without strength," "who knows property, law, justice only as caprice, whim, or advantage of the powerful," finally the abrupt conclusion: "He becomes cowardly, base, arrogant, small" — already proclaim wholly that individual feeling setting itself in place of traditional common feelings, which later in the proclamations renews the spirit of a whole army, a whole people out of itself. Here it is still not

conscious of itself, does not announce itself immediately, does not express itself in the form of the I, but keeps itself, as it must, outwardly entirely in the appearance of the general sensibility of the age. But it is there. Nourished from the originary drives of the island land, the maturing genius attains first to a personal feeling of his connection with the homeland, an immediate feeling for its nature-given reality. But then there arises from this first, most primitive personal feeling — that for the mother earth — an independent sensation toward all environment, all existence, nature and history, indeed toward his own self. And this inborn stream of feeling in his inner being, this irresistible pressing toward the nearest givenness, toward the most original, is at the same time a hunger for all possible, even the most remote, nourishment of a world that might satisfy his untamed urge for feeling.

It was not merely from the need for material to fill out his literary attempts — it was not even primarily from that — that his youthful reading seized upon everything that the time-current offered, but with the thirst for a new, stronger experience. "On this glowing, future-dreaming soul," says the early interpreter of his spiritual form, Stendhal, "the deepest books worked only as a novel works on ordinary souls." And in his hunger for the authentic, the immediate, he does not spurn this nourishment either, the products of contemporary novel literature. Yes, almost more greedily than after the doctrinal manifestations of the age's sensibility, he reaches for its unrestrained expressions in the dissolute sentimental novel of the epoch. And it is characteristic that his preference here is determined less by literary quality than by the excess of sentimentality in which the author wallows. The memory of this "bad" reading, as his critical observer says, he has so firmly retained in memory that still in mature age he believes he can entertain his imperial wife from the House of Habsburg with these writings. And certainly it is also attributable to this overwhelming hunger for feeling that Werther so durably held him in his youth. Passionately his personal feeling-drive tears from the feeling-forces of the age what he can awaken and

assimilate to himself. But independently of this, the feeling-voice of the Rousseau age remains audible to him far into the period of his emotional life developing toward independence. It also permeates the sphere of his already personally colored public action. The letters to Joseph, especially from the bad Paris summer of 1795 — are certainly inspired by the true affection he always felt for his older brother. But here it is mixed with the general tone of tenderness and brotherliness that makes it so difficult to gauge the particular depth of feeling in the friendships of the age. "Into whatever situations fate may bring you, you surely know that you have no better friend than me; I am writing to you with truly aching heart, if the time should come when you need a friend, consider me; your sorrows will be my sorrows." One feels: the generalizing phrase, the literary tone typical of the age, is present; the passionateness of the personal note still resists.

And long after, when Napoleon has already reached the summit of his life, there recur from time to time those outpourings of feeling that feed on the heritage of the Rousseau current. In the year 1802, when he stands at the head of the state, the First Consul sometimes gives himself up to the old atmosphere. The brother of Josephine reports: "He had the candles veiled with a white gauze scarf. He commanded us deep silence ... or else he listened to solemn and soft pieces of music, performed by Italian singers and accompanied only by a small number of softly vibrating instruments. Then one saw him sink into reverie." This summoning up and heightening of sentimental languishing certainly does not stem from his primordial being, but is the legacy he takes over from the culture of his youth and nourishes with his particular life- and feeling-intensity. Even the inclination toward the contemplative-secluded existence of country dwellers recurs sometimes in later times. His secretary, the confidant from his youth, reports: "While I was with Bonaparte, he often spoke to me of the life of a country gentleman, which he considered the happiest for people of comfortable means and without ambition." At first glance this praise seems to lack any reference to himself.

But Napoleon here sees himself not in his present state of life, but in those times of his youth not yet troubled by a future destiny, and reaches longingly back toward them. "He had been in a position," the report continues, "to learn to know and appreciate this kind of existence. For he has very often told me that of all the times of his life he most gladly remembers those he spent in the environs of Valence at a castle of the du Colombier family." The tension between the Italian campaign and the Egyptian expedition transforms itself for him into a longing for a bourgeois seclusion that lies entirely in this direction. The Prussian envoy reports twice in quick succession about this to Berlin: "I have heard him described by his military friends ... as weary of so much unrest, as inclined to withdraw into seclusion in order to devote himself there to the sciences." And at the very moment when he is about to carry the great work of his creative transformation in the state to completion through the reorganization of Europe, after the battle of Jena, on the heights of his external power, the old tune returns: "I am not at all fond of war; it is a trade that in the long run becomes tiresome; I regret more and more that I have not been able to devote myself to the sciences, but necessity drove me from the obscurity where it would have pleased me to pass my life." In the time of the greatest pressure of his work, personal concerns about Josephine's uncontrollable rumors of infidelity throw him into confusion, in the midst of an action that wants to change the form of the world, he calls out for the asylum of rural seclusion: "Human nature disgusts me. Great things disgust me, fame is stale at twenty-nine." It is as if the emotional rationalism of the Rousseau epoch does not want to give up the dominion it exercised over him in his youth. He begins to feel fear before his own stronger, more original feelings. Like a youth of the Werther epoch he complains of their excess that oppresses him: "It is a sad condition to have to bear all kinds of feeling for one and the same person at once in a single heart," and clings full of deep melancholy to the brother, the friend, to be his support in this confused tumult of feelings. One must, to gauge the full

significance of this writing, realize the emotional firmness of the later Napoleon. Then one becomes aware of what power the feeling-stream of his youth — overflowing in insubstantial enthusiasm, only with difficulty captured in the bed of rationalism — exerted over him. Even the immediate manifestations of his will to fact, of his commander-like and statesmanlike action, do not deny it — at least in its beginnings. The proclamations and army orders of the Italian campaign bear traces of it. His first proclamation to the Tyroleans seems wafted by the enthusiastic veneration of the Rousseau age for natural peoples and their simple customs: "I shall enter your territory, brave Tyroleans ... The French army respects and loves all peoples, but especially the simple and unspoiled inhabitants of the mountains." To explain this assurance as a mere phrase of the age, a standing formula of revolutionary propaganda, is to say too little. Napoleon uses precisely its means and practices — as already earlier in securing his original will to accomplish — and only through them does his own proper feeling make its way. But that he uses them at all — where the ultimate substance of his nature had already developed into independent essential feeling — proves how much his personal feeling stands under the spell of the forms of feeling of his age. Quite clearly this is shown by the account with which he closes his report intended for the Directory on the conquest of the Mantuan suburb of San Giorgio: "I must not conceal from you a trait that illustrates the barbarism still reigning in these regions. In San Giorgio there is a convent of nuns; the nuns had fled, for the convent was exposed to the fire of the cannons. Our soldiers break in to seek shelter and gain a foothold. They hear cries, run to a poultry yard, break open a wretched cell, and find a young person on a wretched chair, her hands bound with iron chains. The unhappy woman begged for her life. They break her fetters. From her features she is twenty-two years old. She had been in this condition for four years because she wanted to flee and in the age and land of love — follow the impulses of her heart. Our grenadiers took care of her with particular solicitude. She shows much interest in the

French. She has been beautiful and combines the vivacity of this country with the melancholy of her misfortune. Every time someone entered, she seemed uneasy; it was soon learned that she feared to see her tyrants return. She begged as a grace to draw fresh air; she was told that the projectiles were hailing around the house. 'Ah,' she replied, 'to stay here: that is to die.'"

Consider what it already means to append to an official state document, the report of a military engagement, the description of this episodic individual fate, what this mixture of public and private, great and small, heroic deed and romantic feeling means for Napoleon. It is entirely contrary to his nature directed toward the essential, the factual, the immediate, and can be explained only from the as yet unovercome inclination to that rationally colored sentimentality of the age, which in the same manner, in the same episode, transposes the single human destiny into the foreground of great events. The entire scene is, in its composition and interpretation, the rationalistic-sentimental schema of the tendentious writings of the age, their humane upsurge against the violation of human drives by the degenerate forms of society, church, and state, bathed in the shimmer of melancholy that habitually trembles around this almost formulaic indignation. The former beauty of the nun, the "*mélancolie de ses malheurs*" is emphasized, and the whole episode ends in the touching image that death by a bullet in the open air seems less terrible to her than a slow wasting away in convent captivity. No one can fail to recognize in this narrative the excess of the humanely enthusiastic feeling of the age that still asserts itself against Napoleon's personal elementary feeling, but no one either the passionate fervor with which Napoleon, regardless of his own differently constituted soul, gives himself over to the feeling-current of the age. Only this fervor, his own impetuous feeling-force, could swell the contemporary feeling-schema so with life, so into real feeling, that it could find words at this place and in this context, in Napoleon's work-creating presence. Many commanders during the Revolution reported on their military actions to Paris: but none whom such a digression into the

episodic-feelingful would have overtaken, none with whom it would even appear compatible. He whose feeling nourished itself most immediately and most originally from the central kernel of things and directed itself upon it — precisely he and only he could summon the force of passionate thorough-feeling required to draw even peripheral events into the circle of central experience and give them utterance in connection with it. It was reserved for this great individual soul and its destiny to permeate the impersonally enthusiastic soul-tone of the age with its mighty feeling and to give the world the originally thing-like attitude of the heroic man, to merge its own most personal drive, diametrically opposed to the age-feeling, with the most impersonal hovering of feeling most opposed to it, and to swell it once more to a late, unexpected excess. And only by — indeed precisely by — pouring its vigorous and arrow-straight wave into these floodwaters of the age-feeling, open to all surges, incapable of resistance, and thus driving it up once more, did it also overwhelm it, force the soul-stream of the age to assume its own personal, thing-like density and direction, and thereby embrace the individual and real of the world.

II. ONE'S OWN FEELING: IMMEDIACY

"Bourrienne, you know that he is not malicious." The same thing is meant when Caulaincourt in his enthusiastic memoirs exclaims with an undertone of resignation: "Ah, if he could be himself, he was sincere and good." The same conception of Napoleon's being-and-work-limited feeling is reflected even more clearly in Metternich's conceptually discriminating depiction in the sense of the age: "Napoleon had two faces. As a private man he was accessible and amenable, without being pronouncedly good or evil. In his capacity as statesman he gave no room to any feeling. He made his decisions not according to favor or hatred. He destroyed or removed his enemies without troubling himself about anything other than the necessity or advantage of freeing himself from them. Once this goal was reached, he forgot them and did not pursue them further."

How Napoleon's personal and supremely human feeling encompasses and rules all his circles of life, the narrower and the wider, is brought to vivid depiction by that councillor of state who has transmitted Josephine's first-mentioned utterances: "In private intercourse he was kind to his family, his own and the servants of the state, he was constant in his affections and his estimation. Fits of ill humor, impatience, vehemence did not last. Consideration soon brought him back to justice, to forbearance. He accepted justifications, excused error, and forgave upon repentance." This witness is not suspected of particularly benevolent disposition toward Napoleon. All the more may his communications claim credibility. It remains: within a living and inwardly maintained feeling-context with his own — blood-relatives, friends, work-companions — Napoleon is in individual matters exposed to shocks and influences of all kinds upon his alert and mobile sensibility. But these find their counterweight — with almost the same words as in Josephine's statement — in a deeper fundamental disposition: "He had a natural disposition toward justice." All the witnesses who have transmitted his particular feelings or expressions of feeling to us — even those in

which the individual feeling apparently breaks through the limits of the structure of his being — refer them, where they only address it immediately, back to that ultimate source of their power, the balanced and balancing ground-feeling for all things human. What Napoleon himself says in this regard about himself in comparison with his brother Joseph is certainly true: "He is not as good as I. I am indeed vehement in the first moment, but I get over it, and one always finds resources in the depths of my heart."

A deep thirst for the exercise of the most immediate human belonging-together, of friendly connection, is proper to him. He has sought to satisfy it in youth and later as well in personal, friendly intercourse with his retinue. The scope of his world-embracing willing and having-to stood finally in the way. But feeling besieges him all the more powerfully. "He complained one day to me that he had no friends," Josephine told that same councillor of state. About the same time the important German historian, to whom we owe the first — and in many respects still unassailable — history of the 18th century, sketches a depiction of the great man of his time based on carefully collected testimonies, which in many features corresponds to the notes of that councillor of state. Here too the naturally human sensibility that Napoleon showed in intercourse with his own is emphasized as particularly memorable: "We must nevertheless confess that the strange union of tender feeling and unrelenting severity and harshness was indeed found in the character of the hero. We know from the mouths of persons who were always close to him in the time of his splendor, who saw him in moments of repose and abandon and only in these, we have often heard it confirmed through individual anecdotes and utterances, that in the bosom of his family, in the narrow circle of friends, in cheerful moments of recreation, he spoke, felt, acted in the same way as any other person of tender sensibility. It was only in his public role that he suppressed these emotions; but the heart of the man, the father, the friend, the sweetheart, felt as all feel, and his private life, where it could express itself freely, gave unmistakable

confirmation of this. All his intimates agree in this; our own collected testimonies, which we have long gathered from various sides, leave no doubt that the commonly received opinion of his insensibility and hardness of heart is entirely false and arises from seeing only the hero, the statesman, the ruler, but not the man." All this agrees with what we have already drawn from other testimonies as the nature of Napoleon's feeling: that it is directed toward the essential, the true and lawful, but that in the narrower sphere of the personal — indeed beyond it in all regions — it can be moved by the individual.

This is not contradicted, but rather confirmed, by the well-known position of that lady-in-waiting of Napoleon's wife, who in her report — extensively utilized by later historiography — has lent the harshest expression to the allegation of Napoleon's feelinglessness. Her assertion that he "was not good" is refuted not only by the opposite testimonies of reliable observers but also by her own depiction. In the course of her memoirs she herself has transmitted many a trait of living emotion from Napoleon; against her own will, however, even the passage where she accuses him of feelinglessness contains, rightly read, the refutation and clarification of this charge. She says: "Bonaparte carries the personal so far that it is not easy to awaken his feeling for something that does not concern him. Nevertheless, he has sometimes been seen as if surprised by certain stirrings of feeling, but they were very transitory and always ended with ill humor. often one sees him so moved that he even sheds tears; they are apparently the consequence of a nervous irritation, of which they then signify the crisis." One notices the reluctance with which the witness wrings from herself even the remotest concession to a just appreciation of Napoleon's humanity. Nevertheless she cannot conceal the frequent occurrence of such an extraordinary outburst of feeling as tears. She tries to falsify it into a merely physical phenomenon, a nervous breakdown. As if in a man of Napoleon's controlled essential unity there could have been such a separation of soul and body that in him the nerves rebelled without the shock of his innermost emotional life!

If one can speak of nerves and their crisis in him, it means precisely only the overpowering, body-sweeping swell of his human feeling, which he himself once very physically designates as "échauffer la bile." That this was always and quite generally, not merely occasionally, the ultimate ground of his frequent external excitability, is betrayed — as said, entirely against her will — by the authoress in the first sentence. There she shows her false, rational-moralizing way of seeing, which cannot grasp the image of the great man living from his personal unity and realizing it, and therefore devaluates his still conspicuous, still humanly immediate feelings into rationalized mechanisms.

What Napoleon required from his environment in feeling was not the individual, the particular stirring, but the holding-fast of the feeling-substance in its deepest, most powerful, most original concentration. He recognized in this alone the true force of man, and therefore sought above all to nourish and heighten this power. The formation of the heart as the kernel of all human perfection always stood for him above individual training. For the education of women at the Institute of Ecouen he prescribes: "Make believers and not rationalizers, first the heart!" In this there spoke not only a particular cultural-political tendency, but his own elementary feeling, which could first produce such a tendency. A similar estimation of the soul-values, of the immediate-feelingful values of life, is meant when he defends himself in the Council of State during the deliberations on marriage law against the too-far-reaching proposal to recognize "error in motive" as grounds for divorce, with the argument: "There has already been a mingling of soul, of sweat. In marriage it is about something other than community of name and property... Should the legislator proceed from the assumption that one marries in the main for the sake of these things, or for the sake of physical attractions, spiritual qualities, and everything that awakens feeling and sensual inclination? But if these latter qualities form the main foundation of marriage, would it not be offensive to declare the marriage null because the girl one married did not have the 'accessory qualities'?" He

proved this deep soul-bond in his own hard inner struggle over the dissolution of his marriage with Josephine. In the deliberations on adoption in the Council of State, it is again the living feeling that he wants to see represented with sensory forcefulness against dogmatic constructions. He says: "Conceptual derivation leads to the most perverse results. Not for five sous a day, not for a miserable distinction does one let oneself be killed; one must speak to the soul to electrify man. No notary produces such an effect for the twelve francs of a contract. You will never make of man what he should be with regulations. It is feeling that must be awakened."

And if ever the abiding elementary force of his feeling was evident, it is in the Enghien episode. Let us disregard the political judgment of this event; let us only point here to the immense inner turmoil that Napoleon undergoes during the Enghien episode. For days before and after he remains in silent solitude. The evening after the terrible event finds him first in a petrification that spreads from him over the whole court, lets one after another slink away wordlessly, until then before his most trusted intimates in an unstoppable outpouring he exhausts every conceivable ground of justification to placate the voices of his human compassion for the unheard-of blood-sacrifice, surging up with demonic force. When he must then convince himself through the belated report of the councillor of state R  al of the innocence of the prince, his tormented inner being vents itself in cries of the most painful remorse over what has happened. The manner of his feeling — he says it himself — is the original stirring of inexhaustible nature, which tolerates no cultural disguise, no constriction by moralizing reasoning. "My inner drives, which are at bottom those of nature and opposed to certain trappings of greatness with which I must deck myself out, give me unlimited resources to throw the conceptions of everyone continually off balance." He is conscious of the superiority that the natural trait of his sensibility gives him as a statesman over the conventional attitude of civilized society. What is for him the most immediate foundation and need of his being is for him also the most

immediate power. He does not shrink from confessing, in this context, above the most recognized moral laws, to the primitive givens of human nature. He, the heroic doer, feels in his blood with more unconditional surging what Kleist has stealthily given to his Prince of Homburg as a supposedly monstrous ambivalence: the capacity for fear, for fear of death, the defense of bare life against nothingness. "Frankly, I do not like to die; I do not at all understand how one can go to certain death coolly. One must be carried away by enthusiasm, be in the grip of passion, or goaded from behind." This is not the confession of a specifically physiological fear of death, but the expression of that elementary will to live, which, as the root of all natural existence, feels itself threatened in its existence by the destruction of the body and rebels. This will to live, the basis of the vitality of every natural existence, attains in Napoleon, because his life has stepped beyond the limits of the individual into a universal significance, the right to raise itself above all ethical predicates, to subordinate them to a higher law of being, that of the heroic, self-perfecting life — that law which found its characteristic pronunciation and stamp in the writings of Nietzsche. The persons of his environment do not grasp this deeper content of his being and his utterances, perceive only the bourgeois feeling of brutal fear of death familiar to them, and judge the self-preservation compulsion of the hero with their more conditioned measure as moral deficiency, as weakness before the resistances of the outer world. "He has constantly been seen," they say, "anxious and uneasy when misfortune weighed upon his head." And now with astonishment, now with ill-concealed satisfaction, they know how to tell ever new details of the failure of his powers of resistance before the onslaught of the Five Hundred on the 18th Brumaire. They do not see that for Napoleon there was something more essential than to overcome the momentary resistances of a political present, that it was for him a matter of fulfilling his own law of life, of preserving his existence in the midst of the counter-powers that threatened it, as the new creative world-force. He might tremble for his life because this

life meant more to him than the outer world and its demands, because for him it meant and might mean the world-sense. Only one, his actual counterpart, the soul of the coalition, the Austrian state chancellor, has recognized, with an illumination surpassing his own measure, the heroic trait in this self-preservation drive: "He was very attached to life, but since an immense sum of destinies was bound to his own, it was without doubt permitted to him to see in his life something other than the miserable existence of an individual being. He simply did not consider himself entitled to risk 'Caesar and his fortune' merely to prove his courage. Other great commanders have thought and acted like him. If this incentive that produces the daredevils were lacking in him, he was no less a hero on that account than those who have acted differently." Thus Metternich, in the Dresden conversations of 1813.

Napoleon's adherence to life had a quite different cause from the mere instinct of self-preservation, which is common to all living beings. It was rooted in the feeling of his universal significance, of the inseparability of his person from his work, of his person from the world. The continuation of his life was the guarantee of a new order of the world. With the extinction of this life, the world would be cast back into the old disorder of the age. That is the authentic heroic meaning of Napoleon's holding-fast to life. But this holding-fast is, at the same time, the truly natural and original one, and from this unreserved, elementary vitality of Napoleon, as he himself once very characteristically expressed it, comes the firm bond with his own life and all living existence: "If I had the choice: to die or to be wounded, a ball would make no breach in me; I would come out of it with a scratch. During the famous passage of the bridge of Arcola, I would have been killed if I had not had confidence. Believe me, the boldest among us is the one who has the most left. At Lodi, I would have been taken by a Cossack, but I kept him at a distance. When the thrust struck my stomach, I felt my life ebbing. I had just enough time to tell myself that I did not want to die, and I live! Any other in my place would be dead."

Because his feeling was so immediately rooted in the drives of nature, he has an irresistible inclination toward all nature-given existence, toward all radiations of this existence. Elementary natural phenomena work upon him with a strange magic: it is as if between their simple greatness and his natural being there exists a mysterious bond. Significant like an annunciation of such magical connections is a report he sends to Josephine in the winter of 1806 about his stay in the East Prussian castle of Finkenstein. In the spacious rooms there are large fireplaces, as in the French châteaux, "and that," he writes, "is very pleasant for me, since I often get up at night; I love the sight of fire." Napoleon is certainly not a friend of children and not of animals in the sense of a one-sidedly playful occupation with them, as one can notice the former in Frederick, the latter in some other great figures of history. Hence perhaps also the mistaken opinion of some reporters who want to find something artificial and contrived in his playing with children. This is certainly not the case. They were deceived by the distance between his customary world-significant action and this seemingly senseless-insignificant activity, and by the apparently complete self-forgetfulness he brought to this play. But precisely this was genuine and testified to the deeper, more immediate connection with the child's being with which he occupied himself. It was not a plaything for him as for the adult otherwise, but a piece of familiar nature with which he consorted as equals, placing himself entirely on its level. Such scenes are reported particularly from his interaction with his nephew Napoleon, the child of Louis and Hortense, and with the son of the Neapolitan queen, his stepdaughter. The relation to this little Napoleon had something particularly tender. He had him often brought to him at the Tuileries and took delight in playing with him for hours. After his separation from Josephine and after the death of this child, which followed soon thereafter, he often spoke with regret about this loss. In the Council of State during the deliberations on the reorganization of education he remarks: "There is never reason to despair of a child until it has reached puberty; only then does it attain the development of its

mental faculties; only then can one judge it. On the contrary, one must increase encouragement." This utterance shows equally the emotional connection and the spiritual familiarity of Napoleon with the soul of the child.

He did not occupy himself playfully with animals: the little dogs, occasionally a monkey, that Josephine kept, were even unbearable and disturbing to him as a permanent environment. But where an animal confronted him in its own nature-given being and context, he was immediately livingly touched. During the first Italian campaign he finds on a battlefield a dog howling beside its fallen master. This sight strikes him to the last depths of his humanity, lets him measure in this wretched pain of an animal the immense suffering of heroic hearts. "The poor animal looked as if it were seeking an avenger or wanted to call for help. I felt moved, I was shaken by the howling and the pain of a dog. One thing is certain: I would have been more accessible at that moment to an enemy begging for mercy. I understood Achilles, how he gives back the corpse of Hector to the weeping Priam, now better." The natural feeling of the creature raises his own natural sensibility high. Again and again he answered the cry of the creature with the same voice of his original emotional power. On the Russian retreat, the dog of a Württemberg rifle officer, which he saw suffering terribly from the hardships and privations, inspired such pity in him that he wanted to take it with him. But he refrained because he was moved by the intimate belonging-together of the animal with its master. The animal and its owner were a piece of life that he did not want to tear apart.

His own memories of childhood had a thoroughly genuine, natural character and remained alive in him as long as he lived. He called to mind with the same pleasure with which he played with children the feelings he had experienced as a child. Once on St. Helena he speaks to the children of the Montholon family with an intensity of feeling that seems strange coming from such a mouth: "Let us think back to the time when we were children; we had no great needs, we knew no sorrows, we were without hate,

we believed in friendship. We loved our mother, our family, our dog, and the soldiers passing by. Your plays, your studies, the reward that was promised you for a well-recited lesson, the performance of a little play: what pure and gentle emotions! ... When you see a fine landscape, a beautiful sunset, mass in a solemn cathedral, or again a military march, a review, a gallop of cavalry, or music that arouses the fire of passion in our senses: then you experience a moment of your childhood and enjoy its pleasures." The pull toward childhood, like that toward the homeland — both feelings of a rooted humanity — lay in his blood as a personal inheritance. He has ruled it his whole life long. Again and again Napoleon in conversations returns to the places, events, companions of his childhood years. That he provides for the latter down to the porter of the school of Brienne (whom he made castellan of Malmaison) in his entourage or otherwise with office and maintenance, constitutes a particular testimony of his humanity. But quite independently of such care for the guardians and guides of his youth, purely from the desire to experience this time once again, the thought arises in him — suddenly at the summit of his life, in the year 1805 — to pay a visit to Mme de Brienne, the patroness of the school, at her old residence and once again to roam through those places of his earliest development. When matters within him are turning around the fate of Enghien and one after another from his entourage seeks to mollify him, Joseph comes closest to him by awakening his childhood memories and contrasting the fame of the great Condé, which then filled their common youthful dreams, with the misfortune that is now to be brought upon his grandson by the hand of his former, then so insignificant admirer. How close this came to the heart of the First Consul is best proved by the fact that with another involved in the same investigation, the Count of Polignac, the memory of their former youthful companionship moved Napoleon so immediately and so powerfully that it burst forth in his pardon in the following form: "We have moreover remembered that we were friends with this young man at the Collège, in our earliest youth."

Just as Napoleon's feeling takes hold of the nearest and most original givens with the greatest intensity, so it is in its nature directed away from all that is perverse, unnatural, contrary to nature. The simplest and most natural thing is also the most powerful for his feeling. Everything complicated, contrived, peripheral remains alien to it and is incapable of setting it in motion. His feeling is so bound to the essential, to that which he feels as nature, that it stands defenseless only against the genuinely elementary counter-power. Where a situation arises in which he sees himself confronted not by visible, tangible resistances but by the diffused, the intangible, the formless, his feeling disappears and leaves his will bewildered and helpless. The memories of the failure of the 18th Brumaire in the confrontation with the intangible masses of the Five Hundred have this as their ultimate ground. Against driving waves, against the rushing forest, against the thousand-fold meaningless agitation of a crowd, his feeling, which presupposes visible outlines, distinct forms, and concrete will, is incapable of reacting. And just as the boundless, the formless, so too the unnatural finds no access to his feeling. There is absolutely nothing that would suit the straight and round, toward the world closed human unity of Napoleon less than a straying or overshooting of his feeling into peripheral outer regions of passion. Such yielding to eccentric or, as one says today, perverse surges of feeling may at best be compatible with great individual talents that compensate for the excess of one-sided capacity by such one-sided desire. But even with them, the inclination toward male community usually means something deeper than the meager common understanding of today would see in it. Alexander in any case — Napoleon's equal in stature of self-perfected humanity — did not possess it in this sense; with him, as with Plato, it was component and realization of a particular masculine world-spirit. Napoleon does not know it at all, and no more than it does he know any desire for another kind of uncreative or creation-hostile pleasure: intercourse with blood-kin, with beings bound to him in another circle of feeling.

But what remains in the own direction of nature itself, however terrible, is incapable of throwing him out of equilibrium. The sight of the terrible burial chamber on the Great St. Bernard, where the dead are piled up just as they have sunk down, he endures unshaken. What we today call "nerves," a peripheral irritability detached from the inner total feeling, he does not possess, though he, the most immediately bound to life, otherwise no more seeks or retains images and ideas of death than all great geniuses (e.g., Goethe). The existence and behavior of surrounding things mean for him not merely an external, a factual givenness, but beyond that a power to which he knows himself bound, on which he knows his own will-power dependent. He is conscious of himself as bound to the "nature of things." What this enigmatic expression in his mouth means is best shown by his pronouncement: "One must let oneself be governed by the nature of things; one must not go against it; it is stronger than man." And no one in his entourage has misunderstood this expression: "He submitted to the nature of things; when he saw that he could not overcome it, he accommodated himself to it." But this submission is not the renunciation that arises from weakness; rather, it is the fitting-in of his will to the natural given that his immediate feeling has recognized as his own and as lawful. He is never alienated from nature; he can never fall into the condition of the modern man who feels himself isolated from the totality of existence, abandoned by it: only he who does not have the sure feeling of his connection with it departs from it. Therefore this "nature of things" is precisely the same thing that he otherwise calls his "star." The drive with which he pursues it and attaches himself to it is unconquerable. More than guiding the course of fate with his spirit, he seems guided by it, attacked immediately in his feeling.

To all contemporaries this immediate effect of givenness on his feeling is evident as a fundamental trait of his being. It gives him what they call his "impetuosity." "One will," remarks one of his councillors of state, introducing the documents published by him on Napoleon's appearance in the sessions of the Council of State,

"here come to know a character in which impetuosity and cunning mingle, but impetuosity has the upper hand." The abundance of individual events in which this impetuosity breaks forth is unsurveyable. Among the most impressive is that scene with the English ambassador shortly before the break with England. Just moments before, Napoleon had been in Josephine's boudoir on the floor playing with his little nephew Napoleon. At the same time he made, as he liked to do, critical remarks about the dress and adornment of the ladies: all this with such perfect cheerfulness and unconcern that one of the ladies-in-waiting present remarked that after the forthcoming audience with the English ambassador, surely all envoys would report nothing but concord and peace to their governments. Napoleon only laughs and plays on with the child. Suddenly it is announced that the guests are assembled. "Then he rose up with a jerk," so that lady-in-waiting herself continues to report, "the cheerfulness vanished from his lips, I was struck by the expression of severity that suddenly took its place. His color seemed almost to pale on command, his features contracted, and all this in a shorter time than I need to tell it." This unprecedented transformation, this sudden clouding of his whole being in the face of a given factual situation, is the same thing that his immediate feeling had seen as a threatening, already present reality; a thing which, because it confronted him as a concrete life-power, seized him with the whole force of his nature and cast him into a condition of extreme tension. As if to ward off an elemental natural event, to parry a blow. — And it is not only the great, the decisive events that thus shake him to the core; the mere anticipation of the possible, of a possibility of the external world, can arouse him out of the deepest calm. In the last years of the Consulate there was talk of planning his assassination. People whisper of it in secret circles and murmur of an hereditary character. Then the wily Talleyrand mischievously incites Berthier to speak to Napoleon at a courtly gathering about these plots and even puts the dangerous word "king" in his mouth. The unsuspecting Berthier lets himself be led, and approaches Napoleon with the seemingly wanton

exposure of his secret intentions. The effect is terrible for all present. "Bonaparte's eyes flame up," runs the report, "he holds his fist under Berthier's chin and shoves him thus before him to the wall. 'Fool,' he said, 'who advised you to drive the bile into my blood like that?'" He himself is conscious of how immediately in his physical constitution the excitation strikes and overwhelms him. The outer violence is only the expression of the suddenness with which it breaks forth. Often the shock of his inner being discharges itself in tears. Conversely, his physical nature was so sensitive that it reacted even to minor annoyances with violent emotional upsurges. "He was unable to wear any ornament properly; the slightest constraint seemed unbearable to him. He tore off everything, he broke everything that caused him even the remotest discomfort, and many a time the poor valet who had caused him this passing vexation received a violent and tangible proof of his anger." External constraints and resistances he did not bear at all. As easily as speech flowed for him, he felt the formal society address, because it forced him into conventional formulas, bound his immediate expression of life, as extreme violation. Where he could, he avoided it. Addresses to the army, the Council of State, assemblies and deputations, where a given subject could set his immediate feeling in motion, we know many from him, but very few toasts, table speeches, greetings to monarchs, where his living feeling would have been forced into conventional forms. Such occasional speeches as he nonetheless delivered had something of the violence of elemental eruptions, something of the elemental dread of those around him, which is mentioned in all reports, that he could at any moment say something that would not fit into the ornate stillness of the social event. "He never knew the use of small talk, the art of saying nothing with grace. Every hesitation of his interlocutor, every sign of constraint, made him lose patience; he then cut the knot with a violent word, often coarse, which was — it must be admitted — less the expression of his own way of thinking than the effect of the awkwardness of the one with whom he spoke."

The violence of his feeling broke through the fettering rules of the cultivated conversational convention, as well as through the calm tradition of the written and spoken language. Even his language in the period of his full maturity never entirely threw off that quality of immediacy in which there is always admixed something of the natural force of originality that every creation demands. The attentive observer from the circle of his court describes very vividly how the passion of his feeling carried him beyond every boundary of linguistic givenness. "In his mouth I have seen Italian lose all its grace. Whatever language he spoke, it never seemed familiar to him; it looked as if he had to use force to express his thoughts. Beyond that, every fixed rule becomes for him an unbearable constraint, every freedom he takes gives him joy like a victory, and he would never have made a concession even to grammar." That is to say: the formed linguistic construct as such seemed to him already foreign and hostile because not born from the immediacy of his feeling. The inherited language is for him like the inherited states hostile territory, destined for conquest by his immediate life-drive. This is the most clear-sighted recognition of his innermost being: it coincides almost to the word with his own statement about the manner of his grasp of history: "I have studied history less than conquered it." Already his youthful prize essay, the so-called *Discours de Lyon*, bears witness to this, as the samples earlier shared from it have shown. But still later, the Austrian state chancellor, a master of conventional linguistic expression, is struck by this most personal linguistic power with astonished admiration. He ascertains: "Napoleon seized a subject at its essential point, stripped it of all unnecessary side-issues, developed his thoughts about it, and did not rest until he had worked them out completely clearly and aptly. For every thing he found the word proper to it or invented it where the conventional language had not created it... He did not converse, he spoke."

The sensory immediacy with which his feeling reacted to a given situation was so great that he allowed himself to be determined by the external situation, the physical conditions in which he

found himself, in the most decisive decisions up to the threshold of action. On the day of Austerlitz before the battle, he has his horse led along the entire front of the troops; he comes to a standstill, apparently sunk in thought, before the images and inscriptions of the fallen soldiers raised on poles, and seems to be chiefly occupied with examining the weather. The falling snow, the moisture of the air, the marshy ground — all these usual concomitants of a military decision become for him forces that determine the moment of the beginning of the action. And indeed the outer circumstances, the "nature of things" in the most elementary sense, exert an almost demonic compulsion on his decision. He gives the order for the beginning of the battle only when the sun has broken through and dried the surface of the earth: the sun of Austerlitz. Characteristic for this dependence of his feelings and decisions on the sensory moment is his own statement to the Prussian envoy: "I am a creature of circumstances. If I have always had a predetermined plan of conduct, I have followed it; but I change according to circumstances; the great art is to be always the master of the moment. You can convince yourselves of this better than anyone." And in a similar but still more drastic form, the same confession is reported from a meeting with the Prussian minister von Hardenberg in 1808: "I have no fixed policy; I have to go with the current. My conduct depends on circumstances; I follow the nature of things; I do not direct events, I submit to them." What seems in these words like a confession of an opportunistic lack of principle, is at bottom nothing other than the expression of his ineradicable feeling-context with the immediate given, the "nature of things," which he declares must be followed because it is stronger than man. And through this expression itself there shines the conviction, which nowhere fails him, that he, just he, can grasp and follow the nature of things more powerfully, more fatally, than any other.

This is what he calls consulting the "nature of things." He once asked his councillors of state before a decisive deliberation in 1805: "What is the nature of things? Let us hear your opinion on

the present moment." In this lies the same confession to the "nature des choses" mentioned earlier in a more general turn of phrase. Napoleon stands with his feeling in the closest dependence on the momentary givenness, the living present-power of things, which thereby becomes for him the "maître sévère." This immediate answering to the ebb and flow of life with his ever-presently wakeful feeling gave, particularly in the times of his unused stored-up energy, at the beginning of his career, something violently-leaping to his being, which through his utterances, but also already through the mere change of his expressions, threw his bourgeois environment into unrest as before a sinister daimonion. And not only that. The companion of his youth Junot retains it into his manhood, how much the suddenly bursting-forth emotional surges of Napoleon on their evening walks in the Jardin des Plantes threw him into confusion, what dangers he feared from them for the inner equilibrium and calm development of his revered general. He notes that only the utmost exertion of will could have tamed these demonic drives and saved Napoleon from complete ruin. Napoleon, who knows his own nature very well, knows precisely that in it itself, by virtue of its balanced organization, lies the immediate counterweight against these incalculable outbursts of his feeling. "I have," he says, "very unruly nerves, and with this constitution would run the risk of going mad if my blood did not work with constant slowness."

Faced with all these testimonies of a passionate immediacy of feeling surpassing any imagination, to speak still of a deficiency of feeling, an emptiness of feeling in Napoleon, is presumptuous and judges the observers themselves. They have placed themselves at the standpoint of a critical, moralizing common sense, from which the phenomenon of a man who from the most personal feeling of his own being creates a world can no more be assessed than a color by the blind. Still at the end of the 19th century the observation can be made in books otherwise meritorious: "The great captain was insensible to the feelings of friendship; perhaps he lacked the organ of the heart for them."

Such a judgment, however, has been refuted long before it was expressed — by the whole reality of Napoleon's life and action. But it is not only the more distant posterity that speaks thus. Among his contemporaries, too, even some of his close associates, particularly those who had some of the prosaic, rationalizing manner of the century, have gone astray into such error. A very clear example is the former cabinet secretary Bourrienne, who, after the break with Napoleon, written from a tendency to incriminate him, allowed himself to be carried away into the assertion of a fundamental lack of feeling — but at the same time involuntarily gave the best evidence of the contrary. He says: "I have always observed in Napoleon a particular disposition to appropriate to himself everything he saw, to be interested only in himself and his own advantage. I have observed his indifference to everything that did not serve his ambition. This disposition has always seemed to me to border on a kind of egotism." At the very moment, however, as earlier noted, he himself finds words of the most unreserved and touching admission for the impression Napoleon made on him at their first meeting. His own feelings at that time were so deep, immediate, and pure that they could not have been answered by a feelingless nature, by an egoist. And Bourrienne himself stands in flagrant contradiction to his own judgment when he adds: "One would be wrong, however, to conclude from what I have said that Napoleon was without heart; he had a heart, but it was only to be set in motion by great events." Thus even this inadequate admission, dragged out of him, proves the truth.

Another who came closest to him, a childhood acquaintance, was the first to clearly recognize his bearing and, from his own person, expressed it in the often-quoted words: "You have to get to know him to appreciate him. At first he appears hard and dry; that is only a crust. When one succeeds in breaking it, one finds a man full of feeling and gentleness." Even Caulaincourt, who in his memoirs intended to defend the Emperor against what he called the reproach of insensibility, does not feel comfortable with this assertion. He unconsciously feels its implausibility, its

incompatibility with a great nature such as he had more passionately than many others comprehended and revered in Napoleon. So he gives for the assertion that does not satisfy him the somewhat uncertain explanation: "But that lies in truth in the fact that he had no time to let himself be moved. He went straight toward a goal without caring about the thorns of the way. So it came about that when in the thousand battles in which he lost so many valuable officers, grief shot through his heart, he could not even express it and thus afford relief to his tormenting pain." This entire argument about Napoleon's apparent emotional coldness thus amounts to its exact opposite, to the ascertainment of his elementary power of feeling, for which precisely for that reason the even expression was not always available. How many testimonies there are of such impotently silent shocks of his inner being in the dying hours of his faithful (Desaix, Lannes, Duroc)!

That he was also capable of lively expressions of pain and sympathy, he proves where the whole and most proper part of his nature was less immediately involved in destruction or suffering of the foreign creature, where his pain or sympathy did not necessitate such immense outburst that his inexorable zeal for action had to forbid them. Instead of many examples, the report of an unimpeachable witness, a Saxon officer: "Among Napoleon's peculiarities was that, when time at all permitted, after a skirmish he always carefully visited the battlefield ... With interest he paused at certain points or near fallen enemies, and I even saw that with severely wounded Russians who still showed signs of life, he had his personal physician dismount and examine whether they could still be saved. 'S'il est sauvé, il y aura un de moins' (If he is saved, that will be one less), he said on one such occasion." And Marmont, who, as a disgruntled subordinate, is certainly not inclined to present the features of Napoleon's humanity in a favorable light, is forced to the following confession: "Passions, of which he had strong ones, threw him off balance more than one would believe. He was in the highest degree sensitive; never, perhaps, has a man possessed the gift of tears to such an extent; but he had a great power over his first

reactions, and his tears came only after reflection." Was all the lamentation and tenderness, more still the silent darkening at the fall of beloved friends and comrades of his youth — at the fall of Muiron, Desaix, Lannes, Duroc — only "feigned sensibility"? No: lamentations and tears are the violently immediate outburst of his all-human feeling through the barriers imposed on it by the feeling of his higher essentiality and its responsibility; his wordless shock, however — what seemed to some observers a lack of feeling — is nothing other than the inscrutability of his feeling, which, under the pressure of his work-task — "he had no time to let himself be moved" — denied itself release in outburst, with the sure instinct of the danger that such an outburst, given the unheard-of natural power of his being, would have meant for the completion of his work.

Thus even the supposed apology for Napoleon's lack of feeling by Caulaincourt is more a confirmation of the opposite: of the immediate originary power of this feeling, which was so great that the genius, to preserve the closedness, the wholeness of his being and work, had increasingly to contain its expressions within himself. As the reason for the whole misunderstanding there emerges again only the confusion of essential-original feeling with conventional ethical show of feeling. Napoleon certainly did oppose the threat to his existence from the too-vivid coming-forth of feeling, the more he grew into the wholeness of his being and the consciousness of its significance for himself and the world. The beginnings of this development are perceived by contemporaries at his first appearance in the great public. When he takes up his first command, that of the Italian army, those who until then had known his nature boundlessly surrendered are struck by the deep restraint with which all forces of his feeling appear drawn together inwardly and sealed off. Marmont, who belonged to the youngest of his intimates, notes this moment as the decisive turning point of his development: "When he took over the supreme command, he seemed to close his ear and heart. His fiery soul took refuge in his head." Less and less of his immediate feeling penetrated outward, even if this little — let it

be emphatically stressed against the last-mentioned sources — is still overwhelmingly more than most great statesmen and commanders radiate outward. But in truth, during the later Consulate and even more during the Empire, his feeling withdraws inward and makes his external attitude often appear empty of feeling and cold. The testimonies in this direction are many. A statesman who has followed his being over long periods notes: "No amiability, no sign of goodwill softened this harshness." The explanation he adds: "So greatly did the Emperor fear by the least concession to awaken the memory of the times of equality," attempts a rather one-sided and superficial political interpretation of this phenomenon, where it is more, an expression of organic development, the self-securing of his nature against the externalizing expansions of feeling. He must hold together his pressing humanity in order — like every work-creator, especially the artist — to be able to present his whole being in form in the work, which for him means the state. For this being-present-in-work, the formative perfection of being through the commitment of all inner and outer forces to this one goal, is the fundamental drive that gives direction to his life and works itself ever more outward.

When Napoleon steps out from the individual consideration of events into a wider overview of the meaning and sources of his existence, he comprehends this well. And the genius is always directed toward this deeper self-assurance. Then the words fall that characterize the actual law of his life, his immense internal compulsion, his destiny. In a letter of 1805 to Chancellor Cambacérès he writes: "I am not of the race of mediocre men; I belong to those in whom there is a force of destiny, a power that carries them away." And in the letters to Josephine: "To see you and even to live in peace. I also understand something other than war, but duty comes before everything. My whole life I have sacrificed everything, rest, inclinations, happiness, to my destiny." This great life-compulsion over all his powers, his inborn creative drive, which he calls his destiny — not the preponderance of a single power, his intellect, over the others —

is what his originally drive-like emotional force yields to. It is fused into the heroic whole of his form presented in the work, not consumed by partial forces of the brain. Feeling and thought are bound together in the greater human work-unit, work themselves automatically into each other; one cannot give precedence to the other, one cannot be without the other. He expresses it: "In the strong man everything is simultaneously reason and drive; he wills with impetuosity what he has found in deep reflection, and his heroism is of one piece." Here, in the whole, most clearly and finally, the sense and essence of heroic human formation is represented by Napoleon himself. It consists in all forces, uniformly pervading each other, working toward the one great goal, the "homme fort," heroic human formation. What man thinks is fruitfully swollen by the drive-force of his feeling; what it autochthonously drives upward enters at the same time into the body- and form-giving consciousness. Those around him have grasped this heroically creative total realization of his forces as what it was, as a living miracle in the world of rationally regulated special existences, and recorded it with astonishment. They say: "His nature had produced a perfect harmony between his power and his habits, his public and private life. His bearing and demeanor were the same at every moment, they were innate in him and without calculation. He is the only man on earth who, in all circumstances and in all situations, has always remained in character." With this, not only the nature of his feeling but his entire being and the image of his life find their final formula in the most comprehensive sense — a closing, balancing overview, which we shall take up and develop in the following analyses.

But before we depart from the immediate picture of his feeling, let us cast a brief glance at the forces that could limit it in its most direct manifestations — forces that also belong to the essential contents of his nature, though they stand in a certain opposition to the original elementary life of his feeling. It is clear: the powerful feeling of his own essentiality could on the one hand, the great tendency of his work-thrust on the other, often set limits to his immediate feeling and deny it the sensuous

expression it sought. The famous saying to his brother Lucien — after the 18th Brumaire, when friends and relatives all demanded rewards and privileges — hits upon this: "I have not overthrown the Directory to satisfy your private passions. I have flown across the sea from Egypt like lightning not to enrich my family or to satisfy my vanity, but to save France." And at the same time, this bearing toward private human feeling determined his whole political manner. When Queen Caroline of Naples wanted to soften his policy toward her personally unfavorable husband with insinuating amiability, she got nothing from him. The often-mentioned repugnance against the mixing of political actions with feminine arts of seduction might not alone have sufficed to switch off his lively and mobile feeling, which so many petitioners had not tried in vain. But the state necessity, at the same time the expression of his personal essential determination, dammed up here the private expression of his being, the immediate feeling. His letter to Josephine gives a living impression of how he had to defend himself in the consciousness of his higher task against the pressing emotional power: "I had to defend myself against the Queen, who wanted to force me to make a few more concessions to her husband; but I have been polite and have nevertheless stuck to my policy. She is very nice. I will tell you details that would be too lengthy to communicate in writing." Those who were directly affected in their fate by this inscrutability of his being could, in their disappointment, then misinterpret the expression of his inner pain, incomprehensible to them, in the sense of private rancor: "Napoleon looked embarrassed and at the same time spiteful and malicious." And yet these were surely the last aberrations to which his feeling was subject. He let himself be carried away by the great objective goal he realized in his person, but he certainly did not yield to purely private aversions and irritations. And the utmost that this passionate pursuit of given life-goals could extort from his feeling, which in itself was open to all things human around him, was a decided and hard concealment of feeling, not an assiduous spitefulness and malice: Napoleon's own words contain this

confession. No other power can justify the switching-off of original-human feeling than the total being-purpose of a great doer, the compulsion of his state-creation, the necessity in which the creative individual finds himself over against the elementary surge of a divine world-shaping, which takes possession of his whole powers and can tolerate no partial, merely human stirring alongside itself.

Napoleon himself expresses this in a conversation with Roederer, when the latter had complained to him about the burdens and sufferings of the people: "You complain about the people and you are sorry for it. Do not pity the people. The people are like the water, which must be allowed to run; or like my old guard, which one treats with consideration. But the essential thing is not to be annoyed about the difficulties of a great political creation; one must finish it. For now I am still engaged in my creation; later I will rest. You know that I am now organizing a great Colossus that will form the admiration of posterity. You will do well to hold back your praises, for you should fear that the movement of this great machine might have the same effect on you as Gulliver, who, when he moved his leg differently, crushed the Lilliputians... You see, these great personalities, whom you consider violent, cruel, and what do I know, are only politicians. They know and judge themselves better than you do, and if they are really adroit, they understand how to master their passions, for they succeed in calculating even their effects." The inner knowledge of the genius of the immense scope of his emotional power on the one hand, and on the other the intuitive measurement of its value and effect for the construction of the creative total work in the context of all life-forces — this is what sets limits to its tension, in order not to shatter but to bring to completion that great work, the form-giving expression of personal creativity. The form of expression in which Napoleon pronounces this law must not deceive. It does not consistently maintain this supra-rational, total-spiritual viewpoint. He aims forcefully at the decisive point, the work of whole-human unity, "creation" as the antithesis of heroic to humane (social-rational) humanity, but in the details of

the argument he uses the vocabulary that belongs to this latter genus, that of his time, and means something different from what he wants to say: "passions," where he simply means natural forces, natural yielding to private-human originary feelings; "calculer," "calculation," where he evidently proceeds from the spiritual total view of a unified creative work. He wants to show what his essentiality has realized: that feeling, like all inner human forces, must be bound into the creative whole and its representation, that it is not permitted to break out of the undivided unity of the creative human being. He does not thereby intend the supremacy of the understanding over feeling, but the subordination of both to the spiritual totality of the creative work; not the exclusion of one or the other power, but the control of the higher law that commands the life of the creative hero above the individual capabilities.

As there is no system for him, because the system of his being is his work itself, which only his total person, not a part, can produce and encompass, so there is for him no isolated duty of feeling in the sense of a special moral principle. For him these relations are determined with a new, original value, from the living creation that he himself represents with and in his work for the world. Every system is a secondary derivation from a once creatively produced human work, and binding for all followers of this work in the course of time. For the creator himself, however, the rule exists only in his creation, which he himself livingly develops and represents. In this sense there wrests itself from him, as if quieting an inner need, the famous word: "I am not a man like others, and the laws of morality and custom cannot be made for me." The totality of his creation as existence and its universality as meaning are the statute to which the individual powers of his being must collectively submit; but not does one of them serve another in a chance play of cerebral preponderances. This inner law now itself becomes a living-feelingful drive which, pushing back the individual drives, puts itself in first place and dominates Napoleon's life on its height as immediately as in his beginnings the unbound individual drive-forces dominated it. But

still — it must not be overlooked — he has not completely extinguished them. Napoleon's vitality is so immense that the rudimentary basic forces of drive- and feeling-life present in him repeatedly break through against the concentrating power of his inner being and seek to assert themselves. Again and again he must defend the work of his creative power, pressing to appearance in him, against the onslaught of these most immediate surges of his life. Beside and behind the powerfully forward-working creator, the self-representation drive of his person, the abundance of his naturally unbound, individual-elementary stirrings persists: more and more crumbles away from it, more and more does the former absorb from it, but they never disappear entirely, and the tragic fall of Napoleon lies precisely in the fact that the creative drive of his total self-realization was finally insufficient to master the upswelling of his elementary feelings.

This inner struggle of his being had its bodily manifestations and its visible external course. In the autumn of 1812 on the Russian campaign, after the battle of Borodino, after the burning of Moscow, these elementary feelings, darkly surging, break through with elemental force. The heavy decisions that these days bring no longer come from the sovereign certainty of his feeling for the "nature of things"; they are wrung from him by the obscure, irrational drives of his all-too-elementary feeling, which suggest to him possibilities lying outside him in the direction of an imagined fate. And the same thing repeats itself once more after the end of the armistice of 1813. As if spellbound, he stares at the entrances to Bohemia and can bring himself to no decisive blow to open the campaign. Again he seems entirely surrendered to a dark stream of feeling that hinders him from pursuing his great life-line. "Some inner presentiment or some foreboding," says Stendhal of this crisis, "held the great man in thrall and gained the upper hand, to his ruin, over the necessity of risking a battle to bring the campaign to a good end, and over the plainly favorable circumstances." His star, up to then the great symbol of his mission and destiny, has suddenly become an external,

inescapable sign of fate. On the Russian retreat, in the narrow sleigh with one of his faithful, he murmurs the terrible word: "My star is paling." As and insofar as the great state-presentation of Napoleon then ends, as he withdraws on St. Helena into his mere humanity, those primary feeling-drive forces spread out with the power of their unhampered immediacy to overwhelming fullness. Then those traits of the most general human concern for all natural existence around him come to light again; then he is the friend of children and the playmate of young girls. Then he is concerned about the welfare of families and pours himself out in passionate lamentations about the fate of wife and son. But the epoch of his political activity, the great main part of his life, expresses itself for his inner being in the unstoppable pushing-back and absorption of those elementary feeling-forces by the one powerful drive that summons his life to heroic self-perfection in universal creation and uniformly engages all his inner powers, spirit and feeling alike, for that purpose.

As he stands there on the height of his existence, he has sunk his whole emotional being into the one great end: to complete himself in the work of the state. The sacrifice of all private feeling to this conviction, which means the total subordination of his individual person to the whole of his work, is what in the bourgeois-human sense of his time — and not only of his time — has been given the name of his incalculable ambition. One has thereby failed to recognize that this ambition does not mean a separate, a particular drive of his being, but the totality of his nature: the drive of the creative hero to work out his whole self into the work, the whole human being not excepting any of his powers — that which he calls his "destiny." He stands before the perplexed judgment of the world, which seeks to determine him by the measure of its living and working conditions, as the being of another species. And perhaps nothing expresses his distance from a humanity directed toward possession and enjoyment more than the words of his daughterly friend, the Queen of Naples, when she says: "He loved nothing, everything in him was ambition." No, he loved nothing with that partial love that would

detach a part of his being, a single object, from the whole of his living and attempt to live through it in isolated enjoyment. He loved everything only in the whole of his being, in its inseparable fusion with the great creative purpose of his existence. And his ambition is nothing other than the drive of his nature to develop this whole of his being to its full form and to impose it upon the world. So did Goethe conceive it; so did he say: "Napoleon a world phenomenon, the spirit of the world on horseback."

This is how he himself expresses it: "I love power, but as an artist I love it." And further: "I have never been able to have a preference that drew me from the straight line. I have always done what my position required." And also: "I acted not according to my caprice, but according to a plan..." With astonishing harmony, the same sentiment has found its eternal stamp in the mouth of the heroic poet:

We loose from every bond of home and hearth:

We only can, at the first blast, wherever

We stand, follow the fanfare.

The desire for the denial of all private feelings in favor of the great objective purpose of spiritual creation contains the negation of all individual happiness; it is the most visible driving-out in all history of the opposition between creative-heroic and pleasure-oriented bourgeois, human-social being, whose final formulation comes from the mouth of Nietzsche. Napoleon himself, however, already circumscribed it for his life-circle in the almost prophetic word: "Truly happy is only the man who hides from me in the corner of a province, and when I am dead, the whole world will heave a loud 'Ugh!'" The world will, when the heroic energy-tension forced upon it is removed, fall back with comfortable relief into the easy bed it calls its "civilization" or also "humanity": a life-condition that means nothing other than the satisfaction of individual-private feeling-drives at the cost of universal-heroic work-creation — a condition that then not only

became reality, but was proclaimed as goal and battle-cry of the last rally against the Emperor in the year 1815 by all Europe.

III. MISSION. SELF-FEELING. POLITICAL SENTIMENT

ALL striving and feeling of Napoleon, his entire emotional life, flows ultimately into the one great fundamental drive of his existence: his heroic mission. It signifies the inner compulsion of his being toward self-perfection in a work of creative universality and is in fact drive, immediate blood-urge, not merely consciousness, content, or spiritual direction. Its expression is the new formation of the state — "Napoleon's new state." This mission-feeling is the highest and final form of his feeling in general.

This drive announces itself in the beginnings of his career, before Toulon, in the unconcerned superiority with which, stepping out from his modest office as artillery commander, he undertakes to determine the whole siege operations; in the same way during the command of the Italian army of 1794 and in Vendémiaire toward his nominal commander Barras. That he did not respond to the mysterious offer of Robespierre to take over the Paris command, and thus preserved himself for his own work of a greater state-creation, is likewise less the result of a calculation, a premeditated life-plan, than of his inborn drive for self-realization, for the fulfillment of his destiny, which rebelled against violation by the foreign will-power of Robespierre. The same drive asserts itself in him when, after his first surprising successes in Italy, the Directory thinks to limit the unfolding of his personal significance by dividing the command between Kellermann and him. The feeling of his being, entirely self-reliant and drawing everything from itself, rears up against the dependence proposed to him and seeks reasons and disguises to escape it: "It requires not only a single general, but this general must also be hindered by nothing in his movement and his operations. I have made the campaign without asking anyone for advice; I would have accomplished nothing proper if I had first had to come to an understanding with the way of thinking of another. If you put all possible obstacles in my way, if I must first

report to the government commissioners on all my steps, if they have the right to change my movements, to take away or send me troops, then expect nothing good anymore." In an accompanying private letter to Carnot, who directed army affairs in the Directory, there reveals itself, in the unashamed confession of his need for independence, a note of the heroic self-feeling that was to mark his further path: "I am sorry to find myself associated with Kellermann... Since I prefer a settled war to a disorganized one, I hope the Directory will give me a position that reconciles my self-love with the good of the thing." And to the Directory itself: "I cannot serve with a man who believes himself the first general of Europe; and since he, like the commander-in-chief of the army, can appeal to the government, I could not be responsible for anything... I can only be useful if you give me full confidence and if I am not exposed to the danger of seeing my means of success diminished... There is a fine line between serving one's country well and exposing oneself to danger without having one's hands tied." In the exaggeration of this inner law, the contempt of the great individual for the united power of the many, sees the most intellectual exponent of this counter-world, the leader of the united cabinets, Metternich — the tragic hybris to which the modern hero succumbed: "The alliance of 1813 destroyed him, because he could never bring himself to believe that a coalition could maintain a unified spirit among its members and remain steadfast in the goal of its undertaking."

If Napoleon in those two letters and elsewhere emphatically avows his loyal subordination under the will of the Directory, this proves precisely only how instinctively he felt this avowal as a necessary disguise for his independent drive to act. In truth he conducts the whole campaign "without asking anyone for advice," and not only in military matters, which might after all have been understandable, even if it differed greatly from the behavior of the other revolutionary generals — no, also the statesmanlike shaping he gives to the campaign, the negotiations with which he interrupts and concludes it, follow almost exclusively his own

most personal impulses. That he grants Sardinia an armistice and peace at the very outset, supports the royal government against the revolutionary party intrigues, instead of fanning the revolutionary movement here as well, is entirely contrary to the intentions of the Paris party government and, compared with the conduct of war of the other republican generals, an unheard-of and bold innovation. He continues it, unconcerned about proposals and intentions of the Directory, in his negotiations with Modena, Tuscany, and the Pope. That he protects the Church and its members everywhere, curbs the spread of the revolutionary movement in the Papal States, in the final peace treaty hands Venice over to Austria in exchange for the Rhine provinces and the Legations, instead of incorporating it into the Cisalpine Republic as the Directory willed — all this is the work of his own most personal political intention, which was already directed toward a final European order, a projection of the great Empire, in which he was to be the sovereign ruler.

But what is most astonishing: he succeeds with this. The Directory feels its own impotence in the face of the power of his personality and must let him act. The government commissioner, whom the Directory placed at his side as a control, becomes his most faithful follower. Clarke, the overseer, already in the first period of the Italian campaign seems to have entirely forgotten the meaning of his mission: he is nothing more than the unreserved eulogist of the young commander who has enchanted him. Clarke, the watchman, becomes from that time on the for all time inseparable tool of Napoleon's great state-creation. "He was literally attached to his steps as a spy; but he took great care not to fulfill this task, made no secret of it to General Bonaparte, and constantly served his interests," reports an insider. And was the formation and establishment of the new republican states in the Po Valley not Napoleon's own undertaking? Did it not go far beyond the framework of his purely military mission? Does there not express itself in it — like a particular creative spiritual face of the war events — at the same time the drive to realize these most personal political inspirations, the drive to realize his I in state-

creative form? This is a first approach to his more powerful, final embodiment in the state structure of the motherland. It still seems far off. But had he not already — he, the only one among all republican generals — in unheard-of innovation in Fructidor, by sending General Augereau and the threat to march on Paris with 25,000 men, thrown his powerful I-feeling into the factions of governmental power? It is after Lodi that this feeling manifests itself for the first time as that of an extraordinary destiny exceeding the customary human measure. He says it himself in his clear-sighted retrospective view on St. Helena: "Only after Lodi did the thought come to me that I might after all play a decisive role on our political stage. Then the first spark of great ambition was kindled." And at once this spark strikes outward. It is during the days full of intoxication and festivals that conclude the first section of the Italian campaign in Milan — it is during the hours of the first dazzling fulfillment of his heroic drive — that he opens himself to the French envoy Miot with an announcement of his future political achievement that still makes the reader of today hold his breath.

It was not the sudden outbreak of a blind trustfulness that wanted to initiate a chance interlocutor into a long-laid work-plan. For this neither the person of this interlocutor nor the occasion offered sufficient ground, and Napoleon's nature was farther from this than anyone's. The second of the possible causes hinted at by Miot is the true one. What here from Napoleon's mouth lets the announcement of his future life-work, up to and beyond Brumaire, shoot outward in a great outline and cascading torrent of words, is the wave of his I-feeling pressing irresistibly toward his ultimate creative perfection, his state-realization: "What I have done so far is nothing. I am only at the beginning of the path I must traverse. Do you think that I triumph in Italy to make the Directory lawyers, a Carnot and Barras, great? Do you think that it happens to found a Republic? What a thought!... Look at the army. The victories we have won, our triumphs have already given the French soldier back his true nature. I am everything to him. Let the Directory only dare to

take the command from me: it will see who is master. The nation needs a chief, a chief crowned with glory, and not theories of state." It is natural to doubt the reliability of this tradition. But it is legitimized from the outset by the unmistakable line of Napoleonic diction and has its deeper authentication in the trait of being proper to Napoleon to let flow from himself in immediate utterances whatever moves him in the way of inspirations and feelings: that he, as that diplomat describes it in the report already given earlier, "was pressed by the often-felt need to discharge the ideas that stormily massed in his mind to the first comer he met."

Thus he also spoke in the carriage next to the same Miot on the way to Paris, after the signing of the Peace of Campo Formio, when he received the news of the conquest of the Rhine frontier by the troops of the Republic: "Now the greatness of the nation is founded on solid foundations." And what further significance for the future must this word have had in his mouth, that could not have occurred to any republican general, not even to a Hoche! This self-feeling soon swelled to the immense realization that the political being of Europe, which was to be newly formed, must receive its new stamp from him — that the essence of the European states was to be molded by his I and, what is more, by his will. The envoy interprets Bonaparte's words on the Italian negotiations in the sense of the secret, already self-certain premonition of his future state-creative calling: "He considered himself called to decide on the lot of the kings and states of Italy." It is no longer the general, the simple military executor of the state-necessities of the revolution; it is the creative spirit of a new Europe that expresses itself through him. And now this mighty drive of creative-heroic self-perfection can no longer come to terms with the hindrances of the bourgeois republic, against which he has so often had to fight. As Napoleon prepares to return to the soil of the motherland, he sees himself delivered over to all the constricting machinations and corrosive jealousies with which the Paris lawyer-regime meets every upsurge of human greatness. His heroic drive feels itself held back by these

counter-forces, chafes at their resistance, and breaks out in uncontrollable rebellion against the existing state order. Already he regards France as his own, as the object of his creativity, the presently ruling as unjustified usurpers with whom he must fight for the work of his creator-hand. Then, a few months after the conversation previously mentioned, he breaks out to that same Miot: "I can no longer obey, I have tasted commanding, I could not renounce it... If I cannot be master, I shall leave France; I do not want to have done so much only to hand the country over to the lawyers." Egypt and Brumaire are the execution of this: Egypt the evasive securing of his creativity before the Paris powers threatening him, as well as its consolidation and expansion in this space removed from their influences, running in Alexandrian distances; Brumaire the assertion of this creativity against those powers.

The Egyptian expedition, as a general historical phenomenon, as already set forth, grown out of the given political constellation, means for Napoleon the unfolding of his drive for I-realization, powerfully nourished in Italy and hungering for new material. He says this clearly enough: "Nothing can be done with these people; they do not understand what is great; they have no strength of accomplishment... Europe is a molehill; there have never been great empires and great revolutions except in the Orient, where six hundred million men live." The Egyptian expedition is already the first, still uncompleted, attempt to realize in the state the most personal of his self-assertion, his most proper I. From his landing in Egypt, from the first hours of his activity there, his doings are completely enveloped in the spirit of his innermost being, in the self-created atmosphere of his personality. His action in detail is expression and testimony of his most personal will to live. Here, where almost no political barrier hinders him, where on the contrary the remoteness of legend itself makes dream-images appear as reality, his creative spirit exercises its all-grasping and all-transforming power even more than in the Italian campaign. This country is given over entirely to Napoleon's own inspirations, his own will to shape. He does not

enter Egypt as a land- and booty-hungry conqueror. He is no mere descendant of Cortez and Pizarro, even if his blood is still swollen by their thirst for deed and world, the afterscent of the Renaissance. He is not like them driven aimlessly and unrestrainedly into the world to "discover" and exploit some somewhere for himself. No more is he moved by the merely businesslike spirit of the Dutch or East India Company, which wants to make so-called "peaceful conquests." In him is both and more. He seeks a soil which, already once fertilized by spiritual seed, is capable and predestined for new fertilization, which can bear a new state-creation, the formation of his spirit. It is characteristic of his spirit that the staff of the enterprise is not a narrow military administrative authority, but a living community of the best intellectual heads from all areas of state life: not only surveyors and soil scientists, naturalists, engineers, and chemists are there, but also astronomers, archaeologists, and art researchers accompany the expedition. And the divisions carry with their artillery and field equipment a whole park of scientific instruments and aids, especially an extensive, carefully assembled library from all fields of knowledge. As soon as after the landing in Egypt, all these intellectual endeavors are organizationally assembled in the Institute of Egypt, which, following the model of the home institute, is divided into four sections: mathematics, physics, political economy, literature and art.

But more than through the extension of his military power to a new, immense field of activity, more than through the unlimited sphere of power that he sees spread out before him here for the first time, this spirit is nourished, this drive driven upward and heightened by the powerful pull of oriental imagination and fancy that comes over him from the men and monuments of the Egyptian earth. For the Oriental, the power of the ruler, of the great man, is limited by no laws, no institutions. His will is the law in which the whole people sees itself expressed. "You would have," Napoleon later says to the poet Lemercier, "come to know a land where the ruler regards the life of his subjects and the

subject himself regards his life as nothing." This world now enters Napoleon's being not as a mere intellectual conception but with the power of its inborn and bodily drive-force, and immediately swells his most personal, but state-determined life-feeling, which had first taken root in Italy, powerfully upward. He not only occasionally dresses as a pasha, he is one in his entire bearing, feels himself as such, indeed more: as sultan, as founder of a new oriental empire, finally even as founder of a new eastern religion. Before St. Jean d'Acre, on the evening before the final assault, he says: "If it succeeds, I shall find in the city the treasures of the pasha and arms for three hundred thousand men. I stir up all Syria and arm it... I march on Damascus and Aleppo... I reach Constantinople with armed masses, I overthrow the Turkish Empire; I found in the Orient a new great empire that will establish my fame in posterity." And still years later in an entirely different life-situation, on the evening before Austerlitz, he returns to the same ideas: "Had I captured Acre, I would have taken the turban, I would have had my army wear large caps. Instead of a battle in Moravia, I would have fought a battle at Issus, I would have become Emperor of the East, and Paris would have become the capital of the world." And what drives him away from the European ground, from the solid, state-ordered Western world, is not only the thirst for ever new work but the impulse to fulfill his being in a state formation wholly adequate to his still unbound, godlike I-feeling. It draws him on to the field where every limitation, every condition seems to fall before the magic of his all-molding power, and he exercises the rule of the great man, the autocratic lord, without obstacle.

Here, in the unlimited scope of his creative impulse, the unity of his being with the state becomes completely manifest. The state is not a finished, once-given entity confronting him, but something that should and must be newly created from him. Its outward apparatus is only the form into which the inner content of his being empties — from which his being receives shape and structure, and whose whole finds itself at one with him. Napoleon himself has revealed this deep secret of creative self-formation,

the great life-law of geniuses and heroes, in a word of definitive vision and stamp: "My strength consists in my destiny; I am new like the empire; between the empire and me there reigns perfect unity of being." Being and work of heroes are one; the being of the hero unfolds itself not otherwise than with and in the work; the work is nothing other than his form. The seer's word of the great poet echoes:

I am the One and am the Both

I am the begetter am the womb.

Napoleon characterizes the path and means of his self-perfection when he speaks of the counter-revolutionaries under the Consulate: "Had they been able to lead me into a mistake, everything would have been lost. I let them talk, I listened to everyone, I learned all their plans, and went my way"; another time: "People claim that I work for the Bourbons; but I did not fall from heaven to here. I serve my fame." Again this only means that his office is not a gift of fortune but the work of his self-perfecting creative drive. On St. Helena one of his faithful summarizes the result of his conversations on the causes of his fall thus: Napoleon had too passionately pursued the goal of giving the Revolution a final state-form in his own person: "Napoleon, emerged from the multitude with the destiny to rise to the highest level, striding at the head of a revolution that he had completely civilized; torn by these two circumstances into a life-and-death struggle with the rest of Europe, a struggle in which he was defeated only because he wanted to end it too quickly; Napoleon, by himself alone the genius, the strength, the destiny of his own power..." Thus he is, through the immediate impulse of his nature to form himself creatively into a state, the state become person, the state incarnate.

When toward the end of the Empire the structure of its edifice, image and effect of his I, begins to waver, and this I begins to stray from its secure center, the feeling of his world-significant and world-bearing power springs up mightily once more. He calls out during the Dresden negotiations to the great Austrian

statesman: "I shall perhaps perish, but in my fall I shall drag down the thrones and the whole of society." He felt the whole work of state creation placed upon his own life-force. When he wants to place the certainty of his final collapse before the eyes of Frederick William III, he appeals to his personal youth, which is inexhaustible: "that he was determined to wage war for yet another ten years, that he was only thirty-seven years old and had grown up under arms and in affairs." Already on the Egyptian voyage this feeling of personal youth had powerfully swollen the expansion of his movement. This contributed not a little to giving his appearance the Alexandrian sheen at that time. His I, demanding state self-perfection, does not at all tolerate that anything be otherwise, that anything political exist outside him, independent, not pervaded by his being. "My brother," says Joseph in 1803 of Napoleon, "wants the need for his existence to be felt so strongly, and this existence to be such a great benefit, that one cannot see beyond it without shuddering. He knows that he bases his rule more on this idea than on force or gratitude." And so it is only the living echo of his own I-drive when, in the great moment when his and the state's destiny simultaneously hangs on the point of decision, in Moscow in the abandoned city before the flame has yet shot high, one of his most faithful adjures him to retreat with the words: "You are ruining yourself, Majesty, and you: that is France itself." So immediately has his own feeling of the unity of his person with the state radiated upon his entourage. So completely has this truth entered into the public consciousness that Metternich, in the Dresden conversation of 1813, can report as the common opinion of the Paris public to Vienna: "The whole world is convinced that if Napoleon, the lord and master, in whom alone all power is united, were to disappear, the first, the unavoidable consequence would be a revolution."

Very soon this conviction finds its confirmation in facts. Scarcely has an uncertain rumor of Napoleon's death run through the French capital during the Moscow catastrophe, when Mallet, a hitherto unknown colonel, can carry out his coup d'état in the

heart of the capital, which after the arrest of several ministers — nearly succeeded and would have led to the overthrow of the government. So deeply had all minds in this epoch of stabilized state order fallen into political dullness and rigidity, captivated by the magic of the Napoleonic name, which alone meant the state with all its functions to them. But of course, such an enterprise was supported by a moment from Napoleon's own development. Napoleon stood unshaken in the feeling of his state, indeed universal centrality. But gradually there encrusted and hardened for him, saturated with power and possession, that immense drive-work of state-creative forces, which had "erected" the state from his one I, had provided with this one I for all tasks of the state. As he grew into legitimacy, there grew in him compliance, indeed trust in the peripheral, mechanical forces of traditional state administration, and he gave them more room than the state-creation based entirely on his I could bear. That is the work-formed, the state appearance-form of that above-depicted transformation of his being, that life-phase in which from his person-unity, held together by the feeling of his great self, the incalculable individual-human partial forces and partial drives began to detach themselves — the phase in which the elemental forces of his feeling began to rise again, which his creative self had held down only with difficulty.

His self-feeling expressed itself in the first period of his activity, in the full, still unweakened carrying-power of his heroic drive, with a boldness and an almost wildly vigorous self-confidence that, for example, in the year 1796 could write to the Directory: "Is it believed that I need a truce to restore my army? If I wanted to, I could be in a position to go to Rome and punish the Pope before two months." Or when in a letter to the Doge of Genoa he uses the tone: "I am coming with a victorious army; I have at my disposal a hundred thousand men; it is time that the Senate bends to my will; if it does not comply immediately, I shall treat Genoa as a rebel city." It seems as if the immense I-drive sweeps away the last measure of self-control: "Cursed be those who despise the French Republic! Cursed be those who make treaties

with the intention of breaking them! But I, the General-in-Chief of the Army of Italy, make it my duty and my glory to compel them to respect the French Republic. The French Republic is in Europe what the sun is in the firmament; whoever will not see and use it, cannot be helped." The self-feeling pressing toward boundless realization here enters entirely into the forms of expression of state power-will, which, however, threaten to be burst precisely by this overflowing of personal feeling of power.

What thus presents itself in his unfolded being as the drive of heroic self-perfection, of creative self-presentation in state formation, has as its primitive human foundation, its natural starting-point, an extraordinary immediacy of individual self-feeling. His feeling sought no supports in the outer world, rested entirely in itself, and always returned quite immediately thereto, as a member of his closest entourage puts it: "His contemplative disposition brought it about that he consumed his emotional impressions within himself. Napoleon did not pour himself outward... His sublime destiny had not even grazed his brazen soul: it naturally withdrew into itself." To assert himself and his personal feeling against an environment alien to him is the first goal of his youthful effort of strength. Withdrawn and somber, the young Corsican separates himself on the schoolyard of Brienne from the sociability of his comrades. He avoids their games and opposes their mockery, which attaches to his foreign appearance and pronunciation, with unapproachable coldness, seldom with more energetic rebuff. Against the reproofs and punishments of his teachers, his self-feeling rears up in violent outbursts. "One day the hall inspector, a crude man, without ascertaining the physical and mental disposition of the child, ordered that as punishment he should wear the 'coarse cloth' and take his meal on his knees before the door of the dining hall. That was a kind of disgrace. Napoleon possessed much self-feeling, a great inner pride; in a moment his face flamed up, he cried out: 'I will not eat on my knees except before God,' and fell into a convulsion." This entire behavior is the first sign of that high self-feeling that distinguishes his whole life. The feeling of his personal

significance works in him as a fundamental unconscious impulse already before all experience and all action. It does not allow him to take any position as a simple boy among the others. He demands from his companions not only equality but precedence; he attains it through his superiority. And this self-feeling is not merely a self-assertive posture employed once and again but the permanent, never-failing ground-tone of his being, in which even the smallest affairs of life bear his personal stamp.

Even in later years he did not forget a slight he once suffered and loved to talk about the confirmations of his worth that later came. He noted the prophecies of his future greatness, which occurred to many people when they saw the child, and later sought these people out to hear the sayings from their own mouths. He had one of his old teachers from the Brienne school, the teacher of German, Bauer, brought to him in 1805, and "asked him," reports an eyewitness, "whether he still remembered a scene in which he had not judged him favorably enough, and whether Herr Bauer had lived to see how he had asserted himself, and could thus rejoice in his former judgment." Against such misconceptions of his significance he was still very sensitive in his mature time and did not deny himself satisfaction for them. He had the notary Raguideau, who before her marriage had expressed to Josephine his astonishment at her choice with reference to the uncertain existence of her fiancé, brought before him immediately after his coronation, confronted him with his former doubts, and gloated over his embarrassment. This deep feeling of his personal significance and the drive-like immediate resistance against its impairment is recognized by all the world as the central fundamental force of his existence. "His predominant qualities were pride and the feeling of his dignity," begins the cabinet secretary of his later period a depiction of his inner disposition. This, not a vain arrogance, characterizes his receiving foreign envoys in the room with his hat on his head. Metternich, who, extremely offended, thinks of returning like with like, has not entirely grasped the significance of this behavior. Napoleon wears at receptions, as always, the uniform of his guard. Only it

expresses his being fully; only in it does he feel himself — is he entirely himself. With a natural immediacy he lives in it as the animal in its fur. And to the uniform belongs the sideways hat: without it it is not complete; he lacks a principal emblem of his being, his dignity; he would not be the modern imperator, the soldier-emperor. Against every intrusion into his personal dignity he uses the sharpest means of defense. "Nothing offends him more than a real or supposed lack of consideration for things in which he believes his dignity to be at stake," reports the Prussian envoy at the beginning of 1806 to Berlin. As after reaching the first steps of his high position he is of almost exaggerated simplicity and modesty in his personal needs, so his self-justifying self-feeling is also far from that ridiculous ostentation that would want to be something in the eyes of the world beyond what one is. The writer of the notes repeatedly used here, who is very well informed about his private life and his personal habits, speaks — despite his tendency to belittle — of how willingly, how joyfully he recognized and sought out the merit of others, how humanely and affably he interacted with his entourage, his soldiers, his friends, how he positively enchanted everyone and measured his own merit modestly within the admittedly wide limits that were due to him. "Modesty" is what one of his cabinet secretaries calls the scrupulous reserve in this regard. But the more jealously he insisted that no one trespass upon these boundaries of his personal sphere of being and feeling, thrust himself prematurely upon him or came closer than the livingly felt distance of being permitted. For this was the effect of the immediately impressive feeling of his essentiality: that every man and every thing quite automatically received from it its determined and unalterable position, which they might not overstep. "This affability on his part," runs a report of the same informant, "did not awaken the thought of reciprocity. Napoleon played with men without making himself common with them." Whoever overstepped these boundaries fell victim to the angry upsurge that was an inevitable consequence thereof. Alexander's envoy, Prince Dolgoruki, who before Austerlitz thinks Napoleon is caught and himself free of all

consideration toward him, he barks at: "And if you stood on the height of Montmartre, I would answer such impertinences only with cannons." When the Weimar statesman and later Chancellor Friedrich von Müller in 1813 approaches Napoleon with excited words for the release of two Weimar officials imprisoned on suspicion of espionage, Napoleon feels himself so immediately, almost physically threatened in his life-sphere by this vehement pressing alone, that he reaches for his sword and those around Müller must pull him back. Charles Augustus of Weimar omitted, when Napoleon wanted to pay him a visit on his return from Dresden, to receive him at the border of his territory. Napoleon never forgave him this neglect and repeatedly gave him to feel his displeasure.

The feeling of his own dignity also made him sensitive to every violation that he might suffer from too great familiarity, from too little distance. The treatment of General Augereau, his former comrade in the army of Italy, is a sharp example: "Augereau had just returned from Spain, where he had commanded the army; he came to meet Bonaparte about halfway between Milan and Mantua. Instead of being content to have the honor of approaching him, a distinction that his personal dignity did not allow him to take as an unexpected thing, he took up the position of equality toward him; he began by reproaching him for having changed in his way of dealing; he spoke to him of the old times, of the long table of the Italian army, of the equality that had then reigned: everything that self-glorification, envy, and stupidity could suggest, Augereau said. Bonaparte listened to him without interrupting him, answered him very coldly, and from then on kept him at a distance. Augereau, who would have been infinitely obliged to him for having made his fortune and sustained him in his command, who should have been moved by gratitude and admiration, no, he wanted to treat him as his equal. He sent an adjutant to greet him and invite him to stay with him. General Bonaparte was offended; he had the officer answer that he was now in too great a hurry to be able to stop, and would come back specially from Rastatt to see him. And Augereau was evidently

vain and stupid enough to take this promise seriously." Just as this passionate immediate feeling of himself set itself in defense against every intrusion from outside, assigned everyone his place in which he had to remain vis-à-vis the hero, so it also prescribed for himself a secure scope of existence and effect that he did not leave. He was what he was, and did not need to appear otherwise or more than he was. That is the ultimate content of his feeling of personality. Thus he disdains veils and embellishments that can add nothing to his self-evidently felt wholeness, but can only diminish it by making it appear needful of such aids. In the Council of State of 1803 there is deliberation on the recording of proceedings. They are in favor of editorial improvement of what has been orally presented. Then Napoleon avows: "As for us, men of the sword or of finance, who belong not to jurisprudence but to legislation (that is to say: not the appliers but the creators), our opinions matter little. In the discussion I may have said things that I found bad a quarter of an hour later; but I do not want to count for more than I am worth." This unconcern in the secure feeling-possession of his own being and significance also guards against being decked out with inherited titles. He does not want to have his great thing-creator appearance diminished by tracing it back to tiny crown-bearers of bygone times, in his dignity limited by state forms: "I am my own ancestor," he says.

In this high self-feeling, which precedes all action and all effect, lies the foundation for that certainty and determination of his entire conduct that set all contemporaries in astonishment. This self-feeling has nothing to do with the individual self-love of the ordinary great man, which seeks to secure itself through external symbols. It is the feeling, grown to natural drive, of his own significance for the whole, the world, and the state. It is not the desire for recognition, for external honor, that moves him; it is the unconquerable, natural feeling of himself as the source of all values, unmediated by anything else, since he himself is his own law and his own authority. Therefore he also does not know the empty pride of titles and offices. He himself feels that he, not his function, not his office, is the bearer of the state's destiny. He is

everything out of himself and has everything in himself. His people too is his creation. With irresistible immediacy this feeling works in him. Not only the work, the great new state-creation and worldly reordering, but also the tools thereof are his creation, have no existence separate from him. He also lives through them with his creator-breath, feels with an immense intensity of life-drive himself in them. The chiefs of his staffs are his "instruments." From any young officer, he says, he can form them. And even those more distant, his subjects, indeed men in general, mean for him finally only helpers of his work. "He had," the Austrian state chancellor thinks, "no other estimation for men than the director of a workshop has for his workers." His actual children are not the descendants of his blood, but those in whom he works his work, who continue his personality in spirit and feeling. Thus he himself initially placed little value on heredity, more on the right of succession by election. In this context falls the word: "With my fingers and with my pen I make my children," which has already been mentioned several times on other occasions. To Denon he spoke "as the heart to its organs" ... The same idea dominates a report in which the relationship of Napoleon to his secretary of state Maret is depicted by one of his ministers: "The Duke of Bassano eventually became entirely absorbed in the Emperor; he was for him one more sense through which he made his will known to the public as quickly as lightning." Ney avows himself, with almost the same conception, as enclosed in Napoleon's being, as a part of him, an organ, and less than that, as a tool in his hand: "I am only an atom before this great man; I am a loaded rifle, the Emperor commands, and the shot goes off." The others, those who clung to a particular, independent being, who wanted to preserve a special will, like the sincere but all too independent General Dupont, could hold out beside him only for a short time.

Certainly he also knew the feeling of power, the pleasure of standing above others and dominating them. But this feeling is not the isolated pleasure of a private will to power, but the feeling of his self-realization in the work, in the state, in the

world. And when he speaks of the men around him as his "machines," this is not the expression of a contempt for humanity, but the utterance of a consciousness that is completely filled with the thought that these men are his creation, have their existence only through him, and that his will is the soul of their activity. He feels himself so much as the creative center that the man who does not know how to fit into his work-whole appears to him as an incomprehensible anomaly. "I don't understand," he says of General Dupont, his former adjutant, who later, on his own responsibility, concluded the disastrous capitulation of Baylen, "I don't understand Dupont. I pick him out of the crowd, I make him general, I put him in a position where he can render me the greatest services, and he leaves me in the lurch just when I need him most!" In these words the whole magnitude of his self-feeling is concentrated: what he creates, he possesses; he cannot conceive that a part of his creation could break away from his will and follow its own path. His feeling is so completely exhausted in the consciousness of being the creator, in the demands of creation, that all other considerations and feelings vanish before this one fundamental feeling.

Thus he is able to pass over mistakes and faults of his subordinates with a generosity that, from the standpoint of the conventional view of the world, seems almost incomprehensible. When Marshal Marmont, in the Spanish campaign of 1811, wasted the troops entrusted to him in a poorly led battle and then, against explicit orders, entered into an armistice with the English, Napoleon was at first extremely angry, but then forgave him, promoted him, and gave him a new command. And even the great catastrophe of the Russian campaign did not shake his trust in his creations; the memory of errors remained pale beside the feeling of his own creative power. This self-assured power-feeling also forbade him any petty jealousy. When one of his best generals, Desaix, returned from Egypt and immediately after his arrival at Marengo decided the battle in his favor, Napoleon showed no envy. When others, after the battle, spoke to him of the fortunate intervention of Desaix, he said: "Desaix was nothing

but the tool; I was the one who did everything." This reveals the deepest source of his self-feeling: he knows that the success belongs not to the instrument but to the master who uses it. And in this consciousness he can also afford to be magnanimous. When in 1805 the aged Austrian General Mack comes to him after the capitulation of Ulm and, excusing himself, says that circumstances had compelled him to surrender, Napoleon replies: "I believe you, General; but you had plenty of time to give the government notice of it. It is your duty to keep an army for your master; you have not done so, and you will be judged by your King." Here too the firm feeling of his own power speaks: he does not need to be unjust; he can afford justice. The self-certainty of his feeling of power is so great that it can even turn into carelessness toward others — for example, when in a letter to his brother Joseph he writes of the King of Prussia: "He is a good man; he lacks only vigor and energy; his spirit is not bad, but he understands nothing of war; he is obstinate and weak. He will do what I want; one must not get excited about him." This deeply contemptuous judgment — correct in essentials — is not the expression of an arrogant one-sidedness, but proceeds from a self-feeling that is so utterly sure of its own creative power that it cannot conceive how another being, which feels itself not so borne and driven, could offer resistance.

Thus Napoleon is also free from the envy that so often sullies the great figures of history. He knows no jealousy of the talents and successes of others; he feels himself so immeasurably elevated above them that he can appreciate them without envy. When one of his ministers once remarked that he was allowing too much freedom to his generals, he replied: "I am large enough, and they will never become so great as to overshadow me." And when he hears that one of his generals in Spain has won a victory, he asks only: "What has become of the clouds?" And when told there were none, he says: "If there had been any, they would have dispersed in six hours. With me, if there had been any, they would have vanished in three." When Moreau, following his roving egoism and foreign insinuations, involved himself in the

royalist conspiracy with Pichegru, and Napoleon had to proceed against him, he is indignant that one attributes jealousy to him, considers him capable of fearing a rival in Moreau: "They will certainly claim," he exclaims, "that I am jealous of Moreau, that this is a revenge, and a thousand other such pettinesses. I jealous of Moreau! Good God! He owes me the greatest part of his fame; it was I who left him a fine army while I kept only recruits in Italy; I only wished to live in good understanding with him. But truly, I have not feared him; first, I fear no one at all, and then Moreau less than anyone else." He does not say too much. Those who could observe his relationship with Moreau from close at hand do him justice. He actually did not use the opportunities to hold Moreau down, but in the feeling of his own strength unselfishly did justice to Moreau's great technical talent. At the beginning of the Consulate, while he himself was winning at Marengo with the newly raised troops, he actually entrusted to Moreau France's finest army, with which the latter was able to win the victory at Hohenlinden. "To entrust such an army to General Moreau with full freedom of movement," says with justice the cabinet secretary who followed the course of his actions from close at hand, "meant from the outset refuting the absurd accusation that had been made against Bonaparte, that he was jealous of Moreau's fame." Such subaltern and private motives did not determine the actions of this great-minded, state- and world-engaged person.

Because Napoleon is securely and proudly absorbed in the feeling of his own great essentiality, he feels no incentive to push his undertakings beyond the thing-given measure into breadth and height. Precisely this kind of personal ambition he does not have. He does not need to demonstrate himself, has no drive of private self-display to satisfy. He yielded to this once in his youth, before Toulon, where, to show himself before the wife of the Representative Turreau in his new command authority, he ordered an attack that, despite the sacrifices it cost, remained fruitless. He judges this himself later most severely. The temptation of merely private need for splendor is for him entirely

transformed into the state, has become self-realization drive in the work of state creation. He now renounces the exaggerating attestations of his I-feeling, which is fully saturated in creative deed. Empty triumphs not legitimized by the great objective purpose, however near they lie, however impressive they might be, he disdains. He omits in 1797 the easy entry into Rome, which must certainly have been a great temptation to his classical-heroic spirit. But he is not only in taste, but in essence of heroic classicism, and that means: fulfillment of human destiny in work-like form, not in its merely decorative trimmings. Thus he can deny himself the imposition of unnecessarily humiliating conditions of surrender upon the aged Field Marshal Wurmser, shut up in Mantua. "I have made it my concern," he writes to the Directory, "to show French magnanimity toward Wurmser, a seventy-year-old commander against whom fate has been very cruel in this campaign, but who has unceasingly shown a steadfastness and courage that history will record." In truth it is his own magnanimity, such as none of the other revolutionary generals had ever shown to a "satellite of despotism." And was not the circumstance that Wurmser's surrender took place not before him but before his general Serrurier, and that he himself remained away from the ceremony of surrender, also an act of the same magnanimous self-feeling, which spares the defeated enemy the humiliation of the victor's gaze? Miot, who accompanied him and was present, evaluates the incident in this sense: "I do not know whether there was an intentional modesty on his part in absenting himself at the surrender of the place; but if he had acted otherwise, he would have sacrificed well-understood interests to a mere satisfaction of self-love. Moreover, perhaps there lies more pride in disdaining the spectacle of seeing a defeated enemy file past than in enjoying it; and does not one place oneself higher when one commissions one of his generals to receive the enemy's sword?" All these reflections are equally convincing. Through the sure feeling of himself and the satisfaction in his realization in deed, in work, in the thing, the great man is relieved of the temptation to mirror himself in the

humiliation of the opponent, and thereby gains a much prouder, much higher level of self-satisfaction, which however must make him appear just excessively arrogant in the eyes of the bourgeois world. The self-sufficiency of the self-feeling at the objective success, which disdains external triumph, the high-minded more than arrogant renunciation of humiliating the opponent, places him who practices it outside the sphere of the conventional world that needs such self-assurance, brings at one blow heroic life, the hero-appearances of antiquity into the horizon of the sober, color-needy modern world. This emotional constitution makes him regard the inferiority of enemy generals, the all-too-easy triumph over them as a devaluation of his significance, as an impairment of his self-feeling; after Ulm, he can say to his soldiers in a proclamation about the Russian army marching against him: "Over there there are no generals against whom I could earn fame." But it also enables him, on the same occasion, to receive the fate of the Austrian officers who surrender to him in purely human fashion.

The Saxon officer who was present at Ulm reports: "...If any of the officers bore traces of melancholy, as must be assumed, none complained; each proudly hid his pain. But for all that, one could see a certain softness in Napoleon's eyes when he let the generals file before him. He comforted them over their misfortune, and his words of comfort were with him — I can vouch for it — not the result of a haughty impulse hiding under the appearance of a feigned magnanimity. Much as he exploited their defeat, he sincerely deplored the opponents. How often has he said: 'How unhappy a commander must be on the morning after a lost battle.' And he himself had felt this misfortune when he was forced to raise the siege of St. Jean d'Acre. At that moment, I believe, he would have had Djezzar strangled. But if Djezzar had surrendered, he would have treated him with the same distinction he had so lavishly shown to Mack and the other generals at Ulm; I am sure he suffered painfully when they were brought before him." It takes the spiteful need for belittlement of this dwarfish envier to want to argue away with such studied

nuance the unmistakable emotion of the self-renouncing victor. For the petty-bourgeois maxim of "do unto others as you would have them do unto you," there was no room in the immediate impact of Napoleonic feeling; the memory of St. Jean d'Acre, balanced by a hundred triumphs, had no such depressing consequence for Napoleon's emotional life; sympathy for the opponent breaks through as a self-evident counter-movement, discharge of the saturated self-feeling. He himself expresses it thus: Only the victor may forgive. The vanquished must be restrained by the feeling of his essentiality and dignity: "Obligations and concessions do honor only to the victor: they degrade the vanquished; he must preserve reserve and pride." This pronouncement falls regarding the behavior of Rear Admiral Du Chayla, who surrendered to the English in a shameful capitulation. Napoleon is outraged at his lack of self-feeling: "There are men who have no blood in their veins," he exclaims. And in the same spirit he says to General Rapp, who after a victorious charge presented him with captured colors: "You have done well, Rapp; one must conquer with pride and present with modesty." Thus the proud feeling of his own being and his own deed, the self-sufficient joy in the work as such, stands throughout his life as the fundamental trait of his feeling of personality.

The political expression of this self-feeling is his policy of unconditional striving, which, in the face of all possibilities of concluding peace on favorable terms, was always directed toward the whole, the complete realization of his work, and disdained half-measures and compromises. Of this, history records many examples: the rejected peace offers of 1800 and 1805, the disregarded English proposals of 1806, the missed opportunity of a separate peace with Austria in 1809, and finally the refusal of the peace of Châtillon. In all these cases the self-feeling of the heroic creator demanded the whole, the unbroken work; a partial success, a fragment of his creation would have meant for him not a success but a diminution of his being. Thus he rejected the peace of 1800 because, after Marengo, he wanted not merely

peace but a European order that would secure his work; thus he turned down the English proposals in 1806 because they would have limited his dominion to the left bank of the Rhine, while he, the ruler of Europe, could not renounce the right bank; thus he refused the peace of Châtillon in 1814, when everything was at stake, because it would have left him only the ancient borders of France, while the unity of his created empire demanded the whole.

It is the same trait: his policy is not the expression of a clever calculation, but the outstreaming of his self-feeling, which knows no partial satisfaction, no half-measures. He himself expressed this in the words to the Prussian envoy in 1806: "I am not a man of half-measures; I am for the whole or nothing." And this determination is not the result of reflection; it is the direct utterance of his feeling, which, full of itself, cannot limit itself. The boundless self-feeling impels to boundless action; it knows no other law than its own fullness. Therefore, in his political actions, he also had no real understanding for the policy of his opponents, which seemed to him petty and limited, and he often misjudged its possibilities and intentions. This self-feeling explains his incomprehension for the coalition of 1813, which Metternich noted: he could not understand that the European powers could unite against him, because he could not conceive of a power opposed to him as equal to him. This overweeningness of the self-feeling became the tragic hybris that drove him to demand the unconditional and thereby prepared his fall. But this hybris, this boundlessness of the self-feeling, is also the source of his greatness; it is the feeling of the hero who knows himself as the center of the world, who can conceive of no other center beside himself.

Thus Napoleon's self-feeling is not individual vanity; it is the feeling of his world-historical mission, of his creative power, of his state-forming destiny. It is the purest expression of his heroic being, which could not be otherwise than whole, than absolute. And if this self-feeling also had its dark side, if it had the

tendency to lose the measure and to harden in itself, this belongs to the nature of every great heroism; it is the danger that lies in the greatness of the hero, who, because he knows only himself as the measure of all things, must finally measure himself against himself and break on that.

The mission-feeling of Napoleon is the highest expression of this self-feeling. He feels himself called to a work that is unique and incomparable; he knows that he has a destiny that sets him apart from all other men. In this consciousness he acts, and this consciousness gives his actions the stamp of the unconditional, the boundlessly self-certain. He says: "I am a man of the future; I feel that I have a mission to fulfill." And this mission-feeling is so strong that it drives him always forward, always to new deeds, never allows him to rest. He knows that his time is limited, that his work must be completed before his death, and this knowledge gives his activity that enormous intensity that surprised his contemporaries. This mission-feeling is not a conscious idea; it is a natural drive, an instinct that carries him blindly. He himself often expressed this: "I feel myself driven by an unknown force; I must go forward, I cannot stop." And this drive is so strong that it overcomes all obstacles, all doubts, all considerations of personal advantage. It is the demonic element in his nature that made him the hero of the age.

And simultaneously with this self-feeling and this mission-feeling, Napoleon's political sentiment develops. It is the feeling of the state, which is nothing other than the external form of his own being. For Napoleon, the state is not an abstract institution, but the living embodiment of his personality. He feels the state as his work, as the expression of his will, as the continuation of his being. Therefore he also demands unconditional devotion to the state, for the state is he himself. This personal relationship to the state is the foundation of his entire political action. He does not serve the state as an abstract idea; he serves himself in the state; the state is the medium through which he realizes his being.

Therefore his politics are always personal; they are the immediate expression of his feeling, his will, his self-feeling.

This political sentiment manifests itself in his treatment of the conquered territories, which he reorganizes according to his ideas, which he forms anew as his creation. It manifests itself in his legislation, which bears his personal stamp, in his administrative measures, which are the direct expression of his will. And it manifests itself above all in his great state-creations, in the transformation of Germany, in the reorganization of Italy, in the founding of the Confederation of the Rhine. In all these works he does not act as a statesman who calculates and weighs, but as a creator who forms, who shapes according to his inner vision. And this creating is the purest expression of his political sentiment, which is nothing other than his self-feeling which has become state-form.

This state-feeling is so intense that it becomes the very substance of his being. He thinks and feels only from the state, for the state, in the state. The state is the form of his existence; outside the state he has no existence. Therefore he can also conceive of the state only as his personal property, as the work of his hands, as the expression of his will. The state is the body of which he is the soul; state and he are one. This is the deepest meaning of his political sentiment, which for him is at the same time the most personal, the most intimate feeling.

Thus in Napoleon mission, self-feeling, and political sentiment are one and the same: the feeling of his own being, which is at the same time the feeling of his world-creating power, of his state-creating destiny. In this threefold unity lies the secret of his greatness, the source of his world-transformative effect. For he is not a statesman who serves a pre-existing state; he is the creator of a new state, the founder of a new order, the shaper of a new world. And this creative power is the ultimate content of his being, the deepest ground of his feeling.

BOOK FIVE — GOD AND FAITH

I. GOD

I. GOD

Over the individual soul lie the spheres of suprapersonal encompassment of being: in society, state, God. Society is the primitively earthly sphere, unfolding from the drive of the existing majority. State is the consummated earthly sphere, in which this drive has become face and creation. God is at once the outermost rim of the world-circle consummated in face and creation, but on the other side running out into a sphere of the supramundane, the creation-alien, ultimately the beingless. Every soul is from the outset bound by its substance, with a greater or lesser portion, into one of these spheres. The countless many today exhaust themselves in the first, feel themselves merely as members of society, as herd animals — a smaller number than commonly believed strike into the second, bear state-consciousness, are ζῶον πολιτικόν — a certainly greater number seek their encompassment in what is properly no longer an encompassment but a dissolution, in the protuberance of the earthly circle-rim outward, in untraceable deification: the heirs of an earlier human type.

There are those — these the majority — who passively resist their transsubstantiation into a suprapersonal; others who oversurge and dissolve in it. The soul of creative stamp seeks in the process to assert itself actively, to penetrate and realize its being in the higher being. In the first sphere, that of social encompassment, one finds this at most among the libertines of art, the literati of the various art-domains and their following, the Bohemians. The anarchists and communists already strive more into the second — however inadequately intimated — the state-creative sphere. The furthest sphere, the circle of deification streaming out into All and Nothing, according to its meaning basically excludes every earthly-creative formative power. But there exist in a curious play

of nature souls with a drive into this sphere, to whom at the same time an earthy creative drive denies will-less surrender. They consume themselves in the unfruitful but often grandiose attempts to master humanly that which resists all human creation — who put only a part of their substance, their spiritual force, in a special sense, their power of thought, into the effort: the metaphysicians, who set the All of their being against the All of the world: the mystics.

Only the middle sphere, in which the supraindividual presents itself as state, as creative total-expression of objective, visible world, is truly appropriate to the drive of the individual soul to press creatively beyond itself into a higher encompassment of being. Only here, where a supersensuous content is captured in visible objective forms, do the arbitrary floodings of merely social drive-life no longer have room, nor yet those that mock every power of the soul — the infinite. Here is a ground on which the soul can realize its impulse to self-representation in a spiritual expression that lies beyond it, with the means of its earth-bound creative power. The sharper and deeper it stamps its individual face into this supraindividual spiritual form, the more comprehensively and conclusively it can personalize this form in itself, the more it approaches the creative perfection determined for it by its being.

He who can capture the spiritual world-expression of his age entirely in his person, who knows how to make the supraindividual spiritual structure of the state individually visible and corporeal in himself — he is the truly heroic man: after the foundational myth of antiquity the demigod, who stands between men and gods, insofar as he leads divine power into the earthly, compels it from the world-stuff in which it has become absorbed and whose rim it laps shorelessly, to apparition in worldly face. With an absoluteness such as the Christian age has not known, Napoleon is the state-maker out of the stateless, he who recaptured and radiated forth the divine world-norm bound up in the state to the limits of sensuous expressive power, bound up

again in his individual corporeality. He has measured, lived through, and filled the second, the middle sphere of supraindividual being — the state-sphere — to its outermost rim, where it still holds the divine sensuously and worldly fast before it floods over into formless all-unity, with his individual vitality. From here, from this his position at the boundary between God and world, from his mission of leading God anew into the world in the highest spiritual form, the state — from this determines itself ultimately on the height of his life his comportment toward God, religion, church. For him God lives as an original certainty in the feeling of his self, which as everywhere so especially palpably here coincides with the state-idea, but since it aims at state self-realization, it permits as little a desensualization into theocratic deformations of the state as an overgrowth into the individual-speculative. He stands, permeated as a matter of course by the fact of divine existence, with his front set just as much against the metaphysical God-deniers and speculative God-eschewers, as against the churchly state-power that consumes the worldly state-expression of God.

II. CONFESSION

II. CONFESSION

on the boundary between God and world, on the edge where the divine sensuously-worldly form still takes hold before it pours into formless all-unity. From here, from this his position between God and world, from his mission of leading God anew into the world in the highest spiritual form, the state — from this determines itself ultimately on the height of his life his comportment toward God, religion, church. For him God lives as an original certainty in the feeling of his self, which as everywhere so especially palpably here coincides with the state-idea, but since it aims at state self-realization, permits as little a desensualization into theocratic deformations of the state as an overgrowth into the individual-speculative. He stands, permeated as a matter of course by the fact of divine existence, with his front exactly set against the metaphysical God-deniers and speculative God-eschewers, as against the churchly state-power that consumes the worldly state-expression of God.

Napoleon's inner religious life stretches between two poles: the givenness of God in his origin-feeling as his starting point, and the realization of this self-mighty feeling in the goal proper to him of state self-consummation. With the increasing unfolding of the Napoleonic being toward this goal, the felt origin-givenness of God contained in him is likewise developed, shaped, and partially delimited in this direction, toward the state-expression. On the height of his life it radiates forth almost only as the deepest immanent ground-law of state cohesion. God in Napoleon's origin-feeling is the necessary answer to the primitive drive of his many-formed and many-meaninged nature to gather itself in a given unity. More than any other, this many-formedness and many-meaningedness drives him toward a final indissoluble givenness in which it rests as a matter of course. More passionately than any other, he who presses toward deedful realization of being is ready to accept this self-evident givenness

as the spiritual ground on which he can stand. More deeply and immediately than most, he is governed by the inborn compulsion of the individual soul to know its uncontainedly flooding self as resting in a determinately given being. He has often confessed it: "Man, cast into life, asks himself: Where do I come from? Who am I? Where am I going? These are so many mysterious questions that press toward religion. We hasten toward it, our natural inclination leads us there. I had the need to believe — I believed."

As a natural givenness of the blood, an inborn need of the inner man that one must satisfy, Napoleon takes religion. He who does not obey this compulsion of the first question of being does violence to his nature. Napoleon acknowledges such a one as a being struck by a lack of nature. He cannot imagine that a man of significance and spiritual force could live without this last encompassment of his spiritual powers in a universally spiritual, a divine being. "I have never understood," he says on St. Helena, "that men who as scholars are as significant as Laplace, Monge, and Berthollet did not believe in the existence of God, and I can explain their materialism only as a remnant of the impressions of their youth. Voltaire's and Diderot's school has done much mischief." For, seen in itself, the lack of a higher, believingly accepted unity calls into question the unity and thereby the existence of man, state, and world-edifice. Only with difficulty in later years does he bring himself not to call directly into doubt the moral character of the faithless. "He did not admit," the Austrian chancellor transmits in his memoirs, "that there had ever been a sincere atheist; he condemned deism (the rational system of the Theophilanthropists) as a product of reckless speculation." That absolute unbelief must necessarily bring about the dissolution of every kind of social order was for him a ground-law. "As for me," he says in the Council of State in 1806, "I see in religion not the mystery of the Incarnation but the mystery of social order."

To his most enlightened and respected scholars, whose research he allows every latitude, he does not permit a public profession of

atheism. In 1805, a few days after Austerlitz, he commissions his Interior Minister to prevent the astronomer Lalande — who in the hall of the Institute had expressed himself against the existence of God — from any future public utterance on this subject. His behavior against the Theophilanthropists, the deists, especially their leader Larévellière-Lépeaux, who as a member of the Directory had been his superior, is sharper and more personal. He imposes a police surveillance on them and finally suppresses their cult. It is not the cult as such, not its teachings, that he fights; it is the inner emptiness of this teaching, the denial of any positive relation to a higher being, that his being rejects. The denial of God itself, the thought that one could dispense with the givenness of a divine being, must as such be suppressed. He suppresses it in the state interest that he represents, and this suppression is a necessity of his innermost personal feeling. For Napoleon, God is not a construction of the intellect; the conviction of His existence is a primary natural feeling in which the soul, with its drive toward unification and self-certainty, grasps itself. All the religious systems not born from a believing ground-feeling but constructed from the arbitrary thought of the individual — the so-called "natural religion" and the purely conceptual "Deism" of the Theophilanthropists — he dismisses as "products of reckless speculation" or, with his favorite word, as "ideology." The Freemasons are for him "a heap of blockheads who come together to eat well and perform a few ludicrous farces." Only to support his own efforts against the Pope has he occasionally encouraged them somewhat.

The adherents of such and other God-denying thought-systems encountered the harshest rejection at his court. Those select scholars who enjoyed his particular esteem — Cabanis, Monge, Lalande — he repeatedly challenged in heated word-battles over the ultimate questions of faith, always certain — as he boasted — of being able to refute every one of their arguments against the existence of God. This reveals that the acknowledgment of a divine being for Napoleon was not only a question of state policy but in the last analysis the release of a personal drive of feeling.

And precisely his state action in this domain is only thereby intensified to such energetic measures as the above-mentioned action against Lalande — that his human part, the drive of most personal self-assertion, for which the confession of God was a basic condition, strengthened the state claim to enforcement of this confession.

But only the acknowledgment of a Divinity as such, not of a particular form of faith, sets Napoleon in such zeal. He turns against the Theophilanthropy, which because of its lack of confession of a given Divinity appears to him not as a religion, not even as a sect, but awakens suspicion of a political club: "I wish to persecute no one for his religious conviction, but I do not wish that they use the name of a religion to spread ideas contrary to the existing order." This last word contains the real, the commanding ground of Napoleon's attitude toward the contemporary and historical formations of religion. Religion reaches him not only in his personal feeling as a givenness of the blood, as something unquestioningly present, but also meets his political reason as a fundamental condition of all human community; and these two sources flow together and strengthen each other. The state interest, which in the case of other contents of his life and action often overgrows the personal feeling and finally absorbs it, lets itself be fructified here by the personal feeling and draws from it its strongest driving force. As state founder, Napoleon needs religion to give his state the necessary ground in the supraessential; as personally pious man he welcomes the service that the state renders to his personal religious feeling by securing and strengthening religion in general. This identity of personal and state interest gives his striving for the restoration and erection of a churchly faith its unique, incomparable character.

But for this striving Napoleon must first find a given faith; he cannot create one out of the rational will of the individual, as the Theophilanthropists and deists attempted. A state religion cannot be posited, cannot be invented — only found. It must be there,

rooted in the blood, and must have force. Such is the Catholicism in which he was born. In its forms the personal and the state-political elements of his faith enter into that union which places him beyond the subjective uncertainty of individual faith and also beyond the churchly power that constrains the individual — places him in a middle position, a position of force over and against it. Thus Napoleon's relationship to the churchly world is ultimately determined by the fact that his innermost being is already taken, from the outset, by his origin-feeling for God in a direction that anticipates and conditions the later state-form of his religiosity. It is the will of the Corsican native soil in him, which presses toward its figure in world history.

III. CHURCH. RITE

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He has often confessed it: "Man, cast into life, asks himself: Where do I come from? Who am I? Where am I going? These are so many mysterious questions that press toward religion. We hasten toward it, our natural inclination leads us there. I had the need to believe — I believed." As a natural givenness of the blood, an inborn need of the inner man that one must satisfy, Napoleon takes religion. He who does not obey this compulsion of the first question of being, who does not seek and find its solution in faith in a higher being, lacks — for all his other spiritual gifts — the primary precondition for every kind of human perfection. "I too am a philosopher," he addresses the clergy of Milan on June 5, 1800, in his famous programmatic

speech preceding the Concordat efforts, "and I know that in no kind of society, be it what it may, can a man be called virtuous and just if he does not know whence he comes and whither he goes. Mere reason can give us no certainty of this; without religion one walks constantly in darkness."

It is tempting to see in this utterance merely a diplomatic move: but again one must point to the central unity of the genius, for whom there is no pure diplomacy in the sense of a secondary, spiritual-mechanical working tool — rather the political act is only the outward working of the total human being. And precisely in the conditioning ground-questions of this being, there is in the genius no room for deception and ambiguity. Every utterance on these matters, however politically intended and effective, is always at the same time so much living human confession. And a religion that does not grow from the natural compulsion of the great human question of "Whence" and "Whither," that does not give an equally compellingly unambiguous answer to this question, is for him no religion. With this objection he dismisses the revolutionary cult of the Theophilanthropists, of whom he was from the first an embittered opponent. Incessantly he returns to this question of man's "Whence" and "Whither," always only to find in it itself the proof for the givenness of faith in a higher being. "To say whence I come, what I am, whither I go — that goes beyond my concepts, and yet all of it exists. I am the clock that is there and knows nothing of itself. In any case, religious feeling is such a comfort that it is a gift of heaven to possess it."

Man, with his lack of self-determination, contains in himself the necessity of the higher being in which he is grounded and encompassed. He himself and all his environment is the proof of it. It means more than merely a conventional circumlocution; it is the positive acknowledgment of this necessity when at the beginning of the Consulate he grants his former religion teacher a pension with the words: "Without religion no happiness, no future is possible," and when he says on St. Helena: "Religion is the repose of the soul; it is the hope, the anchor of safety for the

unfortunate." Faith, belief, is not only a requirement for the cohesion of human society — as Napoleon was inclined to regard it — it is more: it is the primal compulsion of the individual being that is not finally contained in itself. Explicitly with the sharpening to this antithesis Napoleon acknowledges its necessity. Again and again during the Concordat negotiations he is led back to the originative significance of faith. While he seeks to establish it politically, his individual-human elements of faith press upward with power within him. On quiet walks in the garden of Malmaison with one or another of his entourage, they gain expression. In one of these conversations with Senator Volney he makes the confession: "The people need a religion, and above all faith; and when I say 'the people,' I have in my conviction not even said enough, for I myself feel at the sight of nature" — and he spread his arms toward heaven in an inspired surge — "I myself feel moved, carried away, convinced."

The primal compulsion of faith, which seizes Napoleon like every individual being, carries the substance to which it turns within itself. "Man's unrest is so great that he needs that uncertain and wonderful thing that religion offers him." Man himself with his being posits — like the last cause — so also in truth the object and content of his faith, the supersensibly incomprehensible power that compels him, the supraindividual ensoulment from which the individual soul springs. The imperfection of his spiritual faculty points back to a final center from which it and all environment emanates. "The idea of the existence of a God," he says once on St. Helena, "is quite simple; who made all this? Here is a veil that we cannot lift; that goes beyond the capacity of our soul and our understanding; that is of a higher order." In that man asks, he already gives himself the answer, he posits the Something that compels him to ask: the mystery of life with which nature surrounds him — that is "God." "One believes in God because everything around us proclaims Him," and "Everything proclaims the existence of a God, that stands beyond doubt." The further man's spiritual power penetrates into the mystery of nature, the more surely it finds this its inescapable

end. Since every final explanation flees from it, it must accept it in a givenness beyond which there is no further. It must posit God, believe Him.

It is the argument with which he combats the enlightened God-deniers of his learned world: "More than anyone else you would have to admit the existence of a God, because you have penetrated better than anyone else into the wonders of creation. Religions may be the work of man, but the existence of God is witnessed to us by everything that strikes our imagination, and if our gaze does not reach Him, that is because He has not permitted our understanding to go so far." This arising of God in immediate feeling under the primal compulsion of faith has, like the monotheistic ground-forms of faith, the strictly unambiguous determination of God in His indeterminacy ("that uncertain and wonderful thing") as mere existence, their complete attributelessness. All objectification of this highest being is no longer givenness but willful addition by men: "Religions may be the work of men," or even more decisively at the previously cited passage: "Our religions are evidently all children of men." Thus for him himself, who by his nature presses to take up existence only immediately in its origin-forms and to encompass it in its final breadth, God is an inviolable possession of his inner being only in that primary felt presence, not however as apparition of an isolated faith-form. The faith-forms are subject to the pull of his spiritual development. He can in the different phases of his life play with the thought of changing them: in Egypt a Mohammedan, before the Concordat a Protestant. That he persists in the one handed down to him by stock has for him as an individual other reasons, still to be discussed — that he was held fast to Catholicism forever by his state-determination remains here out of consideration. Only the Divine as such is for him as an individual an untouchable givenness of natural disposition.

Thus he confesses himself during the Concordat negotiations, again in a conversation in the Malmaison garden, borne by the

same inspiration as in that other, explicitly: "They will claim that I am a Papist; I am nothing at all; I was a Mohammedan in Egypt, I will be a Catholic here for the welfare of the people; but the idea of a God" — and he raised his hands toward heaven — "who made all this?" His own deep rootedness with the primal being of nature and his ever-returning drive back to it holds him fast to the existence of God. It is a testimony of this most general faith-impulse toward a higher primal being when he occasionally expresses to his entourage: "Thus religious ideas are not entirely foreign to me either." The cautious restriction of the expression is directed against being claimed for the written dogmas of the Church — a reservation that emerges still more clearly in a letter to the Pope of January 1806: "I am religious, but I am no bigot," and is emphatically set against the confession of his faith on St. Helena: "I am certainly far from being an atheist; but I cannot believe everything I am taught in disregard of my reason; the contrary would be lying and hypocrisy." The Church's doctrine of faith could not withstand even the first assault of his intellectual powers, he says about the same time on St. Helena — but that original presence of God in his most immediate feeling they could not shake. In all the confusions and doubts of his life it never left him: "In any case, in the great storms, indeed even in the occasional temptations to immorality, the lack of that religious belief — I assure you — has remained without any influence on me, and I have never doubted God. For if my reason had not sufficed to comprehend Him, my inner being nonetheless confessed itself to Him. My constitution was in accord with this feeling."

More emphatically one could not declare that God was for Napoleon a givenness of the blood, a pure compulsion of the senses, from which he could not have freed himself even had he wished. With the violently sensuous impressiveness proper to him, this fact breaks forth as a confession on his deathbed to his doctor: "I am neither philosopher nor doctor. I believe in God. I am of the religion of my father. One is not an atheist if one will not." That there are men of spiritual significance who can live

without the final encompassment of their spiritual powers in a universally spiritual, a divine being, is incomprehensible to him. "I have never understood," he says on St. Helena, "that men who as scholars are as significant as Laplace, Monge, and Berthollet did not believe in the existence of God, and I can explain their materialism only as a remnant of the impressions of their youth. Voltaire's and Diderot's school has done much mischief." For, seen in itself, the lack of a higher, believingly accepted unity calls into question the unity and thereby the existence of man, state, and world-edifice. Only with difficulty in later years does he bring himself not to call directly into doubt the moral character of the faithless. "He did not admit," the Austrian chancellor transmits in his memoirs, "that there had ever been a sincere atheist; he condemned deism (the rational system of the Theophilanthropists) as a product of reckless speculation." That absolute unbelief must necessarily bring about the dissolution of every kind of social order was for him a ground-law. "As for me," he says in the Council of State in 1806, "I see in religion not the mystery of the Incarnation but the mystery of social order."

To his most enlightened and respected scholars, whose research he allows every latitude, he does not permit a public profession of atheism. In 1805, a few days after Austerlitz, he commissions his Interior Minister to prevent Lalande from ever again publishing anything against the existence of God. "With a painful feeling I learn that a member of the Institute publicly preaches atheism, a system that destroys every social organization, that robs man of all his consolations and hopes." The Institute itself should proceed against its member, who with these old-age writings jeopardized his entire scientific standing. If this bore no fruit, he himself must oppose the further harmful influence on the public. For absolute faithlessness, the denial of a divine being as such, appeared to him as the danger of the age, not the excess of religious feeling in a particular direction. "Not fanaticism — atheism is the disease to be feared today," runs a word of his from a Council of State session in 1806.

The religious systems not born from a believing ground-feeling but constructed from the arbitrary thought of the individual — the so-called "natural religion" and the purely conceptual "Deism" of the Theophilanthropists — he dismisses, as already mentioned, as "products of reckless speculation" or, with his favorite word, as "ideology." The Freemasons are for him "a heap of blockheads who come together to eat well and perform a few ludicrous farces." Only to support his own efforts against the Pope has he occasionally encouraged them somewhat. The adherents of such and other God-denying thought-systems encountered the harshest rejection at his court. Those select scholars who enjoyed his particular esteem — Cabanis, Monge, Lalande — he repeatedly challenged in heated word-battles over the ultimate questions of faith, always certain — as he boasted — of being able to refute every one of their arguments against the existence of God. This reveals that the acknowledgment of a divine being for Napoleon was not only a question of state policy but in the last analysis the release of a personal drive of feeling. And precisely his state action in this domain is only thereby intensified to such energetic measures as the above-mentioned action against Lalande — that his human part, the drive of most personal self-assertion, for which the confession of God was a basic condition, strengthened the state claim to enforcement of this confession.

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important to him. This — the acknowledgment of the "immortal, uncreated God, the Lord and Creator of men" — he finds quite equally in all three great religions, and that makes them equal in value to his encompassing human feeling. Indeed, repeatedly he ascribes to the Jews the glory of having recognized the existence of the one living God a thousand years before the other peoples. For this reason he grants the monastery on Mount Sinai its distinguished protection, "out of reverence," as his order of the day of December 19, 1798 states, "before Moses and the Jewish nation, whose cosmogony sets before our eyes the most distant times."

To Islam and the saving precepts of the Koran he did justice in a manner that can only be called declared preference. The immediate and unconditional power of the senses that this faith requires and sets in motion struck something in Napoleon and brought him into temptation to give its religious satisfaction in Islam preference over the Christian teaching that mortifies the body for the sake of the soul. Mohammed like Moses were state-doers — "leaders of the people who gave laws and ordered the affairs of this world; Christ was a preacher." Mohammed — he elaborates — with the sword in fifteen years wrested more souls from idolatry than Christ and Moses in fifteen centuries; his faith conquered the world in ten years while Christianity needed three hundred years: all because his religion was at the same time state action, living human effect in the eyes of the peoples of the East. "One sees him act," Napoleon says of him, while Christ was "too subtle" for the political views of the Orient. It is not surprising that Napoleon from the basic direction of his being was drawn toward the former and away from the latter. "For every religion," he declares on St. Helena, "I have done what men and circumstances could do, and have come to the recognition that all religions bear witness to the existence of God."

In this widest and most general attestation of a divine primal being, religion is for him the common property of all peoples: "no country, no man, no office, no corporation has the right to

obscure it, to distort it for its own advantage," he turns — again following not only a state maxim but his own faith-impulse — against the Pope. The Christian confessions he sees by virtue of this faith in a primally undifferentiated Divinity as a unity. Thus he can say to the Metropolitan of Smolensk in 1812: "We are all Christians, and your Bog is our God." This word too is not so unambiguous as it may at first seem — merely the product of political situation and intention — but at the same time and beyond that, total-human confession from ecumenical feeling born into the local givenness.

CONFESSION

Nevertheless, Napoleon stands very decisively by the faith-form handed down to him by his stock. It is not a givenness of his origin-feeling, not a requirement of his blood, of his "soul," in the way that God is. Only this — only the voice of the one, undifferentiated, attributeless God, the primal-life-unity that sets beginning and end — answers the voice of his inner being that asks after Whence and Whither. But against the immediacy of his feeling, which tears him toward this inner center of an apparitionless ground-being — "*précipiter*" he himself calls it — works the immediacy of another, equally strong drive that urges him to radiate forth every givenness of his individual inner being somehow in one of the generally valid, visible world-forms. Spirit and soul are for him only germs of embodiment, of world-formation, not independently self-effecting entities. This prevents him from volatilizing his individual God-feeling beyond the rim of worldly givennesses into an undetermined all-roaming of the soul — beyond that above-described second circle of supraindividual powers.

As soon as he becomes aware of the world-forms of that which he carries in himself as individual feeling, he shoots this feeling onto those forms, drives it into them. The first universally binding expression of faith that he comes to know is for him the given representational form of his feeling-givenness of God. It is so all the more unconditionally and irresistibly as this faith-form — the

Catholic one of his native earth — is almost entirely free of any proper soul-substance, scarcely lays claim to the soul of the individual believer, but instead sets his inborn power of the senses in motion toward itself with the power of its own sensuous institutions and customs: an effect strengthened by the fact that these forms, which seem destined to objectify no independent feeling-power of their own, are all the readier and more suited to absorb that of the soil and blood in which they grow, and thus their sensuous power attests more the connection with the givennesses of the earthly than of the heavenly homeland.

This is the form of Catholicism that he sees practiced in his parental home and all around him on the island. It presents itself most purely in his mother Letizia and his uncle Lucien, the archdeacon at the cathedral of Ajaccio. In them the tribal element of the island is still powerful — an element that in Napoleon's father had already dissipated into the general European, enlightened worldliness of the age. For them faith exhausts itself in the observance of prescribed church customs, without their betraying any living inner participation in what had become traditional and self-evident to them. Even to the high church dignitary the church seems more a traditionally given office and administration than a means of personal awakening. Insofar as his external church duties do not occupy him, he is busy with the ordering of the household property. He and the mother are the typical representatives of this southern kind of Catholicism, thoroughly opposed to the Nordic faith-impulse, which does not strive to assure itself of God through individual spiritual immersion but rests in the believing acceptance of the traditionally given God as an all-binding life-power, an invisible natural force over and above the other visible ones.

For them the being of God has no riddles, since it daily reveals itself anew in the symbolic circle of inherited rites and expresses its entire meaning in the very real efficacy that believers ascribe to it over the ultimate destinies of their existence. To keep it favorable is therefore the whole purpose with which they fulfill

the prescribed consecratory acts, beseech defense against future misfortune, render thanks for benefits received: a sensuous-natural form of worship that seems to inhabit the sensuous atmosphere of the southern landscape and its soil overflowing with the memorial signs of antiquity, and to propagate in the Christianity of these regions the last remains of pagan prime-substance — more than anywhere else in the air and soil of Corsica, which, as already set forth, alone of all Mediterranean lands preserved intact into the new age the driving force of antique cultural formations in their origin-germs. Here the cult of the Christian God had remained closest to that of the pagan-sensuous faith-forms; in its essence, with the naive veneration of its saints, its sense-signs and devotionalia, it was entirely caught in the natural drive-circle of antique god-cults. It took its nourishment more from the soil and air of the land in which it grew, was more a matter of native customs and tribal tradition than the expression of a spiritual-ecumenical order: and precisely for that reason capable of exerting such an impressiveness on Napoleon, who, as the most substantial product of the sensuously substantial soil of his home island, was driven to receive even the supersensuous, as soon as it wanted to make itself worldly present at all, only in the forms of the most immediate tribal givenness.

What moves his soul as a blood-borne unshaped feeling of a primal being-power seeks, following the pull of his nature, its universally binding world-expression — the instituted religion — finds it in the sensuously incontestable impressions with which the soil of his homeland, his nearest surroundings, his mother, his uncle, his household and tribesmen mediate it, attaches itself to the external attestations of God in the practice of a pure eye-and-ear cult that seems more general tribal custom than bond of faith. The signing of the cross, the ringing of bells are the first and lastingly powerful presentification of church faith for Napoleon. In many difficult situations of his life one sees him quite instinctively make the sign of the cross over himself, like any Southerner, believing himself thereby assured of the

nearness of God and His protection, just like the simplest among them.

What bells mean to him exceeds every measure of our Northern power of imagination. At their sound from the tower at Rueil he stops in the Malmaison garden in the middle of a conversation about the questions of the Concordat with his secretary of state and feels himself suddenly called back from the worldly order of faith-questions to their primal ground. In this the whole power of his childhood memories with their living faith-content worked through the force of the momentary sense-impression. He himself describes it: "I was moved, so strong is the power of first habits and education. I said to myself then: What impression must it not make on the simple and believing people." The sound of bells is for him the indispensable accompaniment of his inner life-melody, like an ever-present vibrating-along of God (as he feels and comprehends Him) in his worldly deed-life, a continuing-sound of his youth-feeling in his life's continuity. Therefore he feels it as immediate psychic pressure that he must do without their sound on St. Helena. He speaks of the youth-memories that crowd around him on St. Helena more than ever, and continues: "It is the same with the sound of bells. I miss it here. I cannot get used to hearing it no more. Never has the sound of a bell struck my ear without turning my thoughts back to the impressions of my childhood... The Angelus put me into a gentle reverie when, in the midst of work, of thoughts with which the burden of my crown oppressed me, I heard its first strokes under the beautiful shades of St. Cloud."

In these childhood impressions of an external cult, the presence of God is immediately called up for him as never otherwise in this corporeality. Therefore he holds fast — however much he himself later seeks to avoid the sacraments — to the value of first Communion for the young. "It must be performed; otherwise it means a lack in education; and on the side of the educators a fault." As the faith of his childhood, as the faith of his homeland, as the faith of his fathers, Napoleon confesses Catholic

Christianity. Many of his utterances attest this. He himself says on St. Helena that this tribal belonging to Catholicism, the memories of his youth steeped in it, decided the matter when before the Concordat he was about to renew religion in France and many sides sought to press Protestantism upon him: "I actually clung to the religion of my childhood." And he still feels on St. Helena, when he hears Mass, a movement in which all the memories of his childhood converge. "He found in it a charm that was connected with the memories of his childhood, which here were all awakened at once."

Thus it is more than a formula satisfying convention — a confession underlining the fact of his blood-rootedness in this faith — when his testament begins: "I die in the apostolic and Roman religion in which I was born." With this coincides that already cited word on his deathbed: "I am of the religion of my father. One is not an atheist if one will not," which in this conjunction seems almost to emphasize the determining power of descent for faith-membership. It is this too that makes particularly intolerable to him the new faith-forms born from the rational will of individuals. Still on St. Helena he recalls that with this argument he once confronted the head of the Theophilanthropist sect, Larévellière-Lépeaux: "Modestly I replied to him that on dark paths I had the principle of following those who had gone before me, and I was determined to do therein what my father and mother had done."

Religion — the external faith-form — he wants, precisely for the sake of the uncertain boundlessness of individual faith-power, as a secure givenness of blood and soil. It is for him almost a predetermined disposition, a natural component of the great complex of spiritual life-powers that for him, the state-directed man, sums itself up in the idea of fatherland: "Religion is a part of destiny. It forms with soil, laws, customs that sacred whole that one calls 'fatherland' and must never desert." As he here calls a deviation from the faith-givenness of the blood "deserting," he has constantly in his state activity opposed change of faith. Since

no religion can claim to have always ruled before the others, everyone must stay with that which has grown to him. "If a religion had existed from the beginning of the world, I would think it the true one. But as things are, I think that everyone must keep the religion in which he was brought up, that of his fathers." Here it becomes clear why he fundamentally resisted the temptation to convert to Islam, despite all the inner and outer seduction that drew him there. "His unalterable opinion," he says in describing these events, "was that everyone must die in his own religion." At the cited passage one can also read what wealth of fine diplomatic means he employs to avoid the pressure of the sheikhs who wanted to convert him, without having to offend their own faith, which as a natural law of their existence was equally venerable to him.

A last particularly strong expression of this feeling of rootedness in inherited faith is his insistence that even in death every person should remain with the members of his faith-community. In response to an inquiry from the prefect of the Charente he issues the ruling: "Every person must be buried in the church of that cult to which he has professed himself."

CHURCH. RITE

Just as the inner presence of God is for Napoleon a givenness of his most personal life-feeling, so its attestation outward, its confessional representation, is for him an outflow of those feeling-forces through which he is connected with the world, the earth, the homeland, and the succession of generations (what we today in their mediated, conceptualized forms call social dispositions, but he calls "Patrie"). Thereby religion as a form of faith is from the outset placed for him in that middle of pagan-sensuous contemplation that prevents both its complete tearing-away into an untraceable feeling-realm and also its petrification in a casing of self-subsistent dogmatic power. Just as this attitude prevents him from interpreting the natural ground-being of God speculatively-mystically, so it also preserves him from submitting to its systematization in an elaborated religious edifice. The

Catholic religion that he professes remains for him a middle illustration of his feeling-givenness of God within the framework of its inherited rites and myths: to its theological teaching-schema, the concept God become sovereign, he opposes — as already communicated — all resistance: "I am certainly far from being an atheist; but I cannot believe everything I am taught in disregard of my reason; the contrary would be lying and hypocrisy."

This resistance is a primal content of his natural disposition, not merely the effect of contemporary rationalism, which may indeed in the further course have strengthened this disposition in the direction against a dogmatized faith. But fundamentally Napoleon was no less hostile to the de-essentializing of God by the Enlightenment than to its counterpart, petrification in the scholastic concept of God. Against both, his sensuous-felt experience of the tribal faith-forms and of the facts sensuously embodied in them sets itself in defense. The expressive customs and consecratory acts of the Catholic Church, in which his youthful faith is concentrated — these are what fixed his position toward the Church and decisively influenced it throughout his whole life. From this sensuous impulse of his faith, not merely from the pursuit of political goals, stems the surprising drive toward the resumption of church ceremonies at a time when the republican generals everywhere still delighted in a wild ostentation of faithlessness and church-hostility. Even before the Concordat, he attended the Te Deum for the celebration of the victory of Marengo in Milan; long before, during the first Italian campaign, he constantly emphasized his respect for the customs and servants of the Roman Church.

It marks precisely the sensuous-natural inclination that holds him to Catholic Christianity rather than a departure from it when he participates also in Egypt in the religious celebrations of the Mohammedans. In this his general drive toward worldly presentification, bodily representation of all inner movement, expresses itself. Had this drive not determined him, had his inner

being not demanded an objective, visible faith-expression, he could never have made religion and church into a tool of his political action, could never have incorporated them as working instruments of his great worldly state-creation. Given the extraordinary consistency and closure of his development, religion would then have brought its right as a purely inner, purely feeling-power to bear so immediately against him that he would have had to exclude it from his deed-directed being-and-effecting sphere. But that it confronted him as a sensuous apparitional form of this inner life-power as his inheritance, that it presentified itself to him as a component of his world-being disposition — this shifted it into the direction in which his state-comprehended total disposition worked, and is the truest and deepest reason that it could finally form for him a factor of purely political action.

That he, who owed his elevation to the utmost worldly power only to his own strength, not to his ancestry — that he, to the astonishment of all the world, expended the whole art of his diplomacy to obtain his consecration by the Pope, is only a confirmation of this fact. He promises himself a consolidation of his dominion, attained by the means of worldly power, from also deploying for it the impressively powerful churchly consecration-form. He promises himself this because he himself feels the effect of this form, because it continually grows to him from the faith-power of his youth and homeland. Whatever great happens in life is always for him somehow linked with the worldly presentification of the life-ruling divinity: that is the inherited good of his blood. Thus even the highest representative event of his life must be clothed with the pomp-forms of this sense-presentifying spiritual power. "A new generation," a statesman close to him transmits his will, "needs an extraordinary seal, which must be impressed on it by the hands that stand in nearer connection with heaven." And some years later, after his marriage to Marie Louise, speaking to Metternich about the formula she used in letters to her father — "To Her Sacred Imperial Majesty" — he explains in solemn tone: "This custom is

beautiful and well-considered. Power comes from God, and only thereby can it find its position outside the realm of men. I shall soon adopt the same title."

But beyond this, for him quite generally the fulfillment of churchly forms in connection and as sense-signs of active life was a givenness from his childhood that all rationalism of his years of development could not destroy. An elementary inclination always led him back to it, pressed toward it, and finally worked itself out in the sensuous-impressionable character of his state-system very naturally and organically purposefully. The reintroduction of Sunday Masses at St. Cloud is a result of this. For himself and before himself they too belonged to a higher-pointing representation of his worldly power. He himself with his nearest entourage always took part. But with this his need in this direction was satisfied, and he did not drive his satisfaction beyond these limits. When many more distant members of the state administration, in the apparent assumption of having to please him, pressed forward and the church celebration began to become something like a social event entirely foreign to its meaning, he changed the hour of worship: "in order," as he said, "to free those who wanted nothing of it from it."

It was something quite different when he demanded from even a Protestant prefect participation in great church ceremonies as a matter of course. This again was directly connected with the state power-expression of his person and served its representation. Somehow for Napoleon there always had to be a living-meaningful, objective relation even between the outermost apparitional forms and his personal givenness. The church celebration as an indication of the divine determination of his sovereign power: yes. But a new social convention detached from this bond to his person-center he would not permit. Thus rite and church apparatus, in moments when his state existence itself was threatened and all his forces were concentrated on its immediate preservation, became of themselves empty external being, non-objective adornment, which he dropped as unhesitatingly as was

reported in an earlier section about the state titles and the like. Then everything retreated into the primal germ of human-personal effective power, without thought of outward representation or linkage with supramundane symbols. When during the campaign of 1814 the government in Paris had proclaimed the Forty Hours' Prayer, this was so intolerable to him as a departure from the essential that he expressed his displeasure about it in the most ruthless manner.

But where his state-system stood firm or even only strove toward consolidation, where the sensuous representation of his dignity in visible connection with a Divinity resulted of itself from the personal feeling of his being ripening toward consummation — there he wanted to see the expression of it all around him. Hence the divine services in the nearest courtly and widest popular circle. Hence his zeal, in the continuation of the great cathedrals — those great symbols of world-proclamation of God left unfinished from the Middle Ages — to fix visibly for all the world and all time his own, the consummated state world-expression of God. Early on, even before the final conclusion of the Concordat in Italy, he turns thought and energy to the completion of the Milan Cathedral, gives it its concluding form, helps with his spirit of sensuous concentration and formation the most alien, the Gothic spirit to its last condensation of its form-dissolving dreams. Hence also the observance of significant church forms, the reverence and the requirement of this reverence before them from others. He did not forgive even battle-tested comrades-in-arms, such as General Delmas, the reserve or open fronde they displayed against the ceremony of the imperial consecration.

It was understandable that from this side — from the military men grown up in the clubs and field camps of the Revolution — violent resistance was offered to the new churchification of France. If Napoleon required of no one in his entourage a fixing on details of faith, he did require, besides the omission of public denial of God, the observance of representative faith-forms by those who by their belonging to his state-expressed person were

obliged to do so. Hence also the above-mentioned command even for the Protestant prefects to participate in the great Catholic church festivals. When on the occasion of the refusal of church consecration for the corpse of the actress Chameroi, in a private conversation, the most favored of his spiritual confidants, almost a friend — Monge — remarked: "C'est une dispute de comédiens à comédiens," he was met by a rebuking, threatening "Comment?" from the completely changed facial expression of the First Consul. At this stage of his life, it was repugnant to him to see the observance of any churchly faith-forms treated lightly. He could not bear that his entourage, during the inspection of the monastery at Nazareth, laughed at the abbot who explained the damage to a pillar as the imprint of the heel of the Archangel Gabriel at the Annunciation — and he strictly forbade it. In this there may also have worked the purely natural reverence that Napoleon possessed for every demonstration of original faith as such, indeed for every genuine being-moved, and which as a last personal driving force also underlies the state commands with which he demanded consideration for the feelings of believers from his army in Italy and Egypt.

From this standpoint, according to whether he sensed in them the expression of a highest spiritual power sustaining his state existence, his different position toward the sacraments of the Catholic Church also explains itself. He insisted that his relatives — his siblings Louis and Caroline — have their marriages blessed by the church, which at that time (the early days of the new churchliness) still gave occasion for all kinds of dubious or malicious remarks. He himself however, a few years earlier, had done nothing of the kind, having contracted marriage with Josephine only in the new civil forms. At that time, when he was still in the condition of a private man without the feeling of the state mission to which he was called (he became aware of it only after Lodi), there was for him no inner need for the fulfillment of churchly form. On the contrary, to a mere — if respected — member of the then state order, precisely abstention from these forms must have appeared as given, especially since his own

spiritual direction at that time was somewhat bent from its inner determination by its rational tendency, running parallel to that state order.

It is amply attested how Josephine later, at the given moment, understood to bring Napoleon to the belated performance of church consecration of his marriage. But for the actual carrying-out of this intention no less than the presence of the Pope during the coronation ceremonies was required. The reasons that led to the church consecration of the marriage — the intent to give the new Emperor's marriage the highest ceremonial splendor, the Pope's explicit ultimatum to deny the coronation without this precondition, the need to create a precedent for the consecration of the coming ceremony — these reasons were purely situational, of state-political character, not such as could spring from Napoleon's personal faith. Accordingly, the form of this ceremony also remained within purely external bounds: it took place in the evening without any public festivity, the church witnesses signed without knowing the contents, the document remained incomplete in essential requirements (e.g., *parochus proprius*) and thus already carried the precondition for its later dissolution within itself. Unfavorable judges claim: not without Napoleon's foresight (which however was hardly consonant with his not calculating but factually exploiting nature). What is certain is that Napoleon resisted the church consecration of his marriage. Many reasons have been adduced. Not improbable is that he was averse to a further consolidation of this childless marriage-bond precisely at the moment when he was definitively establishing the heredity of his dignity. But even this is then not careful calculation of all the possibilities arising from it, but instinctive presentification of his inner picture of the given situation.

Most certain however appears that his being instinctively set itself against the performance of this ceremony because it did not lie in the current of the present time-event, he felt it not as an expression of his present but as a correction of an already completed state of existence, and therefore it must have been

fundamentally repugnant to his spirit working creatively from the sensuous fullness of givenness. The dogmatic grounding and speculative deepening with which the sacrament of marriage works on the Northern Catholic, for instance, did not touch Napoleon's Southern-immediate feeling — not even in this section of his life, in which he was receptive to the churchly as an expression of his state-comprehended person. This receptivity limited itself entirely to the cult, the symbolic enclosure of the worldly-given in the higher divine world-being. But this was not in question here. The church ceremony of marriage consecration could rather expose the legitimacy of his hitherto existing marriage-bond, and thereby his own personal authority, to doubts that he was quite instinctively prevented from admitting. Thus, from purely state-political considerations, he opposed the final churchly sanction of his marriage-bond with the same instinctive force with which he sought it for his state-representative imperial dignity, since his authority was not affected by the former but might be endangered. But when the combination of circumstances had brought about the fulfillment of the church marriage, he felt no inner ground to withdraw from it. On the contrary, this consecratory act, which for Napoleon from his life-beginnings onward almost meant a natural givenness according to the customs of Southern Catholicism, could now on the height of his life assert its validity all the more unreservedly.

But it was different with those consecratory acts of the Church that did not follow from its pagan heritage — the drive to sensuous embodiment of the spiritual — but carried elements of a particular, the properly Christian-psychic, in themselves and raised the claim to complete self-surrender of the individual. To these, his person, wholly concentrated in his mighty world-I, could not do justice. If the solemn celebration of the sacrament of marriage grew upon him almost from a tribal disposition of his natural being, besides as a representation of a state-ordering principle irresistibly, so all the voices of his inner being rose against the preceding reception of Communion. This was no longer merely a form in which worldly accomplishment

experienced its visible encompassment in a higher spiritual, divine order developed from itself, but the sense-sign of a self-subsistent Divinity, established at the cost of this worldly accomplishment, which demanded from man every sacrifice, even the ultimate one of the feeling of his own being-essence. To bring this, his rootedness in the sensuous circle of life prevented him, for which as primal drive indeed also an unencompassed Divinity is the ground, but so inwardly interwoven that it tolerates no self-subsistent separation from it. In life, God is for Napoleon in an undifferentiable and indivisible way essential. Therefore it would have been a violation of his nature to have to venerate Him, moved out of this encompassment, as a special being in signs of a differently conceived, a supramundane life-circle.

But the same feeling for the holy inviolability of a natural life-order, which prevented him from receiving Communion, also prevented him from receiving Communion under the usual church forms with inner reservations. That was not yet self-surrender, not hypocrisy in the service of political combinations, as the many unorganically seeing believe. Insofar however as that Divine worked itself out in purely spiritual forms that did not touch his own worldly sphere, he held back shyly, not to disturb another being in its circle, and thereby provides the most irrefutable proof of how inaccessible he was to religious hypocrisy according to the deepest disposition of his nature. What appears so to us Northern men is — let it be stressed again and again — to be explained from the pull of Southern Catholicism, which permits a purely external, sensuous observance of church forms without inner binding of the individual to the dogma. In consequence of this — in a highest sense pious — reticence of his being toward powers that he could not measure, he was unable to receive the sacrament of Communion — say, with inner reservations — however much political considerations of utility might point him toward it and all kinds of promptings might seek to persuade him. Both before the imperial consecration and before the consecration of his marriage to Marie Louise, he had the Pope grant him

dispensation from the observance of this church command. He himself reveals the deep ground of this: "I did not believe enough in it for it to be able to exert its salvific effect on me, but I still believed too much in it to take a sacrilege upon myself cold-bloodedly."

The word clearly designates the middle ground on which he held himself toward the churchly faith-form of God: between the acknowledgment of a general Divinity with a certain expressive sphere of purely worldly church-forms and its presentification in an atmosphere of world-removed spiritual forms. The decisive center is his own faith-capacity bound to worldly feeling, which admits the first sphere, denies the second, without however attacking it — as he does the world-removed spiritual forms that strive entirely beyond the world, like the Theophilanthropist and deistic rational systems. And insofar, and as long as, Napoleon is not yet in contradiction with the churchly faith-form handed down to him, as he gives play to the purely spiritual faith-utterances of his own and others' souls, but in the main does not violate the worldly expression of this form in the faith-symbols and rites. Into this sphere however belongs precisely the sacrament of Communion. And here Napoleon actually goes beyond what the indulgent observance of his Church permits the individual, in that he rejects its central ritual. But here it is a matter of that which, precisely because of its fundamental nature, is so deeply rooted with the spiritual ground of faith itself that it cannot be fulfilled without the most inward confession-belonging to this spiritual ground. Here a conflict of Napoleonic individual-feeling with the Church had to arise, since here in the garb of the consecratory act it simultaneously exercised an innermost faith-compulsion beyond the measure otherwise maintained in it. Napoleon could not submit to this, though one may not therefore count him among the Northern God-eschewing faith-holders. For the individual soul that here sets itself against the authoritarian faith is not fed from some arbitrary unbound special feeling, but by the universal feeling-stream that carries the in-world-and-body-bound sensuous nature comprehendingly

together and here, definitively formed, has condensed into an individual feeling.

Napoleon's soul represents, as it were, the shaped-unique expression of all soul-power bound into the world-form — its rights against the world-dissolving, desensualizing spiritual principle of the Church, the rights of substantial feeling of this world against the intimation-shudders of a supraworld. What in the particular case of the sacrament of Communion must have strengthened Napoleon's resistance to participation in this rite is its precondition, the sacrament of Penance. For this requires the complete surrender of the individual to the authority of the Church, a surrender that he, the autocratic world-I, could not bring. He once utters: "What! They want me to go to confession," and refuses. Only after the collapse of his world-power, when his individual self-feeling, loosened from its worldly embedment, had lost its self-sufficiency, could the need for the churchly mediation of the divine — for the sacrament — stir in him. On St. Helena, under the impact of his downfall, he begins to feel the need for spiritual discussion about the dogmas. In the sea of misfortune his ego stands no longer so firmly grounded in the world as to be able to cope with the ultimate questions of faith from its own inner powers. But even now this was still not a complete surrender of his individual self to the authority of the Church.

The previously cited conversation about confession in a direct transcript of March 1819 shows — however much it already reveals the approach to the sacrament — still a final reserve. Napoleon has asked a companion whether he believes that his sins will be remitted if he confesses them to a priest. The companion answers yes. Napoleon retorts: "You are a good Christian." Then he begins to reflect further: "But do you think, for instance, that if a man — take me, if you like — has had the misfortune to shed blood, the priest can forgive him that? In that case I would say: The priest alone cannot remit sins. His remission can have no meaning; God alone can remit them. . . . For mortal sins, God must be appeased by sincere repentance,

fasting, and prayer." And finally: "In this state of uncertainty, I have no need of the priest." Thus even then he is not ready to submit individually to the churchly form. Still strongly enough, his own individual God-feeling asserts itself and seeks to come to terms immediately, without priestly mediation, with the ultimate power.

But only a few months before his death, when he has fallen seriously ill for the first time, he begins to speak of the possibility that he might have to confess. To his doctor he says: "You who do not believe in God, what would you do? I believe in Him; it is possible that I might need a priest." At the same time he makes to the same doctor the remark from which the deep change in his feeling toward the sacrament becomes fully clear: "I am not a philosopher, I am not a doctor; I believe in God; I am of the religion of my father; one is not an atheist if one will not; the priest remits sins when one confesses." And to the Grand Marshal Bertrand: "You are a man of spirit; tell me how you would do in my place; I believe in God, but I have to judge myself and I do not acquit myself on all points. What would you do? I am told that the priests remit sins and that this is a great consolation in one's last moments. I regret that I have so long postponed it; but I will make my confession as soon as I can get a priest." This confession, which he had asked for from his physician Antommarchi by the inflammatory remark about his lack of faith, actually took place. It happened, however, secretly, as Napoleon expressly wished. In the night of April 20, Abbé Vignali, who had arrived a few days earlier among the suite accompanying Napoleon's mother, heard his confession. He had also given Communion to the dying man, according to some witnesses; others, among them more reliable ones, contest this. They report that Napoleon had received only Extreme Unction, not Communion. Marchand reports under May 3 that at two in the afternoon Abbé Vignali, called by Montholon, appeared to him and was led by him to the Emperor. He was in lay clothing, carried something under his coat that he sought to conceal, and demanded to remain alone with the Emperor. Marchand himself

assumed that a religious act was now taking place at which the Emperor wished to be without witnesses, kept watch at the door, and communicated his view to Berthier, who happened to call. He and Antommarchi report that Vignali came out of the Emperor's room after a while and declared that the Emperor had received Extreme Unction. According to Marchand, he added: "Another sacrament does not permit the condition of his stomach." Accordingly, there is no doubt that the Emperor received Extreme Unction, but not Communion. It remains doubtful whether the sacrament of Confession and Penance was also performed. That this sacrament too was no longer unacceptable for Napoleon, that he had rather for a long time already familiarized himself with the thought of it, is clear from his previously cited utterances.

In itself, like every sacrament administered to a mature person, Extreme Unction presupposes Confession. This requires conceptually, naturally, that the dying person be sufficiently conscious to be able to fulfill this sacrament at all. Whether this was still the case with Napoleon seems uncertain according to Montholon's statements about his mental state in the last days. Vignali's negative statement refers unambiguously only to the sacrament of the altar. Vignali's words contain at the same time the confirmation that Napoleon was determined to receive all the means of grace reserved by the Church for a dying person, particularly therefore also to communicate. Otherwise the explicit emphasis that his physical condition did not permit this sacrament would be unintelligible. In any event, the external manner in which Napoleon's reception of the last churchly consecratory act was accomplished — the secrecy with which he surrounded it — demonstrates that this act was not performed for the sake of state demonstration, for a historically conspicuous profession of faith, but corresponded only to an inner need of his individual self. This self, loosened from worldly embedment, had now lost the ground that had previously enabled it to maintain itself — independent of all spiritual powers — solely by its own

self-sufficiency. Now it sought new hold in the symbols of a supramundane spirit-power.

But what had become of the great, the universal self of the hero? It had been the bearer of a world, had identified its own powerful existence with the existence of European mankind. With the destruction of his life's work it had lost its bodily-spiritual location in the world. As it could no longer live and work in a world from which its deed had been dashed away, so — since the world-I is destroyed — the merely individual-human residue from which the universal had unfolded sought a new ground in the supramundane, in God. The final period of Napoleon's religiosity shows him seeking to approach this world-removed spirit-power — to grasp the Christian dogmatic representation of the supersensuous in its innermost core — through the symbols of the Catholic faith. Nevertheless, and however the old world-pride may now be broken, this approach was still not surrender and subjection to the dogmatic authority of the Church. What drove him to approach the Church's means of grace in his last days was not the compulsion to subjection of the individual understanding to a higher spiritual power. It was the power of sensuous childhood impressions, which, now that his universal world-I had disintegrated, reawoke in him and stirred the memory of village church, crucifix, bells — and thereby called forth not indeed the fulfilled world-spirit of his mature years, but the natural-elemental inclination of his youth toward sensuous embodiment, toward worldly presentification of all spirituality. He gave up his own full world-form of his being only to grasp, in the supramundane spiritual symbols of the Church, an isolated worldly, a so to speak rudimentary sensuous form that had exerted its power on the elemental world-disposition of his youth and could now newly exert it on the one that had become free again.

That Napoleon, when for the first time since the days of his childhood, his confirmation, he undertook the fulfillment of the ultimate church duties, did not aim at a demonstration in political

or dynastic interest — this is rightly emphasized by the excellent connoisseur of his personal life-circumstances, the circumstances under which this consecratory act took place, the mysterious secrecy with which Napoleon surrounded it. But also a "conversion" explicable in the face of death — a merely intellectual accommodation to the saving precepts of the Church by way of allegorizing reinterpretation of the sacraments — was not in question for a spirit like Napoleon. Rather such a change was only possible because a new sensuous reality had struck his soul. That this is so is already indicated by that table conversation on St. Helena in which he, several years earlier, sought to make the idea of the bodily presence of God in the Communion acceptable to his astonished table-companions: "Doubtless the Protestants have reason on their side when they maintain that the Communion is only 'representation'; but why suppress the flight of my spirit that drives me to raise myself up to God and to believe in 'reality'?"

But this ultimate sensuous power of a ritual act — a sensuous power directly addressing the senses, as it had once in his childhood — was needed to tear his soul loose from its root in a universal I that had collapsed into the merely individual-human yet could not abandon the world-entirely, and to cast it into the circle of traditional consecratory acts. This also determined the choice of the particular form. He did not seize the merely spiritual-intellectual and individual-soul symbols of the Christian religion — the dogma — but the sensuous, the directly sense-addressing, the cult, which he had always, from his youth, carried and which he now, in the collapse of his universal worldly I, caught at with the instinctive movement of a man drowning. That he at the same time also assented to Confession — he who as autocratic world-I had rejected any subordination — is only the most powerful expression of the extent to which his old world-I had broken down, his universal feeling had dissolved into the merely human-individual.

But the question remains open whether he was still capable at that time of a genuine confession. The answer can only be that the secret act, surrounded by all the mystery of the confessional, must have corresponded to the essence of confession for him, must have released in his soul a feeling of relief, of discharge, of being-understood — as the effect of a sensuous symbolic act, not of a spiritual-intellectual one. It is profoundly touching how in his last hours this powerful world-spirit, who had embraced a world with his self and had seen it collapse, caught at the old traditional forms — those forms of his childhood — like a child. And it is infinitely characteristic that this return to the Church took place in the forms of sensuous cult, not in those of spiritual dogma. The sensuous power of the cult — bells, the sign of the cross, the mystery of the consecrated host, the anointing — these were what gripped him. The dogma remained alien to him to the end. He died as he had lived: a son of the Catholic Church in the Southern, sensuous sense — not a Christian in the Northern, spiritual sense.

IV. MYTH AND DOGMA: YOUTH PERIOD

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He could not bear to see the observance of any churchly faith-forms treated lightly. He could not tolerate that his entourage, during the inspection of the monastery at Nazareth, laughed at the abbot who explained the damage to a pillar as the imprint of the heel of the Archangel Gabriel at the Annunciation — and he strictly forbade it. In this there may also have worked the purely natural reverence that Napoleon possessed for every demonstration of original faith as such, indeed for every genuine being-moved, and which as a last personal driving force also underlies the state commands with which he demanded consideration for the feelings of believers from his army in Italy and Egypt.

From this standpoint, according to whether he sensed in them the expression of a highest spiritual power sustaining his state existence, his different position toward the sacraments of the Catholic Church also explains itself. He insisted that his relatives — his siblings Louis and Caroline — have their marriages blessed by the church, which at that time (the early days of the new churchliness) still gave occasion for all kinds of dubious or malicious remarks. He himself however, a few years earlier, had done nothing of the kind, having contracted marriage with Josephine only in the new civil forms. At that time, when he was still in the condition of a private man without the feeling of the state mission to which he was called (he became aware of it only after Lodi), there was for him no inner need for the fulfillment of churchly form. On the contrary, to a mere — if respected — member of the then state order, precisely abstention from these forms must have appeared as given, especially since his own spiritual direction at that time was somewhat bent from its inner determination by its rational tendency, running parallel to that state order.

It is amply attested how Josephine later, at the given moment, understood to bring Napoleon to the belated performance of church consecration of his marriage. Shortly before the imperial consecration she reveals to the Pope the lack of church consecration of her marriage, and he now makes the consecration of the Empress (not of the Emperor) dependent on her legitimation as wife through the belated completion of the marriage sacrament. Under this pressure Napoleon lets himself be brought, not without violent resistance, to consent to the ceremony. It is however performed entirely in secret in a remote room by Cardinal Fesch, a family member. All closer details remain in the dark, particularly whether, as some report, no witnesses were present at all, or as others transmit, only Talleyrand and Berthier or two adjutants were called in. In any case the ceremony lacked essential church requirements (e.g., *parochus proprius*) and thus already carried the precondition for its later dissolution within itself. Unfavorable judges claim: not without Napoleon's foresight (which however was hardly consonant with his not cunningly calculating but factually exploiting nature).

What is certain is that Napoleon resisted the church consecration of his marriage. Many reasons have been adduced. Not improbable is that he was averse to a further consolidation of this childless marriage-bond precisely at the moment when he was definitively establishing the heredity of his dignity. But even this is then not careful calculation of all the possibilities arising from it, but instinctive presentification of his inner picture of the given situation. Most certain however appears that his being instinctively set itself against the performance of this ceremony because it did not lie in the current of the present time-event, he felt it not as an expression of his present but as a correction of an already completed state of existence, and therefore it must have been fundamentally repugnant to his spirit working creatively from the sensuous fullness of givenness. The dogmatic grounding and speculative deepening with which the sacrament of marriage works on the Northern Catholic, for instance, did not touch

Napoleon's Southern-immediate feeling — not even in this section of his life, in which he was receptive to the churchly as an expression of his state-comprehended person. This receptivity limited itself entirely to the cult, the symbolic enclosure of the worldly-given in the higher divine world-being. But this was not in question here. The church ceremony of marriage consecration could rather expose the legitimacy of his hitherto existing marriage-bond, and thereby his own personal authority, to doubts that he was quite instinctively prevented from admitting.

Thus his basic being explains very plausibly his reluctance toward this ceremony, which he overcame only in order not to endanger the higher necessity — the consecration of the Empress. But when, from the given circumstances, the marriage sacrament then resulted of itself as an appurtenant expression of his state will, it became for him inwardly a self-evident form, which he celebrated with full devotion and greatest splendor. His marriage to the emperor's daughter, which promised him not only the heirs to his throne but at the same time in her person already embodied its power and prestige, belonged from the outset to a sphere of his conception in which a God-willed legitimacy appeared as the necessary investiture of every earthly authority. To whose expressive means the marriage sacrament also belonged, and thus there lay in the development of his state being no ground to withdraw from it. On the contrary, this consecratory act, which for Napoleon from his life-beginnings onward almost meant a natural givenness according to the customs of Southern Catholicism, could now on the height of his life assert its validity all the more unreservedly.

But it was different with those consecratory acts of the Church that did not follow from its pagan heritage — the drive to sensuous embodiment of the spiritual — but carried elements of a particular, the properly Christian-psychic, in themselves and raised the claim to complete self-surrender of the individual. To these, his person, wholly concentrated in his mighty world-I, could not do justice. If the solemn celebration of the sacrament of

marriage grew upon him almost from a tribal disposition of his natural being, besides as a representation of a state-ordering principle irresistibly, so all the voices of his inner being rose against the preceding reception of Communion. This was no longer merely a form in which worldly accomplishment experienced its visible encompassment in a higher spiritual, divine order developed from itself, but the sense-sign of a self-subsistent Divinity, established at the cost of this worldly accomplishment, which demanded from man every sacrifice, even the ultimate one of the feeling of his own being-essence. To bring this, his rootedness in the sensuous circle of life prevented him, for which as primal drive indeed also an unencompassed Divinity is the ground, but so inwardly interwoven that it tolerates no self-subsistent separation from it. In life, God is for Napoleon in an undifferentiable and indivisible way essential. Therefore it would have been a violation of his nature to have to venerate Him, moved out of this encompassment, as a special being in signs of a differently conceived, a supramundane life-circle.

But the same feeling for the holy inviolability of a natural life-order, which prevented him from receiving Communion, also prevented him from receiving Communion under the usual church forms with inner reservations. That was not yet self-surrender, not hypocrisy in the service of political combinations, as the many unorganically seeing believe. Insofar however as that Divine worked itself out in purely spiritual forms that did not touch his own worldly sphere, he held back shyly, not to disturb another being in its circle, and thereby provides the most irrefutable proof of how inaccessible he was to religious hypocrisy according to the deepest disposition of his nature. What appears so to us Northern men is — let it be stressed again and again — to be explained from the pull of Southern Catholicism, which permits a purely external, sensuous observance of church forms without inner binding of the individual to the dogma. In consequence of this — in a highest sense pious — reticence of his being toward powers that he could not measure, he was unable to receive the sacrament of

Communion — say, with inner reservations — however much political considerations of utility might point him toward it and all kinds of promptings might seek to persuade him. Both before the imperial consecration and before the consecration of his marriage to Marie Louise, he had the Pope grant him dispensation from the observance of this church command. He himself reveals the deep ground of this: "I did not believe enough in it for it to be able to exert its salvific effect on me, but I still believed too much in it to take a sacrilege upon myself cold-bloodedly."

The word clearly designates the middle ground on which he held himself toward the churchly faith-form of God: between the acknowledgment of a general Divinity with a certain expressive sphere of purely worldly church-forms and its presentification in an atmosphere of world-removed spiritual forms. The decisive center is his own faith-capacity bound to worldly feeling, which admits the first sphere, denies the second, without however attacking it — as he says once on St. Helena: "Never in my disputes with the Vatican have I touched the dogma" — a somewhat far-reaching claim, since dogma also touches worldly affairs and Napoleon in this domain, true to his nature, by no means practiced the abstinence he observed toward the purely spiritual utterances of dogma. But he probably had only the latter in mind in this statement. Even so, Napoleon seems to grant the individual soul a determining power in questions of faith that runs counter to the strict teaching of the Catholic Church and precisely its Southern form. Here however one must distinguish. As strict as this form of Catholicism is in holding fast to its rites and keeping away every intrusion of the individual, so indulgent is it toward the behavior of the individual toward questions of mere dogma. And insofar, and as long as, Napoleon is not yet in contradiction with the churchly faith-form handed down to him, as he gives play to the purely spiritual faith-utterances of his own and others' souls, but in the main does not violate the worldly expression of this form in the faith-symbols and rites.

Into this sphere however belongs precisely the sacrament of Communion. And here Napoleon actually goes beyond what the indulgent observance of his Church permits the individual, in that he rejects its central ritual. But here it is a matter of that which, precisely because of its fundamental nature, is so deeply rooted with the spiritual ground of faith itself that it cannot be fulfilled without the most inward confession-belonging to this spiritual ground. Here a conflict of Napoleonic individual-feeling with the Church had to arise, since here in the garb of the consecratory act it simultaneously exercised an innermost faith-compulsion beyond the measure otherwise maintained in it. Napoleon could not submit to this, though one may not therefore count him among the Northern God-eschewing faith-holders. For the individual soul that here sets itself against the authoritarian faith is not fed from some arbitrary unbound special feeling, but by the universal feeling-stream that carries the in-world-and-body-bound sensuous nature comprehendingly together and here, definitively formed, has condensed into an individual feeling. Napoleon's soul represents, as it were, the shaped-unique expression of all soul-power bound into the world-form — its rights against the world-dissolving, desensualizing spiritual principle of the Church, the rights of substantial feeling of this world against the intimation-shudders of a supraworld.

What in the particular case of the sacrament of Communion must have strengthened Napoleon's resistance to participation in this rite is its precondition, the sacrament of Penance. To submit to this and its presupposition, Confession, the innermost life-power of Napoleon — the feeling of the inviolability of his I — struggled. In consequence of the immediately sensuous kind of his contemplation, he could not accept the fundamental Catholic separation of office and person of the sacrament-administrator. The priest always remained for him the man: a way of seeing that for him made the infallibility of the Pope from the outset indiscussable. "He is a man, he can err," he says once in an address to the Flemish clergy (May 10, 1810), and another time in a letter to his Interior Minister: "There can be popes as well as

parish priests in hell" (January 1, 1809). Thus through the sacrament of Penance and Confession he would have had to see his own manhood delivered up to another arbitrary man, his action placed in his judgment, himself dependent on him. This contradicts his in himself consummately concluded being, which carried the feeling and claim of its inviolability within itself and radiated it outward. He gives this formulation once on St. Helena: "How could I have preserved the independence of my thought and action under the influence of a confessor who would have ruled me through the terrors of hell? What power cannot a scoundrel, the stupidest man, exert in this position over the leaders of peoples? Cannot at last the lamp-trimmer behind the scenes set the Hercules of the opera in motion at his pleasure? Who doubts that the last years of Louis XIV would have turned out quite differently with another confessor? I was so penetrated by these truths that I vowed to do everything of myself to educate my son in the same religious direction in which I move..."

So given was this guideline of his religious behavior to him, so self-evident to his feeling the incompatibility of Confession with the authority of his I as its own world-forming principle, that for the Pope, who once wanted to induce him to confess, he found only the jesting-careless reply: "Santo Padre, I am busy at present; when I am older..." But he persisted in this natural resistance of his being toward the sacrament of Confession even when he had become, if not exactly old, then free of his earlier "affairs": on St. Helena. Even there he first holds fast that he will end his life without a confessor. But it belongs among the signs of the change of being that on St. Helena the uprooting from the soil of his work-filled life produced in him, that the expression of his resistance is no longer so final and unambiguous. He no longer feels so carried, so held by the worldly substance and significance of his existence; his individual feeling loosens from this bond; the voices of a private I, no longer saturated by working in the world-stuff, become awake, which begins to reckon with a hold outside itself, at least already. He speaks doubtfully in June 1816: "Nevertheless, man in all things that

concern his last hours should foreswear nothing. At the present moment I am certainly convinced that I will die without a confessor, and yet perhaps there already stands one" (pointing to one of us, the reporter adds) "who may one day hear my confession." This confession is still far removed from the shudders of death and is not about their effect in presentiment, but the consequence of the loss of world-stuff and world-form that he has suffered in his I and already feels as present. But still his worldly creative feeling holds so firm against this that for now he rejects the thought of this complete surrender of his I to the supramundane spiritual power in the form of Confession. Yet this feeling, under the continuing effect of that loss, which becomes more oppressive year by year, diminishes more and more, dissolves more and more into the feeling of the purely private individual Napoleon, and thereby makes way for the indeterminate surging of such a one.

That after the arrival of the priests Buonavita and Vignali, sent to him at his request, he has Mass read every Sunday in a room of his house converted into a chapel and attends it — this did not yet belong here. That was still compatible with his universally saturated being, corresponded entirely to its impulse to give to worldly working in the sensuous apparitional forms of a higher spiritual power a final significance and encompassment — as he had constantly proved on the height of his power — and had its root in the inherited inclination of his childhood, in that natural movement that seizes him at the sound of church bells, that charm "which was connected with the memories of his childhood, which were thereby all awakened at once."

It is already different, and a departure from the core of his world-essence-fed feeling, a yielding to those indeterminate surging of private individual feeling, when he now evinces a need for spiritual discussion about the dogmas and regrets not finding the two newcomers equal to it. He finally contents himself: "They will at least help us to hear Mass every Sunday." Even during his rule he had already had a certain preference for the discussion of

spiritual controversies, but these — following his factually directed nature — he always somehow banished into the framework of state present purposes, never pursued them detached for their own sake or for the orientation of his feeling — then still entirely anchored in his world-creator sense. Now however the desire for it springs visibly from the feeling of a certain emptiness, from the drive of his unfilled inner being, dominated by no compelling objective goal, toward a final determination outside itself. He himself understood the process in this way when in November 1819 he spoke of the sudden need of his entirely free-thinking father for religious comfort on his deathbed. He sees in it a consequence of bodily dissolution, which affects all organs, so that the spiritual powers can no longer do their service: "Hence," he says, "the need for confession, the desire for the 'Oremus' and for all the beautiful things without which one does not believe one can die." That is only another, physiologically turned version of the explanation we have given, and means only that first with the loosening from the context of worldly activity does the need for a resting outside it and its religious aids set in. Quite clearly and almost symbolically this meaning of his words is revealed by the conclusion he gives them. Then he says: "And now see the man in full possession of his powers, see the columns that under the blare of fanfares hurl themselves into battle: how the men fall in the hail of grapeshot! No one asks for a priest, for a confessor." He himself is conscious: as long as the feeling of the individual I is firmly embedded in the givennesses of the world, the need of self-loss remains foreign to it; it has no occasion to wander off into transcendence and seek its point of rest there.

Not much longer, and his I-feeling, released from worldly gravity, gravitates likewise toward this extra-worldly goal. It is strange how parallel the external and internal dissolution process of Napoleon runs with that of his father. Already in this alone the deep natural rootedness of his existence expresses itself. Shortly before his death Napoleon made every preparation down to the last detail to satisfy the churchly precepts and to partake of their

blessings in the last hour. This emerges from the concordant reports of Montholon, Marchand, and Antommarchi. He had Abbé Vignali come to him first in the night of April 20 and spoke alone with him for an hour, then another day once more in the presence of Doctor Antommarchi. Then he declared to him: "I was born a Catholic, I wish to fulfill the duties that the Catholic religion imposes on me and to receive the assistance it grants me," then asked him to read Mass daily in the chapel in the next room and to expose the holy sacrament of the altar for forty hours, after his death to place the altar at the head of the bed and to continue reading Mass there, indeed to carry out all the usual ceremonies up to burial. Particularly impressive remains in memory Napoleon's demand for the "chambre ardente." He asks the priest whether he knows what he means by it. He affirms, but must confess never to have prepared one. Napoleon charges him to see to its preparation. All these ceremonies were actually fulfilled: the testimonies for this exist. Not in the same completeness for the reception of the last sacraments. At their administration no one was present besides the priest. Napoleon intentionally surrounded all these events with the greatest secrecy, e.g., explicitly charged Montholon in the night of April 20 that no one should learn that he had seen the priest that night.

Marchand reports under May 3 that at two in the afternoon Abbé Vignali, called by Montholon, appeared to him and was led by him to the Emperor. He was in lay clothing, carried something under his coat that he sought to conceal, and demanded to remain alone with the Emperor. Marchand himself assumed that a religious act was now taking place at which the Emperor wished to be without witnesses, kept watch at the door, and communicated his view to Berthier, who happened to call. He and Antommarchi report that Vignali came out of the Emperor's room after a while and declared that the Emperor had received Extreme Unction. According to Marchand, he added: "Another sacrament does not permit the condition of his stomach." Accordingly, there is no doubt that the Emperor received

Extreme Unction, but not Communion. It remains doubtful whether the sacrament of Confession and Penance was also performed. That this sacrament too was no longer unacceptable for Napoleon, that he had rather for a long time already familiarized himself with the thought of it, is clear from his previously cited utterances. In itself, like every sacrament administered to a mature person, Extreme Unction presupposes Confession. This requires conceptually, naturally, that the dying person be sufficiently conscious to be able to fulfill this sacrament at all. Whether this was still the case with Napoleon seems uncertain according to Montholon's statements about his mental state in the last days. Vignali's negative statement refers unambiguously only to the sacrament of the altar. Vignali's words contain at the same time the confirmation that Napoleon was determined to receive all the means of grace reserved by the Church for a dying person, particularly therefore also to communicate. Otherwise the explicit emphasis that his physical condition did not permit this sacrament would be unintelligible.

Napoleon thus in the last span of his life — how far back it reaches cannot be precisely determined — beyond his inborn faith-constitution, the pure supra-ecclesiastical God-belief, and the inborn faith-elements of his homeland, the ecclesiastical ritual, now also submitted to the spiritual claim of the Church and thereby gave up the inviolability of his world-bound person so long stubbornly maintained by him. But — and with this this discussion meets again with its starting-point — he could do this, his soul could only volatilize itself from its world-stuff-saturated being into this realm foreign to it, because something of those elements of his homeland faith-practice (Mass, the sign of the cross, bells) vibrated along in it, and thereby — not indeed the fulfilled world-spirit of his mature years, but the natural-elemental inclination of his youth toward sensuous embodiment, toward worldly presentification of all spirituality — was awakened. He gave up his own full world-form of his being only to grasp, in the supramundane spiritual symbols of the Church, an isolated worldly, a so to speak rudimentary sensuous form that

had exerted its power on the elemental world-disposition of his youth and could now newly exert it on the one that had become free again. That Napoleon, when for the first time since the days of his childhood, his confirmation, he undertook the fulfillment of the ultimate church duties, did not aim at a demonstration in political or dynastic interest — this is rightly emphasized by the excellent connoisseur of his personal life-circumstances, the circumstances under which this consecratory act took place, the mysterious secrecy with which Napoleon surrounded it.

But also a "conversion" explicable in the face of death — a merely intellectual accommodation to the saving precepts of the Church by way of allegorizing reinterpretation of the sacraments — was not in question for a spirit like Napoleon. Rather such a change was only possible because a new sensuous reality had struck his soul. That this is so is already indicated by that table conversation on St. Helena in which he, several years earlier, sought to make the idea of the bodily presence of God in the Communion acceptable to his astonished table-companions: "Doubtless the Protestants have reason on their side when they maintain that the Communion is only 'representation'; but why suppress the flight of my spirit that drives me to raise myself up to God and to believe in 'reality'?" But this ultimate sensuous power of a ritual act was necessary — a sensuous power that must have communicated itself immediately to the origin-disposition of his youth — in order to keep his mature formation accessible to it. The churchly consecratory forms and acts without this impressiveness, or those of secondary character that let it recede more, could never later induce Napoleon to any participation. The precepts of Sunday observance and the fasting commands, for example, did not presentify to him the meaning and content of his faith tangibly and visibly enough to subordinate his own state necessities to them. A longer exposition he makes to his Minister of Worship in March 1807 concludes: "These practices (the arbitrary dispensation from Sunday observance by the priests) were superstitious and more apt to harm true religion than to benefit it. Did not Bossuet say:

Eat an ox and be Christians? The observance of Friday fasting and Sunday rest are secondary and very insignificant precepts."

V. MYTH AND DOGMA: MATURITY

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The bestowal of consecrated candles by the Pope stood outside any relation to the sensuous origin-dispositions of his faith. It had always been granted only to the great ones of the earth. The son of the advocate on the remote island had never received a living impression of it — to which, given the nature of his disposition, he would hardly have closed himself. Thus later too he had no understanding for this ceremony, felt it again only as an encroachment of the isolary spiritual power opposed to his own world-force, destined to detract from his dignity. Hence he instructs his Interior Minister at New Year 1809: "The Pope has the habit of donating candles to the various powers. You will write to my representative in Rome that I want none... My chargé d'affaires will make known that at Candlemas I receive candles consecrated by my parish priest, and that neither the purple nor the power gives value to this kind of thing. There can be popes as well as parish priests in hell; thus the candle consecrated by my parish priest can be as holy a thing as that of the Pope."

This word in the mouth of Napoleon, who more than any other possessed a fine organ for the intensification of an impression by the person from whom it proceeded, can only mean that the impressiveness of this particular consecration-form had never become palpable to him in his origin-dispositions and had thus remained forever alien. Into this context also belongs the expression of contemptuous mockery with which he received and dismissed the Pope's bull of excommunication. The detailed discussion of this event must be reserved for another part of the exposition: as a testimony of his personal-individual comportment toward the worldly faith-form, it belongs here. The conflict between the antiquatedly overmighty gesture and the actual impotence that stood behind it, which could not even prevent cardinals and bishops from continuing to communicate with him

"in divinis," had to make the whole action a mockery to his sensuous perception.

MYTH AND DOGMA: YOUTH PERIOD

Not in the same way as the ritual are myth and dogma of the Church component parts of tribal origin-dispositions for Napoleon. They could not presentify themselves to him early through sensuous impression as did the rites of the Church through the practice of his surroundings. What Napoleon received from home and school for the inner core of faith was too meager to allow a form to grow from it that could have embodied for him the great primal being-power that God represents for him. It has already been pointed out how far from a more ensouled reception and penetration of the faith-elements lay Napoleon's mother — to say nothing of his father — and even his clerical uncle, and how they honored them only in the observance of traditional rite. While we are otherwise precisely informed about all Napoleon's studies from earliest childhood, we hear almost nothing of his religious education. From this we can conclude directly — which corresponds to the direction of the age and the particular character of his homeland — that religion in Napoleon's education was not cultivated as an element of soul-formation and spiritual deepening as in more northerly regions, but rather, after the manner of Southern Catholicism, was transmitted only as a norm for the observation and handling of cult-forms, supported by a superficial instruction in the most important dogmatic propositions.

It corresponds in a curious inversion again precisely to the sensuous impulse of this Catholicism that even the instruction in these few dogmatic propositions surely occurred without any more impressive animation of salvation history: it was directed entirely at a fixed, tangible stock of learning and memory material, such as scholastic dogma had made available and brought into fashion. Its goal was authority in the most immediate, most palpable, most memorable expression. Even at the schools of Autun, Brienne, and Paris, religious education

seems to have taken no essentially different course. We hear more of religious practice than religious instruction. At Brienne: morning and evening prayer, Mass once daily, confession once monthly for the older pupils. Alongside this a purely mechanical catechism teaching, which became the object of a connectedly explanatory lecture only on Sundays after High Mass and Vespers. The Minimes brothers who directed the school at Brienne and gave this instruction were moreover so secularized that nothing remained of the small effect this formal faith-teaching could have had on youthful souls but a drive, strengthening the tendency of the age, toward contempt for religion. We are told of the school at Brienne that the pupils of the upper classes maliciously noted how many minutes the various brothers took for Mass — that one finished it in only four and a half minutes and read only requiem Masses because these, without Gloria and Credo, were the shortest.

What Napoleon might therefore have brought with him of naive church-faith, such as every child has, from his home island was surely already attacked here. His inborn faith in a divine ground-being however preserved him longer and more enduringly from the faithless shallowing of his schoolmates. He remains mindful into mature age of the religious instruction that Père Charles had given him, and proves this remembrance as Consul by granting a pension to the said person with express acknowledgment of the influence that instruction had exerted on him. With him — who may indeed willingly give inner facts a particular coloring and emphasis for political occasion, but hardly invents or falsifies them in open contradiction with his experience — it means more than a merely diplomatic phrase when he confesses in the already cited pension document: "I have not forgotten that I owe the high lot I have attained to your excellent example, your insightful instruction. Without religion there is no happiness, no future possibility." This word falls in the period when, after long years of churchly disbelief, confession — church-faith — opened itself again before Napoleon as a spiritual encompassment of his state being, as comes to expression in the still-to-be-cited

contemporary programmatic address to the Milan clergy. In this context the memory of that first religious instruction received a stronger coloring, but precisely its re-emergence from the living river of his development toward a new churchliness makes certain in his nature that it must have become for him an element of his inner being somehow vividly felt. This is probably also connected with the fact that it still stood under the shudders with which every impressible child-soul approaches first Communion. Napoleon received this during his school time at Brienne, and it speaks again for the living effect of this first religious consecratory act on him and for his essentially still intact church-piety at that time, that he also showed his gratitude to the dispenser of this sacrament, Abbé Geoffroy, on his visit to Brienne in 1805.

After this however — without this development being traceable in detail — his churchly faith seems to have rapidly decayed. The enlightener faithlessness among his comrades seems now to have spread to him as well. Of his religious education at the military school in Paris no such living memory remained to him as of the faith-teaching of Père Charles at Brienne. The education was here arranged about the same and equally external as that at Brienne. Morning, table, and evening prayer. Mass once daily. On holidays catechism teaching for the newcomers, every Sunday for the pupils. Confession every Saturday, and every two months Communion. In addition very sharpened fasting precepts. This meager religious cultivation, essentially directed at the cultic, met however not the still unbiasedly faith-receptive child-soul, but the just awakened and all the more passionately its rights demanding intellect of early youth, strengthened by the general skepticism of the age and the cavalierly emphasized faithlessness of schoolfellows. This education had no resistant, substantial faith-elements to oppose to this. Napoleon's church-faith found no support and no hold any more. In this sense he says on St. Helena: "My faith has been in uncertainty ever since I began to think." That is the content of this epoch of his faith-life that remained vividly conscious to Napoleon.

Only the incisive sacral act in the life of every Catholic Christian — Confirmation — imprinted itself on him, but without any admixture of deeper religious impression. As Consul he turns his grateful memory to the former Archbishop of Paris, Mgr. de Juigné, who confirmed him and had in the meantime emigrated, and makes him a member of the chapter of St. Denis. But this expression of thanks differs from that toward Père Charles very characteristically in that it is accompanied by no sort of reference to any connection of the prelate with Napoleon's personal faith-life. In the audience he grants the aged church prince, only his personal standing and merit are spoken of: "If I give you these fifteen thousand livres pension, it is to do honor to the chapter and to show my recognition of your virtues." And an anecdote communicated by Napoleon himself on St. Helena makes clear how slight the inner effect of his Confirmation on him, how faith-alien he must already then have been, given over to the contemporary rationalism in which he had grown up. When the archbishop, surprised at the name Napoleon before Confirmation, remarks that this name does not occur in the calendar and is unknown to him, Napoleon is said to have replied that this could prove nothing, since there were a great many saints, but only three hundred and sixty-five days.

Thus neither home nor school awakened in Napoleon a living and firm conception of the Catholic foundations of faith. On the contrary, he brings from his homeland the general Southern-pagan indifference toward the psychic content of religious symbols, and from the school at Brienne and still more from that at Paris a pronounced aversion toward these symbols. He still has his general religious ground-feeling of the primary existence of God. But this has taken on no investiture from the Catholic faith-conceptions: they have remained, insofar as Napoleon's spirit has taken possession of them at all, pure memory-material that he has not fused with his inner experience. If he preserved such a grateful memory of Père Charles's religious instruction, this lies precisely in the fact that this elementary instruction was surely

directed more at the externally sensuous aspect of religious events than at their inner content.

His felt ground-faith in an impersonal existence of God found itself more appropriately expressed — than in the mysteriously significant Catholic faith-distinctions — in the simply rational formulas of the Enlightenment age. Already in a letter of 1784 appears his circumlocution for the divine being, held with preference in the next decade: "le grand moteur des choses humaines," which then recurs in phrases like "moteur de l'Univers, Créateur, Conservateur, Régulateur de la vie, Créateur de ce vaste Univers" and in similar forms. In this already breathes the air of Voltairian, by Rousseau with his living natural drive shot through, rational explanation of God — which Napoleon took in at the schools of Brienne and Paris, even before he succumbed to the actual seduction of studying the writings of these enlightener leaders. The echo of this first, most immediate influence from the surrounding current of the Spirit of the Age still resounds on St. Helena, where, confessing his incomprehension of the atheism of the great scholars — a Monge and Berthollet — he gives the following explanation: "I can explain their materialism only as a remnant of youthful impressions. Voltaire's and Diderot's school has done much mischief."

When Napoleon, released from school, then entered that epoch of an unbridled reception of spiritual material that created the actual foundation of what can be called his spiritual "formation," Rousseau and Raynal became the poles of this self-education. Their writings, which completed the destruction of faith in revealed religion begun by Voltaire, Diderot, and the Encyclopedists through the establishment of a positive but purely conceptually conceived Divinity, had in this domain no resistance of the Napoleonic faith-disposition to overcome, but served only to lend his inborn dogma-alienness its apparent, rational justification and to strengthen it.

Among the first notes that emerged from his independent studies during his officer period belongs that slim notebook in which he attacks Roustan's "Defense of Christianity" against Rousseau on his side and defends the positions of this spiritual leader then highly revered by him. The writing shows clearly how he is still in the process of passionately, penetratingly saturating himself with Rousseau's objections against the received saving doctrine. The writing is full of repetitions, the exegeses for his own use that are characteristic of such works from the beginnings of acquaintance with a doctrine. But it remains remarkable how here the negative-rationalistic spirit, contrary to the shallow church-hostility usual at this age, seeks to support itself on a factual-sensuous substrate. Napoleon has without hesitation seized from Rousseau's system the positive element that for him lay behind all life-problems, the predestined nourishment of his own most proper being: the state. From there, Rousseau's position toward the Church, his own decision in the question of church-faith, becomes centrally determined for him.

Roustan has attacked Rousseau precisely on this point, in his thesis about the state-destroying effect of Christianity. That works like an attack on himself. For the first and only time Napoleon feels driven to an independent working-out on religious ground. It is astonishing to see with what deep, beyond-Rousseau, in our sense still "spiritual" interpretation he traces the problem of church and state back to its primal state. He sees the danger of an independent church for the state in this: that here a power, concentrated outside the earthly and receiving its uncontrollable commands from there alone, is, according to the nature of all things human, dependent on bringing these commands to execution with earthly power-means: just as the worldly power of the papacy was the necessary — if in itself contradictory — consequence of the exclusiveness, the independence of its pure spiritual sovereignty from all earthly state power. The referral of the individual to a purely spiritual salvation lying outside earthly reality leads with necessity — legitimized by the very words of Scripture (one must obey God

rather than men) — to a contempt for the state power that wants to embody salvation visibly in this world through the protection of right. The individual conscience becomes the judge over authority.

Napoleon is by origin of Catholic spirit. Thus this thesis does not flow for him into the general dissolution of all sensuous world-unity, as Protestantism ultimately means, but into the destruction of the unified state-formation by the detour through which Catholicism brings this about: namely that of the gathering of individuals into one body within the state-body — the priestly estate. This represents the spirit and conscience-power of individuals independent of the state, with the claim — necessary according to human nature — by virtue of its independence to want to rule the state in its turn: and thus tears apart the state unity by opposing to the legitimate worldly state power its own power emanating from a supraworld. Thereby it cannot fail to seek to seize all power-means also of this world, to pile up riches contrary to the saving precepts, and thus to become worldly against its own law.

Toward Rouston's attempts to explain this condition as a degeneration of Christianity, not as its necessary consequence, Napoleon insists that it is already given in the primal state of the teaching, in the spirit that has loosened itself from its secure earthly encompassment, its world-expression in the state. Here speaks — brought onto this path by Rousseau, but already freed from him and beyond him — Napoleon's own most proper manhood, clearly uttering its determining ground-law: that which makes him the most pronounced opponent of the substance-dissolving, conceptualizing spirit of the age, even of Rousseau himself in the end. That is the origin-trieb of his being, which acknowledges spirit only in represented corporeality, with it as unity, presses in his own person to realization in the state, the classical-heroic manhood, hurling the spirit comprehended in the individual imperiously against the humanitarian tendencies that

would dissolve it, making it effective from the imagined totality of all individuals.

In his defense of Christianity as inimical to the state, Napoleon quite explicitly supports himself on the antique-pagan sensuous perception, to which a religious state would have been intolerable. "They knew the human heart too well not to see with their own eyes that this would lead both to the destruction of their religion and of their government." For their sensuously directed seeing, Christianity could appear only as a skillfully worn mask of worldly aspirations. It is immediately impressive and moving how this innermost driving force of the Napoleonic being — the classical-heroic, state-worldly — works itself up to bright consciousness in this writing, thrustingly, with ever new turns and repetitions. Its present-day editor rightly finds here already the germ of the faith-conception to which Napoleon as Consul and Emperor presses always more decisively: the dominating fundamental principle of statehood, to which the churchly is only a means of its presentification and consolidation.

But he overlooks that this churchly is here, at the beginning of his development, completely overwhelmed and altogether eliminated by Napoleon's state-spirit still following the Rousseauvian path, while the mature epoch of his activity differs from this initial one in that in the meantime precisely his own creative state-spirit has made the given world-form of the Catholic Church again palpable and comprehensible to him as his sensuous ground-encompassment. On the height of his life he recognizes a worldly representation of faith in the inherited structure of the Catholic Church as an element of the spirit to be realized by him state-wise — as the sensuous presentification of his supratemporal and supramundanelly given origin. Here however there is as yet no question of this. However much he already seizes and treats the state defended by him against Rousseau as his own most proper affair, he still sees it here more with the eyes of a mere observer, not as a directly creative participant. Thus he does not yet feel the necessity with which

his own state-creative nature must seek its last spiritual encompassment in a Divinity of sensuous expressive form; rather he can still follow the enlightener state-theory of Rousseau, at whose furthest end, instead of a living God, stands the humanitarian idea as the fundamental principle of the state. This rational reduction of God from His primary cultic givenness to a highest earthly utility principle has also left its clear trace in Napoleon's writings: in his *Discours de Lyon*, in which God appears only as the "Régulateur de la vie," destined to set in motion and thereby keep in order the apriori laws of a happy life. Everything supersensuous, everything that requires faith, is here — as this being of highest lawfulness — thought only as existing for the ordering of earthly affairs. The God of sentimental Rousseau, who in the Savoyard vicar's confession makes the heart the starting point of belief in God, is not his God either; the heart, feeling, is for him at this stage a much too indeterminate quantity; with a true instinct for the essence and bounds of his own being he rejects the vicar's confession and presses forward to the rational ordering of the political community as the only ground that can bear his world-directed, state-hungry nature.

This period of rational-exclusive state-direction of his being does not however extend much further than the first Italian campaign. His independent activity in Italy brings him to a complete revision of his religious views, produces his first positive relation to the Church. This is evident in his behavior toward the Curia. In the first flush of his victorious advance, as the Republican general, he treats the Curia and its state as something to be annihilated. But soon the political man in him awakens and grasps the papal sovereignty as a politically useful and necessary institution. Immediately afterward, his individual human feeling for the givenness of a higher being, which had never really gone under in him, stirs again and gives the political insight the force of personal experience. So he holds his hand protectively over the spiritual power whose political annihilation he had just before felt as desirable and to be combated. All this comes to light in that report to the Directory of June 1796: "To frighten the Roman

court and make it feel that its magical effect on the people fails against us, I have authorized the Senate of Bologna to consider all decrees of Rome that contain an attack on the liberty of the city as null and void." And shortly thereafter, a few days after that letter in which he speaks of the Pope as "the old fox," he "already aspires more to the title of 'savior' than 'destroyer' of the Holy See" and underscores this attitude as having been always his own, in contrast to the Directory. For the narrowly measured span of his activity in Upper Italy this can indeed hold true, since it had at once become visible to him here how all possibility of state renewal must depend on the spiritual power of the Church embodied by the priests. His particular attention is devoted to their attitude. In two letters to the Bishop of Como and the Archbishop of Genoa (May and September 1797) he seizes with highest satisfaction the spiritual support coming to his state authority from these church princes and praises this support as a restoration of the character inherent in the original Church. "I believed I was hearing one of the twelve Apostles. Thus once spoke St. Paul. How venerable is religion when it has servants like you! A true apostle of the Gospel... convert the unbeliever yourself... The rule of the people and liberty constitute the political law of the Gospel." Here there has already opened for Napoleon, from the impulse of his state being-realization, the access to that state-colored expression of church-faith that later, on the height of his activity, offers and establishes itself to him as the existing, inescapable givenness of his state-building.

But here and for years to come — there follow the Egyptian campaign and the first period of the Consulate — the specifically religious, the state-colored relation to the Church, recedes still far behind the general human, the individual-personal elements of his experience of God. The more rational state-directed phase in the Italian campaign had already brought Napoleon closer to his true nature — which found satisfaction only in an objective activity that included the whole man — than the purely rational-utilitarian period of his early youth. But his being still does not wholly coincide with his work; he still stands free, in some

measure contemplatively, over against it: the fusion of his own person with the state form, the work, into a unity, which characterizes his mature creative epoch, is not yet accomplished. He is still becoming, not yet "the apparition."

Always, as the confessional faith-expression also changed in the various epochs of Napoleon, untouched and quite independent of these changes remained his origin-feeling of the givenness of a Divinity at the ground of all things. Napoleon, with all his senses open to the world and saturated by the totality of its phenomena, encompasses the Divine as their necessary center, from which his living feeling for earthly things radiates and to which it always returns. And it would have been only fitting for this sensuously directed feeling if it had found as its origin a great tangibility, an essential being. But to draw primal being out of its undifferentiated ground into the light for a so elementarily sensuous spiritual force as Napoleon possessed, a myth would have been needed that could have revealed itself to him with present originative power — had Napoleon had to live in an age in which the power of faith could realize itself with the same intensity as his own power of action.

To the sensuously tremendous impression of the uniquely definitive figure of Christ as He walked on earth, the originally-essential perceptive and feeling power of Napoleon would have been accessible without resistance, however far the world-feeling it embodied might have diverged from his own. The image of this figure in the de-essentialized reduction of church tradition could not capture in its outline and expression the boundless primal spirit that the individual world-force Napoleon set as its origin. Too conditioned, too burdened with the needs of countless lesser generations and individuals was this image, to have been able to satisfy the elementary feeling-need of Napoleon that spanned and filled the space of a world. Thus for Napoleon the actual core of faith, the divine ground-power, necessarily remained formless, impersonal: the natural givenness of an Ur-One as the final, indefinable ground of all being. This root and source of his

spiritual essence could never become a person for him. The gods of the Greeks and Romans, which had faced their believers as living forms, were nearer to him than the incarnate God of the Church dogma. Only one form of human-divine union was thinkable for his antique-directed perception: not the God-become-man of Christianity, which demands the sacrifice of the full human form and its replacement by a new, higher type of man, but rather in the manner of the demigod, as antiquity saw its heroes — as a transfer of the spiritual God-content into sensuous world-form with the continuance of both these elements in the mixed type. For this conception he found more than anyone else a living precondition in the disposition of his own manhood: insofar as he possessed by nature the particular kind of antique world-seeing — the immediate perception of something supersensuous-spiritual in the boundedness of world-forms — and that not to be understood as transferred, but as an actual sense-disposition that fell out of the manner of modern seeing and threw the spirits of this sphere off balance.

One thinks of his conception of the sonship of Alexander to Jupiter Ammon, which for him had an inner reality because it had taken form in the thoughts and actions of the entire Orient. Napoleon is definitively separated from all modern mankind — which with split life-forces, with soul or body, with understanding, mind, feeling, seeks to orient itself in external events and phenomena — by the fact that through the outwardness of things he grasps their being with the whole of his person, experiencing it as their inner, their actual reality. The action-and-event externality of things and men is for him indissolubly bound to their inner meaning, means for him, seen in itself, at best a symbolic presentification of the life-power that creates in them and has created them. Thus he can, with an entirely sensuous spirit, see a wholeness of forces in the same bodily factuality as other men, with their intellectual aids, see only their conceptually interpretable surface-parts and properties: and can thus see even the Divine as essential presence in human form before him, where others, concluding

from the apparition, always see under the human skin only the experiential man.

Thus for Napoleon, independently of the imageless ground-givenness of God as it stood firm in his originally elementary feeling, and far from the purely churchly faith in revelation, there was also — from his elementary sensuous capacity — an access to the Christian world-form of the supersensuous, to the divinity of Christ, even if this lay far from the authoritative one of dogma. From this source comes, and this worldly-seen divinity expresses it, when on St. Helena he defends the certainty of his faith in the divinity of Christ thus: "I know men; so I tell you: Christ is no man." From his sensuous experience of that which confronted him in human form, Napoleon proceeds, measures by it the distance of what is transmitted of Christ, and finds it too great to be explained only by an intensified measure of human powers. Despite many contrary utterances of Napoleon on St. Helena that deny the divinity, even the existence of Christ — which will have to be considered — the genuineness of this statement is not to be doubted. The self-evident finality of the assertion is entirely of Napoleon's manner. No other could have found this formulation. It is inimitable — not rhetorical style, but objective expression of a kind of being too great, too original, to be imitated by one who does not possess it. Beyond this however the content of the utterance is as Napoleonic as possible. So immediately self-evidently from the human side drew in this period only one his conclusions: he for whom, after his particular disposition, man was the immediate object, starting point, and goal of his effecting: Napoleon.

Admittedly, from some other utterances it might seem as if man was for Napoleon — in intuitive anticipation — only the most highly developed animal, an organic transition to higher forms. "What leads us not to assume that man is only better organized matter, only its almost perfect condition?" And he can, beyond that, while preserving entirely the same matter, still imagine a more excellent kind of earthly creatures. "Perhaps one day

beings will come whose matter is still more perfect?" That sounds as if for Napoleon the whole problem of existence had been accessible to a one-sidedly materialistic explanation. But all the many utterances cited in earlier sections, running through his whole life like a guideline, about the world-creative natural givenness of God prove the contrary. Here too he does not let it rest with this explanation as a final one. He supplements it by the acknowledgment of a particular psychic capacity that goes beyond this matter and finds no explanation in it alone. He holds fast to the material boundedness of the soul, but only in the sense that it forms an inseparable unity with the body: "The soul follows the corporeal, it grows with the child... If it is immortal, has it then already existed before us? So it is without memory?" But then his more spiritual view of the own supramaterial nature of spirit-powers breaks through, opposes to his previous apparently materialistic train of thought the spiritual moment: "On the other hand, how is one to explain thought? Look, at this moment, while I speak with you, I transport myself back to the Tuileries, I see it, I see Paris... That is the same thing I once said to explain premonitions. I meant: the hand accuses the eye of lying when the latter claims it sees a mile away. The hand objected: I see only two feet away, how can you see a mile away. So it is with premonitions — they are the eyes of the soul." Here therefore the soul, the spirit, is ascribed a power by which it places itself outside the body, disembodies itself. Here thus — and the whole conversation moves in great swings between these poles — matter, which holds the body prisoner, is not the ultimate essence, but rather the soul, the spirit, which premonitions allow us to sense as a power of a higher, a divine order.

Nevertheless Napoleon often takes pleasure in playing the role of the materialist, particularly in his St. Helena conversations on the origin of the world, in which he constantly embarrasses his conversation partners through his purely materialistic arguments. But even so he could not convince them of the earnestness of his positions, could not take from them the conviction that for him it was merely a dialectical exercise of his

intellect, rendered unemployed and challenged by contradiction. Montholon gives expression to this without reserve at the Emperor's retort that he did not participate in the conversation at all: "Because I am firmly convinced that Your Majesty does not really think one word of all that you have just said." If this conviction, given the narrator's close familiarity with Napoleon's way of thinking, still needed confirmation — Napoleon himself gives it in an obvious upsurge of his inner being. He concludes — and the jocular address he always used as a sign of his good will lets his approving satisfaction with this view be recognized: "You rogue, so that is your opinion. Well yes, perhaps you are right; at any rate an hour is got through. We do like the English who at the moment dine with Captain Blackney and seek to forget time by getting drunk."

Thus indeed man is for Napoleon only a more highly organized animal. But this higher organization comes from the soul, whose immortality was already certain to the young Napoleon, whose powers seem to him to belong to another world, whose origin seems to flow from God. And the elevation of man beyond himself toward a more perfect stage of existence does not occur by way of a materially-mechanically conceived improvement of the species according to nineteenth-century biological doctrine, nor in the spiritual sublimation that Nietzsche gave it. It appears altogether not as a product of development, but as an event, is there at once, in that the Divine in man — in an individual, deed-setting life — embodies itself in a new, higher world-form, attaining a more perfect state of existence. But this deification of man takes from the Divinity its abstract otherworldliness, its supramundane incomprehensibility; the Divinity becomes a world-power. This is the secret of Napoleon's view of Christ. From this vantage point one must understand his famous exposition of the origin of the three Occidental religions at the beginning of the fifth chapter of the "Campagnes d'Egypte et de Syrie." Faithful to his view that faith-forms are all pure human work, he arrives, on the basis of his above-characterized view of man, at an explanation of religions also from mainly economic or

other situational drives — which on the one hand makes unmistakable a kinship with similar expositions of the eighteenth century, on the other anticipates that of Taine. He explains the origin of Islam from the need of the poor and savage peoples living in the desert for the conception of a sensuously richer beyond, whereas the inwardly directed psychic impulse of Christianity corresponded to the need of man in the luxury and abundance of Greece for spiritual deepening. Mohammed's astonishing force of success is derived not so much from the greatness of his person — a world-stirring human power — as from the life-circumstances of his people that came to meet him: "When he appeared, the Arabs had for long years been practiced in war through their internal struggles. All that peoples have done great on the world stage they have done when they emerged from those crises that equally steel soul and body. If the battles of Kadesia... which allowed the fearless Mohammedans to plant the prophet's banner on the Oxus and on the borders of China; those at Aiznadin and at Yarmouk, which subjected Syria and Egypt to their rule — if these had turned against them — if the Khaled, the Derar, the Amrou had been defeated and thrown back into their immense deserts, the Arabs would have taken up their nomadic life again, would have lived poor and in misery like their fathers, and the names of Mohammed, Ali, Omar would be unknown to the world."

Mohammed, in whom Napoleon always saw a — and as will be shown at once, a related — being, appears here purely as a phenomenon determined by worldly, earthy conditioning. His divinity dissolves into the situation. And yet — this idea now presses forward — within the Mohammed thus comprehended lurks the possibility of another, a higher being, which would make him more than man, would make him appear as God. "Mohammed was a prince who rallied his compatriots... Even if Mohammed had only created an empire instead of a religion, he would have been great and extraordinary in his century." Indeed Napoleon takes the final step in the thought: if Mohammed had produced his work not with and through existing means, but in

independence of them, indeed against them, from his own creative spiritual power — then he would have been God. Here the thought-form of his Christology announces itself. Mohammed's conditional divinity is the negative to the positive of Christ. But the background of both is the same view: the Divine works in man, man becomes "God" when his work is brought forth not from the circumstances of space and time, but independently of them, even against them, from the creative power of his own individual but world-comprehending existence. And further this word reveals that for Napoleon's sensuously immediate seeing, God-manhood was not an allegory but a naked fact — that for him bodily man appears capable and ultimately destined to extend the limits of manhood into the Divine, to move into the divine sphere, to become God.

Thus for him the conception and claiming of his own elevation of being into the Divine, following the precedent of Alexander — and not only this precedent itself — is more than metaphor, inner reality and livingly felt expression of being. This can in its whole enormity be conveyed to general understanding only by taking seriously the separation of Napoleon from the chronological contingency of the succession of generations, placing him in his organic context, assigning him to that mankind to which he essentially belongs: precisely the antique, which sees man as a living unity of spirit and body and at the same time as the given measure of all things, and for which therefore divinity means only the intensification and crown, only the embodiment of a highest spiritual power exceeding human measure — not a being foreign in essence: such that for it, without further ado and of itself, its realm-founding and world-forming spirits — Alexander and the Caesars — moved among the gods. That is the kind of being that enables Napoleon, not in the form of metaphorical circumlocution but in the pure factual sense of the word, to explain of Mohammed that he would really (effectivement) have been a god if the revolution he set in motion had not been prepared by the circumstances of the age. And Christ is for him in this sense the God in man: not in the spiritual suprareality of church faith, but

in that sensuous reality of antique world-vision that knows as God what it sees in the world beyond the human measure certain to it. Napoleon refrains at the discussed passage from continuing the discussion of God-manhood — decided negatively by him for Mohammed — with naked words in positive application to the person of Christ. But the whole context shows that he wants to say this, that he wants to acknowledge to Christ, in contrast to Mohammed, the God-power no longer dependent on human givennesses. He continues, namely, in immediate connection with the paragraph reproduced above: "The increasing upsurge of Christianity has on the contrary not been dependent on the outcome of any secondary event. This religion spread and established itself as a teaching that captivates, convinces, and can be stopped in its course by nothing. Constantine accelerated its triumph; but if he had not desired baptism, as soon would one of his successors have done so. Christ was a preacher; He gave His apostles the gift of the Word. Moses and Mohammed were leaders of the people who gave laws and ordered the affairs of this world." He thus leaps — for whatever reason — after having just spoken of Mohammed as person, as religious founder, to treating Christianity as such, as institution, lets the person of its founder recede here. But in immediate reading from the preceding to this paragraph, one cannot but read into the text the superhuman spiritual power that he opposes to the earthly boundedness of the person of Mohammed in the institution of Christianity as necessarily also adhering to the person of the bearer of that institution. If Mohammed was excluded from godhood only by the earthly conditionality of his religious foundation, the rise of Christianity on the contrary dependent "on no secondary circumstance," then precisely he who created it partakes of this God-power. And if Napoleon then calls Christ a "prédicateur," one must not take this apparently human-emphasizing characterization as a contradiction to this total result of the passage. He speaks here only of Christianity, does not intend to set forth Christ's higher being in its full extent and independent significance. Both — Christianity and Christ — are

for him only means of clarification e contrario for Mohammed and Islam. And toward the human determinacy of Mohammed he speaks only of the determined human apparition of Christ: there He is the preacher, while Mohammed is the leader of the people. But in His characterization: "He gave His apostles the gift of the Word" — in contrast to Mohammed who "gave laws and ordered the affairs of the world" — lies contained the confession of His divine power. Christ works not with the means of the world, "the law," but with the "Word," the λόγος, the spiritual power with which from man to man He inspires the generations and forms them according to His will: an effect that exceeds human capacity and can be understood only from the God-power of the λόγος. This man-and-world-forming power from a unity that belongs to no man, but only to one standing beyond man, a Divine — this is what moves Christ beyond human measure, realizes God in Him, embodies Him, represents Him in human form.

This is no speculation in the Church's sense, but immediate perception in the origin-form of Roman-Hellenic world-spirit, as it breathes in that word from which this discussion started: "I know men; so I tell you: Christ is no man." It lets him see in the sensuous apparition that exceeds human measure — bodily the God, the God in man — and comprehend the sublime final figure of the antique, the origin-figure of the new world — to us strange under the antique myth of the demigod, the hero. For to emphasize this once more emphatically: he does not touch, by recognizing Christ's divinity, His bodily apparition, His human existence; rather the human form of Christ is for him precisely the starting point of his particular manner of seeing the God in Christ. This emerges precisely also from the sentence just cited, and with all clarity confirms that exposition of the "Campagnes d'Egypte et de Syrie." Christ is there entirely presupposed as human existence, the "prédicateur" who grants His apostles the gift of the Word, placed in parallel to Mohammed.

Certainly there are utterances of Napoleon that cast doubt on the human existence of Christ altogether or definitively deny it. So

that word transmitted by Gourgaud: "As for me, my opinion is fixed; I do not believe Jesus ever lived" — with the curious reason he derives from the forgery of a Josephus manuscript he found in Milan. Further the question to Wieland, so surprising to him, as to whether he held the existence of Christ to be true. But these remarks clearly show that they do not give Napoleon's innermost opinion but were occasioned by a particular stimulus: the remark to Gourgaud — as Napoleon himself explained on a similar occasion — by the need to fill a dead hour dialectically and the pleasure of embarrassing the very church-believing Gourgaud; that to Wieland by Napoleon's certainly defective information about the poet, in whom he suspected a skeptic of Voltaire's type. But how little in earnest the denial of Christ's existence was for him emerges from the visible satisfaction with which he — similarly to that after the Spinoza conversation with Montholon — receives Wieland's reply, that to doubt Christ's existence was as meaningful as to doubt that of the Emperor himself: whereby Wieland intends not merely hyperbolically to strengthen his confession of Christ's existence, but to summon the visible factuality of the superhuman present apparition Napoleon as proof for the reality of the otherwise unfathomable Christ. Napoleon starts, and says only: "Good, good." Wieland's answer seems to have set in motion Napoleon's own, similarly directed manner of perception.

He has indeed been tempted to regard his own existence, exceeding all human measures, as a human embodiment of a Divine. With the antique absoluteness of his sensuous-substantial sight he can, like Alexander, see himself as a divine earthly presence. Wieland however, prevented equally by his rationalism and his sure tact for the conditions of the present, has certainly not wished nor been able to go so far as to speak expressly to Napoleon of his own earthly divinity. That similar ideas nevertheless moved the most enlightened spirits of the time is proved by that enthusiastic word about the "world-soul" that Hegel thought to perceive in the Emperor riding across the marketplace at Jena. Wieland however stops at suggesting in

Napoleon as in Christ a greatness exceeding human measure, while nonetheless keeping its form, without characterizing this more precisely. Napoleon however, to whom in this conversation it is not a matter of divine quality but of the human existence of Christ, is seized only by Wieland's sensuous argumentation for the manhood of Christ, running parallel to his own, and sees, as he inwardly spins its thread further, confirmed by it what he himself feels the inner impulse to acknowledge. Napoleon differs from Wieland in that the latter has in his apriori rational world-understanding the ground and limit of his world-picture and can thus see the superhuman in Christ also only as an effect of conceptually graspable highest human gifts, while Napoleon, free from this limitation, sees as foundations of all being entities that, where they exceed the accustomed human measure, he does not reduce to it by conceptual analysis, but accepts in the state in which he finds them as independent, superhuman — that is, divine — powers. But in this there is a deep agreement of being between him and Wieland: that what he thus recognizes as substance — Wieland as conceptual summary — remains necessarily bound as world-form to a sensuously perceptible apparition. Christ's divinity, as it belongs to the world and has come to him through tradition, is not an unimaginable or only symbolically imaginable supersensuousness, but the sensuous existence of a particular kind of being — inaccessible indeed to explanation by human standards, but not inaccessible to human sense-impression.

Only through the sensuous apparition, with which it is indissolubly grown after the manner of all living nature, does the higher being it represents become recognizable for Napoleon. The tremendous uniqueness of the visible sacrificial death of Christ and the circumstances accompanying it, which more than an individual destiny express a world-meaning sensuously — this was needed to show human eyes the Savior, the existence of a God. "Christ," it presses to his lips on St. Helena as a recognition obviously moving him in his deepest being, the result of a solitary meditative ride, "without His crown of thorns would not be God

today; it is His martyrdom that has spoken to the imagination of peoples." And again he brings his own fate into parallel — a proof of how sensuously near he felt the presentification of God in the world. Indeed, if anything makes the confession of Christ difficult for Napoleon, constantly incites him to compare Christ with Mohammed, and at times brings him very close to the faith of Islam, it is precisely the desensualizing impulse inherent in Christianity — which separates soul from body and would assign the former sovereignty over the latter. He himself is too near to that sensuous perception of the Eastern peoples, inaccessible to such a faith-teaching, to make the observation only purely objectively, entirely without inner participation: "The religion of Christ is too subtle for Orientals; they needed political doctrines. In their eyes Mohammed is superior to Christ; one sees him act, while there are people who even doubt the existence of Jesus."

But indeed Napoleon in his mature period had so interpenetrated the East-oriented, entirely sensuously determined being of his origins with the Occidental reality of spiritual and psychic experience, that the sensuous power of Islam, which satisfied only that one side of man's inner being, could no longer displace the apparition of Christ — who, though pointing to a supersensuous-psychic sphere, had through His bodily reality anchored it so firmly in the world that it remained graspable for the balanced sensuous-psychic spiritual totality of Napoleon. This corporeality and sensuous presentness of the saving figure, which the Catholic confession still offered him to a certain degree, was entirely lacking in Protestantism. He comprehends with the immediacy of his sight even then the completely desensualizing, the form-dissolving impulse of this confession, which has prevented it from developing an art. To Canova the word occurs: "The Protestants have nothing beautiful." From a similar attitude he reproached Judaism with the lack of creative imagination that excludes it from more general diffusion.

This essential lack of sensuous impressiveness would have made forever simply impossible for him an attachment to this

confession — even if only within the limits in which he adhered to the Catholic one — regardless of all political advantages that sometimes seemed to draw him toward Protestantism. When he sets it against this confession, his love flies almost passionately to Catholicism: "I love the Catholic religion because it speaks to my soul, because when I pray it sets my whole being in motion, while the Protestant religion speaks only to my reason." Then follows that already reproduced passage: "Doubtless the Protestants have reason on their side when they maintain that the Communion is only 'representation'; but why suppress the flight of my spirit that drives me to raise myself up to God and to believe in 'reality'?"

Thus for Napoleon Catholicism holds — entirely according to its true being — the right Occidental middle of an embodied spirituality between the from-its-center-loosened, peripherally roaming sensuous impulse of Islam in the East and the equally centripetal, Northern psychic impulse of Protestantism. The bodily reality of Christ, the living Catholic myth — in contrast to its at best symbolic or merely allegorical representation in Protestantism — represents this middle. This myth was not transmitted to Napoleon in the same impressive manner by childhood and homeland as the consecration-forms and customs of the Church. Its image established itself for him only through his own sensuous perception, with which he penetrated Christ's worldly life-course. Indeed, a very strong drive guides him to find back, through the deformations and disguises of the myth in church tradition, to its primal givennesses, its primary reality. On St. Helena he repeatedly takes up the Bible and immerses himself in it with persistence and penetration. In November 1817 he devotes a full hour to it. Following one of those conversations about the natural ground-givenness of God, he reads salvation history from the beginning to the Sermon on the Mount and is visibly gripped by the originative power with which here a living mouth proclaims a new order of existence. "He confessed himself carried away and inspired by the purity, sublimity, and beauty of such a moral law."

However much as a state-man he was penetrated by the elementary significance of the great Christian moral law for world-order, in these hours he is too far removed from his state being-realization, too immediately an individual living only to himself, for the tremendous fact of the living-new spiritual proclamation in and of itself not to have seized him in the first place. Even if he emphasizes the purity, sublimity, beauty of the moral law, this is still only a cultural-political garb familiar to him for the impressiveness of the origin-revelation that here strikes him personally and directly: this can be unambiguously heard from the opening words "he confessed himself carried away and inspired." Indeed, his particular worldly disposition as statesman and military commander leads him rather to a more living illustration of the scriptural content than to a conceptualization of it. In the holy scriptures he sees the glorification of spirits of the deed related to him and seeks to reawaken them with his homogeneous spirit. He reads the Bible with the map in hand and resolves to write down the campaigns of Moses as he had written down those of Turenne and Frederick. With him it is more to be explained from his need for sensuous presence than from a search for new truths — as with his rational predecessors, contemporaries, and successors — when he traces the institutions and customs of salvation back to the natural conditions of this world. So when he once in the Council of State gives the following self-assured derivation of baptism: "In Cairo as in the desert, the mosques are at the same time inns; six thousand persons sometimes receive shelter and food there; they even find a fountain and water for bathing: hence our ceremony of baptism. It could not have taken its origin in our climate; there the water is not valuable enough." Likewise when in his above-discussed presentation of the origin of Christianity and Islam in the fifth chapter of the "Campagnes d'Egypte et de Syrie" he regards these religions as the psychic compensation for the particular life-condition of their adherents caused by the landscape — Islam as a cult of the senses for the substance-poor desert peoples, Christianity as a cult of the soul for the

substance-overfilled peoples of rich Greece. Also the more detailed consideration that is devoted to the origin of Christianity and explains it as a triumph of Greek spirit-and-soul greatness — of Socrates, Plato, Aristides — over the world-forces of Rome — of Flaminius, the Scipios, the Aemilii — has its starting point there.

Certainly it was this deep and rounded vividness, produced from his own sense-impression, that in a conversation about this subject so struck and carried away the great historian Johannes von Müller that he fell completely under Napoleon's spell, turned at once from a passionate opponent into an equally enthusiastic admirer of the Emperor, and abandoned the national cause he had previously championed for Napoleon's. Mere intellectual depth could not have so fundamentally altered the image of the Emperor for a mind so enlightened itself. The conversation must have revealed to him another man, another being — the immediacy of his world-penetrating vision in contrast to the derivative perception of all spirits known to him until then.

If in that treatise Christ then appears for Napoleon directly in the conception of a worldly heir to David's throne who rejects his worldly claims to the throne in order to establish a purely spiritual sovereignty, then for this conception the concrete political direction of Napoleon's will, directed at separation of state and church, was indeed co-determinative. This emerges convincingly from the fact that this passage is taken almost word for word from the state communication with which he after Wagram made known to the French bishops his unshakable intention to enforce the independence of the Gallican Church from Rome and that of religion as such from the world-power of the Church. But it is also not to be overlooked that this so extraordinarily state-enhanced conception of Christ is grounded from the outset in Napoleon's disposition to transfer all phenomena of life into the sense-sphere most accessible to him. Here, where he disputed with the Pope over the temporalia, Christ became quite of himself a man of his sphere — the heir to

the throne who renounced his worldly claim to rule — and this renunciation, as it almost sounds, not only the necessary consequence and effect of Christ's spiritual mission, but equally of His active care not to disturb the balance between worldly and spiritual power. Otherwise Napoleon would have had no occasion at this point to emphasize so strongly the royal descent of Christ: "Our Lord Christ, though He sprang from David's line, desired no worldly sovereignty."

It is very characteristic that this descent, which was certainly inserted into the Gospels not without regard to the sense-need of the Eastern peoples for external legitimation of power, now still strikes its late kindred spirit as immediate reality and displaces the image of Christ in this direction. This objective orientation toward the primal givennesses of the saving doctrine — or what presented itself to him as such — permeates his disputations with the Pope in the state-church struggle, gives them at times the thrust that makes them appear almost more as instinctive outbursts of his inner being than as state-political actions: thus in the passionate accusations against the Pope and the secularized Church when he measures them against the original apparitions of the Church: "You should emulate St. Peter, St. Paul, and the holy Apostles, who are worth a Julius, Boniface, Gregory, and Leo," or another time toward the Archbishop of Genoa: "Christ preferred to die rather than annihilate His enemies except through faith; the corrupt priest on the other hand with his gloomy eye preaches revolt, murder, blood; he is paid with the gold of the rich; he has like Judas sold the poor people. Cleanse your Church of them." He demands of the Pope "that he confess his inability to distinguish between what belongs to dogma, to the essence of religion, and what is temporal and changeable... this distinction, which is so simple that the first seminary student would understand it." And with regard to the excommunication pronounced against him: "We are too enlightened not to be able to distinguish between the teaching of Christ and that of Gregory VII."

Here too the emphasis of his "enlightenedness" should not deceive us that the actual element of this "Enlightenment" in Napoleon is the sense-impression from the origin-formations of the Church. The ecclesiastical institution, as the worldly conditions of the determination and diffusion of faith have brought it about, is not the thing itself, not religion itself. To free this from the distorting and constricting conditions of the Church that has become worldly — this drives his innermost being. Hardly has he seized the Church State, he turns against the levying of fees for the granting of papal legal acts or acts of grace. He orders on August 13, 1809 to his Minister of Worship: "At whatever price, I do not want Rome to be paid anything for the issuance of bulls, dispensations, etc. That is a profanation of holy things." It becomes a ground-law of his own state that in it the satisfaction of religious needs must remain free from all impositions; the dispensing of churchly benefits of salvation must not be linked to any payment, not be profaned by any contact with business matters. In the Council of State of March 4, 1806, he proclaims: "We have no right to impose a tax on death; the priests cost the state thirty million; they have no more pretext with which they could justify their exactions. Everything in worship must be gratuitous and for the people; the obligation to pay at the door or to pay for seats is an outrageous thing; one must not deprive the poor, because they are poor, of what consoles them for their poverty." Thus he never wished to permit that tickets be issued for worship in his own chapel. The places were to be for him who first took them.

He certainly does not overlook the impressiveness that accrues to developed religion through the sensuous splendor of churchly dignities. But when his spirit presentifies the primal givennesses of the Church, he feels the churchly rank and dignity insignia precisely from this deeper sensuous perception as intolerable. Thus he calls the triple tiara "a monstrous product of pride and ambition, entirely in contradiction with the humility of a vicar of Christ." Because he does not regard the offices and dignities of the Church as an essential component grounded in their salvific

character, but as a purely administrative institution, it means nothing to him, on the occasion of the Concordat, to sacrifice sixty of the oldest bishoprics of the Church to the reorganization of the French dioceses, and later how many other venerable institutions and persons to other state purposes. And the Pope himself, already at the time of the Concordat, is stripped by Napoleon — precisely as the latter becomes aware of his significance for the church reorganization and seems to emphasize it — of his spiritual consecration-character and reduced to the level of an ad hoc state administrative expedient: "If the Pope had not existed, one would have had to create him for this occasion, as the Roman consuls in difficult circumstances appointed a dictator." The Pope as dictator, called by the actual holders of state power to worldly, and moreover auxiliary and temporally limited exercise of power — this leaves every thought of his divine institution absent. Later after their falling-out Napoleon can therefore in his orders with the same composure set the Pope entirely aside, can give his Minister of Worship as guideline for the treatment of Italian church affairs: "One will arrange things as they must be, and in a definitive manner, as if there were no Pope." And when he declares in his embittered address of March 16, 1811 to the spiritual committee called by him: "I know that one must give to God what is God's, but the Pope is not God" — this reveals in any case how far from him lies every thought of the divine origin, of the divine institution of this dignity. Certainly one can also see this utterance as an offshoot of the church-hostile Enlightenment age. But whoever has ears cannot miss the peculiarly pointed impetus of the last half-sentence, the "*imperatoria brevis*" that points back to the originative power of his personal-immediate seeing as its source.

This autocracy of perception, given the great spiritual and active force at its disposal, could certainly of itself have become a danger for the objective existence, the Catholic-ecumenical character of the Church. But from such an overgrowth of the become Church by individual faith, from the danger of a new, more violent Protestantizing, the Church was preserved precisely

by the same sensuous impulse of the Napoleonic disposition that summoned it forth. Napoleon's middlemost drive aims at creative realization of his being in the stuffs and forms of the world, ultimately in those of the state. This state self-realization will does not permit any special strivings of an individual conscience to arise at all. They necessarily enter the ban-circle of his state action. Even the cult of the Divine becomes graspable for him on the height of his unfolded life only as the worldly representation of the supersensuous content, in which it serves the state as indicated ground and bond. He confesses that explicitly on St. Helena: "When I took the helm of affairs, I already had decided views on all the great foundations of life; I had weighed the whole importance of religion." Then he sees at once in the Church no more "the mystery of the Incarnation but that of social order." That is in his mouth no dialectical turn, but only an express testimony of how immediately and entirely without his intervention the mysteries of religion reveal themselves to him in the sense that bears the middle of his life. "No law," he elucidates that insight, "no moral law traceable to its origin by merely intellectual means can reconcile the citizens of a state with the necessary inequality of their external destinies. For this there is needed a givenness extending beyond their conceptions: that is the belief in a Divine — religion." Another time, in the famous address to the Milan clergy of 1805, he expresses it thus: "No society can exist without morality; there is no genuine morality without religion. A society without religion is like a ship without a compass; a ship in this condition can neither ascertain its course nor hope to enter harbor. A society that is always in unrest, constantly shaken by the most violent passions, experiences within itself all the wildnesses of an internal war that plunges it into an abyss of suffering and sooner or later infallibly brings about its downfall." The religious spirit is essential to every folk-community as such. Thus its cultivation is also needed by him to whom the leadership of the community falls. In that familiar conversation about religion in the park of Malmaison the First Consul expounds: "The clergy always exists; it will exist as long

as there is a religious sense in the people, and this sense is inborn in them. We have seen republics and democracies, but whatever we also see, never a state without religion, without cult, without priests. Is it not better to organize the cult and discipline the priests than to let things go their way?... What makes the present system of government popular is its reverence for the cult... One must therefore..."

VI. FAITH AND THE STATE

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". . . bind the priests again to the Republic." This proves how immediately, from the very impulses of his state-forming will, Napoleon threw himself upon the ordering of religion as a state necessity. In the Council of State he once justified it with a turn against the hybrid religious surrogates of the age, the magical and metaphysical systems that were especially a flowering of German intellectuality: "Religion is a kind of grafting or inoculation that satisfies our love of the marvelous and at the same time protects us from charlatans and sorcerers; priests are worth more than a Cagliostro, a Kant, and all the dreamers of Germany." In the "German dreamers," in the speculative grund-trait of German intellectuality, he felt instinctively the opposite of his own objective-southern, sensuously engaged nature, for whom God was an undisputable givenness, a beginning, not the product of a boundless and formless individuality. On St. Helena he proclaimed religion as the foundation of every earthly government, in particular application to Catholicism as that of European kingship: "The Catholic religion is an almighty support of kingship. What would kingship be, if it too did not speak to the imagination and rested only on cold reason? For if the King is only a man like any other, why is he born King, whether he be simple, corrupt, or a great man? From the moment you take away from kingship the reverence it receives from the Lord's Anointed and deliver it to the cold calculation of reason, it ceases to be kingship and becomes an office; and from that moment ambition enters the lists, the era of revolutions begins. Fortunately for peoples, the marvelous has an irresistible charm for the human imagination, which ultimately always regains its power, whatever effects the passing rule of reason may . . ."

. . . four propositions of Bossuet, laid down in the Edict of Louis XIV and the Declaration of the French Clergy of 1682. They form the actual core of a state church as Napoleon conceived it, and

were accordingly raised to law throughout the extent of his Empire by a Napoleonic decree of February 25, 1810. But Napoleon's state idea reached beyond the principle of the national state. His universally directed will and spirit did not satisfy itself in the traditional French particular monarchy, but strove beyond it toward the European universal empire in succession to the great Charlemagne. And this direction of his state volition and action naturally sought its spiritual foundation and consolidation in a form of Christianity that corresponded to it — namely, that which the Roman-German Empire of Charlemagne and his successors had planned to develop and enforce, but never could: a Christianity whose ecumenical salvific character excluded national-state expression, but was instead wholly restricted to spiritual universality, renouncing every earthly dominion. Thus Napoleon's Minister of Worship said in the address with which he opened the Council of 1811: "His Majesty has restored the religion of Christ as Charlemagne and Saint Louis professed it." But just as in European actuality Napoleon's world-government sought its realization by fusing the elements of the Roman-German medieval Empire with those of the national Ancien Régime, so those forms of Christianity also interpenetrated to form a unity that served as the spiritual fabric of the Napoleonic state-creation. To the restriction of the ecumenical power of Christianity to the spiritual domain — which the Empire of Charlemagne and his successors had striven for — was added the intrusion into the ecumenical character of Christianity itself, arising from the national principle of the strengthened . . .

. . . in a work on the Concordat, this conception resonates: "It is an established fact, which will become clearer daily, that Napoleon loved his religion, that he wished to bring it to flower, to honor it, but at the same time also to use it as a social means to suppress anarchy, to consolidate his rule in Europe, and to increase the prestige of France and the influence of Paris: the goal of all his thoughts." A few pages earlier, he appeals in defense of the Concordat to the immemorial existence of

temporal church power: "Admittedly, the Concordat recognized within the state a foreign power capable of causing it trouble one day. But the Concordat did not introduce it. That power has always existed." If one proceeds from his personal spiritual and emotional constitution — he had no choice but to depart from the confessional "foundation and root" that had accrued to his sphere of action, arbitrarily to give his state-work, created from the given state-materials, an entirely new religious substructure, whether of purely personal invention or of foreign provenance. Certainly, when Napoleon went about reintroducing a cult, many reasons spoke for a thoroughgoing reorganization: if not for the state establishment of the cult of the Theophilanthropists — which was intolerable to him as a purely ideological product — then at least for the introduction of Protestantism as a state religion. There was no lack of voices — especially from the ranks of generals and councilors of state — that sought to push him in this direction. It could not be overlooked that Protestantism would have given him full independence from papal authority and the Catholic hierarchy, which he sought and had to seek in all his striving for a religious foundation of his rule. But within the framework of Protestantism, for him . . .

. . . brought about. These two parties would have torn each other to pieces and thereby annihilated France and made her the slave of Europe." It appears as if Napoleon here actually means to speak of a double inner possibility, an inner freedom of choice between one or the other form of faith for himself. But in truth the passage does not say that. Napoleon merely gives — as so often with an eventful happening that has grown organically from the whole of his life — the expression of a mental operation corresponding to the contemporary way of thinking and most accessible to it, substitutes a psychological interpretation for the complex process. The rejection of Protestantism and the reinstatement of Catholicism as the national form of faith could not, even for Napoleon's elemental conception of the determination of his work by his own disposition, his mission, present itself as a willed measure, an intellectual choice among

several possibilities open to him, but only as an objective alternative whose decision was from the outset contained in his work-determination, his essential disposition. Through the direction of his nature toward total-human unfolding in his work, in the national-imperial state-building, the resumption of the Catholic cult was, as shown, inescapably given for Napoleon: as the spiritual under- or superstructure of this new state-creation, which offered itself to him with and from its precursor forms. With proclamatory decisiveness there stands over the entrance to his ecclesiastical restorative efforts that famous word he spoke shortly before they began, a few days before Marengo on June 5, 1800, to the Milanese clergy: "In the conviction that the Catholic, Roman Apostolic religion is the only one that can bring true happiness to a well-ordered society and give firmness to the foundations of a government, I give you . . ."

. . . regions I entered. All the changes that occurred then, especially those in church discipline, took place against my wishes and my way of thinking. As a simple officer of a government that in no way took the Catholic religion into account, I could not at that time prevent all the disturbances it wanted to stir up at any cost in order to overthrow it. At present, since I am armed with all plenitude of power, I am resolved to employ all means that, in my conviction, can be in any way useful for granting this religion security and protection. . . . The modern philosophers have endeavored to persuade France that the Catholic religion is the irreconcilable enemy of every democratic system and every republican government. . . . I too am a philosopher, and I know that in no kind of society, be it what it may, can a man be called virtuous and just if he does not know whence he comes and whither he goes. Mere reason can give us no certainty about this; without religion one walks constantly in darkness; and the Catholic religion is the only one that gives man a sure and infallible illumination concerning his origin and his ultimate end. . . . France — taught by her misfortunes — has finally opened her eyes; she has perceived that the Catholic religion was like an anchor that alone could give her stability in

her waverings and save her from the assaults of the storm; consequently she has recalled it to her bosom. I cannot deny that I have contributed much to this beautiful work. I give you the assurance that in France the churches have been reopened, that the Catholic religion there is regaining its ancient splendor." This speech is more than a political program, which it naturally also is: it is an express document of the Napoleonic being, which this program . . .

. . . through him for the state: it vouches, in a sensuousness reliably convincing to the eyes and ears of men, for the spiritual significance, the God-givenness of the state. In this manner, as an objectively visible presentification of this God-givenness, it disclosed itself to the work and being of Napoleon, and indeed in a twofold way: once as the ecumenical principle pure and simple that sustained the ecumenical state, the old universal edifice of the Empire (which he could not yet speak of at this point because it was still remote from the then-current stage of his being's unfolding), and then as the spiritual form with which the French people had permeated itself in its old national state. Thus the sensuous-concrete fundamental trait of Napoleon's nature, which compelled him to seek his realization in the visible apparition of the state-creation, led him to receive the Christian myth and dogma in the forms that the Catholic confession had given them. Thereby the as yet state-unbound striving of his youth after the primordial contents of Christ's person and teaching was offered a counterbalance, which restrained its degeneration and rank growth into the fruitless anti-state quality of formless and being-less individual belief and preserved Napoleon from falling into a sensuous Protestantism that would have been a greater and more immediate danger for him than the Nordic-rational one. This latter also, in the beginnings of Napoleon's development, exerted its dogma-loosening and dissolving effect and thus contributed to clearing the way for his personal power of intuition and experience; but at the height of Napoleonic life this alien effect wholly vanished before the organic union in which that individual sensuous trait to the primordial facts of the Christian myth and

the universal-state sensuous form of its confessional clothing came together. An independently rational . . .

. . . developed and cultivated. Not that he lacked positive knowledge in this domain. As shown above, as a young officer he made very thorough excerpts from church-history and canon-law writings and even attempted refutations of apologetic works. Later, when he negotiated with the Holy See about ecclesiastical restoration, he studied — true to his nature — all relevant questions with the help of source documents under the guidance of his Minister of Worship Portalis, with such penetrating success that Cardinal Caprara, after one of their numerous discussions of spiritual questions, testified: "When he came to the canonical institution of bishops, he let himself go and delivered a very long discourse, speaking no longer like a military man but entirely like a canon lawyer." He was himself so convinced of the reliability of his knowledge in this domain that in a conversation with the Pope, an incidental remark by the Holy Father about alleged errors in his theological understanding threw him into extreme anger, and he burst out against him: "Does Your Holiness take me for a Charles IV [of Spain]?" But his spirit, hungering for substantial, for sensuous-concrete contents, rebelled against the conceptualization by which theological science removed all givennesses outside itself into a being-empty air of distinctions and conclusions and claimed for this realm the same reality-value as for that of tangible and visible reality. His strong intellectual faculty could perhaps temporarily find an unexpected stimulus therein, as the historian of his church policy believes to observe, but one of Napoleon's closest spiritual advisors (whom he himself immediately adduces), the Abbé de Pradt, confesses nonetheless: "One understands . . ."

. . . has. Among the things I most deeply abhor, religious quarrels and squabbles stand foremost." Here again the agreement in which the sensuous immediacy of his primary human disposition stood with his creative state accomplishment emerges irrefutably. Where his senses could no longer directly serve his

spirit, there was a domain in which his state-creation also stood in immediate jeopardy. Hence he storms so against the "sophistiqueries romaines et théologiques" with which he felt himself constantly hindered by the Curia from restoring the church as he planned it as foundation and part of his sensuous world-government. The result and effect of the particular kind of religious faith that belonged to Napoleon, alongside his nature-elemental devotion to a general divinity, is to be determined as follows: he traced in a certain way the path for that middle measure of religiosity that determined the spirits of the ruling stratum in the nineteenth century. They are fundamentally convinced of the existence of a divine being. Even its incarnation in Christ is still a tolerable conception for them up to a certain degree. Its confessional expression as dogma they have rationally overcome, but they are without hesitation ready to accept it as a churchly form, as a rite within the framework of what is state-necessary and socially prescribed. All the utterances with which Napoleon himself, all the statements with which his contemporaries, sought to find a general formula for his multiply conditioned and bound norm of faith point to such a middle line of faith-attitude. First there is the already cited assurance of Napoleon on St. Helena: "I am certainly far from being an atheist; but I cannot believe everything I am taught in disregard of my reason; the opposite would be a lie and hypocrisy": . . .

. . . to conceal religiosity. But one thing must be emphasized: all these various words do not represent, as most think, the arbitrarily changing expression of a coreless rational spiritual constitution depending on the momentary occasion. Against this imputation Napoleon himself protests with the caveat "that in him unbelief arose neither from perversity nor from spiritual indiscipline." All these words are rather only the various refractions that his norm of faith, composed of these elements into a middle unity, undergoes from the momentary givennesses. In programmatic declarations from the time of his state-creative work, the operation of such a uniform middle norm of faith becomes evident. It appears as a principle of state youth

education in the discussion of university plans before the Council of State in 1806: "One must arrange it so that young people become neither too sanctimonious nor too unbelieving; they must be adapted to the condition of the nation and society. It is a noteworthy fact that education in its origins has always been accompanied by religious ideas." The picture that Napoleon's surroundings and environment formed of his faith corresponded to this: they did not by any means consider him unbelieving, nor inconstant or wavering in his faith-attitude; rather it appeared to them as a moderate kind of faith that avoided excess as much as deficiency. His cabinet secretary says: "Bonaparte was sincerely religious, indeed I add, Catholic. He abhorred equally the philosophical cynicism that inspires contempt for religion — he himself on the contrary regarded it as a support of morality and good morals — and the sanctimony that limits human reason." One of his spiritual dignitaries, mistakenly attributing what pertains to Napoleon as a person as a class characteristic . . .

. . . The feelingful primordial givenness of God remains an ever untouchable possession of the Napoleonic being, but not in equal measure Napoleon's belief in the divinity of Christ and the Christian salvific facts. This belief, the personal non-ecclesiastical image of the Christian myth that made him see Christ almost in the light of antique semi-divinity and the salvific facts as the creation of a new spiritual world-form by a divinely inspired one, grew out of the elemental sensuous power of his individual human disposition. In the further course it is overtaken by a no less elemental force — that which expands his individual being into the universal, tears him toward the world-historical, the state realization of his person: the Christian myth now becomes perceptible to him as confession, as the faith-form of a present folk community. Personal intuitive belief now renounces its independent validity and significance, interpenetrates with the acquired dogmatic expression, indeed goes so far in merging with it that it operates within it only as a vitalizing current that swells its traditional stock of images and words with new and fresh insights and inspirations. But since confession never

became a soul-experience for Napoleon but always remained an external factual givenness, means or material through which he executed the work of his state-creative mission, in and through it Napoleon's own intuition of the Christian myth was also subordinated to the general work-goal, objectified as it were, itself becoming material and object of political expression. It sometimes disappears so indistinguishably within it that it can no longer be determined how much belongs to his personal belief and how much to his political intentions. Only the more passionate movement, the more lively sensuous power with which he sometimes seizes and penetrates a problem, reveals . . .

. . . of these church-political affairs lie highly personal questions of faith, he as a rule does not even notice. They vanish for him under the weight of state necessities. Only where the distorted contemporary apparition of church institutions and conditions with compelling power conjures up the simple grandeur of the primordial facts of faith as its counter-image, there awakens in him, alongside the immediate state-creative and formative drive, the more secret trait of his faith-interior, a highly personal confessional element. Thus it cannot be dismissed that in the abolition of the Pope's temporal power, indeed in the removal of the Papal States, behind the immediate state tasks his living conception of primitive Christianity also exerted its effect. In accordance with his everywhere confirmed unified spiritual constitution, one may see it not merely as a political expedient but rather as the revelation of a genuinely co-determining motive flowing from his personal religious conception, when he constantly returns to the point that Christ founded His Church as a pure spiritual power, left His stewards the commandment of poverty, when he opposes the worldly ambitions of the Pope with the Redeemer's — sprung from royal stock — renunciation of every dignity of this world. It appears as though the deep conflict between an ecumenical spiritual dominion and a tiny worldly particular power in the person of the Pope genuinely outraged him in his innermost being and, alongside the current political reasons, further influenced his action against him. "The triple

tiara is a monstrous product of pride and ambition, completely contradicting the humility of a Vicar of Christ. . . . Religion is a clear matter. Christ and His Apostles preached it from the rooftops that all might know it. Do you want the Pope, who . . ."

. . . the interest of religion at heart, you will often want to dwell where the affairs of Christendom have their center. Thus Saint Peter preferred Rome to residence in the Holy Land." Quite similarly in his own and in the address of his Minister of Worship inspired by him to the Council three days later: "The wise and pious men in the various centuries have regarded that mixture of worldly power, limited to a small corner of Italy, and spiritual power, extending over the whole globe, as vexatious and harmful to religion; that commingling of worldly affairs, which change like the things of earth — and that especially in certain great epochs of history, such as that in which we find ourselves — and of spiritual affairs, which are unalterable like God and never change." When he convokes the Council, it is the episcopal original constitution of the Christian church upon which he relies for justification. In it he sees the true character of the Apostolic teaching and the unbroken tradition of the church guaranteed. He wishes to restore it against the violation it has suffered from the Bishop of Rome. It need not be remarked that this was certainly not the immediate, not the actual ground for the enormous revival of the obsolete institution, but initially only a welcome argument for the church-political action. But it would be equally one-sidedly mistaken to reduce Napoleon to a merely political phenomenon, a "statesman" in the conventional sense of the word (instead of its actual meaning, which signifies "state creator"), if one were to deny that his immediate intention — to free himself through a council of national bishops from the spiritual authority of the Pope — was inspired and sustained by those Christian primordial conceptions. Ever there lives and works in the . . .

. . . raised up again, did not ask whether it thereby did something agreeable to the Roman Curia or not. Not for them did the

Emperor restore it. . . . Thus the Emperor only followed the stirring of his own conscience; he wished to restore the religion of our fathers for the good and salvation of his peoples and for the consolidation of his throne. Accordingly His Majesty, following the example of Charlemagne, Saint Louis, Charles VII, and all his predecessors on similar occasions, has united the bishops of two-thirds of Christendom into a council and charged it with taking measures so that . . . provision be made for the nomination and canonical institution of bishops, . . . so that no one be able to deprive the dioceses of their bishops or to put an end or interruption to that succession of shepherds that must go from the Apostles to the end of time." All state action is for Napoleon only the highest form of the working-out of his personal, uniformly undivided manhood, not — as for liberal doctrine since the eighteenth century — the exercise of an office or at best the demonstration of a special talent. His intervention in state-church affairs is also determined only by the one goal: his self-perfection in worldly power-expression. But it lies in the nature of these great ingenii, directed toward a single goal, developed from a single core, that they also comprehend all givennesses with which they work in their simply unitary primordial state and, if necessary, trace them back thereto in order to develop and rebuild them according to their inner necessity, in accordance with their own spirit. The primordial state of the Roman church was for him accordingly apostolic Christianity and the episcopal constitution of the primitive communities. Thereby, as he now aimed not merely through political consideration but from within at the recovery, the restoration of . . .

. . . Similarly with the abolition of the orders and spiritual brother- and sisterhoods. This too is occasioned primarily by the ever secret and sometimes open opposition that these closed societies, unconditionally subject to their own superiors and ultimately to the Pope, make in the midst of the state into necessary adversaries of every strong regime. In the Council of State of March 11, 1806, Napoleon declared: "The monks formed

the striking force of the Pope; they recognized no other head but him; therefore they were more to be feared by rulers than the secular clergy. . . . I venerate what religion venerates; but as a statesman I cannot reconcile myself with the fanaticism of celibacy; that was a means by which the Roman Curia wished to forge the chain of Europe, thereby preventing religious from becoming citizens." The monks as striking force of the Pope, animated by a "fanatisme du célibat," a community spirit peculiar to them — he is the man to appreciate these values and to shape them in their counter-image: "Military fanaticism is the only one that is of any use to me; that is what is needed to get oneself killed," he continues. The education of youth, which is at issue in these discussions, he will not entrust to the anti-state monastic corporations, but he will give it that other community spirit, that of military organization, which with its unrelenting discipline, its strict ranks and insignia, its inspiring symbols and customs appears to him as a worldly mirror-form of monasticism. More than his state action against other church institutions, his struggle against the orders seems determined and sustained by immediate impulses of his innermost being. His passionate will-to-action, which seizes upon the state as the given soil for its realization, abhors just as instinctively in the contemplative life the . . .

". . . bishops, good priests, well-run seminaries, that is all that is of use." The effect of the orders on the state presents itself to him as an immediate intrusion into his personal being and work. Monks and nuns alike take from him his world-stuff, rob him of the men with whom he must make and support his state. Of the monks in Italy his Foreign Minister writes in a note of 1807: "First the monks — the Emperor wants none. In the time of the Apostles there were none, there are none in France. Italy does not need them, but in this critical time it needs soldiers to defend it against the infidels and the heretics [that is, the Russians and the English]"; and of the nuns he himself says explicitly and with a principled turn: "Convents attack the folk strength at its root. One cannot calculate the loss to a state from ten thousand

convent women; war does very little harm because the number of men is at least one twenty-fifth higher than that of women. One should permit vows only at fifty years of age; at that age their task is fulfilled." This seems the most monstrous violation of a spiritual need by the worldly power-will. But the all-sidedness of the Napoleonic nature, for which there exists nothing wholly antithetical, ever incompatible, which also seizes the seemingly most alien thing at the given time as its own, generates from itself a counter-force that takes the final edge from this destructive will. Napoleon, who himself never thinks of assuring himself of the core and meaning of the world through contemplative or mystical absorption — which he embodies in his deed, in his person — feels that there are differently constituted beings to whom this his own path to the elevating perfection of the I in a universally world-historical is denied. From this he is able to achieve an at least conditional . . .

. . . amounted to, yet without hypocrisy held up to the Pope in 1805: "Most (Italian) cloisters were disorganized and stood immediately before their dissolution; I reorganized them and, because I desired their continued existence, contradicted the philosophical spirit of the age and fundamentally recognized the utility of the religious houses." Indeed, he extended to individual members of them, despite all the emphatic divergence of his state viewpoint from their church-bound one, extraordinary and pronounced goodwill: so to the aged superior of the Sulpicians, the learned and manly Abbé d'Emery, who during the council disputes had alone dared to represent the rights of the Pope before him. "You are mistaken, gentlemen," said Napoleon after the decisive interview with him to the bishops who thought they must apologize for him, "I am not at all angry with Emery. He spoke as a man who understands his subject, and I love it when people speak to me like that. Admittedly he does not think as I do. But everyone must have his free opinion." And a few days later to Fesch, when the latter tried to influence him on the pending spiritual questions: "Be silent, you are an ignoramus. Where did you study theology? I must discuss this with M. Emery,

who understands something of it." Later to Molé: he would die calmly if he could entrust the care of educating the youth of his realm to such a man. In all this speaks the respect that the in-himself completed type feels for the unconditionality even of a life-form opposed to him — a respect that also determined Napoleon's attitude toward Frederick and Goethe. It gives the figure that breath of sublime objectivity, of great-human majesty and breadth, that contributes to spreading the genuinely heroic atmosphere around it. With the churchman who, unequivocal and unswerving from his experience of the spiritual counter-world, but . . .

. . . romantic devotion and enthusiasm even for the purest counter-type — he puts in question. As against every spiritual association, he also maintains a permanent distrust precisely toward Emery's brotherhood, the Sulpicians, since in the heart of Paris, with seemingly purely spiritual exercises, they nourished a secret opposition to his worldly state-church administration. He suspects them of an inner connection with the Jesuits and wants to track it down. He issues a note of October 19, 1807: "What are the Sulpicians? Some assert they are Jesuits, others Molinists. How many are there? What is their teaching? Do they maintain connections with foreign courts?" Already in 1802 he had written: "Distrust the Sulpicians. . . . They are intriguers." And his personal goodwill for Emery did not prevent him, when he saw the spiritually and morally exemplary but unshakably papist brotherhood, due to its numerous representation in all the seminaries, as a serious threat to his state intentions, from first restricting their sphere of activity and finally summarily abolishing them altogether. In September 1809, from the Austrian campaign, he writes from Schönbrunn to his Police Minister Fouché: "It seems that in the gatherings held at St. Sulpice, the priests conduct themselves badly and stir up bigotry. It is indicated that you should, without noise, give the vicars of Paris to understand that these gatherings, if they take place, should be postponed until Advent, and in the meantime make them well understand that I will no longer tolerate these

gatherings. If they are no longer held, advise them immediately not to let them resume, for I cannot consent to their continuing." And two years later, in October 1811, he directed the final decree to the Minister of Worship: "I want in the Paris seminary no . . ."

. . . There he is from his state-creative spirit the natural ally of all persecutors that the Age of Enlightenment had aroused against this order. Already in the earliest time of the Empire he proceeds against them, in full agreement with the old declared adversaries of the order, ruthlessly: "I am informed" — he said in the Council of State on May 22, 1804 — "that in Beauvais and other cities the Jesuits have formed establishments under the name 'Pères de la Foi.' That is not to be tolerated. The King of Spain has already had official notes delivered to me by his ambassador, in which he complains that we are giving the Jesuits the opportunity to re-establish themselves among us, and that they are making progress daily." With the symbolic incisiveness peculiar to him, he calls against the closed community spirit of the Jesuits the spirit of the judges, the only group of state organs that was then held together by its own intellectual order: "One must set the courts in motion, robe against robe, corps spirit against corps spirit. The judges are in their way a kind of theologian like the priests. They too have their precepts, their rules, their canon law. . . . The monarchy has been able to resist the clergy only by opposing the Parlements [the courts of royal France] to them." His state spirit is incessantly occupied with attention to this order; his measures against it are as persistent as they are incisive and definitive. He orders: "Begin by sending all the Jesuits home; I do not recognize this order." In October 1804 to Talleyrand: "I wish you to write to Spain and make known that I view the reintroduction of the Jesuits with concern; I will tolerate them neither in France nor in the Italian Republic." The same day to Fouché: "I see from your report . . ."

. . . even from Poland. The deep state grund-antithesis of his nature against them turns into embattled feud: in the note to the Minister of Foreign Affairs ordering their expulsion from the

Confederation of the Rhine states and Poland, he storms against them (March 25, 1808): "This is a re-emergence of the Jesuits, who are driven from all Europe. Nothing that will be said to me against these monks will surprise me: they bear the greatest hatred for France. It therefore appears necessary that they be driven from Warsaw, that their society be dissolved, their establishment closed, and each be required to return to his birthplace." Among the monks whose resistance appears to him so disastrous for the reconstruction of the Italian state that he demands from the Pope their total suppression in Italy, the Jesuits stand foremost. Against them above all is directed the vehement expression of this demand in that note of his Foreign Minister to Caprara from 1807, inspired by himself, in which it says, following the passage previously communicated (p. 354): "The Emperor believes he must express his will in this regard, since the documents he holds prove to him that in Rome there is the intention to reintroduce the Jesuits, this hateful sect to which France owes the death of the best of its kings. . . ." Their machinations, their influences and ramifications that undermine the life of the state, he scents everywhere and seeks to counter them. With intuitive certainty he finds their traces, uncovers their disguises. Against the women of the "Institution chrétienne de Poitiers" he hurls his verdict: "All this seems to me Jesuit intrigue." The Pères de la Foi awaken his deep suspicion that the hated order hides behind them: "What are these 'Pères de la Foi'?" it says in the aforementioned decree of October 1807. "One assures that they have relations with Rome . . ."

. . . However essentially Napoleon's aversion and defense against monasticism are conditioned by his world-political, his state spirit and will-to-realization, yet here too a drive from his personal domain of faith, his elemental comprehension of God, works in secret. Religion means for him expression and experience of the divine center and unity. From this, monasticism and the cloister system are too derivative formations for his unconditional spirit to still be able to grasp them within this domain. They represent for him no primordial givenness of faith, on the contrary a

distance from its actual core, from the germ from which the Christian religion unfolded. The often-mentioned letter with which his minister communicates to Cardinal Caprara the imperial resolve to suppress the monks in Italy does not fail to point, in justification, to the primitive state of the church: "In the times of the Apostles there were none." The wording and content of this turn leave no doubt that it goes back to Napoleon's own most personal inspiration, and prove anew that his personal immediate intuition of the salvific givennesses remains involved to a certain degree in the factual-state treatment of religious questions. But where his spirit, seeking the elemental and unconditional, does not invoke the primitive state of the church as measure and rule against the proscribed orders, there he at least summons their earliest models and predecessors as witnesses to let the primitive sense of the institution refute its de-essentialized deformations vividly: "The monks of the Thebaid are the only ones who have led a true life of contemplation. The monks of Europe, on the contrary, led such an active life that they dominated the peoples among whom they settled, and everywhere they still exist, they continue to dominate." And it sounds like a memory of the origins of the institution when on St. Helena he says to his . . .

. . . influence on his otherwise wholly state-goal-dominated treatment of the Catholic church. That here a personal element of faith is actually at work — Napoleon's sensuous need for the primordially of the facts of faith, and not merely an informed spirit of church-political action wanting to attach a historical argument or ornament — for this, besides many particulars, that famous already-recounted conversation of Napoleon with one of his councilors of state in the garden of Malmaison provides proof. The First Consul is about to discuss the possibilities of church restoration in France: a state moment decides for the choice of a particular, the old confession of France, the Catholic. But that a religion must exist at all — this penetrates him in the midst of the factual discussions as a vivid impression from the surrounding world, as a compelling feeling from the depth of experience. He

exclaims: "I am nothing; I was in Egypt a Mohammedan, here I will be a Catholic — for the good of the people. I do not believe in religions. . . . But the idea of God" — and he throws his arms toward heaven — "who made all this?" Generally he was in that time still more unreservedly surrendered to the living powers of his inner being, intuition and feeling, than later in the years of his solidified state expression: the pull of his youthful expansions of feeling, as Junot experienced and vividly described them, still worked in him. Indeed, he intentionally gives these immediate personal drives of his nature room and opportunity to work themselves out, almost calls them forth. It is as if, faced with the progressive absorption of his person in its central, state expression, he would once more go back to its human source-springs, draw new nourishment from them for his natural intuition, his elemental emotional powers. Every Sunday he makes his . . .

. . . opinion. It is again the case that the Emperor speaks through his officials as through a living organ: "To command the submission of subjects to the head of state only in general terms would, under present assumptions, not direct this submission to its actual goal. The general prescription may suffice in ordinary times, when one lives under an order of things that has long existed; but today the word 'head of state' is only a vague expression that everyone can apply arbitrarily according to his intentions and prejudices. I have therefore found it necessary to speak my opinion openly and to base the prescription in clear terms on Your Majesty. That eliminates all ambiguity by fixing heart and mind on him who alone is capable and actually called to captivate heart and mind." The same thought is formulated a few lines earlier as a principle with all inexorability: "It is a question of binding the conscience of peoples to the sublime person of Your Majesty, whose government and victories guarantee the security and happiness of France." More sharply, the spiritual, the faith-need of a worldly creation cannot be made tributary to a state power-will expression. And this usurpation of a spiritual power-means has its root not in some world-political

system of the age, as was the case in the Middle Ages (to which the Emperor so gladly appeals), but ultimately and exclusively in the person of the Emperor himself, in its inconceptual and inconceivable will-power, which here harnesses a timeless, a cultic element under the yoke of its present and immediate vitality. Having set the needs and requirements of his own power-realization as the decisive moment for the formation and binding of consciences, Napoleon does not shrink even from the most external and violent of his power-means . . .

". . . to conceal commercial interests. . . . It is known how useful the Lazarists of the foreign missions have been as diplomatic agents in China, Japan, and all of Asia. There are even such in Africa and Syria; they cost little, are respected by the barbarians, and since they bear no official character, can neither compromise the government nor cause it trouble; the religious zeal that animates the priests makes them undertake labors and brave dangers beyond the strength of a civil servant. . . . The missionaries will be able to serve my colonization plans in Egypt and on the African coasts." And equally clearly on the same subject in a letter to the Archbishop of Paris: "I feel the importance of this matter. I wish you to let me know how things stand with our missionaries, and what would have to be done to make their zeal useful for religion and the state." Indeed, not even to the Pope does he conceal his intentions to exploit the spiritual organization as a purely political weapon for executing his world-empire plans; on the contrary, before him they condense into an almost provocative, programmatic announcement. Never before had a ruler so unconcernedly and unveiledly transformed the civilizing conscience-power of Christianity into colonial territorial gain: "I would like to give the Chinese missions a new activity, and I do not wish to hide from Your Holiness that — independently of the general good of religion — I am prompted to this by the intention of taking away from the English the direction of these missions, which they are beginning to appropriate." Faith-life and faith-power lose for Napoleon at the height of his life their independent significance

as an inner human order: they become one of the fields for the realization of that other, his state order, in which he encompasses inner and outer . . .

. . . can. But Napoleon extended the authoritarian binding of the individual conscience far beyond the boundaries even of Catholic dogmatic faith, removed it from the still somewhat more permeable ecclesiastical under his inexorable state power-command. Freedom of conscience became for him from an ecclesiastical problem ultimately a purely state one. As a young man, when he was still free from the state-formative compulsion of his maturity, feeling only his own powerful individual existence and swelling it with Rousseau's doctrine of the sovereignty of individual reason, he knew no more inviolable human good than freedom of conscience. He places it at the center of decision in the "Lettres sur la Corse." Against its violation by church statute he rebels with the passion peculiar to him: "Whoever would impair the dominion of reason, whoever would put the clamor of prejudices in place of the infallible stirrings of conscience, is a rascal bent on fraud." From the independently judging reason of the individual — thus with a truly Protestant means — he then wanted to enforce what appeared to him with Rousseau as the state, the reason-given association of individual human beings, against churchly power, in which he saw only the expression of arbitrary reason-hostile lust for domination. "Tearing the bonds that unite fathers with their children, the fatherland with its citizens — that was called a spiritual matter," he cried out indignantly then. Since then — recall his famous word about his inner illumination after Lodi — he has experienced that the state is no product of intellectual agreement but the creation of a universally disposed individual, for the present his own most personal mission. He sees that to this mission the rational power of any arbitrary individual can offer no furtherance but only distraction and resistance, that the . . .

". . . Catholic, Roman Apostolic religion is the religion of the great majority of Frenchmen." His state is built upon the

equilibrium of a freedom of conscience of all its members and thereby the insurmountable measure and the most violent restriction of the individual conscience. This compulsion of conscience against the individual arising from the freedom of the rest is once harshly and sharply opposed by Napoleon to the Pope. The aged Pope, at Savona without the spiritual advisors of his cardinalate that he desired and hindered in free communication with the faithful, believed in the distress of his conscience, anguished by responsibility, that he must refuse the desired unrestricted sanction to the decree of the National Council on episcopal institution. To win him over, some bishops of imperial confidence are dispatched to him. The Emperor himself dictates their instruction. There it says with reference to the Pope's obstructive scruples of conscience: "He always speaks of his conscience, but does the Emperor not also have his own? Conscience is the property of each, which no other can dominate; but each must also enlighten his own, and how can the Pope, who has no confidence in his own insight, reject that of a hundred bishops, who also each have their conscience?" Here adaptation of his conscience to that of the council bishops is demanded of the Pope, because these cover the demands of the Napoleonic state-creation, just as on another occasion he demands from the clergy unconditional surrender of conscience to the authority of the superior when this superior goes with the imperial state-will. Thus quite consistently with him, the tolerance that the state must distribute equally to all and guarantee with its power leads necessarily to intolerance toward all, to universal compulsion of conscience. He demands that the non-constitutional priests who refuse spiritual communion with their . . .

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". . . words: 'They are people who cling to trifles,'" and punishes this spiritual renitence against his state-will with ruthless persecution of the church dignitary, hitherto so highly esteemed by him, which begins by excluding him from the Sulpician seminary he directed. The state represents for him the

permissible measure of freedom of conscience and thereby fulfills, in place of the church but far more thoroughly than it did, one of its own requirements: the subordination of the individual conscience to that of the community. To rebel against this means for him a "minutie" of conscience that he cannot tolerate if he does not want to endanger his state edifice, with which he guarantees the balanced inner communal freedom. Connected with this is his unwillingness to tolerate the detachment of individuals from the general cult, such as the independent satisfaction of religious needs in private chapels, which temporarily gained ground in Paris, and where he permits them for country houses, he attaches the obligation to attend the parish church for certain cultic acts. In this way the state, by realizing the concentration of inner as well as outer folk forces, intrudes into the most privileged domain, that of the believing individual conscience: precisely here, as its creator is aware, it has its last and most sustainable foundation. Individual faith, the individual conscience, has its binding and visible representation in the faith and conscience of those entrusted with ecclesiastical authority: the priests, bishops, and the Pope. Thus these interventions direct their decisive, their most emphatic force against the consciences of these shepherds of souls. The manner in which the worldly order wrests from their hands the means of the spiritual order in order to fortify itself therewith, acts as the overpowering of a spiritual principle by ruthless external forces. Yet if one looks deeper, one perceives that the worldly . . .

. . . belongs to state action. Thus ultimately the entire church-political struggle of this period works like a sustained personal attack of the one great man against the spirit of humanity symbolized in religion — an impression for which the historian of his church policy found the concise and beautiful formulation: "Napoleon, the greatest man of modern times, first in negotiation, then in feud, with religion, the greatest matter of all times . . ." Napoleon arrogates to himself, as the same historian says, the "supreme direction of all Catholic consciences," wants to be the "évêque extérieur" of all dioceses of his realm. Thus he

threatens the priests who oppose his church plans not only with all earthly misfortune but also with eternal damnation. But above all he sets his very effective earthly power-means in motion to force their readiness for service to his state-creation. He threatened the priests who refused to follow the constitutional bishops and to take the oath, summarily with exile, indeed with degradation; later he suspended the exemptions of all aspiring priests from military service in those dioceses whose bishops appeared unreliable to him, and in the course of his disputes with the Pope he eliminated the conscientious resistance of a whole number of simple priests by imprisoning them without trial for indefinite periods. At his fall, the prisons of Vincennes, Fenestrelle, and Ivrea were still filled with them, and they were also found in the inhospitable interior of Corsica. Napoleon himself on St. Helena did not deny this, only protested against the exaggeration of their number. Indeed, he was about to degrade these victims of his state-will and inquired of his Minister of Worship about the canonical formula for it. The ordination of priests depended on his approval, and in order to . . .

. . . considerations that had formerly, as earlier explained, prompted him to tolerate or even encourage them, receded by contrast. He had to feel himself unconditionally master of all his weapons and would rather deprive himself of one than leave it accessible to foreign direction. To prevent a dangerous divergence and intermingling of minds, the influence of hard-to-control special opinions on the priests, he suppressed all spiritual journals in France; a single one, the "Journal des Curés," had to serve him to penetrate the clergy too with the uniform state mentality that his work required. Its editors were appointed by the Archbishop of Paris, who was in his hand. Thus he achieved the ability to use the whole power that the priests possessed over the consciences of individuals like his own state instrument. He realized what he once said to his confidant: "You will see what use I can draw from the priests." With their help, he confessed with satisfaction, military conscriptions proceeded more smoothly

and productively at one stroke. The priests were more useful to him there, as in many other relations, through the immediate influence they exerted on the inner forum of man, than his officials who governed the outer; they truly were what he once jokingly called his "gendarmerie sacrée." But more violent, further-reaching in effect and visibility than against the lower shepherds of souls was the exercise of power with which he compelled the heads of the spiritual shepherd-office in the dioceses, the bishops, to hold and use their spiritual leadership at the disposal of the state. In the oath they had to take after the Concordat directly into the hands of the First Consul, they had to pledge themselves not only to abstain from any agreement or understanding that might disturb the public peace, but also from any state . . .

. . . that the appointment of bishops is effected by the personal will-decree of the Emperor, guided herein exclusively by the interests of his state-creation, and that even beyond the borders of France, also in those parts of his realm whose state administration he largely left to foreign hands. To Eugène, the Viceroy of Italy, he writes: "My son, let me know your opinion on the refilling of the vacant bishoprics. One should appoint priests who are very devoted to me, without fetching old cardinals who would not support us in a given case." His persistent endeavor is, in accordance with its original constitution, to trace church administration back to its root in the bishops and thus make the church independent of its extra-state leadership in Rome, which necessarily crippled his state idea. He takes care in the Concordat to retain co-determination in the new circumscription of the dioceses. To this also belonged that after the incorporation of the Papal States, as already mentioned, he suppressed a great number of small bishoprics that have no support in the original church constitution of Italy and actually always stood only at the immediate disposal of papal power, thereby creating room for a proper and purpose-determined, effective exercise of episcopal authority. In so doing he professes as the grund-thought of his reorganization unambiguously its inner supra-historical

purposiveness and consistency. "One will arrange things as they ought to be, and definitively, as if there were no Pope." The ultimate standard is here too his creative formative drive, which — unhindered by spiritual scruples — wants to realize itself in the construction of the church no differently than in that of the state. Of thirty-two bishoprics he first thinks of reducing to thirteen, then even to five, of eighty parishes of the city of Rome . . .

. . . to be granted to the bishops. Napoleon writes on April 2, 1811 to the Minister of Worship: "Since it is our principle that the graces of the church can be granted to the faithful only through the bishops, all who apply should be referred to their bishop. Submit to us the draft of a circular to the bishops in this sense, and then one would have to send an official to the Pope through whom the correspondence of the bishops would be transmitted. I have given the cardinals [who were in France] to understand that they have no business interfering in anything and, since they after all do not want to order the affairs of the church, at least they must not disturb those of the state." Through this participation in the highest ecclesiastical powers — which, had the imperial regime continued, might perhaps have been transferred to them — the bishops were to be given the actually central significance in church government and through them the administration of the goods of salvation also to be drawn into the state sphere of power. This goal comes expression quite unhesitatingly and very emphatically in the provision that the correspondence of bishops with the Pope in these matters should take place through a state official, and in the fact that the interference of cardinals in these matters is repelled as a disturbance of the state. Napoleon held the bishops, like the simple priests, under the strictest surveillance. While the gendarmes supervised their sermons, Napoleon subjected the pastoral letters of the bishops to the censorship of the prefects. Even if they did not require the formal visa of the prefecture, they still had to be submitted to it and approved by it. To crown it all, the bishops were permitted to multiply their writings only through the prefecture printing press, whereby in effect their

spiritual shepherd-office was delivered over to the state authority. On the proceedings of the united . . .

. . . the commission they had chosen. But the humiliating designation "bureau chargé de la police de l'assemblée," which outraged them, they changed in the documents of the council to "bureau de l'administration intérieure," without of course being able to induce the Emperor himself to concede even this formal mitigation. He wanted in the council to sum up the Catholic church power in the same state manner as at his rise he had united the free spiritual powers, sciences and arts, into corporate bodies (Institut National) and continually strove to further organize. Since the Pope could not be moved to place his power-means, which flowed from a source inaccessible to Napoleon — the Catholic tradition — at the unlimited disposal of the new worldly state idea, the entire ecclesiastical power-complex was to receive from the new state idea in the council a form independent of all tradition, corresponding to the present world-givennesses. If the Pope in his resistance to the Emperor wished to leave the vacant bishoprics still longer unfilled, the council was to arrogate to itself the power to exercise this care for the spiritual office over his head. But too firmly rooted in the minds of the church princes was the consciousness of the supreme shepherd-office of the Roman bishop and the summing-up of the whole church in him for the commission set up to solve that problem simply to yield to the Emperor's will. Intending to find a tolerable way out of their conflict of conscience, they did the worst thing they could: they offended against the grund-thought from which all these attempts of Napoleon sprang. They declared they wished to consult with the Pope. That meant calling into question the pure national state character into which Napoleon wanted to translate church affairs, in favor of its anational counter-power. For Napoleon this . . .

". . . if the archbishop does not want to use them, I will close the seminaries, and religion will have no more servants." And a few days later, upon a renewed rejection of the imperial proposals by

the now wavering council, to the bishops of Tours, Trier, and Nancy: "Good, if that is so — I have my commission, which meets at the Grand Judge's. I will proceed when I wish, and will dissolve the council tomorrow." The passage shows the true ground and ultimate meaning of the convocation of the council, as set forth previously. Right behind the council, should it fail, stand the justice committee and the prefects: if it cannot be achieved to give religion a state embodiment with its own means — the bishops, in the last resort the council — then religion must simply be organized as a function of the state body itself. It does not come to that. The council yields, establishes — albeit with a clause to ease its conscience — the Pope's duty of institution and the right and duty of the archbishops to exercise it in his stead. But the means by which this decision was obtained were wholly those of worldly-state power. The Emperor did not shrink from actually dissolving the national representation of the church, imprisoning the most influential of the opposition bishops — those of Ghent, Troyes, and Tournai — and influencing the rest through clever intermediaries and negotiators so that they consented to a subsequent council session and there, without prior deliberation, issued the decree according to the Emperor's wishes. And what further state acts of violence did the resistance of those bishops not cause! Again the state authority penetrated deep into the spiritual domain. Napoleon, the worldly ruler, forced those three bishops to submit their resignation no differently than he would have done toward any state official . . .

. . . The Bishop of Séz, who continued to observe the feast days suppressed by the Emperor and otherwise did not support the state institutions, he called upon during a journey to resign summarily and had his spiritual advisor taken into custody. When annexing the Papal States in 1810, he likewise had a large number of bishops who refused the oath of loyalty transported to France under gendarme escort and simply "gave them their dismissal," while thereby, as already mentioned, simultaneously creating room and justification for the violent reorganization and simplification of the church in those territories. With such

measures he also did not spare the central administration of the church, the immediate entourage of the Pope, the College of Cardinals: on the contrary, he directed his sharpest and most unrelenting weapons against them. He removed from the Pope these his natural counselors, banished them — who should have been inseparable from his person — from Rome and tore them from his side. Occasionally he mitigated this strict isolation, but only to delegate a few arbitrarily chosen and devoted cardinals to advise and support the Pope and thus to influence him. But as soon as the Pope's decisions did not satisfy his state demand, he tore them away from him again. Finally, the cardinals were refused all influence on spiritual affairs, complete inactivity was imposed on them with unveiled harshness. In their banishment at Fontainebleau, a subordinate officer entrusted with their surveillance appeared before them and announced: if they wished to remain in this city, they must refrain from speaking to the Pope about business, must write no letters of any kind — not within France nor to Italy — must hold themselves in most perfect inactivity and restrict themselves to purely conventual . . .

. . . and then he even forced them to lay aside the purple and content themselves with the simple dress of the clergy. From then on, in France one distinguished the more imperially and the more papally minded as "cardinaux rouges" and "cardinaux noirs." Napoleon wished to give the church in a national episcopal constitution a state organization independent of the Roman external, the spiritual universal power. To achieve this goal he set in motion — as for any other state accomplishment — all the state power-means at his disposal: he extended their application even to the purely spiritual domain, the inner forum of the church. By deposing bishops or at least forcing them to abdicate, by violently depriving communities of their canonized shepherds, by restricting these through imprisonment or other threats in the exercise of their shepherd-office, he abolished the actual otherworldly character of the church and put in its place a new determining force, the creation of his spirit, the state: the worldly spiritual order reawakened in him, in place of the

Christian tradition that never attained definitive world-expression and remained stuck in the spiritual. This process takes place with ultimate sharpness, with almost symbolic violence against the office and person of him in whom the total life of Christian tradition is summed up: against the Pope. All encroachments of the secular arm into the purely spiritual domain, to which priests, bishops, and cardinals were subjected, receive their definitive significance and symbolic representation in what befell the Pope from the driving state-creative drive of Napoleon. When after Napoleon's death the Pope said of him that, despite all the distress he had caused the church and himself its shepherd, it must be acknowledged that no one in his place would have done so much for the church, this is certainly literally true. Only the church received this . . .

. . . spiritual supremacy the Pope had to let fall. At the very beginning the Emperor extorts from him the admission and recognition of the bishops who had sworn the constitution of the Republic and would not revoke this violation of their church duties: state necessity determines the inner order of the church. He further restricts the inner church power by imposing the state catechism and forcing the Pope to grant institution to bishops nominated by the Emperor, the outer by the secularization of church territories. All this almost more impressive and of more immediate effect on the imagination through the manner and means with which Napoleon realized these great goals than through the results themselves. Napoleon confronted the resistance that the Pope offered to the inner, the spiritual universality of his claim to power with the same vehemence, the same sallies as the challenges that this claim to power encountered territorially from his worldly adversaries. Of the traditional invectives of this kind there are countless. That Napoleon branded the Pope, where he exercised the rights of temporal church power, as "work of the devil," as "enemy of religion," has been mentioned. Napoleon is so penetrated by the inner authority, the world-lawfulness of his state spirit and by his mission to realize it, that he actually regards the head of the

church as the counter-spirit risen up against him, to be fought with all means, the demon hostile to world-order. The Pope becomes in this view almost the Antichrist for him. When the latter wanted to call upon the world for protection against the injustice done him, he threatened: "Does His Holiness perhaps believe that the rights of the throne are less sacred than those of the tiara? There were kings before there were popes. . . . The Pope who let himself be carried away to such a step would . . ."

". . . His Majesty sees the Pope, it is only welcome to him if the Pope does not accept the decree, so that in case of his refusal he remains covered with the shame of his ignorance. And if he does not consider himself sufficiently authorized by the Holy Spirit and the hundred bishops, not sufficiently enlightened, why does he not confess his inability to distinguish between what belongs to dogma, to the essence of religion, and what is temporal and changeable, and abdicate? Why does the Pope — if he does not grasp this difference, which is so simple that the first seminarian would understand it — not voluntarily descend from the papal throne, to let it be occupied by a man stronger in spirit and principles, who will finally remedy all the damage that the Pope has done in Germany and all lands of Christendom?" And in a private audience at the beginning of 1813 he repeated these sallies to the Pope's face. The Pope reported complainingly of this, that Napoleon had treated him with arrogance and contempt, indeed as an "ignoramus" in spiritual matters. But the Pope's attempts to defend his rights with external power-means, spiritual or even worldly, become in Napoleon's eyes a single chain of the gravest moral transgressions. Thus at the very beginning of their disputes, on the occasion of the institution of the constitutional bishops, he accuses the Pope: they wanted to make a fool of him and trip him up; it was a lure and a trap, the way they had delayed the issuance of the bull. A little later: "Oh, these are your usual tricks." In a decree to his Minister of Worship of 1811: "These dark machinations are unworthy of a Pope. . . . He will bear the blame for the misfortune of all with

whom he corresponds. . . . It is troublesome for Christendom and for the church to have such a Pope, . . ."

. . . Then when he already seems to have exhausted all his punitive measures: still further, ever new intimidations, to make the Pope wholly pliable to his state will. The Pope, already stripped of all his power-means, was under strict surveillance at Fontainebleau. Then the unfortunate Russian campaign awakens in him the hope of escaping once more from the bondage of state power, of regaining his spiritual and temporal dominion. He opposes the most stubborn inactivity to all the Emperor's demands, especially the demand for confirmation of the bishops nominated by him. The Emperor does not let this pass. On the point of beginning the fateful campaign of 1813, he instructs his minister: "You will declare that if the Pope ever becomes a worldly ruler, we will break with him. We will not on that account bring about a schism. You will let the Pope know: since he takes counsel only with people like Di Pietro and Litta, one will soon see anew the unpleasant consequences of the incapacity of these people." But beyond threat and punishment with which the Emperor seeks to break the resisting will of the Pope,

his procedure against the head of the church as a whole means an almost unveiled violation, in no way different from that with which he imposed his will on worldly princes. Without obtaining any of the counter-performances he hoped for, the Pope — as none of his predecessors for centuries — had to accommodate himself to leaving Rome, the seat of his spiritual dominion, to crown the Emperor at the seat of his worldly one. Moreover, the arduous journey to Paris lacked every due consideration for his office and his age: scarcely the necessary time for rest was allowed him; he was rushed by imperial functionaries in flying haste from post station to post station. And what a worse journey, what a planless-tormenting to and fro across half of France, before he began his long detention in the desolate bishop's palace of Savona: to see here, deprived of the assistance of his cardinals, indeed of all trusted spiritual advisors, not only the

possibility of an organized resistance of the church against the overmighty state spirit, but all ordered church administration founder! The execution of these measures and the surveillance of the Pope was entrusted to the local authority, the Prefect of Montenotte. For the Emperor, the Pope no longer possessed any special state significance, let alone anything like sovereignty: he was subject as a subject like any other to the given state authorities. When he then nevertheless succeeded in breaking through his unprecedented claustration and getting one of his letters to the Vicar-General of the Diocese of Paris, his isolation from the world was further intensified; he was wholly restricted to the counsel and distress of his own conscience. The Emperor gave his Minister of Worship the following instruction for the Prefect of Montenotte: "Give him orders to prevent a courier with letters for the Pope and his suite . . ."

. . . to pressure him, extort the resolution from him. When the Pope, thereby deprived of all decisiveness, was held by his conscience in an actionless resistance, Napoleon did not hesitate to attempt, like the conscientious resistance of so many bishops and priests, now also to eliminate the resistance of this supreme conscience of Christendom by the ruthless removal of its bearer. In the already above-communicated instruction for the bishops devoted to him who were to go to Savona to make a last attempt to win the Pope over in the sense of the council decree, he charges them, if the Pope believes he cannot take responsibility for the decision demanded of him, to suggest his abdication to him: "And if he does not consider himself sufficiently authorized by the Holy Spirit and the hundred bishops, not sufficiently enlightened, why does he not abdicate? . . . Why does he not voluntarily descend from the papal throne, to let it be occupied by a man stronger in spirit and principles?" But it lay in the nature of the Napoleonic genius that inner compulsion, already often characterized, to heighten all relations in any way essential to him — friendships as well as enmities — beyond their required emotional and factual expression into the symbolic, which elevated them at one stroke and for always into form-visible

clarity and into the sphere of definitive, tragic-heroic event. So too here. After Napoleon had deprived his ecclesiastical adversary even of the most elementary tools of his office — books and writing implements — he demands the surrender of that high insignia with which since time immemorial the Popes had given sealing power to their bulls: the Fisherman's Ring. In the ring, the symbol of the highest church power, Napoleon's action against it finds its crowning conclusion and expression. All Rome is searched for it. It cannot be found. A visitation of the palace . . .

. . . leaves the hand of its last bearer, but it does not pass into the hand of the Emperor. It is destroyed, no longer has the form in which the Apostle and all his successors bore it. In the great struggle between the Emperor, the "greatest man," and the last representative of the "greatest matter" for the complete becoming-state of faith, nothing falls to the former at last but this destroyed ring. It is to be noted here that Napoleon never succumbed to the temptation to depart from his worldly domain, to arrogate to himself the highest spiritual world-leadership. If once, in an earlier phase of his state-church struggle, he thought of erecting a "contra altare" against the recalcitrant Pope with the help of the cardinals deputed to Paris, this always remained within the framework of the traditional spiritual world-government without the intention of making himself the high priest of this "contra altare," of uniting papacy and empire in his person. He had, as always here too, too strong a feeling of the necessity of the once-existing world-order, of his own limitation within the realm of embodied world-forces, to give in to such temptation. To be sure, as a result of his boundless extension of power into the spiritual domain, his image shifted in this direction in the eyes of anxious church servants: "Soon he will" — writes the Archbishop of Bordeaux once — "lay his hand on the censer, and perhaps later he will want to mount the altar." He himself, however, cut short the proposal of one of his councilors of state to eliminate all difficulties summarily by making himself "chef de la religion," with the word: "No, that would mean

smashing the windows." He knew too well: that would have meant nothing but a schism in the direction of Protestantism, not the founding of a new theocracy, for which he had no point of connection either in his person or in the givennesses of the world . . .

. . . of purely classical stamp through its mere existence shatters the classicist deformations and actually summons up their counter-form, Romanticism, so his enormous sensuous compulsion — by wanting to renew religion in a simultaneously more primordial and more world-historical state — leads to its complete demolition. All the Enlightenment doctrines of the God-deniers of the eighteenth century did not strike the church in its core as did the irrefutable power of impression with which it sprang to the eyes of the world: that a man ultimately and exclusively grounded in himself, of its stem and kind, took possession piece by piece of the constraints of this supposedly external spiritual power and broke them. This, entirely in the sense of his own utterances, proved the form of faith, the church, to be a human creation, a human institution, and stripped it forever of its otherworldly magical power. Certainly Napoleon thereby robbed himself of this important aid for the consolidation of his world-dominion. It availed him nothing that, when the Pope, despite his complete constriction at Savona, did not yield in his resistance, he also took the last step toward his subjugation to the state-will, brought him into his next personal power-circle, to Fontainebleau. The Pope persisted in his resistance until Napoleon's world-power exhausted itself on its own most proper, the worldly terrain of battlefields, against the weapons of the world, and thus prevented the great Napoleonic design — to give his world-empire a visible spiritual consecration-form through the Pope's relocation to Paris — from being realized. All preparations had already been made, the archiepiscopal palace in Paris prepared for his residence — the Pope did not occupy it, and the now mutually chasing storms of Napoleon's worldly downfall swept over this project. But the Pope too . . .

BOOK SIX — ART

I. POETRY: DISPOSITIONS AND PRACTICE

I. POETRY: DISPOSITIONS AND PRACTICE

ART is secret, is inner state, is just as much as the manifest outer state a supra-personal encompassing of being in face and creation: like the latter it bounds and flows into the rim-circle of the outermost supra-individual sensory expression, of the divine, which already runs into the extra-mundane, the foreign to creation (cf. p. 282). Art there touches even more visibly than the state upon unformed soul or spiritual expression: upon mysticism and metaphysics. Art is the same force that a creative individual will of the highest measure realizes as deed in the state, shapes as spirit in the formed work. Both are, when brought to perfection, a new-facialization of the world in the creation of an individual spirit of universal tension. While the spirit of the state performs this creation upon the world by positing a new life-order from the totality of mankind, from the periphery, from without, and from there arrives at the reshaping also of the individual man, creative art on the contrary, through the formation of a new life-spirit, first attacks the individual man and from him penetrates from within, reshaping, into the world. All great state-creations — those of Alexander, Caesar, Charlemagne, Napoleon — have brought forth, together with the renewed expression of the folk-totality, the state, also a new race of men; and all creative poetry — of the arts, she alone, the most spiritual and at the same time the most sensual, the most concentrated and at the same time the most expansive among them — possesses this immediate creative power: the Greek tragedians and Plato (who in this deepest sense is a poet), Dante and Goethe, even the more secondary French tragedians, realized, in that through their creations they called forth a new human form or at least made it sensuously conscious, also the elements of a new inner order of things, of a new comportment toward man and things, a spiritual state as enduring monument.

Also the being and work of the further-named poets makes this evident, though less conspicuously, without it being possible to demonstrate this here in detail. One need only refer to the observations Goethe devotes to the significance of Corneille in his conversations with Eckermann on March 30, 1824 and April 1, 1827. Art, seen thus as creation, as reshaping of the spirit in the material of man and world in opposition to its intellectual evaluation in the sense of an ethical or aesthetic educational factor, occupies, like the state that fulfills this mission, the middle place between the extra-mundane Unlimited and the objective figurate. The creative poet is, like the state-creator mentioned earlier, the awakener, the shaper, the make-visible (the seer) of the invisible spiritual, of the divine in the realm of the bodily world, the human vessel of God, a hero in the sense of myth. It was shown at that earlier place with what rare unconditionality Napoleon, under his passionate state-creator compulsion, realizes this highest human form, is a hero of antique blood, of antique formation. He gives the divine spark form in the immediately present world-forms, as the poet more mediately, through the awakening of a new human type, determines the future. But he is of one blood and stock with him, of the same creativity, the same drive to make spirit body. Napoleon feels the commonality of this drive as the deepest, the ultimate determination of his being. He conceives his power as state-creativity on the same plane as an artist his art, and feels the same exclusive, compulsive possession by it as that artist: "I, I love power; but I love it as an artist. I love it as a musician loves his violin; I love it to draw forth tones, chords, harmonies from it." Entirely under the same image, Goethe has conceived the creative primal force of his nature as a "daemon."

His drive wants world-effect, formation in the space of the world, like that of the poet wants formation in the individual creation of language and man. Thus the perfected individual form, the beautiful work as such, does not mean to him the same, not an unconditional goal of effect as to the artist. To him it is the perfection of the whole of the world seen as unity, of the total

earthly spirit-space condensed to body, to state. That he wants to make pictorial, to represent, to shape, to force with his creating breath out of its undeterminacy into the harmony, the formal unity of his spiritual vision. Thereby "great" becomes for him "beautiful" in the higher unity of heroic world-creatorship, which enables the beautiful individual creation of the poet, beyond its spatial apparition, to work a new form in spirits, makes it "great." In this sense the perfect art-creation becomes for him the expression and symbol of the heroic man. He says: "There are all sorts of wretchednesses in man, all sorts of waverings and doubts; all that must disappear in the hero. On the monumental statue the frailties and horrors of the flesh are no longer noticeable. In Benvenuto Cellini's Perseus, that perfect and sublime work of art, one truly hardly suspects the presence of the common lead and the tin plates that the artist in his passion had thrown into the seething mold to let his bronze demigod arise from them." As a result of the deep drive-unity of state and artistic creation, the elements of the world-creative poet, the immediate world-vision and its irresistible power to make it newly sensory, are given in Napoleon's being, at least as disposition: to be sure only as disposition, and not developed to the form of realization proper to the poet, his particular world-expression, the poem. The innermost core of Napoleonic being stood opposed to such a development, drove in another direction: toward world-creative embodiment, not in the word-work, but in the body-work of the state. But this disposition is there as a driving underground stream, which becomes active indeed not in the formation of a poem, but in all his works that bear the character of a world-, of a total view: above all the Proclamations and the Bulletins. Here he himself attains to an expression that, in the beginning of his career especially, approaches the great form-giving of language, the creative word of the poet.

The original direction of this creative seeing, which in the later head of state comes to apply to the external, governmental world-material, is the same in Napoleon as in the great poets. The primal germ of poetic creation is inborn in Napoleon with his

form-driving creative drive as in them. The proclamations bear not only the trace of it, they have the living breath of it. The first of them, which opens the Italian campaign and thereby the actual world-career of the genius, works at the same time like the revelation of a primary poetic gift. (This was discussed in more detail in the first book.) Let one read this or another of them again, and one will, as only with the manifestations of the great, visionary poets themselves, be seized by the tremendous original power of his vision and language. One is astonished, but after what has been said it is not astonishing to see Napoleon in his youth constantly occupied with poetic drafts. The world has not yet placed at his disposal the actual material of his creation, its wide spatiality and its inhabitants. Language is still for him the most immediate, the only means of shaping his inspirations. And so he condenses the pressing visions of his inner self, which resist the intellectual analysis with which he approaches the problems of the outer world, into artistic form. We have, attested by documents, two short novellas from him: "Le Comte d'Essex" and "Le Masque Prophète," both of which clearly betray their inner origin. They are two episodes, one of which he found recorded in the English history of Barrow, the other in the history of the Arabs by Marigny. They seized him as much through an indeterminately heroic trait of the acting persons as through the monstrous circumstances of their downfall. The dry historical presentation does not satisfy him. In both cases he feels a significant humanity raised beyond its individual givenness to symbolic greatness through the unusualness of its fate.

which cannot be grasped in its insoluble wholeness by the means of historical exposition. The oriental legend makes vivid how the spirit can communicate itself to men only in sensory apparition, how all earthly greatness draws its effect only from the form in which it embodies itself. "Hakem, of tall stature, of a manly and captivating eloquence, called himself the envoy of God" and won the people against the Caliph. As long as he preserves his brilliant apparition, he remains invincible. Then his face is disfigured by an affliction. "That was no longer the most beautiful

among the Arabs; those noble and proud features, those great and fiery eyes were disfigured. Hakem became blind. This change could have dampened the enthusiasm of his followers." He feels that if his work is not to sink, he must maintain the power of his personality, its external impressiveness and dignity. His violated exterior becomes the occasion for an unheard-of intensification of his external apparition: he puts on a silver mask and convinces his followers "that he wore the mask only to prevent men from being blinded by the light that streamed from his countenance." This extraordinary condensation of the spiritual into visible apparition as means and condition of heroic effect must have exercised a compelling power on Napoleon. It is his own kind that is made present in the intensified symbol. A meager excerpt, such as he otherwise extracts from his reading, does not capture this for him. He must fix the form in this seen, overwhelming symbolism. He notes not their deeds, the details of their apparition, not their campaigns of conquest. He holds fast their uniquely definitive impression, compresses the whole history of the hero into a single event, the decisive hour of his life, his heroic self-sacrifice. Here, in the utmost tension and concentration of his first, still unmediated formative power, he stands at the threshold of creative poetic vision. The fact that the two novellas are written in prose — and not very accomplished prose at that — should not obscure this. At that time, only one form of expression was available to him for the outpouring of his inner visions: the poetic. This is an internal argument for the fact, communicated by him on St. Helena, that in his youth he carried the plan of a Caesar-tragedy. Herein — as was also pointed out earlier — the opinion of those who would see in him the author of the well-known Caesar-fable finds a certain support. Yet very weighty reservations remain. It cannot be denied that both the poetic genre and the treatment are ill-suited to the heroically oriented disposition of the presumed author and to the subject. One could counter this with his childish age of only thirteen — the fable is said to date from 1782 — and the taste of the time. But these reasons lose their persuasiveness when faced with the

only somewhat reliably attested poetic attempt of Napoleon, those clumsy verses that he scribbled in his mathematics book at the Military School in Paris in early 1785. One may consider that this was a fleeting notion of school hours, but the verses show too clearly the lack of skill, the struggle with rhythm and meter, for one to credit the same author, three years earlier, with a poem as rounded as the Caesar-fable — which moreover lacks all the Italianisms that still clung to Napoleon's linguistic expression at that time. This fact must also speak from the outset against a tradition that wishes to ascribe to Napoleon the authorship of another verse product, a homage poem for the then-celebrated singer Mme. St. Huberty. It goes back to the memoirs of Mme. Junot, later Duchess of Abrantès. The source itself urges extreme caution. To be sure, Mme. Junot was linked through her mother, from the Corsican-based Stephanopouli family, with Napoleon's family in confidential relations, and she herself — though then only ten years old —

II. POETIC INCLINATIONS

in Marseille is not demonstrable, and the opinion of a recent writer, that Napoleon heard her there in 1790 or 1791 on one of his leave trips to Corsica, is impossible for the simple reason that the singer had already definitively left the stage in 1790. But Napoleon was neither in Marseille nor in Aix in 1785. A remote possibility would remain only if it could be proved that Mme. St. Huberty gave a guest performance in Lyon at the end of October 1785 on her return journey, since Napoleon at that time did briefly touch Lyon on his journey from the military school in Paris to his first garrison at Valence (whereupon the disputed question of the duration of this stay would again become relevant). But what speaks decisively against Napoleon's authorship is the inner incompatibility of this poem with Napoleon's human character. Listen: "Romains, qui vous vantez d'une illustre origine, Voyez d'où dépendit votre empire naissant; Didon n'eût pas d'attrait assez puissant Pour arrêter la fuite où son amant s'obstine. Mais l'autre Didon, ornement de ces lieux, Eût été reine de Carthage, Il eût, pour la servir, abandonné ses dieux Et votre beau pays serait encore sauvage." Contrary to the view of that recent writer, one will find in these verses absolutely nothing of the style peculiar to Napoleon. They have entirely the impersonal smoothness of the usual gallant allegories of the time. Indeed it is striking how no special tone rests on any word, no truly seen image interrupts the chain of insignificant pale metaphors. Every one of those wild linguistic violences so characteristic of Napoleon in that period is absent. The whole poem bears a thoroughly un-Napoleonic, indeed an anti-Napoleonic stamp. But the content of the poem contradicts the fundamental trait of his being completely. Rome and the Romans, their great historical and mythical origins, formed the constant backdrop of his youthful dreams.

and it must in fact be established that, apart from that primitive schoolboy poem, no genuine verse from Napoleon's hand has survived. But this by no means definitively decides the question

of whether the young Napoleon did not nevertheless seriously attempt poetic verse. Weighty inner and outer reasons speak for this. All true poetry is verse poetry. Every creative work has its own external form, distinct from all others. Poetry that would perform its office as symbolic expression of life, undistorted by the neighboring genres of descriptive and interpretive literature, is given verse as its innate means. More bindingly than for the present, in which all forms are mixed, this law holds for the French world of the eighteenth century. Where life there strove for its symbolically intensified expression, it fell with necessity into the form that had been established for centuries: the pathetic-heroic verse structure of the Alexandrine. That was the expression in which the heroic-unconditional utterance raised itself apparitionally above the conditionings of everyday axioms. To be sure, the influence of English novels through Rousseau and Diderot had breached this tradition. But the breach was limited to a narrow, newly arisen area, branched off from bourgeois life, the genre of the sentimental novel. The realm of the trans-temporal heroic utterance it left untouched. This maintained — far into the nineteenth century — verse as its expression, and brought it in Voltaire even to an independent after-bloom. And Napoleon, for whom in his youth poetry was and had to be more than for anyone else the means of heroic self-representation, he in whom pathos lay naturally in the blood, should he not have fulfilled this most proper, this heroic-pathetic measure, should he have written no verses? The inner

of inner visions understood in contrast to the merely literary interpretation and expansion of factual givens into a playful spiritual atmosphere. And precisely this highest form of poetic utterance, poetry as definitive formation of a world-bearing ingenium equal to state-creation, was not his mission. For merely artistic poetry he is too concentrated in the unconditional relentlessness of his creatorship, and from creative, heroic-tragic poetry he is separated by the unambiguous determination of this creatorship toward its realization in the state. Poetry therefore remains for him only the expedient of his youth, the activity of

the pressing forces that cannot yet work themselves out in their proper material, the state, in another form legitimate for them, for which the material, language, was from the outset ready. If this youthful poetic exercise does not appear in the definitive, the heroic-tragic forms to which it is actually directed according to the disposition of the young poet, this may be due to the fact that for the formation of this highest form Napoleon's ingenium was not yet mature at that time. For the rest, any even somewhat certain judgment is made impossible by the fact that no essentially significant verse-poetry from Napoleon's hand has been preserved. According to Napoleon's own statement previously communicated, it is quite conceivable that the Corsica poem contained a heroic-epic basic element. What one has or knows of his youthful poetic works shows certain approaches in this direction. The idea of a Caesar-tragedy could only have sprung from Napoleon's drive to grasp poetically, in its definitive, most symbolic apparition, the world-vision rising in him that he later formed as state-creator, thus represents a thrust in the direction of that great, tragic-heroic poetry. And the two small novellas discussed above

to work itself out in this his proper field, in military-political undertakings; from that moment on — that is, from his intervention in the Corsican turmoil of 1791 — every trace of an expressed poetic activity on Napoleon's part ceases for us. But the abundance of creative visions in Napoleon is too great, too gushing, to have exhausted itself entirely in his state utterances. Even after the beginnings of a properly poetic striving have long been submerged in the political realization of his creative spirit, a surplus of living fantasy remains that seeks satisfaction outside the state action and keeps his inborn poetic forces perpetually astir. During the Consulate and in the first years of the Empire, he often appears after finishing state business in the evening in Josephine's salon and begins to tell her and the ladies of the court improvised stories, whose most essential characteristic according to all accounts is the accumulation of monstrous events and adventures. His spirit, filled with images and ideas,

discharges itself in these improvisations, which strike us as so curious but are entirely natural and legitimate for Napoleon as a living play of fantasy, insofar as in them only the old native practice of "improvisazione" lives on. In an earlier section, this form of social entertainment was already discussed, and in connection with it a novella of this kind transmitted by oral tradition, "Giulio," was examined. It became clear there too, however, that these attempts sprang not from particular artistic intentions but from the more general need of his over-rich imagination. Beyond that, however, even in these times entirely filled by his state-creator spirit, the properly artfully poetic element of his disposition shows itself active. From his own artistic utterance

Significant events of his life quickly and involuntarily condense for him into the work and word of a poem. In the days when he restlessly weighs the fate of the Duke of Enghien in his hands, the conflicting voices of his inner self strengthen with the tone and weight of verses. The unalterable leitmotif of "Soyons amis, Cinna" will not fall silent — but the particularity of the event finds its echo in the words that press from Voltaire's *Alzire* onto Napoleon's lips: "Des dieux que nous servons connais la différence: Les tiens t'ont commandé le meurtre et la vengeance: Et le mien quand ton bras vient de m'assassiner, M'ordonne de te plaindre et de te pardonner." When in the unlucky winter of 1814 the ring of enemies closes tighter and tighter around him, the first shadows of defection and betrayal of his own and of his downfall fall upon him, the fate of his son rises before him in a figure of ancient tragedy: "I have never seen *Andromache* performed," he writes to Joseph, "without deploring the lot of *Astyanax*, who survives his house, and regarding it as a fortunate thing for him not to have survived his father." The works of the poets, their verses mean to him what they are in their ultimate ground: the outermost, the densest creative sensory embodiment of a spiritual life-content — especially his own — in independent forms, not a pedantically captured argument, a quotation that he transfers from the unreal world of writing onto reality and

applies. By them his ever-living formative drive is drawn and enticed also in its artistic, undeveloped direction, to give the mute words of the poets their fitting expression, their verbal power. His southern blood — experiencing sensually and bodily — grasps and demands poetry also as sensory, as bodily apparition, the poet's word as sound

filled. He has been heard reciting verses while walking up and down alone in his room. He read aloud to Josephine, to her palace ladies, to his officers and confidants. On St. Helena, in the long actionless solitude, the recitations become a standing institution, which through the frequent repetition of the same pieces favored by Napoleon so tired the listeners that sometimes one or another fell asleep or hatched conspiracies to make especially feared works, such as Voltaire's *Zaire*, disappear. One senses something of the particular passion, the beautiful *mania* of the artist, in the way Napoleon throws himself upon verses and pours himself out in them, as if — as he himself says — the inborn poetic formative drive, suppressed by the state and hindered in its expression, had to discharge itself in foreign poetic goods. This impression is strengthened by the selection and manner of Napoleon's recitations. They show clearly that it was not so much a matter of theatrical ostentation or pedagogical-didactic intentions for him, though the bearing of the time and his own disposition also worked in this direction — the main thing for him remained always the immediate poetic content that seized him and set his imagination in motion: the sensory-impressive and at the same time pathetically sublime utterance of definitive human being and fate. Almost exclusively he reaches for the high epic or tragic formations of symbolically heroic existence: alongside the primal image Homer — the *Odyssey* tears from him during the reading ever more enthusiastic exclamations — to the temporally nearer, later offshapes of this genre, the French tragedians. Those evening entertainments on St. Helena he regularly opened with the question: "What shall be read today?" and receives, because his preference is known, the regular answer: "A tragedy." Hence

is no longer a problem, is their present and nearest expression, the national tragedy, also their true being. All the more so as it — in the succession of Roman poetry (Virgil) — is in the particular sense state-poetry, embodiment of the state life-contents in which his great work is rooted, and it alone exerts an unbroken and living influence on the spirits of the people, the immediate working means of his state-creation. France's classical drama must, in this regard, yield even to the stronger and purer works of tragic art, even to ancient tragedy itself: these, which do not work out of and in Napoleon's active present, recede before the national theater into the significance of an awe-inspiring tradition, of a historically mediated educational treasure. What appears to contemporaries in French tragedy at best as the pathos of national representation, could and must have meant for Napoleon, as poetic embodiment of the folk- and state-spirit pertaining to him, the pathos of true heroic life-feeling, or also, if one will, replaced it. Only thus is it explicable that without actual effort of memory, solely from his unremitting recitation of these poems, a great stock of their verses impressed themselves on him as living possession. He experienced therein the symbolically elevated expression of what he realized in the state, but could not himself form poetically, and thus the foreign poetic product entered easily and naturally into his imagination and memory. The manner in which he spoke verses shows even more immediately the originally poetic disposition. His recitation had nothing of theatrical declamation about it. That means a great deal. For what he recited or read aloud was consistently taken from the dramatic genre, for which, if for any, this manner of recitation would still be most justifiable. In truth, however,

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precisely for the heroic-pathetic tragedy that poetic manner of recitation was the only adequate measure. It seems that Napoleon had ear and sense for this autochthonously poetic, this formative representation of a poetic work, that it was for him, as for men of exclusively poetic disposition for whom it is

unambiguously attested, a self-evident givenness of the poem which he fulfilled instinctively, whereby he was likely aided by the fact that, as a recent connoisseur of these matters establishes, "Romance peoples, thanks to their stronger corporeality and stronger tradition, are more capable than Germans of experiencing and reproducing linguistic structures as unities without psychological depth or analysis" (Robert Boehringer, *Über Hersagen von Gedichten*). A participant in the Emperor's readings on St. Helena, to whom we also owe the previously reported information, describes his manner of recitation thus: "The Emperor read pleasantly, but he had no ear for poetry; he often added one or two syllables to a verse without noticing it; with the book before his eyes he changed a word, and always in the same way; when he read Cinna, he never spoke otherwise than: 'Sylla, soyons amis Sylla!' He read without the slightest declamation." This report obviously stems in part from one of the spiteful criticisms with which Napoleon's former cabinet secretary and youthful confidant filled his memoirs, published ten years before the writing of this report. It says there: "Bonaparte, insensitive to the magic of poetic euphony, did not even have enough ear to feel the meter, and he could not recite a single verse without altering its measure." Beyond the striking concurrences of both passages, the record of Mme. Monthelon shows, precisely in details of a factual nature, observations so independent that she

strike against any kind of meaningful reading at all. The skipping over the verse ending, the changing of words can indeed indicate a lack of original sense, but can also have quite other, indeed opposite reasons. And it certainly does in a person like Napoleon, for whom an originally poetic drive is attested in so many ways, and who moreover was so well acquainted with the poetry to be recited in every verse and every word. The faulty treatment of the poetic recitation is with him a consequence precisely of the opposite of a lack of poetic feeling, a consequence of his uninhibited rapture by the poetic object, of the impetuosity with which his own formative drive, seized by the pull of the poem,

storms upon it to take possession of it in his own way. The alleged confusion of familiar words would speak for this. He can, if at all, have confused the names "Cinna" and "Sylla" in his favorite quotation only in a state of excessive excitement. To the formation of the poem as a linguistic structure belongs also its recitation; only thereby does it receive its conclusive apparition. Thus the mere recitation of a poem can inspire not only an actorly, but rather precisely a poetic-creative ingenium to try its formative power upon it. The closer this comes to the original rhythm intended by the poet, the more perfectly the poem is reproduced (Boehrer, op. cit.). But the formative power of the reciter can also deviate from it more or less, become independent in relation to it. This will always be the case where the poetic work to be recited is overpowered by the passion of a mightier creative will. Then the recitation can, precisely by being actually poetic, formative from the whole, become a complete violation of the poem. This has often been observed in the recitation of

may be bad poetic reading thereafter, but in any case it is, and precisely in the pronounced sense, poetic reading, namely creatively formative reading from the whole: a finding that receives its reinforcing confirmation from the closing testimony of that report, that he read without the slightest declamation. Another communication about his recitation leads to the same result. It comes from a source no less suspect than the so-called memoirs of that cabinet secretary. The repeatedly mentioned chronicler of the imperial court, who follows Napoleon's behavior with such pronounced inclination to criticism, finds in his reading similar, indeed sharper faults to find than the cabinet secretary and the fellow exile. But when the facts reported by her are rightly appreciated from the whole of the Napoleonic nature, her criticisms prove as erroneous and skewed as those of her predecessor. What she too knows to tell of Napoleon's recitation gives thoroughly the impression of a violation of the object of recitation by a poetically inspired formative will, not of a lack of poetic feeling, which would be compatible with an actorly but never with a poetic manner of recitation. She describes how

Napoleon read aloud to her from manuscript a new tragedy of the then highly regarded poet Lemercier, "Philippe-Auguste": "There was something amusing in seeing a man constantly pressed by business, when he had nothing to do, struggling with the necessity of speaking words one after another without interruption, how he forced himself to read Alexandrines whose meter he did not know and in fact recited so badly that one would have thought he did not understand what he read." Here too it is expressly stated that Napoleon did not master the measure of the Alexandrine, which indeed allows the conclusion

has set an actual rhythm of its own in place of that embodied in the rhythm of secondary poetry. To assume that this was merely the activity of a poetry-alien, external drive for effect, which did not even let Napoleon come to knowledge and comprehension of the poetic structure of the work, means misunderstanding the foundations of universal creativity, means failing to recognize that such creativity must necessarily contain a quite general sense for the formal aspect of every work. To excess, this disposition is confirmed for Napoleon more than for any other hero of the deed, precisely with regard to poetry. Let one read the critical discussions that he himself conducted on various occasions about the linguistic and metrical treatment of literary products, e.g., on the text of Paësiello's opera Proserpina. If one then recalls the testimonies of the most competent judges, above all Goethe's, on this question, one will not wish to consider that supposition seriously. Read correctly, however, the report itself also contains its refutation further on. The authoress notes at the end that Napoleon's manner gave the impression that he did not understand what he read. Unless one wishes to assume that Napoleon gave himself over to a completely senseless babbling, without any participation in what he read, the only explanation remaining is that he, carried away by the force of poetic pathos, drove this forth at the cost of purely intellectual and certainly also of strictly formal expression: that he read neither actorily nor indeed in every respect according to the law of poetry, but yet with a living feeling for the poetic. In this depiction,

moreover, a conventional misunderstanding, frequent precisely with unpoetic minds, must still be reckoned with. They are always inclined to mistake the rhythmic,

about poetic subjects, in almost unceasing repetitions, the poets' own words have flowed: a testimony to the significance that this great spirit himself attributed to poetry for his life. Indeed these attestations also refute the spirit that reigns today, which has not yet completely freed itself from the literary evaluation of poetry and has not yet learned that poetry is first poetry and unfolds its great life-power of forming man and world by speaking from a living mouth according to the poet's word and will. This creative life-power is what the modern-age hero sensed in his originally classical blood and constantly actualized, by lending his living voice to its works (no other of the great post-Christian leaders ever did the like). His true being cannot be fully grasped if this utterance of his, which more immediately than others reveals the creative core of his being, has not received its due appreciation.

Reading and reciting are the forms in which Napoleon's original poetic disposition actively works itself out. Experiencing, it expresses itself as a passionate taking-possession of the whole breadth of past and present literatures of Occident and Orient, and indeed initially as a quite indiscriminate need for appropriation of any somehow poetically formed expression of experience, down to the worst off-forms, the most bizarre as well as the shallowest products of the contemporary novel. On his campaigns, especially the Russian one, he demands to be constantly supplied with reading material from this area. "The Emperor would like," the cabinet secretary writes at that time to the librarian in Paris, "to have some entertaining books; if there were some new or older novels that he does not yet know, you would do well to send them to us." In the days of worst tension in Moscow, he lies with a novel on the sofa. Beneath this superficial

III. TRAGEDY

soaked through with Werther. But what counted for him and what did not, he showed on St. Helena. He comes to speak of Bernardin de St. Pierre's much-read novel "Paul et Virginie" and says that in his youth he was greatly taken with this work. "He emphasized," the report continues, "the gripping passages, which were always simple and natural. Those where pathos, abstract and perverse ideas overgrew things, as was the fashion when the work appeared, were all cold, bad, misguided." It becomes evident: the rational-humanitarian description and interpretation of feeling, the merely literary finery of the epoch, could offer Napoleon's objective need for feeling no hold, no nourishment. Through their disguises he reaches out of the contemporary novel for the facts of a purely naive emotional power, the actually trans-temporal poetic good that is contained only incidentally and hidden in these works. In this original sense of the word, indeed, the "simple and natural" of that passage, applied to him, is to be understood, not in the derived, faded concept it has in the literature of the Enlightenment. He here exercises exactly the same procedure with which he once, as already discussed, read Raynal and the other historical works of the epoch: passing over all expositions and reflections, he notes only the facts cited as evidence. To Wieland, who wishes to defend Fénelon's *Télémaque* and thereby probably his own didactic poetry, he vehemently rejects the intermixture of poetry with humane educational tendencies. This time from another side: he argues that doctrinal literature stifles natural morality: "You know how it goes with those who always show virtue only in fictional subjects. They achieve only that one believes virtue is never anything but a chimera." Toward Rousseau, who in his mature years always only nature becomes evident. The informant from St. Helena reports: "The Emperor had begun to read the *New Heloise*, often interrupting himself to emphasize the art and the power of conviction of the thoughts, the magic of the style and expression. 'Jean-Jacques has exaggerated his subject,' said the Emperor, 'he

has painted the frenzy of passion; love should be a pleasure and not a torment ... but the work has fire, it excites and sets in motion.'" From here Napoleon has an access to all primal sense and primal measure of poetry. From here he is able, within a time and nation for which poetry exhausted itself as an educational and social form, to grasp the elemental genius of a poet who, rooted in the primal soil of an incipient age, had only just emerged for the world of his time in contemporary dilutions and sweetenings: Dante. The creative primal fire that streams through this genius and enabled him to melt the spiritual edifice of the Middle Ages in his great poem into living form, into the human content of the new age, seizes — quite unmediated, not by those literary detours — in Napoleon's soul the sibling creative element. In this, kinship of stock should not be overlooked, which evidently made Napoleon familiar with the great Florentine early and in a different way than his contemporaries. The songs of Dante were, as on the Italian mainland, so also in Corsica — at least in individual parts — always common property of the people and on their lips. Precisely in the Corsican, a poetic drive and an intimate connection with inherited poetic goods lies in the blood. Even to this day, the old folk melodies form a living part of his existence; even to this day, new ones arise. Napoleon soon found special opportunity to deepen these original impressions of his homeland during his training and garrison years. In Auxonne

that among the many sayings of Napoleon about poetry only one refers to Dante, it is all the more surprising that this single one grasps, with passionate incisiveness and accuracy, the innermost sense and true significance of this universal creative spirit far beyond the comprehension of his time and entirely in accordance with our own: "Dante is for me the first genius of modern times. Dante is a sun that shines with all its brilliance in the midst of a deep night, and everything about him is extraordinary. Above all his originality assigns him a rank of his own. Ariosto imitated the romances of chivalry and the old heroic poems. Tasso did the same. Dante did not stoop to take his inspirations from another. He wanted to be himself, himself entirely alone, in a word: to

create. He seized an immense subject and filled it with the superiority of a sublime spirit. He is multiform, terrible and charming; he has sweep, warmth and rapture; he forces his reader to tremble, to shed tears, to feel a horror that becomes the pinnacle of art. Stern and great, he hurls frightful curses against crime, brands for vice, laments for misfortune. He, the citizen struck by the laws of the republic, thunders against its oppressors, but his birthplace he will by all means excuse. Florence always remains his sweet fatherland, dear to his heart ... I am jealous for my beloved fatherland that it has produced no one who can rival Dante, that this giant among us has found no emulator; no, no reputation can contend with his." How Napoleon here emphasizes in Dante originality, creativity, uniqueness — the essential traits of the poetic genius — and sets them against the mere talent of literary poets, has within the framework of his societal age an almost

to have an opinion about a fact that will always be shrouded in darkness." He wants the tragic hero as living human unity of good and evil, not as the skeleton of a moral schema. "Above all, the author seems to have forgotten a classical fundamental law based on a true knowledge of the human heart: namely that the hero of a tragedy, to awaken sympathy, must be neither completely guilty nor completely innocent." The Emperor speaks, as so often, with the vocabulary of his time and seems only to express its rational findings. In truth, however, he communicates his personally deeper spiritual vision of things. The knowledge of the human heart to which he appeals means not the result of banal life-experiences, but his unmediated inborn knowledge of the true, the tragically determined nature of man. Where the Emperor finds these emotional, sensory elements, he pricks up his ears and extends his benevolent attention even to a generally lesser talent. This proved true with regard to the then very popular dramatist Lemercier. "The boldness of thought and expression characteristic of Lemercier's talent," reports Napoleon's private secretary, "the variety of his inspirations and his fertility had drawn the First Consul's attention to him,

although these gifts were by no means so strong that he would have been under their spell." "The boldness of thought and expression," "the variety of his inspirations, his fertility": all this, to be sure, somewhat discolored into the conceptual by the usage of contemporary intellect, designates only the livingly gushing power of poetic invention and representation. Sensory abundance, sensory brightness, sensory density he misses in the verse structures of his brother Lucian. With all the talent and facility of its author, that condemns it for him: "How

can he believe it possible to make a French poem abroad, outside the capital of France? How could he presume to create a new rhythm?" If this seems to give the significance of the native soil for poetry a coloration toward the state, this must not lead one to evaluate the utterance as merely political. This coloration is to be ascribed to the general change in his later way of seeing, directed entirely toward the state. For Napoleon then, the originally homely also presents itself at once in state forms, as a state-organized structure, the capital as its concentrated and symbolic apparition. Similarly, the state moment that seems to resound in the further reproach — "What barbaric names has he introduced?" — finds its explanation in the fact that his livingly personal state-feeling and his poetic feeling are radiations of his unified life-center, which feels it as equally unbearable to see the closed definitiveness of the state-edifice disturbed by foreign bodies as the unity of the French linguistic structure by an exotic dissonance. But the state moment has not determined the poetic judgment; rather, this remains untouched: the attack proceeds from the original feeling for the living sensory unity that every poetic work demands. Even in the well-known conversation with Talma about theatrical performance, one will be able to see more an outworking of his inclination toward sensory, most immediate poetic expression than any naturalistic leaning foreign to his purview. "You often come to me in the morning," he says to the great tragedian, "and you see princesses whose lovers have been stolen from them, princes who have lost their states, former kings whom war has deprived of their highest rank."

is not the result of a desire to debase poetry to an imitation of the surface of nature, but of the striving to rejuvenate, renew, enliven its means of representation by leading them back to the visible givens of the world, and indeed to its significant and sense-bearing ones. Napoleon's drive toward the original elements of the poetic, which motivated all these utterances, reveals itself above all in the character of the poetic works to which his most distinguished inclination is directed. At first, he succumbs to the style of the time, the sensitive naturalism of Rousseau, the literary-sentimentally turned expression of a feeling-life intended and conceived as original, although it is quite opposite to his own nature, which wants the original feeling in the original expression. But this was not yet available to him at that time, and the pressing power of his emotional forces, doubly dammed up by his human isolation and the factual delimitation of his studies, seeks an outlet which it finds in the world-weary, melancholy sentimentality of the period's literature. Those are the times when he strolls dreamily with Junot in the evening Jardin des Plantes and writes to Joseph those tenderness-soaked letters, one of which ends in the sigh: "Life is only a fleeting dream." Ossian and Werther hold the young Napoleon in their spell just as much as his contemporaries. If this effect persists to a certain degree later, this is partly because, more than other inclinations, our love for certain products of art is determined by the experiences of our youth, and Napoleon was particularly subject to the power of his youthful memories, and partly because even later — now through the tremendous demand of his state tasks his personal feeling remained dammed up and in the emotional extravagance of

to. There is indeed for him a flight into the sphere of impersonal, indeed counter-personal, emotional rapture. His youthful confidant and cabinet secretary also speaks of his inclination for Ossian, "which seems to transport him from the earth." His preference for Ossian and Werther was equally strong. Just as he never lost sight of Werther throughout his life, made it the subject of very detailed discussions with Goethe at Erfurt, took it

with him on St. Helena no differently than in the Egyptian desert, so the great general diffusion that Ossian found was attributed by contemporaries precisely to the veneration that was perceived in the young, famous general for the Ossianic songs. (Even today the hereditary first name Oscar in the Swedish royal house testifies to this pronounced inclination for the supposed Scottish tribal poetry. It was Napoleon who gave this first name to Bernadotte's son, the later King Oscar I of Sweden, just as he designated the Ossianic name "Dermide" for his sister Pauline's son.) But even in these works, in which at first a rapturously streaming time-feeling attracted his own youthful unbounded surging and later the moods of unbalanced intermediate states, he perceived with composed senses the truly poetic element that lay hidden beneath the literary expression of the sentimental time-culture. When he stands before Ossian with the bright spirituality proper to his balanced, self-contained emotional states, he is no longer gripped by the uncertain longing-swarm of the feigned folk poetry, but by the happily captured and preserved magic of originally sensory natural forces, drawn from the treasure of true folk poetry. That rapture becomes for him an utterance of a literary taste-culture, to which he opposes the poetic originality as that which inspires him about Ossian.

the voices of nature were never so originally audible as in Ossian: precisely mastered by that "perfect spirituality" in the thoroughly formed art-form of the Greek poem. Even in Werther, he did not in the long run let himself be overwhelmed by emotional rapture, but sought the poetic core: here, where it is not a matter of feigned folk poetry but of a higher kind of art-poetry, the secrets of its inner formation, its structure. He discussed this with Goethe in 1808 with such penetrating artistic understanding that Goethe spoke of his having "handled Werther like a criminal judge his files": whereby he certainly did not intend the reproach of hairsplitting criticism, but wanted to characterize the sharpness of observation with which he tracked down even the slightest utterances of the inner flaws hidden in the art-work — a finding that Goethe clarified in two other statements thus: "When

a woman wants to judge a seam, whether it is finely and evenly sewn, she tests it not with her eyes alone, but lets it slowly slide through her thumb and forefinger. Such an examination was evinced by Napoleon's remark about a trait in Werther," and "Napoleon was the only one who had pointed out to him, the poet, a disproportion in Werther that had escaped the sharpest critical eyes up to then, because it was as artfully hidden as a tailor is wont to place his artful seam when by mischance some tear has come in a whole piece of cloth." So not a particular measure of critical faculty offers the explanation of the imperial understanding of art, but the heightened capacity of seeing, more still of the immediate feeling for the organic, for the secret inner law of formation of a work of art, such as otherwise belongs only to the creating artist himself. Thus these remarks too run

"the whole course breathes the poetic air of Greece," he says in that same conversation from which his utterance about Ossian is taken. And Goethe with his essential gaze deeply penetrated the immediate seduction that emanated from Racine's gripping poetic formative power upon Napoleon, in contrast to the estimation he felt for Corneille, to whom he was attached by an elevated spiritual content, when he explained Napoleon's position to the two poets thus: "Napoleon said of Corneille: s'il vivait, je le ferais prince and he did not read him [which is certainly not true]. He read Racine, but he did not say this of him." Napoleon's relation to Voltaire was similarly determined. He made hundreds of fundamental objections against the corrosive, in the last sense unpoetic spirit of Voltaire. Nevertheless, from time to time he succumbed to the immediate magic that his verses, his poetic expressive power as such, exercised upon him. One of those very passages in which he attacks him most vehemently betrays this. He lets it be understood that when his tragedies are received with a more unprejudiced, less strictly examining mind, their sensory brilliance of representation did not fail to have its effect on him: "When the pomp of linguistic expression, the magic of the stage, no longer mislead criticism and good taste, he immediately loses a thousand percent." Only thus can one explain that on St.

Helena he calls Oedipus "the most beautiful drama of our theater," drives his entourage to despair through the unceasing readings of "Zaire," indeed concentrates his entire enthusiasm for poetry on this drama. His sister-in-law, Queen Catherine of Westphalia, writes to her father: "He told me that if he were once married, he would give peace to the world and devote all his remaining time to 'Zaire.'" This enchantment by a general element of the poetic, the pathetically elevated speech

seeks points of connection on all sides and develops the beginnings of future effectiveness, he forms that connection with Talma which remains untroubled throughout his life. This one and a few other actors form, alongside the faithful Junot, his main company at that time. In the "Frères provençaux" he daily takes his modest midday meal with them. Not a coincidence, but his inner contact with them and their art lets him seek these meetings and grow them into a regular community of life. Through Barras he finds connection with Mlle. Montansier, the aging owner of the theater of the same name, devoted to the lighter muse, to which he as Consul is later so little favorable. That he should have sought this connection for economic reasons, even in the intention of a marital union with the rich theater owner, as the spiteful Barras claims, is too scurrilous, lies too much in his own line of thought, for one to see in it anything other than an invention of Barras. It coincides with that other supposition of this equally petty and coarse mind, that the Italian command formed Josephine's dowry. In the days of his rising power, when old and new helpers of his work gather in Malmaison around the First Consul in a still lively sociability, he gives it as a focal point an amateur theater, in which his relatives, especially Eugène and Hortense, but also his generals and ministers, even the Second Consul Cambacérès, play significant roles. He himself, to be sure, avoided this, however limited, display of his person as incompatible with his feeling of dignity. Always and everywhere he has demonstrated his preference for the theater. There is an abundance of evidence for

this. Some of them, moreover, give insight into which particular area of dramatic art his

he took personally. In a poor performance of the Cid, after the second act he commands the intendant Rémusat to come to him and berates him: "Do you not see at all that in this performance the Cid is only a parody?" Then he dictates to him off the cuff a recasting of the roles as he deems appropriate. Repeatedly he exercises criticism — he, whom one has reproached for having taken instructions from Talma for his bearing at the imperial coronation — on Talma's acting performances and gives him detailed instruction about his conception of the roles: once for "Britannicus," another time for "The Death of Pompey." He knows what significance scenic representation has for drama: that it first determines its definitive effect, and draws from this the important consequence that a drama, when read, might be harmless for the welfare of the state, but when performed could be objectionable. With regard to Raynouard's "États de Blois" he remarks: "On this occasion I see confirmed, what everyone knows anyway, that there is an immense difference between reading a play and performing it." But he is too firmly penetrated by the truly poetic spirit even in drama for stage representation to have been able to mean this spirit to him, to have been able to deceive him in the long run about a poetic lack. This is evidenced by that previously communicated word devoted to Voltaire: "When the pomp of linguistic expression, the magic of the stage, no longer mislead criticism and good taste, he immediately loses a thousand percent." For all his pleasure in scenic presentation as such and his animated occupation with it, Napoleon's spiritual eye remains always directed to the content and structure of the pieces performed as the core and ground of the presentation. In his repeated conversations with Goethe, he has about the style of French tragedy in general and the flaws

about the drama of his time and of the past, some of which have already been cited, others will yet be cited. In all of them he never stopped at barrenly judgmental criticism, but engaged with

the dramatic models positively correcting, reshaping them, and thus confirmed his originally essential connection with the spirit of poetry. He not only altered the lesser works of his time, e.g., the works of Lemercier, himself with the pen, not only restored the pieces to be performed at the Théâtre Français by removing senseless cuts — no, he also undertook detailed attempts at improvement, scene by scene, on the recognized works of the French stage, such as Voltaire's *Mahomet*, which touched him particularly closely; these are preserved for us and at all events prove the imperial redactor to be a more originally poetically disposed ingenium than the great skeptic in dramatic garb. He tried to enlist Goethe in a similar direction regarding Voltaire's work, suggesting to him "to write the *Death of Caesar* in a fully worthy manner, more grandly than Voltaire." Goethe resisted this suggestion, but the poets of his entourage were as little able to do so as to withdraw their own work from the Emperor's influence. As he gave Arnault the plan for his "*Vénitiens*," Esmenard had to rework *Corneille*. Individual of these events lie too far from the area of his political effectiveness for the suspicion to be justified that his participation was caused here by politics. But even where such motives intervene, his original disposition for the poetic always remains significant and recognizable. When he transfers the most festive expression of the Erfurt Congress of Princes to the performances of the Théâtre Français, this, as earlier discussed, is certainly not a mere

that precisely the theater, and not some more obvious object of internal administration, offered itself for this, has its reason in the fact that occupation with the theater procured for him something like a self-liberation from the pressure of the oppressive external fates into the unconfined inner realm of fantasy. Within the framework of his state administration, he devoted a wide measure of personal care to the theater. The reports of two participants in the state council sessions of the Consulate contain long sections on the regulation of the theater system. They show the state importance that Napoleon attributed

to the theaters, a significance that must be treated more closely in its place. Beyond that, however, in the manner in which Napoleon personally takes up theater questions, they reveal his inborn instinct for the factual-essential of the problem and his inner inclination for the institution.

The theater as such, as an institution, satisfies that widest and most general receptiveness in Napoleon for the poetic, which, fed from the elementary forces of his being, his drive for vision, his drive for activity, without having received a spiritual stamp, resonates in his life. But in this effect the power of the theater over Napoleon is not exhausted. It means more and deeper to him. Beyond that general inclination for the poetic, he has need and organ for the innermost force, the definitive expression of the genre. In the theater Napoleon experiences and grasps the fulfillment of his heroic and fateful total person: the power of the tragic. The theater means to him at bottom tragedy.

All genuine poetry is — in contrast to relational poetry, educational poetry, literature — a reshaping of world-material through a creative I; tragedy is its highest and ripest form: reshaping through a heroic I in the heroic measure. Nothing else, however, as was shown at the beginning of this book, is source and element of all

individual of its forces (drive for vision, drive for activity) claimed and set in motion. But in tragedy this whole, the heroic nature realized in Napoleon in the state, finds its perfect and definitive poetic formation. The creative world-force, which in Napoleon himself shoots all possibilities and impulses of poetic creation into state-formation, brings conversely for him, in its poetic embodiment as tragedy, all possibilities of its state expression to apparition. Just as his heroic self-perfection in the state can appear as the execution of a great unified poetic total conception, and he himself conceives his state activity under the image and after the manner of an artistic practice, so on the other hand tragedy seems to him called to present in the perfect poetic work his heroic destiny and that of man in general, and thus to fulfill in

its core a state task in the eminent sense, indeed the state task itself. For for him, as for all great world-creators or world-renewers, for Alexander, for Caesar, for Dante, for Plato, for Goethe, it is essential that the "state" in its ultimate sense means "man" to them, the form of a new human formation, not merely a means to his "moral strengthening." This definitive measure of a "state" poetry in the Platonic sense, that is, a man-creating poetry through the representation of the hero (not merely morally purifying, spiritually enlightening), is realized for him by tragedy. Therefore it becomes for him the indispensable — constantly seized with passion — expression of his active life, which in turn realizes this sense in the state born of poetic intuition and permeated by it. At one of his evening receptions in St. Cloud, he earnestly confesses this view. According to the tradition of St. Helena (partly worn-out concepts

from Napoleon's mouth is only an expression of his immediate state life-feeling, which instinctively opens to him the true sense and content of tragedy, its inborn man-creating force, its state determination. The viewpoints of educational literature, of conventional genre poetry, the aesthetic-formal, the psychological-problematic values are surrendered, but all the more are the elements and goals of unconditional, creatively shaping poetry emphasized: they must have been no less certain and venerable to the great state-former than to any of the great language-formers, and were so. He, the creative statesman, may therefore in other places, without sinning against the poetic spirit, judge the Aeneid, Werther, Mahomet according to military or apparently psychological moments. In truth, this is never an art-foreign material consideration; rather, these lines of thought and standards spring from the uniformly all-sided creative spirit, are only its radiations and unconscious aids, by which the searching and penetrating of the factual givens in the poetic creation is facilitated for him down to the spirit and sense-core embodied in them. Precisely on the fact that great tragedy contains nothing, presupposes nothing but the originally essential being of men and things, which is accessible and

experienceable to every unspoiled man, rests its capacity to seize souls immediately, to inflame them, to raise them beyond their own measure to a higher kind, rests its heroic creative power. If in the utterance just communicated the sentence "tragedy fires the soul, elevates the heart" could, read alone, still be interpreted from the time style in the sense of an ethical-rational educational and purifying tendency, the immediately following "it can and should engender heroes" removes this possibility and gives the sentence its

knows how to kindle in them that unconditional, that heroic humanity which Napoleon wants and needs as a basic constituent of his own creation. That is the ultimate, the supra-political sense of the expression "general staff piece." High poetry, tragedy, strikes deeper than any intellectual representation can, the true, the original image of the perfect man, and can therefore make it creatively effective on contemporaries more immediately — only it alone can do so at all. Napoleon repeatedly clarifies this through a juxtaposition of poetry with history, which he valued so highly. To Goethe he said, according to Talleyrand's report: "A good tragedy must be regarded as the worthiest school of significant men. From a certain point of view it even stands above history. Even with the best history, one produces little effect. The individual man — for himself alone — is only superficially seized; together, men receive stronger and more lasting impressions." If here still a certain share in the effective power of tragedy is ascribed to the more theatrical, the mass-psychological moment, another utterance shows that Napoleon locates its actual significance in its poetic core, the vision and making-visible of unconditional heroism. "For my part, I particularly love tragedy, great, sublime, as Corneille created it. Great men are truer here than in history; one sees them here only in the crises that reveal their being, in the moments of ultimate decision; and one is not overwhelmed with all that preparatory stuff of details and conjectures that historians often falsely give us. Thereby as much is gained for fame; for there are all sorts of wretchednesses in man, all sorts of waverings and doubts; all that must disappear in

the hero. On the monumental statue the frailties and horrors of the flesh are no longer noticeable.

conditionings and scruples of matter, which cannot be captured by the means of the understanding, but can only be found with the inner vision and formed into an image. If there were still need of proof for the artistically-intuitive basic constitution in this ingenuity expressed in the state, none could be produced more forcefully than by the way Napoleon here makes visible the becoming-form of spirit in the art-work of Cellini with the artist's own most intimate means of imagination. As the creative embodiment of human original unity constitutes for Napoleon the actual determination of poetry in contrast to all other forms of representation, it becomes for him the annihilating criterion of the drama of his time, which increasingly dissolves these living original formations through intellectual exposition. The glorification of great tragic poetry just cited passes immediately into lament over its decline in his age: "I could only have wished that our poets could have done this for the heroes of modern times. Why not? Genius has not become smaller since Caesar, but our poets have understood nothing of modern genius, neither of Henry IV nor of Philip the Fair. In the salons of Paris they believed, they said it, that I held it against Raynouard for his 'Templars,' that I resented his having undertaken to save the honor of those warlike, just a little rebellious monks. Certainly not; have I anything like that to fear in our unbelieving age? But I could not forgive him his inactive and declamatory Philip the Fair, who lets himself be led around like a child by two rascally ministers. There lies for me the great fault of this tragedy, which I delivered over to the secular arm of Geoffroy [the feared reviewer]. This is not a matter of politics;

that the motive behind his censures of contemporary literary works is merely momentary political annoyance. They actually have a deeper ground, go straight back to the innermost core of his humanity, his great total person, which, realizing its unified substance heroically-creatively in the state, can allow no other

material and no other kind of realization even for poetic formation. That is the actual, spiritually expressed content of what he describes with the conceptual forms of his time as "healthy historical sense" and "feeling for royal dignity": his essential seeing of things past and the consciousness of his state mission. Highest poetry must bring the originally-undecomposable great, that which forms the state and man, their elementary forces, as he himself sees and creatively forms them, to bodily apparition. Therefore he hates equally an intellectual discussion that talks these forces to death, dissolving them into secondary conditionality — "great kings must be shown on the stage in their greatness" — and even more a drawing of per se conditioned, non-essential figures into the material sphere of great poetry. Where these elements are present, only he himself, as their great present-day bearer, can decide: Charlemagne and Peter the Great, St. Louis, even Philip Augustus are for him unambiguous embodiments of a supra-individual humanity felt by him as original, which he can grasp sensorially as such — not so Cambyzes, whom he can make accessible only by way of intellectual clarification and who therefore can never be made vivid to him through the simply great sensory embodiment of a poem. Philip the Fair he still counts among the first group. In him too he feels that human original power that carries its determination for the great tragic form within it. "The character of Philip the Fair," he says on the evening of the performance

more clearly: "Instead, Raynouard presents him to us as a cold man, a passionless friend of justice, who has no reason to love or hate the Templars, who trembles before an inquisitor, and who seems to demand from the Templars only a formal act of submission and deference." Against this disfiguring belittlement, the feeling of his own personal greatness rebels, which, expressed in the state as dignity, speaks in relation to poetry as heroic vision. He applies similar standards to the antagonists, the Grand Master and the Templar brothers. In them, to be sure, even according to the pure historical tradition, there was not embodied an unambiguous elemental humanity such as Napoleon

admired in Philip. Rather, here too history offered only an inextricable tangle of factual obscurities and psychological possibilities. But precisely there the poet should not have attempted a critical clarification, not have contented himself with a shadowy idealization of problematic psychological states, but should have held fast to the conditions of human action rooted more in man himself than in external circumstances, shown the original nature of these persons in tragic entanglement, and thus fulfilled the actual purpose of tragedy. "This piece," notes the same report, "had seemed to him on the whole very cold, because nothing came from the heart and went to the heart. 'The author,' he said, 'has forgotten that the true aim of tragedy is to shake and move, and has applied himself too much to having an opinion about a fact that will always be shrouded in darkness ... Above all, the author seems to have forgotten a classical fundamental law based on a true knowledge of the human heart: namely that the hero of a tragedy, to awaken sympathy, must be neither completely guilty nor completely innocent.'"

IV. TRAGEDY AND MYTH

can offer highly tragic colorations. The number of those who have the sacred fire is very small in every century ... But what would it have cost the author, among us, to represent young Templars, pious, firm and courageous again in the excess of their misfortune, and full of veneration for the stern hand of Providence that chastised them for having allowed the virtues of their ancestors to decay through the misuse of their power and wealth? All these facts are recognized in history by the accusers and the defenders of the Templars ... Likewise, history offered the author colors sharp enough to give two ministers like Nogaret and Enguerrand a strong and definite facial expression; but he preferred to make two subordinate committee members of them." The demand for a heroic personality-core for the heroes of tragedy is not with him the result of an idealistic worldview, but the product of his own life-feeling: his nature, deeply connected with all that is human, most inwardly certain of its own great kind, does not need to elevate itself ethically-rationally, but to condense itself in all its sensory substance, to press together formfully, to drive forth visibly. That is what makes him seek precisely in poetry — and here again in the creatively shaped drama, not in allegorical or proverbial didactics — the pictorial embodiment of the heroic spirit. And therefore this goal is already missed for him where the poet does not remain in the realm of sensory ideas from which alone the impression of heroic beingness can grow. Only on the ground where the great spiritual powers meet in formed shape and, visible to all eyes, fight out the fate of the world, can human greatness immediately present itself. Thus tragedy is their ownmost domain, they themselves the actual stuff of tragedy. He turns

he is averse to comedy as an artistic genre. In his library there is no work of Molière, and of the complete works of Racine that it contains, his only comedy, "Les Plaideurs," is excluded. He certainly watched the comedies of the day's literature as an amused spectator, indeed in Malmaison once helped to arrange

such performances, e.g., the popular "Gageure imprévue" by Sedaine on the society theater there. But he did this in the evident feeling that these pieces were not subject to the laws of art, but only served the need for entertainment. At the festive performances of the Comédie Française in Dresden in 1813, he had some of these pure entertainment pieces performed, such as Fabre d'Églantine's "Philinte de Molière," Creuzé de Lesser's "Le Secret du ménage," and again that "Gageure imprévue." But neither Molière nor Regnard nor Lesage nor Beaumarchais are represented in the repertoire. On the same level he places novels, which he always values only as a means of relaxation and entertainment, never as actual works of art. About comedies and their greatest master, Molière, he once expressed himself very emphatically. He feels it as an outright insult that one would want to connect him, the man of great state accomplishment, with the tiny problems of bourgeois comedy. "As for comedy," he says to a lady of the court, "it affects me as if one wanted to compel me to interest myself in your salon gossip; I allow your admiration for Molière, but I do not share it; in the framework in which he has placed his characters, it has never occurred to me to observe their actions." On St. Helena, he similarly designates bourgeois comedy as an affair of "femmes de chambres." His judgment becomes even harsher where comedy goes beyond the mere treatment of

mixes the terrible with the burlesque, he said to Goethe: "I am astonished that a great spirit like you does not love the pure style." One sees, what repels him in Shakespeare is not only and not even primarily the apparent lawlessness and arbitrariness of the structure of his tragedies in contrast to the strict lawfulness of French tragedy, but more the mixture of styles, the mixing of tragedy with elements from the opposite side — the bourgeois, the foolish world: it devalues for him its heroic character. Thiers adds to his report the concluding remark: "A profound word, which few of our present-day art critics are capable of comprehending," and thereby shows that even he finds in Napoleon's words more and deeper than the general, for the

French spirit self-evident verdict against the free structure of Shakespeare's dramas. But in these and other violent outbursts of Napoleon against Shakespeare, one must keep in mind that Napoleon did not come to know the poet from an unobjectionable source. He naturally did not read him in the original language, but in that first complete French translation by Letourneur (published from 1776 to 1782), which, according to the judgment of all experts, not only frequently missed the sense in detail, but actually falsified the spiritual apparition of Shakespeare from the ground up. "Without understanding for the naturalness and simplicity of Shakespeare, the translator distorted his being by rhetoric," says Villemain, the significant French art critic from the first half of the last century, of her, and characterizes it outright as "a great misfortune for the poet." Under these circumstances it is not surprising that Napoleon received an inadequate impression of Shakespeare's work and that the essential element of the genius, which would otherwise have seized him powerfully despite all difference of their natures,

saw himself confronted in the translation of a confusing disorder of figures, actions, events, which falls apart incoherently, now to the tragic side, now to the comic, when in truth Shakespeare (entirely according to Napoleon's own claim made elsewhere) precisely masters the abundance of multiform life and binds it into a heroic whole, by which the individual greatness is borne and highlighted. When then this misrecognition of the actual Shakespeare, promoted by the defective translation, entered the framework of his general, politically determined irritation against everything English, of his particular aversion to the Anglomania of French society, then all conditions were given that could call forth such a monstrous word as the following against Shakespeare: "They are smitten with England, upon my word; so it is also with literature. For two hundred years Shakespeare was forgotten even in England; Voltaire, who was in Geneva and saw many Englishmen, wanted to court them and therefore praised this author; it was repeated after him that Shakespeare was the first writer in the world. I have read him; there is nothing that

approaches Corneille and Racine; it is impossible to read one of his plays; they are lamentable." As the factual core from this stubborn feud against Shakespeare, for Napoleon remains only that demand — expressed to Goethe and Wieland — for the "pure style." This demand is not merely an expression and result of the academic culture of France, which was not immediately suited to Napoleon's elemental Italian spiritual constitution, even if he was concerned to maintain it as one of the foundations of the old regime. In the main, this demand rested rather on the closed unity of his personal spiritual disposition, which required thoroughly clean separations

"is only good enough for the gallows. No less inappropriately has he disfigured the great character of Omar, turning him into a melodramatic bandit and a veritable pimp." It comes down to the same thing when on an earlier occasion he reproaches Voltaire for having reinterpreted the great earth- and time-bound being of the Prophet into an educated man of the Enlightenment age, for having, as we would say today, brought him "humanly closer" to his time. Therein also falls a characteristic word about the true humanity of the hero, based on the inner lawfulness of his actions, which does not permit excesses in the bourgeois sense: "Voltaire's tragedies are full of passion, but they do not dig deep in the human mind. For instance, his Mohammed is neither prophet nor Arab. He is an impostor who seems to have been raised at the polytechnical school, for he explains his means of power as I might do in a century like ours. The murder of the father by the son is a useless crime. Great men are never cruel without necessity."

As a fundamental impairment of the heroic measure of tragedy, Napoleon feels its burdening with conventional erotic subplots. They introduce into the great, straight flow of tragic events, as he sees and wants it, a moment of conditionality, of courtly or social taste-culture. They form for him a main point of attack on French tragedy, to which he returns again and again. He criticizes in that Templar drama of Raynouard: "The love of young Marigny is

utterly insignificant and can awaken no sympathy, for one does not get to know its object. This love has not the slightest connection with the action of the play, and the role could remain as it is without this person taking the trouble to inform the public of it."

the deeper reason for this distortion of tragedy in the taste of the time, recognizes how the small conditionings of a late social culture necessarily decompose the heroic basic character of tragic primal creations. On Voltaire's Oedipus he remarks: it forms the most beautiful drama of the French theater. As for the defects of the work, for example the ridiculous love of Philoctetes, one must not blame the poet for them, but the character of the time and the great fashionable actresses who dictated the law. Napoleon, on the other hand, is not inaccessible to the impressiveness of a real passion: it too can be a heroic motive, a source of tragic events and tragic poetry. But it must then as such, as the essential, the actual core of a great existence and fate, be placed in the center of the poem, not added as a merely conventional ornament. "He criticized," reports that St. Helena witness, "the habit of our great poets of inserting a useless love affair into their subjects, which often does not accord with the character of the hero and, instead of increasing sympathy, destroys it. Love, he declared, is a passion that in a dramatic subject may be treated only as the main object and never as a subsidiary matter." Therein lies the actual ground of what he criticizes in Racine's work as "faleur perpétuelle": that here the elementary basic feeling of love, in itself capable of heroic formation, is de-essentialized into a social conventionality and thus no longer capable of inflaming the more vigorous hearts that have come into the world again with the Revolution. To be sure, as before with Voltaire, he here too attributes the main fault to the social conditions and circumstances of the century: "Racine created masterpieces that are perfect in themselves, but nevertheless

tragedy as a literary means of expression and ornament of a social condition has no more significance. One of the ladies of his court, who comes from the old society and has taken over from it the spirit but also the poison into her memories, once tries to defend this kind of tragedy to the Emperor. She appeals to the fact that the so-called "rules" gave order and regularity to dramatic works and would have hindered genius only when it wanted to indulge in aberrations disapproved by good taste. Napoleon retorts sharply: "Ah, good taste, that is also one of those classical words that I do not accept. It is perhaps a fault of mine, but there are certain rules for which I am not receptive. For instance, what one calls style — good or bad — scarcely touches me." Talleyrand confirms it to Napoleon's face: "Good taste is your personal enemy. If you could free yourself from it with cannons, it would have long ceased to exist." Napoleon, entirely of heroic primal stuff, in an age that is again accessible to this, sees tragedy as spirit-become-form of such humanity, as its creative product, but simultaneously also as the generative creative power of such a heroically-incipient condition: as primary — not as secondary-state, as all literature and genre-art is. Goethe, from the other side, out of his immediate knowledge of the poetic, arrives at equally deep recognition of tragic primal power and thereby naturally on the track of the Napoleonic spirit. He says to Eckermann: "A great dramatic poet, if he is at the same time productive and possesses a powerful noble sentiment that permeates all his works, can achieve that the soul of his plays becomes the soul of the people ... From Corneille went forth an effect capable of forming heroic souls."

the total significance that comes to the tragic poet, results from his concluding remark: "A dramatic poet who knows his calling should therefore work unremittingly on his higher development, so that the effect that goes forth from him upon the people may be a beneficial and noble one." The poet must — as he, Goethe himself, has proved it — continually elevate himself toward his total-human, that is, heroic, perfection, in order to fulfill his mission: in and with his work to form heroic substance in the

people. Goethe like Napoleon, as men of originally organic life-constitution, see, notwithstanding all rational forms of expression of the time, the process of this effect entirely as a creative one, which takes place organically-livingly in the blood, in the whole of being (body and spirit) of the people, not as a mechanical one that speaks only didactically to and through the brain. This kind of effect — though here not limited to the dramatic poet, but related to the poetic spirit in general — Napoleon has in mind when in self-ennobling rapture he accords recognition to his unremitting adversary Chateaubriand: "Chateaubriand has received the sacred fire from nature. His works bear witness to it. His style is not that of Racine, it is that of the prophet." — Then more clearly and expressly, emphasizing the immediate state effect of this "feu sacré," this "style du prophète": "He alone in all the world has been able to declare with impunity on the tribune of the peers that the gray coat and hat of Napoleon, hung on the tip of a staff on the coast of Brest, would make Europe run to arms. Possibly Chateaubriand, when he comes to power, will lose his direction. So many others have found their downfall there. But one thing is certain: everything great and national necessarily meets his spirit." For tragic poetry in particular, this the effect of the great tragic poet counts as a state achievement in the original sense: insofar as it aims at the awakening and formation of the heroic element. In its highest apparition, its most perfect unfolding, the tragic poet must therefore be very close to princely measure and being and in any case attain a level of state recognition that gives him a claim to the highest state distinctions. That is the ultimate sense of the honor intended for Corneille. How serious the Emperor is about this, how deeply he is rooted in such a conception, he proved toward the poet's descendants. The poet truly means to him a departed ruler, whose honors and dignities must be preserved at least approximately in his heirs. They propose to him, thinking thereby to satisfy his intention, a pension of three hundred francs each for the needy female descendants of the poet. But Napoleon shows himself outraged: "That is unworthy of one from whom we

would make a king. I am determined to make the eldest of the family a baron with a endowment of ten thousand francs; I will make the eldest of the other line a baron with an endowment of four thousand francs ..." This resolution, extraordinary for today's world-understanding, bridges the rift that has been torn into the original unity of man-forming creatorship, which has separated creation through the deed from creation through the linguistic work, and leads back, with the violent-sensory immediacy of such original creatorship, to the old unity itself. What the contemporary poet gives as a pathetic-idealistic wish-image devoid of sense: "Therefore the singer shall walk with the king, / They both stand on the heights of mankind," Napoleon experiences and creates the sensory reality of it. He is — as Taine says — the brother of Dante and Michelangelo, and this not in the sense of a chance analogy, a psychological

V. POETRY AND POLITICS

of the educational culture of the age, did not notice this deeper significance in Corneille and preferred the representative Racine: "Corneille is a great man. Far from the court, from intrigues, from affairs, he has so to speak intuitively grasped (deviné) the true situation, the position of realms, of peoples and of rulers. When the great Condé heard some piece of Corneille — I believe it was 'Sertorius' — he cried out: 'Where did Corneille learn the art of war?' And I for my part declare: to appreciate him properly, one would need a parterre composed of kings, ministers, and high officials as listeners to his beautiful tragedies." According to another report, this glorification sounds even more definitive, going so far as to proclaim Corneille — strangely for us — as a creative genius of antique measure: "Corneille understood the art of war out of himself: for whence should he have learned it, and yet he understood it! His state basic ideas are all of immense scope, and none is from his epoch. They are not the intrigues of Mazarin, not the cruelties of Richelieu, they are antique greatness. Where did he get this? From himself, from his soul. Good. Do you know what that is called, Cardinal? It is genius, And genius, you see, is a flame fallen from heaven, but which rarely finds a head ready to receive it." Because Corneille — in Napoleon's opinion — takes the image of the world from his own interior, does not re-form already formed images of the world, does not merely stamp a decorative state and society expression like Racine, therefore he is for him of the same kind as those who form their own selves in the state, the princes and statesmen, and has only in them his wholly fitting auditorium: a circle that Napoleon as vividly awakens to living existence as he preserves the name and honor of the poet

mythical through their deeds, creators of their race and boasting divine origin."

To present-day artistic sense it may seem astonishing that for Napoleon an original and creative world-vision could be revealed

in French tragedy — even if only in Corneille. We see in it precisely a derived, a temporally literary form of this vision, the state-courtly socialized exercise of once creative doing: the genre. Even Corneille rises above this for our eye not in essence but only in degree, as a stronger talent that succeeds in bringing the genre somewhat closer to the creative primal givens, lending it an appearance of primary form and color. In essence he too belongs in the series of secondary literature, of the declamation theater, to which Napoleon with full consciousness assigns Racine. But Napoleon saw here, as already pointed out, an essential difference: "He tolerated Racine, but he admired, he loved Corneille." In Racine the seemingly rhetorical character presses upon him so strongly that he cannot see in him the inwardly certain primal power of the tragic. "I find him bombastic, your Racine," he says in the just-mentioned conversation with Maury, "with all his love scenes. For he needs a love story in his plays as actors need a prompter. Only young people can love Racine." Right after that, Racine is for him the "poète de femmes," the ladies' poet, while Corneille "is a man who knew the world." "How should he have come to know it? He saw no one," asks his partner with astonishing naivety, whereupon the Emperor — as the report continues — looks at him with a kind of disdain, as if he were judging him correctly for the first time at this moment, and declares: "That is precisely why I maintain that he is a great man." (And now follows

himself forces him to accept the fulfillment of this demand in the presently existing forms, in the highest model that the genre (become literature) offers him instead of the primal type. Added to this is the fact that this genre — French tragedy — contains a particular temptation for him, in that it demonstrates state spirit, which in the original sense it neither represents nor produces, all the more emphatically and unambiguously as ordinance. It is the most penetrating attestation of great state sentiment and to that extent the more significant for Napoleon's actual state accomplishment and the more immediately suited to him, as it is immediately usable in contrast to the heroic primal spirit, which

must first create man, the state element. Thus Corneille means to him the most perfect poetic organ of the state spirit, and, since he is at least wafted by the pathos of genuine heroic spirit, beyond that precisely the tragic-heroic poet in the actual sense. But the lesser specimens of the genre — and in times when his elemental spirit pierces through the state-bound one, this also holds for the genre in general — do not conceal from him what essential difference separates French national tragedy from creative poetry. In his remarks on a proposal for the establishment of a special literature and history class at the Collège de France, he says: "The talent to create is in literature, as in music and painting, a personal gift. In these creations of the spirit or of genius, the spirit or genius achieves its greatest success immediately and through itself. We have not surpassed the Greeks either in tragedy or in comedy or in epic poetry: for still they are our models." Too deep, too instinctive is the sense for the creative primal forms inborn in him for him to overlook definitively the constricted narrowness of the French court drama

"Truth" does not mean the reproduction of a "naturalistic," of a surface reality, not the contrast of realistic to idealistic representation, but the deeper and definitive reality of unconditional and original human being. This conception is confirmed both by the whole context in which the remark occurs, and also by further utterances of Napoleon himself. Goethe here opposes the "naivety of the Greeks" as an immediate contrast to the "faibles" of the French theater so well known to Napoleon, and leaves no obscurity about the fact that the Emperor's demand was directed toward that. (Cf. Biedermann, *Goethes Gespräche*, Vol. I, p. 547, and here in the following pp. 442-3.) For emphatic proof of this he can rightly appeal to a word of the Emperor himself to Talma: "I would like to see a piece of Sophocles in a word-for-word translation." The "naivety of the Greeks" does not mean some particular capacity for natural representation or even conception, but a most general total way of being: their original sensuality, their elemental bodyliness. By

virtue of this, they grasp the world in its symbolic primal states and primal apparitions, inaccessible to the interpreting intellect: the forces of the world in their divine primal forms, and shape them into their eternal tragic and plastic works. In their nature-immediate abundance and strength lies their deepest effect: "The Emperor," says the St. Helena report, "has read the Agamemnon of Aeschylus and admired very much the union of utmost strength and simplicity." Not a distinguishing beauty of form, but the creative basic element determines his estimation. During a reading from the Odyssey on St. Helena, he is above all seized and overwhelmed by the traits of elementary emotional movement: "The details of Odysseus' return, the recognition scene with the nurse, brought tears to his

authors say, spent his life in the schools of Chios. When one reads the Aeneid, one notices that the work is made by a schoolmaster who has never done anything... The third book is entirely a copy of the Odyssey; and in the fourth book the narrative is not in Homer's manner, where all days are marked, where all actions have their beginning, their middle and their end, and are not compressed into a general report." There is perfect poetry, as there is perfect statecraft, where the inborn knowledge of the givens, of the "nature des choses," lies at the bottom. Poetry is for him only the other apparitional form of his unified creativity, which in him is expressed in the state. Even where he venerates Corneille — wholly rooted in the state — as the perfect tragic poet, he locates his actual strength, as shown before, in this natural knowledge of the foundations of what he likewise naturally masters as statesman. He praised of him: "Far from the court, from intrigues, from affairs, he has so to speak intuitively grasped the true situation, the position of realms, of peoples and of rulers." "He grasped policy from within and, had he been trained in state affairs, would have become a statesman." This creative foundational insight is what Goethe praises as "nature" and "truth," as the "naivety" of the ancient theater. Precisely from this, however, French tragedy as a genre departs, in that it does not from its own being of its folk create the symbol

appropriate to it, but has made a foreign, inherited one — namely that of the Greeks — into the bearer of certain reflections of its state-arrested consciousness. Napoleon says it expressly: "In French tragedy there reigns a great emptiness; so far tragedy on our stage — except for a few rare attempts — has remained Greek or Roman." Instead of from the elementary givens, the primal substances

of the French theater had fought for: an unfolding that strove to realize precisely that watchword "Nature and Truth" and precisely that "Naivety of the Greeks" which Napoleon along with Goethe felt as the deepest contrast to French tragedy. To be sure, it cannot be overlooked that Napoleon rejected the arbitrary breaches of that stricter art principle of the unities, which were not grounded in any new life-law, just as he himself strove for its organic renewal. Apart from the fact that he possessed a natural respect for everything that has become and once proved itself, which French tragedy as an organ of the French state spirit claimed particularly, he felt more than the uncreative dramatists of mere literature the living primal force that once had generated this law as well. Against Constant's romanticizing tragedy "Walstein" he has, again not unlike Goethe, turned the weapons of his criticism: "Benjamin Constant has written a tragedy and a poetics. These sorts of people want to write and have not studied the rudiments of literature. They should first read the poetics, especially Aristotle's. Not arbitrarily does tragedy limit the action to twenty-four hours, but because it seizes the passions at their peak, at the level of their most concentrated force, where they can tolerate neither distractions nor long duration. He wants people to eat during the action. That is precisely the point! When the action begins, the actors are in excitement; by the third act they are in a sweat, by the last they are bathed in it." If Napoleon in that utterance cited by Goethe to Talma expresses the desire to see a piece of Sophocles in a word-for-word translation, this is quite obviously again only based on the hope of being able to recover the image of the original type in contrast to the corrupted off-form of the French theater.

would satisfy the Emperor: "It would be possible to present him the same subjects (of the French theater) in a different treatment, approximating more closely the naivety of the Greeks. But this nation must not be forced out of the forms once determined." That means: one cannot make the basic content of Greek tragedy usable by casting it into forms alien to its being. What one can do is only to renew this type in its own forms. He sets this as a goal. "One should much rather set up the theater firmly in the Greek manner, so that all dispute about the unity of place would end." From this he promises: "There is still much, very much that one could offer the Emperor even in this limited form." And he is certain, with this conception and goal-setting, to hit the intention of the Emperor, for which he cites as evidence that utterance to Talma. Precisely because from his own creativity he grasps the eternal effect of Greek tragedy in its unique originality, i.e., in the "nature and truth" of its formations, and the flawedness of French tragedy in its deviation from this basic law of all creation, he cannot want to repeat the foreign primal image on the native stage. He wants to preserve the inborn conditions of creative poetry as much as possible, in order to partake of its most proper, untransferable effects. From this he hopes not for a fertilization of the rigid forms of the native stage — precisely their impossibility becomes evident to him from the native growth of ancient tragedy. He knows that great tragic, like every other creation, grows only from its own seed, from the heroic-tragic beingness of the folk-whole. Not even the Greeks can directly form such a seed in a foreign folk or even merely promote its growth. They only show how it forms itself. From the creative abundance of his own, in its elemental force

of a formative kind to be generated on one's own native soil, that its immortal element be only the myth in which it has embodied this first-time revelation (which he then re-forms in his own stock and blood) — so to the primal spirit Napoleon, from the tragedy of the ancients, ascends the sunken secret of the folk-forming, hero-engendering power of their eternal myth. After he has, in that previously communicated utterance, lamented the essential

emptiness, the imitative poverty of the French stage, he asks: "This emptiness, whence does it come?" and answers himself: "From the total lack of a significant thought in the dramatic action, or if you prefer — a hidden driving force that sets everything in motion." If after the first half-sentence it could still seem that he, from the spiritual constitution of his time, missed a literary-dramaturgical element, the second half-sentence, which beyond the educational language of the epoch indicates the sensorially graspable image of a creative process, shows that the Emperor means something more essential, the secret primal force of everything tragic. Attic tragedy shows him the direction and kind of this force: "The ancients had fate, to which even their gods were subject, and this intermingling was quite natural, since the events of their dramas were woven together with their religion." The tragedy of the Greeks is the expression of their cultic life-constitution, the outflow of a final supersensory power, of a law of fate that governs even the gods themselves and which they at bottom only formfully symbolize. And like one of the great interpreters of history of the nineteenth century — a Taine, Burckhardt, Nietzsche — he already grasps the fall of this driving elementary power in the de-Christianized world, its cause and its consequence for poetry. Art and cult have fallen apart. The symbolic expression of life, the theater of the Emperor would have "art"

and gripping spiritual power must be found that would mean for the new tragedy what the fate-myth meant for the old. This power he now sees in "politics." "One must seek elsewhere: in default of religion, take refuge in politics. Yes, in modern drama it must replace fate." For Napoleon, politics was precisely no mere thought-, but his actual creator-, an immediate life-power. For him, as he says to Goethe, politics is fate — a word that Goethe in one of his last conversations makes his own, as he also at that time conceives the tragic fate-idea of the Greeks, its meaning and validity, in complete agreement with Napoleon. Politics, the great state-necessity as fate, becomes for Napoleon, out of his actual state action and experience, an innermost article

of faith, an innermost law of his new world-order. It is as characteristic for his universal ingenuity as it is strange for our partially developed way of seeing that, in the midst of the greatest military actions, indeed precisely at the turning points of state destinies and decisions, this sentence again and again enters his thoughts and occupies them. On the eve of Austerlitz — after he has just dictated the famous stirring proclamation to his army — at table in the Moravian hut, to the astonishment of the whole general staff around him, following a casual remark by Junot he comes to speak of Raynouard's *Templar* drama, and immediately that sentence stands in the midst of the discussion: "Today, when the magic of pagan religion no longer exists, our tragic stage needs another impetus. Politics must be the great driving force of modern tragedy. It is what on our theater must replace the ancient fate, that fate which makes Oedipus a criminal without his being guilty, which inspires us with sympathy for Phaedra,

moderated by necessity and that a new and constant sympathy would develop." A year later, in the snowfields of Russia on the last day of the year, the same train of thought and again in connection with Raynouard's drama, this time even in an official letter to his police minister, set forth with the brevity of a fixed ordinance of state significance: "Raynouard is very capable of making good things if he truly penetrates the true spirit of ancient tragedy. Fate pursues the Atridae, and the heroes are guilty without being criminals; they participated in the crimes of the gods. In modern history this means cannot be applied; what must be applied is the nature of things: that is, politics, which without real crimes leads to collapses." State necessity as inexorable law, as insuperable power of life, has in his present realm, indeed in his person, in which the idea of this realm embodies itself for all the world, won that impressive visibility that could intensify it into symbolic expression, into myth. In his eye and in his mouth it was monstrous truth: politics not a calculation, but spiritual creation upon the world and thus source and driving force of a new myth. But only in his eye and mouth,

which as mirror radiated his own existence outward. Only in him himself, only through him himself, only insofar and as long as it experienced this overpowering rounding from a conceptual complex into a living body in him, was statecraft also state, world necessity. He believed in it to recognize a general world-forming force of the new ages, while it was that only in and through his person. This error he wanted to establish as a binding law for the world. But politics is for the new world not, even through him, the fa

supra-temporal personality has contributed to the arising of the new sensory expression of the world-soul, has formed the germ-form of the new myth. The Christian symbol is no longer this expression; since the sixteenth century given over to continual decomposition, it has in the nineteenth century definitively lost this sense-powerful life-force. No extra-mundane, no superterrestrial symbol announces itself today: no life-apparition of the spirit projected into a beyond, removed. Rather, man himself, the immediate earthly body-visibility of the spirit, steps as his sensory expression, as sensory version of the world-soul, as the new myth into the center of the world. As little as the germ of this myth has formed in the aged French blood and soil, but rather in the European primal stuff of an untouched constituent of the old folk-hearth on the Mediterranean, so little has it experienced its unfolding in that blood and soil, but rather in another originally preserved part of European earth: the northern, German, which, despite much difference, in two mighty and myth-creating elements — spirit and language — proves a strange essential kinship with the old, southern formers of the European primal myth, the Greeks. According to this special disposition and stage of development, the unfolding of the new myth has shifted here from the realm of creative deed, in which it took its origin, into that of the creative word. Taken up by the mighty poetic movement in Germany at the beginning of the nineteenth century and nourished with new world-images, with new means of human expression, it has gradually, beneath the surface of a slack literary operation, grown into the figure of a

spiritual former and leader who dominates the German present. From him, from his symbolizing eye, all being and having of past world has taken on new form and color: Plato, S

the testimony with which, in assimilation to Alexander, he claims for himself the sonship of God. But this word also contains in its core why he could not himself create the new myth. He realized the new myth, but could not yet perceive it himself and therefore could not make it visible for his contemporaries in his person. He still had to represent it to himself in the ideas, the images of the old world: hence Alexander, Jupiter and the triune God. Myth is the spiritual power of life raised into sensory consciousness, become image. It becomes that not already through a mere new embodiment, but through an inner eye, formed at this embodiment, that gathers the spiritual vision of generations and radiates it as a fixed outline, the mouth that proclaims this vision and stamps it into a word-image. Not the Greek heroes, but Homer; not Christ, but the Gospels established the Greek, the Christian myth. Not the heroic man of the new age, but only the seer poet, in whose eye his existence had become form, in whose mouth it had become sound, could create the myth of the new age. But that Napoleon could not become. He stands in the event of the epoch, is the man of immediately realized energies, not a world-shaper through reshaping of the human countenance as Homer and Plato, Dante and Shakespeare were. Of this power of poetry and its becoming, at least a dark intimation seems to have touched Napoleon's conception, within the measure and framework of the concepts of his time. On a report from his interior minister about measures for the promotion of literature, he replies (1807 in Finkenstein): "Poetry is a child of society: only society, by renewing itself through public peace and welfare, can lead poets back to good taste, to that pleasing kind

of the renewal of the folk-whole, the word about their "renewal" furnishes proof: it can only designate the organic reshaping of the folk-whole. In this context, then, "the pleasing kind and highest grace," to which society is to lead the poets back, does

not signify artificial perfections of an educational poetry, but original values of genuine poetry (just as Goethe designates the original capacity of the creative artist with the word "facility"). In those concepts that expressed the highest art judgment of his socialized time, there floated before him the eternal models of earlier poetry, in which he measured elemental creativity according to his own kind (beyond his time), even if he could not express it in our words (cf. above pp. 438f.). But our strengthened and expanded linguistic form must not seduce us into always assuming a lesser cognitive capacity behind the for us devalued language forms of an earlier epoch.

NAPOLEON felt the necessity of the mythical element for tragic poetry, of a new myth for the French, without this conception having yet grown to living clarity for him as for us today. Thus he also did not see that only a new heroic humanity, which had to mature and to which he himself contributed the stuff, could produce this element. Rather, following his drive toward the immediately present, he believes it already given in his state-creation or its spiritual ground-power. This he calls "politics," a word indeed much too narrow for what he comprehends under it. It plays an innermost life-fact, the core-formation of a new reality, over into the field of spiritual skills. "Politics" has always only denoted state handcraft and the correspondingly limited capacities

To be sure, he himself also — similarly as toward religion in church policy — in his immediate state activity exercised an influence on drama and theater that was not limited to the assertion of politics in this deepened, spiritualized sense. He deviated from this to the application of its primitive handcraft apparatus. Just as his passionate self-realization drive makes him incapable of forming a new tragic myth himself poetically, or of awaiting its unfolding in a new human type, but rather drives him to introduce his state-expressed self in the idea of "politics" as a new mythical element into poetry, so it also prevents him from leaving this germ, which he himself had willed, to its organic

development, from awaiting its effect on poetry. This impatience of the creative doer, who wants to get to his work, is reflected in that strange letter from Russia to his police minister about Raynouard's "Templars." There — in the midst of the military-political actions that keep him breathless — he sets forth how politics constitutes the spirit of the new tragedy, its misrecognition the basic defect of that drama. But suddenly he breaks off roughly and with unconcealed abandonment of the subject: "It would take time to develop this thought, and you understand that I have other things to think about" — a turn that recalls that significant word to Roederer: "All the tragedies of the world could lie on one side and inventory lists on the other, I would not even look at the tragedy." But if the unremitting tension in deed and work does not grant him to form the new tragic law intellectually, still less does it grant him to let it ripen quietly as a growing life-power around him. He wanted to see "politics" as life-element, as driving force of tragedy, immediately effective, and proceeded to

that paralyze it. As soon as his creative will no longer speaks through them and communicates to them its own immediacy of being, the institution gains its independence in her, its functions work on soullessly and violently. Instead of contenting himself with nourishing through his person and apparition a new human substance as bearer of a new myth, so that one day in later poetry it might grow into form with him, he insists on seeing his currently state person glorified in the existing forms, in the inherited tragedy, takes the nearest given but derived and intellectually thinned expression of his heroic apparition for its actual and definitive one, contents himself with the image of a Louis XIV where he could be certain of becoming the figure of an Alexander. That in all this he was not blind to the genuine power of myth, the power of poetic glorification, which he gave up, is testified by the word that one day he addressed to Joseph: "I would like to be my own posterity and experience what a poet of the kind of the great Corneille will have me feel, do, and say."

In his judgments about earlier French tragedy, in the choice of pieces for certain performances important to him, the starting point of this development is still recognizable. There the political moment is still determined by personal experience, seems the immediate expression of his own heroic existence. He believes he recognizes Corneille's greatness more correctly than others because he measures him not with the merely literary yardstick, but with the eye of the statesman, that is, by a lived, immediate, sensory reality, not by its poetic fictions. "Politics" here represents for him the state-heroic as opposed to the sentimental-human world. He says: "Corneille ... grasped policy from within and, had he been trained in state affairs,

appeared. One must always speak this verse so that, among all who hear it, there is only one who is deceived: Cinna." That means: as in all poetry, so also in Cinna, this tragedy so strangely representative for him, the deepest sense opens to him through a going back to its material, its actual, state content. This in itself, not the particular kind of its application — "dissimulation," "calculation" — is what is important for him. The word "calcul" must not be misinterpreted. It is, as already explained on another occasion, the expression of a conceptualized time-culture for any purposeful action. Certainly Napoleon would have found it rather laughably presumptuous than great, had a tragedy wanted to teach him the application and use of political handcraft. What struck him, struck him not intellectually, but — as his report shows — suddenly as an experience in the middle of a performance, was the immediate political action that this "calcul" realized: that a moment of supra-personal, of state, of world significance instead of a private-human one determined the action, a state actor instead of a dramatic raisonneur stood on the stage and enlarged this from a mere show- to a world-stage. There he found the true face of Augustus again, as he was accustomed to see it as the astonishingly pre-lived symbol of his own existence. And this "nature-authenticity" of its representation makes tragedy great for him. That he could grasp a political man from the depth and abundance of his being and

form him in it, not that he could grasp and expound the maxims of political knowledge, raised its poet above all others. And only the turn to the fundamental, to the general, which Napoleon gives to the formulation of his impression — that without "politics" as basis, "clémence" is a miserable little virtue, and the actor of

is contemptible. It is important not to let him speak with inner conviction." This instruction to the actor of Caesar sounds almost like a self-confession, an allusion to his own past. Here the political is more material than goal and task of poetry: it serves to present on the stage the state man, as Napoleon himself lives and experiences him and therefore considers him "true." This means less a political influence on poetry than its opposite: its inner refreshment by the state factual content, which precisely political handcraft tricks resist revealing. From the living impression of his existence and effect, not from a political purpose-idea, there arise for Napoleon and with him for all the people the main pieces of the national tragedy in their immediate reference to his rule, they work indeed as its justification and proclamation. All those sententiously colored glorifications of state-seen human greatness and dignity with which this tragedy is filled, run of themselves toward his apparition as their goal. Without effort, indeed without being able to resist, one gives them the sense they seem to contain precisely for his person. On the occasion of the Consulta in Lyon in 1802, Voltaire's *Mérope* is performed for him at the local theater. When the verse falls: "Le premier qui fut roi, fut un soldat heureux," all eyes, all hands are torn toward Napoleon's box. A storm of applause breaks out, which hurts Napoleon more than it satisfies. He immediately feels, and all the more through this applause, the sentence as his ownmost affair. But here, in contrast to Corneille's representation of rulerly greatness, he sees this greatness, which he himself presents, exposed and degraded before the public in a fateful misunderstanding. It certainly happens in a broader sense not without political

of the displacement of poetry into politics only to the impression it had already assumed under the compelling power of his apparition in all eyes. Similarly are to be understood the prohibitions that during the time of the Moreau trial were issued against a series of dramatic performances. Besides *Phèdre*, almost everything was objected to, and even in this drama many passages were suppressed. Here too the immediate relation to the dangerous situation of the state, which soon offered the public welcome occasion for loud partisanship, forced political intervention. Here too, therefore, in the last resort he himself, his being and work embodied in the state, not a systematic program, is point of departure and impulse of the state measures against poetry. Similarly, it is not system, frozen expression of a state convention, but a command of the personal state-creation in the process of living formation, that leads him to prohibit Duval's tragedy "*Edouard en Écosse*." The Royalists sought and easily found connections of the unfortunate English prince with the fate of the Bourbons and used them for noisy demonstrations. Napoleon, who was advised to forbid the play, seemed at first entirely captured by the poetic, the human content of the drama. Only when also in his presence significant applause in the sense of royalist propaganda underscored the connection with the present did he proceed to prohibition. But even on this occasion it becomes very clear that for Napoleon it was not yet a matter of a fundamental regulation of poetry, but of combating the state-attack material contained in this piece itself: "There you see the ministers, they allow political pieces to be performed without consulting the government's view. Nothing like that has ever happened, even in the calmest times. Afterwards they say it was I who had such pieces played

in the last analysis a revival and re-formation of the heroic being in man. And what was French tragedy, especially the classical, other than the unceasing, if more or less rhetorical, utterance of this great humanity and its destinies in a state turn? Thus it had inevitably to recall — with almost each of its pieces one of his actions, one of his traits of being, with some his whole wonderful

history and apparition before the stricken eyes of the multitude — thereby an effect on the folk-spirit and on the state itself was given. If Napoleon then reacted to this political content of tragedy in one way or another, using or suppressing it, this is not yet actually a political stance toward poetry, but only the immediate utterance of his elemental state-spirit upon the poetic occasion challenging him. Similarly, it is more the living consciousness of the state-heroic significance of his person and its expression in tragedy than calculated political handcraft that determines the selection of pieces at the great scenic presentation of his power at Erfurt. Corresponding to this is the surprisingly immediate effect that these produce externally. The impression of the oneness of the hero in the parterre with that on the stage is so overwhelming, so compelling, as no merely clever arrangement could have produced. It rests not merely on the ambiguous allusions that could have been artificially referred to Napoleon or also to another, as was always the practice in the theater of the 18th and 19th centuries, but on the fact that his substance, his total soul-bearing is embodied in these dramas. His person, his life, his actions possess that unconditionality, that definitiveness in present state expression, as on the stage

had wanted to appeal to total state obligation. In their ownmost existence they had to feel themselves — he emphasizes vividly — struck and shaken when the actor Lafont with somber voice hurled at them the words from "Mahomet": "Vois l'empire romain tombant de toutes parts, / Ce grand corps déchiré dont les membres épars / Languissent dispersés sans honneur et sans vie, / Sur ces débris du monde élevons l'Arabie. / Il faut un nouveau culte, il faut de nouveaux fers, / Il faut un nouveau Dieu pour l'aveugle Univers." Talleyrand finds his conception of Napoleon's motives confirmed by an instruction that Talma received from Napoleon for his role in Iphigénie. It concerned the passage: "L'honneur parle, il suffit, ce sont là nos oracles. / Les dieux sont de nos jours les maîtres souverains. / Mais, seigneur, notre gloire est dans nos propres mains, / Pourquoi nous tourmenter de leurs ordres suprêmes? / Ne songeons qu'à nous

rendre immortels comme eux-mêmes, / Et laissant faire au sort,
courons où la valeur / Nous promet un destin aussi grand que le
leur." The Emperor wished Talma to speak these verses slowly
and distinctly. In them, for Napoleon, the actual sense and
content of state-heroic existence is concentrated. Therefore, the
awakening of this spark in men, their formation into bearers of
his state-creation, not particular practical state goals that he
wants to make acceptable to them, is what concerns Napoleon
here. To be sure, this highest state meaning of the new hero
presents itself poetically in definite graspable deeds and destinies
of the earlier age. "In the pieces taken from history whose
performance he had ordered," Talleyrand notes, "the politics of
one or another principal character always recalled related
circumstances that daily presented themselves since he had
appeared on the throne of the world." But this does not yet mean
that Napoleon

VI. VISUAL ARTS

he himself experienced these poems, so he experienced himself in them; that seemed to him to a certain degree their actual sense, which he thus wanted to have experienced and grasped by his contemporaries as well. With this, to be sure, the ground of purely poetic appreciation is abandoned, and strictly speaking a poetry-alien, indeed "political" stance is already given; but this kind of political stance is at least still not the result of a petrified political system, of impersonal reason of state, but is inspired by a power equal to poetry: the living state-spirit of Napoleon. The listeners certainly held, as was indeed intended, first to the visible details of the dramatic event, which coincided surprisingly with what they had before their eyes in life, and from there drew their applications for the particular and nearest. "This gave," Talleyrand continues at the just-cited place, "occasion for a wealth of flattering applications. Mithridates' hatred of the Romans recalled Napoleon's hatred of England." But the agreement of details also made them certain of the agreement in the heroic measure of greatness of the figures, and they felt themselves, in the contemplation of the ancient hero, irresistibly carried away to belief in the present one: "At those verses: 'Je sais tous les chemins par où je dois passer,' they repeated around him in low voice: Yes, he knows all the ways one must go, beware, he knows them all." Even more spellbinding must this impression have been at the performance of "La Mort de César." Talleyrand says: "They even showed themselves eager to make a movement of applause when St. Prix, speaking of Sylla, said with wonderful expression: 'Il en [Rom] était l'effroi, j'en serai les délices.'" And Chancellor Müller, entirely unsuspected of excessive bias for the Emperor, gives — on the occasion of a few days later in Weimar

of the helmsman in the sense of a higher destiny. From the stream of their everyday experience, in which it flowed past as a multitude of deeds alongside other deeds, it grew in the poem, in the figure of the stage, to the greatness of an image that

embodied a meaning reaching beyond the day, made Napoleon into a figure in the souls of the spectators. Sometimes this effect emanating from the stage, the correspondence of represented and present hero, was so immediate that applause was felt as shamelessly improper and was suppressed. Napoleon himself felt Voltaire's Mahomet as an extraordinary poetic illustration of his person: he believed he saw himself on the stage and took his own being as the measure for judging this work: "The piece of his choice," says Talleyrand, "the one that best represented the causes and the source of his power, was Mahomet, since he believed he filled the stage here from one end to the other." This also penetrated the listeners quite immediately. "Right from the first act," says Talleyrand, "at the passage: 'Les mortels sont égaux, ce n'est pas la naissance, / C'est la seule vertu qui fait la différence. / Il est de ces esprits favorisés des cieux / Qui sont tout par eux-mêmes et rien par leurs aïeux, / Tel est l'homme, en un mot, que j'ai choisi pour maître; / Lui seul dans l'univers a mérité de l'être; / Tout mortel à ses lois doit un jour obéir' — the eyes of the whole hall were fixed on him; one heard the actors and looked at him." As before a personal presence of the head of state within the frame of the stage, one held breath and applause back. "There," reports the same observer further, "awe stifled the applause that at the verse: 'Qui l'a fait roi? Qui l'a couronné? La victoire' pressed to break out." And this was not the result of courtly constraint, but of living emotion at the reappearance

But he still leaves it at a perhaps. The general silence of immediate impact convinces too deeply — more than loud applause — that Napoleon, despite all prejudice against him, had unwittingly assumed in the souls of the spectators the figure of the peacemaker of the world in the heroic measure of tragedy.

It cannot and should not be denied that this effect of the representation of Napoleon was also intended. It may be quite accurate when Talleyrand adds: "At this last verse Napoleon showed a skillful movement, which made clear that he wanted the explanation of his whole life to be found here." But this

movement means something other than the spiteful Talleyrand would have it: not, as corresponded to his own intellectually working nature, a skillfully calculated gesture to produce a certain particular political effect on the listeners, but an elemental utterance of being, a passionate Yes to his total image condensed on the stage, as he himself saw it, the image of the creative doer who proceeds through war and conquest to world-formation, to world-pacification. This is, if one will, "politics," but politics still as experience, not as system, and precisely for this reason, because of the magnificent authenticity and spontaneity of the utterance, did not fail to have its effect on that one among the princely spectators who, Napoleon's actual antagonist, still had enough of great-human, if more romantically flickering than heroically glowing fire in him: the young Alexander of Russia. Various reports convey the extraordinary impression produced when, at the verse of Oedipus: "L'amitié d'un grand homme est un bienfait des dieux," Alexander suddenly turned to Napoleon sitting next to him and gave him his hand with the utmost grace. "As if he wanted to say: 'I count on yours,'" adds a

of crowned heads for producing a desired impression on the peoples. It was rather entirely and actually the spontaneous effect of the scenic experience that led Alexander to the attention-arousing demonstration. Even Talleyrand, the most initiated, is completely surprised by the incident and must inform himself through detailed questioning of Napoleon about the immense scope that it seemed to open to him. Nevertheless, it would again be foolish to want to deny this in itself spontaneous effect its basis in Napoleon's overall political intention. It lay entirely in Napoleon's will to make the soul of his most distinguished guest — for whose sake the whole assembly of princes had been mainly convened — receptive to the heroic-state core of his person and his work through an inspiring presentation of its great basic forms on the tragic stage. But this intention, in the widest and highest sense thoroughly political, arose here, as must be constantly stressed, from his own experience of his mission in the tragic-heroic pre-figures: as a

reflex effect, as it were, not as an external purposefulness attached to them. Precisely for that reason it could and had to work with the same original freshness as on himself on that most inflammable and at the same time most significant of his guests, especially at the decisive point — precisely in that verse of Voltaire's where the entire present state negotiations seemed to summarize themselves symbolically on the stage as in a focal point.

But indeed it does not remain in the long run with this kind of "political" influence on poetry; "politics" does not remain the spiritual element with which Napoleon, from a creative experience, wants to fertilize tragedy. Politics later steps forth as an independently become state means in the conventional, conceptual sense, as application of determined

Also poetry, the theater, becomes there from the lived expression of his creative person a mere member of the state apparatus, one of the many means with which he maintains the schematic structure of his creation, his governmental order. The care that Napoleon as Consul and Emperor devoted to the theater goes apparently from its significance as a state institution, is mainly political measure. Let one read about it the sections in the memoirs that two of his state councilors have left from the deliberations of this body during the Consulate. He tried to set quotas for the theaters, to limit their number to a state-recognized need, fixed them for Paris at twelve, for provincial towns at two or one. In this he concerned himself in Paris with their distribution among the individual districts, and indeed from the point of view "that they could do no harm to each other": a regulation that seeks to unite state-police with economic considerations, but moves far from the actual artistic foundations of the theater. His stance on this problem characterizes the harsh justification with which he rejects the payment of compensation to the owners of the suppressed theaters: "I do not hold the government obliged to compensate theaters that are abolished or relocated; it is enough to have to pay twelve hundred thousand

francs annually for the theaters; it shall not be said of me that I take the people's money for comedians." He here sees entirely with the eyes of the responsible official, the theater in its everyday significance as an institution for satisfying a need for entertainment, not with those of the state-creator in the great state-formative task that he sometimes ascribes to it, and accordingly does not consider himself obliged to expenditures from the people's wealth "for comedians."

felt himself as a superior official even toward the actors is evident from the reprimands he occasionally gave them. Like Goethe, the intrigues of the actors, an apparently necessary life-element of stage folk, also give him trouble. But he cuts them short with decisive authoritative pronouncement. When the actors one day complain about the defective state of machinery and decorations, he threatens to give them an officer as superior who would nip every discontent in the bud. To secure the Théâtre Français its fame as the first stage of France, indeed of Europe, even for the future, he also provides for its successors by attaching the Conservatory to it: and its constitution too comes from his hand and testifies how uniformly this great state-spirit penetrated even the most remote veins of the state body. As a member of his petrified political system, Napoleon held the theaters, like other state institutions, under his permanent supervision. Here too the parallel to his treatment of the ecclesiastical spiritual power presses itself. Every four months the theaters had to submit their repertoire and submit to his hand the corrections of their conduct. All these endeavors and measures stand only in a remote connection with the creative center of the Napoleonic spirit. They can hardly still be explained, like the otherwise established efforts of the Emperor for the theater, from his need to call his own creative experience to poetic presence and effect. They rather form a link in that chain of revivals of the monarchical state form, in which the living Napoleonic state structure threatens to petrify. Instead of the personal heroic state kernel, from which those efforts sprang

and to which they were directed, it is here a matter of national sentiment as bearer of the state system

to use this means of his rule, this means that with him ultimately grew from his great disposition and served it, has become system for every smallest, lingering legitimacy. Value and significance of poetry, for which precisely Napoleon, by virtue of his immanently poetic nature, was always receptive, had here lost their validity. They were not decisive for the political treatment of the theater, either positively or negatively. The poetic inferiority of a play did not stand in the way of its political promotion, nor its excellence of its objection. And even where his political intentions coincided with his personal insights, the former retained their independent weight. As heroic doer and creator he had an inborn aversion to all degrading and corrosive elements that made themselves felt within the framework of poetry or the theater. To these he reckoned the whole genre of bourgeois comedy. As harsh as he showed himself as leader of his present state, he did not suppress it entirely, but only pursued its excesses from the standpoint of the state-conceived moral law, whereby his inborn aversion to all sexual frivolity contributed reinforcingly. He intended to close the Théâtre Montansier, whose owner he himself had visited as a young officer. He designated it as a scandal for good morals, thought its like was more suitably housed on the boulevards, and wanted the premises used for the stock exchange. Cambacérès, as a bachelor a lover of this light comedy, interceded, but had to endure biting allusions from Napoleon for it. In all this, little of Napoleon's personal stance toward poetry is still to be felt. But not only that. Poetry too, indeed tragedy (not merely the theater as a venue) falls into dependence on

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that one should allow plays to be performed whose material is taken from times too close to us. I read in a newspaper that they want to play a tragedy, 'Henry IV.' This epoch is not distant enough not to awaken passions. The stage needs a little preceding time, and, without putting too much constraint on the

theater, I think you should prevent this without letting your interference be noticed." Poetry is now for Napoleon no longer merely state in the sense that it heroicizes man, produces the elements of his heroic realm, but precisely also in the narrower sense of an expedient for the purposes of the present state. He writes, to be sure, once to Cambacérès: "It is ridiculous to order an eclogue from a poet like a muslin dress." He is aware, from his own creative disposition, which also encompassed the possibility and viewpoint of poetic creation, that the genuine art-work, like the state-creation, is the fruit of an inner conception and cannot be evoked by external stimuli. But this inner knowledge of the elements of artistic creation does not hold up against the pressure of the highest political tasks and needs. In the same letter he notes disapprovingly: "While the army tries with all its might to do honor to the nation, the writers — it must be confessed — do everything to bring it shame." He criticizes the bad verses sung in the opera, and thinks the intendant and the interior minister could well occupy themselves with having acceptable things written. He states categorically: "They complain that we have no literature — that is the fault of the interior minister." In the end, that defense of free poetic creation here too only comes down to recommending to the minister to place his commissions for poetic works in good time. "One must not order a thing until three months after

to grant everything you deem necessary for the encouragement of artists. But I do not want this to constitute an obligation imposed upon me ... I must let you know that it is my intention to direct the arts particularly toward subjects that are calculated to perpetuate the memory of what has taken place during the last fifteen years. I have, for example, found it astonishingly impossible to get the Gobelins manufactory to set aside biblical history and finally occupy its artists with that abundance of actions of all kinds that have distinguished the army and the nation, events that have led to the establishment of the throne." This opinion holds equally in principle for the verbal arts. At the time of the coronation, the poet Lemercier is working on a drama

"Charlemagne," a subject that, as earlier set forth, had been brought before all eyes through its being made living in the person of Napoleon. Its treatment had of itself to present the general essential traits of the Emperor in the minds of the spectators. But that did not satisfy Napoleon. Poetry was also to perpetuate symbolically the historical particular, the significant political moment. He demanded that Lemercier insert into his Charlemagne drama a coronation scene that would recall the one that had just taken place. Fouché, the police minister, induced Esmenard to write an opera text, "Le Triomphe de Trajan," which culminates in Trajan pardoning Decebalus by burning on the household altar a letter incriminating him: a symbolic heightening of the scene known to all the world with Princess Hatzfeld in Berlin. With his most essential plans, the plans for the foundation of his own dynasty, it is connected when he writes to Fouché: "Why do you not induce Raynouard to write a tragedy of the transition from the first to the second dynasty. Instead of a tyrant, the successor would be a savior

of the state structure demands. Something similar he seems to have intended when at Erfurt he expressed to Karl August the wish that Goethe might write a tragedy "Brutus." Goethe, to whom the Grand Duke sends a special courier about this, does not take it up and later explains, "the subject would have been too delicate for him." He probably felt that this wish meant nothing other than a claim on his poetry for imperial politics. Goethe, who wisely kept away from the imperial arm, evaded the pressing invitation to Paris, did not come into danger of seeing his poetry petrify under the more constricting than enlivening pressure of that arm. But whoever was unresistingly exposed to this pressure — the whole contemporary literature of France — was held back by Napoleon in its living growth: as French tragedy earlier had to glorify the Ancien Régime, it now became a tool in the service of the new government. The circle of its subjects was itself measured for it by politics. Whatever could give occasion to cast shadows on the present regime was excluded from it: thus, as mentioned, all subjects from modern

history. Whatever cast such shadows had to be immediately reworked. So it fared with Esmenard's "Triomphe de Trajan," Luce de Lancival's "Hector," Jouy's "Tippo Sahib." And even the older tragedy, even the great Corneille so admired by the Emperor, was not spared. Esmenard was charged with the cleansing of his work according to the command of the hour. To be sure, Napoleon did not go so far in the state promotion and integration of poetry as to appoint formal court poets (poètes lauréats ou césaréens), as his minister proposed. He replied to this proposal: "Will poets be granted the right to write satires about the court to which they are attached, or will it be their duty he attributes. Poets in general must content themselves with the recognition that lies in their admission to the Institut National. That is the utmost that Napoleon grants them in state standing: "The positions in the Institute are a true incentive to emulation, since they give the poet a character in the state," it says in connection with that rejection of courtly favors. On the same day he dictates his already mentioned remarks on the proposal to attach a professional school for literature to the Collège de France. He declares: "In the lycées they develop the rules for composing a tragedy, a comedy, an epic or a song, but they do not teach there to make tragedies, comedies, poems or songs. Creative talent in literature, as in music, as in painting, is an individual gift; it depends on particular faculties whose development can be favored by particular circumstances, by culture, by an epoch. In these creations of the spirit and genius, the spirit or genius attains its highest goal directly and through itself." But like so many other elements of his heroic creative kind, these insights into the true conditions of poetry's existence cannot maintain themselves against the impersonal state compulsion, the all-overgrowing striving for legitimation of the new state foundation, and go under in the rigid forms and conditionings of the political system. Already the ordering of poets into the Institute as goal and reward of their achievements means, however much it distinguishes them from the courtly claim and distinction of poets, a strong step in the direction of

the traditionally French treatment of poetry as a state affair. Napoleon, who was called — and felt this calling — through his embodiment of the perfect and unconditional also to give to later times sense and elements for an unconditional

conception nor a healthy literary talent could enchant him. He always wanted to see emotions presented that corresponded to his own."

An inner determination connects Napoleon with poetry. Not so with the other arts. Poetry, the highest spiritual and sensory power, the most many-sided and central among the arts, called to form spirit, to engender life anew, she alone true world-creation, like that of the founder of faith, of the state-maker — only she among the arts could inspire such a one, could inspire the genius of the deed to active participation. The visual arts lay, already because of their less immediate, more peripheral, more markedly artful means of expression, too far from his nature for him to have felt himself so belonging, so familiar with them as with poetry. But that they were completely foreign to him, that he remained entirely unreceptive to them: this cheap calumny of belittling or superficial observers hit only the appearance, not the core of the matter. To be sure, in the field of the visual arts he lacked that finer power of discrimination that only aesthetic education and training can provide — even in the modest measure that belonged to his contemporaries in general. But his sensory eye had for the essential content and the elementary foundations also of the visual arts an original gaze, which often communicated to him deeper insights into their core than are given to the school-observation clinging to the exterior of the art-form. To a certain degree it may reflect an actual impression when one of his ministers, Chaptal, notes: "He remained consistently insensitive before the masterpieces of all ages; he paused before none, and when one drew his attention to one of them, he asked coolly: 'Whose is that?' without allowing himself any remark or showing the slightest impression." But

between his disposition and the state values of art. With this limitation one will also have to evaluate his occasionally quite sharp criticisms of contemporary art-works. He writes in 1806 to Daru: "I have seen the portrait that David has made of me. It is such a bad portrait, so full of faults, that I do not accept it and will not send it to any city — least of all to Italy, where it would give a very poor idea of our school." In this one sees less an actually artistic criticism than the expression of his discomfort about the defects of his personal representation, the elementary likeness. In fact, for the new appreciation of art that was then beginning to develop, Napoleon had no developed or even prepared organ for that special kind of art-observation and learning that in European minds replaced the immediate joy in the sensory impression of the art-object, and he could not have had it. With the passing of the last independently grown cultural epoch, the Rococo — nourished from its own collector-spirit and the critical one of the following epoch — there took place that often described transformation in the conception of art that tore the individual art-work out of the living context in which it served as expression or ornament for church, state, or society, in order to place it in an atmosphere where it claimed its independent significance as the product of an individual ingenium. One thus arrived, to be sure, at the discovery of those artistic values that also make us recognize and love the visual arts — beyond their nearest givens and purposes — as a spiritual form of representation in its own right, similar to and alongside the universal and central one of poetry. From this conception of the visual arts as a spiritualized formation of personal inspirations and the consequent special kind of art-connoisseurship, Napoleon was of course still

to consider, in contrast to a pronouncedly aesthetic one. Thus for him the individual artist, his particular way of seeing and shaping, did not have the value that the art-loving and collecting passion of the European great, which had emerged with Rococo and slowly spread, procured for it. For him the great names of Renaissance artists are on the whole still mere signatures for

grouping certain works of art according to tradition, without a notion of particular artist-kind being connected with them. It sounds very dry and without inner engagement, indeed almost like a confession of his artistic laymanship, when he announces the dispatch of his first art-loot from Italy to the Directory as follows: "I am sending you twenty paintings of the first masters, of Correggio and Michelangelo," or: "I will send you as soon as possible the most beautiful paintings of Correggio, among others a St. Jerome, which is considered his chief work. I confess, this saint chooses a bad time for his arrival in Paris; I hope you will grant him the honor of a place in the museum." It is not insignificant that he, who though liked to be instructed in spiritual territory unknown to him, but then always immediately asserted and asserted a highly personal opinion, wrote in those days to the Directory: "It would be useful if you would send me three or four well-known artists to select what is suitable for transfer to Paris," and soon afterward — in connection with the announcement of the "St. Jerome" — returns to this request: "I repeat my request for some well-known artists who may occupy themselves with the selection of the treasures that we believe we should send to Paris and with the details of their transport." He would never have said anything like this about poetry, never needed to say it according to his disposition.

The visual arts, however, had — as did not escape him — alongside their generally accessible material and experiential content, their particular formal conditions that required a special connoisseurship, such as he did not possess, indeed did not even claim to possess. He did not take the trouble here, as in other fields, to expand his knowledge. The actual art-knowledge, which was only just beginning to develop at that time, had for him too much the Rococo taste of private dilettantism, stood too much outside relation to the general, the "natural" significance that art held in the framework of his total world-picture, for him to have been tempted to acquire such. For this significance, for the sake of the value that the visual arts had as sensory expression of a great past, as glorification of the present

VII. ARCHITECTURE

and as an educational element for the future, he, as the first among the revolutionary generals, concerned himself with the transfer of foreign art treasures to Paris, later with the protection and promotion of native sculpture and painting. Already in the first onset of his career of victory, he saw in the enrichment of the state art-possession an essential part of his military successes, which he preferred to many a more tangible one. "It was the first example of this kind encountered in modern history," he notes with pride still on St. Helena in the memoirs of the Italian campaign. "The Duke [of Parma]," he continues, "offered two million to keep the painting [that chief work of Correggio, the St. Jerome]. The army officials were very much for it. The Commander-in-Chief declared that of the two million soon nothing would remain, while the possession of such a masterpiece in Paris would mean an ornament of the capital for centuries and would engender other masterpieces." This agrees with what the already mentioned German observer notes about a visit by Napoleon to the Louvre gallery based on communications from an attendant: "He paused a short time before the new paintings, but all the longer before those masterpieces that we owe to him. He must, as one may easily surmise, have viewed things here with a feeling of heroic satisfaction and pride." With this general care for the visual arts, it was done. The details of artistic judgment he considered outside his domain and left them to the art commissioners sent by the Directory at his request, among whom were Monge and Barthélemy. One of his reports to the Directory attests it: "Citizen Barthélemy is currently occupied with selecting paintings from Bologna. He expects to take about fifty of them, among which

in the marble works he acquired for Malmaison, e.g., the Paris and the Dancer by Canova, there is an individual artistic touch. One might be tempted to see one also in the fact that in the gallery at St. Cloud the hanging panels were exchanged from time to time. But it is too uncertain by whose order and

according to what criteria this was done for one to draw from it a conclusion about a particular artistic inclination of Napoleon's. That his estimation of the visual arts in general followed the general judgment is shown by his friendly jest about Greuze, who, a representative of the art-epoch with which he himself had grown up, had now died in misery. "What did he say nothing? I would have given him a Sèvres jug full of gold to pay for all his broken jugs." To be sure, Greuze's art contained no element that could speak to Napoleon's personal being, especially the mature Napoleon. But it was the perfect artistic expression of the general emotional world of Napoleon's youth. That sufficed to legitimate it to him as a genuine representation of "nature," as true art. A weighing of artistic values, lifted out of their temporal frame, a contemplation of the individual artist-personality as such and its significance, was entirely foreign to him.

With all this, however, his comprehensively original nature did not lack a certain immediate feeling for the core also of the visual arts. To be sure, it is not like his poetic feeling, which is rooted in a particular disposition, developed and cultivated. But that inexhaustible treasure of elementary sensory power gave him, where he confronted art unreservedly as a personality without state apparatus, without dependence on the authorities invoked by himself, almost always the knowledge of what constituted and conditioned it essentially. From the various testimonies of this, let

of the Gérard portrait of the Empress, he initially remarks that the satin dress looks as if the dress had become wet. Before David's "Sacre," his first exclamation is: "How great that is! How all things stand out! That is very beautiful! What truth to reality! That is not painting, one walks right into the picture." But he did not remain stuck at the exterior of the apparition; he highlights it only as the self-evidently first element of the optical art-work, in order to find in it the expression of the total being, the inner nature of the represented. A violation, an arbitrary perversion of the sense of things through an artistic whim, drives him beside

himself. They want to place Naiads in the Place de la Concorde that spout water from their breasts. Laughing, he flares up: "That is improper; take away these wet-nurses. The Naiads were maidens." He has the immediate feeling for the inner lawfulness of things in the first perception of the outer form. Both are for him indissolubly connected. He cannot see surface without sense, has no thought without representing it to himself sensorially. Where the age-old artistic play with allegories has blunted all feeling for the inner truth of representation in others, it is for him naively alive, as on the first day. The mere exterior has no independent right for him; naturalistic truth without the core of a personal or thingly being counts for little with him. This he presses toward, this he grasps as the dominating element in every art-work. This he developed to David as the inner law of all representational art in that already communicated word: "Not the exact reproduction of features, not a small wart on the nose make the likeness. One must paint the character of the physiognomy, that which animates it ... Certainly Alexander never sat for Apelles. No one asks whether the portraits of great men are similar. Enough that their genius lives in them." That is

generally wants to separate — Napoleon turns: "I have never seen our soldiers fight like yours ... Your soldiers lack ardor, movement, enthusiasm. Believe me, change that, and all the world will be satisfied." Here one feels almost how the blood-drive in Napoleon rises up against the bloodless artistic coolness: it is not merely his eye that misses the accustomed form of external apparition. From the consciousness of the essential, the inner reality of his own existence, he takes such offense at Canova's work that represents him as a naked Imperator with the Nike in hand that he forbids its public display. In the allegorizing victory figure he found not the embodiment of his true doership — which he would have tolerated even with the strongest intensification — but only an indecorously hand-grasping challenge to his opponents. To represent him, the general and leader of the French Republic, naked like an ancient hero, violates the facticity of his existence, falsifies and weakens the

greatness that he himself wants to present anew to the world. It demands, just as it tolerates him entirely artistically, the expression of his immediate, his actual existence. This feeling may also have contributed to the aforementioned rejection of a portrait by David. He is conscious, in his nature of blood and spirit, of offering the sensory sphere of his effect immediately heroic reality, the stuff for a new heroic art, not only for allegories. Therein is rooted his attack on David's Thermopylae painting and his summons to him and other painters of his time to represent subjects of his epoch and the nation. The inner knowledge, drawn from his own existence, of the true power and apparition of heroic humanity opens his eye for the basic givens of plastic art. He grasps that it, through making visible

very beautiful. It might seem appropriate to return to the custom of placing statues on tombs, but to avoid all kinds of allegories as much as possible in the composition." To see in such utterances only a profession of "vérité" in the sense of naturalistic imitation, as a recent French art historian would, presupposes that one regards with French classicism the inherited formal stock of idealistic representation, what Canova calls the "style héroïque," as the given expression of experience and every deviation from it as naturalism. Only from this standpoint can one explain the Emperor's renunciation of allegory, his demand for a "figural representation" on tombs, for the reproduction of himself or his generals in the costume of his time, his praising criticism of the Sacre and his critical remarks on the Sabine Women, with a pitiful need for surface reality. In truth, in truth there lives and works the drive of a nature entirely overfull of inner knowledge of things toward its alone fitting sensory expression. This drive, the longing for the most perfect, the definitive sensory expression of inner reality, drives him quite consistently to the promotion of the statuary, the plastic, in contrast to the painterly. The guiding thoughts he sets forth for the arrangement and decoration of the Temple de la Gloire (the Madeleine) attest this: "I want nothing of wood... Nothing in this temple may be movable and changeable. On the contrary, everything must be fixed in its

place... I start from the assumption that the sculptures inside will be of marble, and that one does not propose to me such as are suitable for the salons and dining rooms of the bankers' wives of Paris. Everything that is playful is not simple and noble; everything that is not durable may not be used for this monument. I say it again: there may be no kind of furniture, not even curtains... Un

"Lady" (which is not incompatible with a more conditional estimation of this building) and regrets not being able to transport St. Peter's to Paris, like so many movable art-works. The same contrast, even with the same word, when he confesses himself "humilié de la mesquinerie de notre Champ de Mars" at the sight of the arena of Verona. It is inwardly certain to him what chasm separates the heroic, which is bound to a definitive sensory apparition, to plasticity, from the body-denying, flowing spirit of the Christian Middle Ages, and thus its formations and artworks appear to him necessarily as pitifully fragmentary in contrast to the simple perfection of antique works. Much more sharply in his eyes this reproach strikes Protestantism, which over the independence of the individual soul has lost every formal common expression, every possibility of artistic, even if only painterly, pictorial embodiment of life-contents. Hence that contemptuous word to Canova: "The Protestants have nothing beautiful." Seen in this context, it means much, means more than a profession of a conditional time-style, of classicism, when the astonished German visitors find Winckelmann's work lying in the antechamber of his audience hall. It betrays an inclination toward the plastic life- and art-spirit, which he, independent of the time-style, experiences as a command of his I. It is precisely from this that classicism, the secondary formal expression of this spirit, is intensified beyond itself into "Empire"; from this Empire receives that breath of immediacy and liveliness that we in this style repeatedly feel as something other, new, in contrast to the idealistic schema of classicism. That it is so, that in him his heroic existence from itself entirely generated the feeling for

being and effect of plastic expression, is proven by the already repeatedly cited word about

myth of painting. It too is not created by the mere existence of the heroic man, but only by the spirit and hand of him who experiences it with formative senses — as the Emperor says of Cellini. But such an artist can — even more certainly than the tragic poet — only be the fruit of an epoch that has already so thoroughly imbued itself with the experience of the heroic man that its definitive universally-binding utterance, its pictorial expression, can proceed from it. Indeed, as history teaches and as lies in the nature of the matter, the pictorial world-expression can always follow only after that in the linguistic structure. Even today, when perhaps the epoch has ripened to this, when a heroic poetry is in becoming, the birth-hour of a new true plastic art does not seem to have come. Why and how Napoleon could not leave art quietly to its development, to the growth of its experiential image; why and how he had to disturb artistic production through immediate intervention, was discussed in the consideration of poetry. He knew, although the knowledge of the true being of art and its conditions lay in his blood, for himself only one expression of human creation: the state. Beside it there was for other forms no independent right of existence. All had to serve him, be useful to him. Even more than in the field of poetry, that deeper knowledge remained in the field of the visual arts limited in its effect to the domain of his — if one may thus distinguish — most personal, extra-state existence, and came only occasionally, through a particular conjunction of circumstances, also to bear in his state action. To be sure, his instinctive artistic inclination could not be entirely suppressed here either. More passionately and more immediately than any ruler before him, Napoleon from his first appearance also drew the visual arts into the circle of his willing and acting

includes and subordinates. A merely personal artistic demand does not assert itself here as within poetry, for which Napoleon possessed natural disposition and organs. The immediate drive

toward purely human intercourse, which early drew him close to Talma, is not noticeable in his relations with David, Gros, Gérard, and the others. The manner in which he, without actual inner participation, with the help of "art commissioners," swept together art-works from all Italy to pile them up in the great museums in Paris, is quite an act of state care, indeed a denial of independent art-spirit, which knows that an art-work can thrive and work only in its own place. In the field of poetry such insight was Napoleon's own, as his utterance about Lucian's poetic attempts abroad proves. The visual arts, however, for which he lacked the particular organ, appeared to him without further ado as part and expression of his mighty state organism. He believes that when he has united the greatest art-works in the heart of this new organism, he can force their fruitful effect. Just as at the beginning of his career he rejected the Duke of Parma's offer of paying two million to France instead of surrendering the Correggio, with the argument that "such a masterpiece would engender other masterpieces in Paris," so he still tries late to win Canova for Paris by estimating to him: "Here is your center. Here the antique masterpieces are united; only the Farnese Hercules is still missing, and we will get that too." He remains deaf to Canova's passionate objections: "But will you leave nothing to Italy? The antique sculptures form a whole, a collection connected with a countless number of other works that can neither be removed nor transported." He wants the Roman excavation booty, the art treasures of the Florentine churches, everything at the place where they

as Canova, Goethe too cautiously but stubbornly avoided the lure of the imperial court, conscious like him of the artistic unfruitfulness and general unsuitability of this soil. The development of the whole following century has proved them right, demonstrated the unfruitfulness of all state art-enterprise. The museum, which Napoleon did not create but properly developed as a state institution and scientific apparatus (innovations that already then that German visitor of Paris noted with his characteristic thoroughness), has become the law of the

century and has brought about and sealed the complete uprooting of the visual arts from their given conditions, their degeneration into works of today's wholly individual arbitrariness. To be sure, this endeavor of state art-care — like all his state activity — also rests on an elementary experiential ground, springs from the drive of his creativity to present itself in all apparitions of public life. But this drive here does not work itself out with its own, livingly immediate forces, but slips — and here earlier and more necessarily than, say, in the field of poetry — imperceptibly into the all-devouring husk of the ever more mechanically handled state apparatus. To be sure, the initial dissuasions from classicist-mythological subjects to David and other artists (Thermopylae battle), the pointing to national and contemporary subjects, the demand for representation in his costume show his personal need for a reality more equal to him, more genuine, more alive. But this demand of his still unboundly creating self becomes over time an ordinance within the framework of a state system into which his creative work has frozen. The mass commissions with which Napoleon entrusted David, Gros, Gérard, Vien, Prud'hon, Philippoteaux with the glorification

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Berthier and Citizen Denon will be able to give the necessary information to the painters you designate." It sufficed for him that such works arose in abundance and, like the military, also drew a unified art-front around his state edifice. Characteristic is already the form of the commissions. They are sometimes kept in a lump sum like a merchandise order, with only measure and price given. Under February 27, 1804, he demands from Denon a series of designs for monuments for almost all the battlefields and other memorable sites from the Italian campaigns and notes: "For each at least ten thousand, at most twenty thousand francs." Simultaneously, Denon is to have three paintings made by Gros: one "with the Comitia of Lyon," one "with the journey to Rouen," and one for the Court of Appeals in Paris "with the Code Civil."

Here at least a price is not fixed. On March 3, 1806, fourteen paintings are ordered for the Tuileries, all with brief indication of their content: eight representing scenes from the military history of the Emperor, "three meters three decimeters high, four or five meters wide; the price fixed for each of these pieces is twelve thousand francs, making for the eight ninety-six thousand francs" — four more belonging more to political history, "one meter eight decimeters by two meters two decimeters; the price fixed for each is six thousand francs, making for the four twenty-four thousand francs" — then also a Victory goddess for six thousand francs and a sea battle, the latter "two meters two decimeters high, three meters wide" for eight thousand francs. The temple of glory that he erects for his army on the square of the old Madeleine church becomes more a stone catalog than a symbolic testimony of their deeds: there on marble tablets the names of all participants in the battles of Ulm, Austerlitz and Jena, on golden the exact fixation of political situations in the expression as he imagines it. The just-mentioned instruction to Denon from February 1804 concludes: "Have a large painting made of the Mediation Act given to the Swiss cantons, with many deputies, nineteen of them in costume." And it does not fail to happen that the general director of the museums, who is as familiar with the manner in which the Emperor wishes to present himself as with the artistic means for this, on passing on the order to Gérard, formulates the imperial instructions so precisely, so thoroughly, that the artistic composition is thereby influenced from the ground up: "All in all, put much splendor in the clothing of the officers who surround the Emperor, with consideration that this contrasts with the simplicity that he prefers: that lifts him immediately out from among them." This intention of the Emperor, correctly understood and transmitted by Denon, has, as cannot be denied, its origin in that genuine knowledge of the being of art and its conditions, a knowledge that comes from the depth of his universal creative spirit. He knows how the definitive works most strongly through its simple utterance within the confusing world of apparition. It is the same consciousness that

makes him demand of David that he paint him "in calm bearing on a fiery horse." But this basic law of artistic creation, seized by Napoleon as a living thing, has here and elsewhere become thoroughly a means of expression in the service of his state-directed will to work.

There is no lack of emphatic highlighting of these purely state intentions of the Emperor in placing his commissions. His intendant Daru writes to the director of the state Gobelin manufactory: "His Majesty desires that you concern yourself with reproducing the paintings that represent subjects from French history, especially those from the history

of the Emperor, then from the history of the Revolution and France. In general, one must leave no circumstance unused to humiliate the Russians and English. William the Conqueror and Duguesclin may be honored in these monuments." After, however, the Peace of Tilsit re-established good understanding with Russia, the Emperor curtly orders that everything be removed from the bas-reliefs of the Austerlitz column that recalled the victory of the French army over the Russians.

That the art-works fulfill their political purpose, are finished and can work at the right, politically given moment, counts with him admittedly more than their artistic perfection. That far-reaching decree of March 3, 1806, which orders the production of several dozen paintings only by measure and price, closes with the characteristic remark: "All artists who by this time (by August 15, 1808, the Emperor's birthday) have not completed their work without sufficient excuse will be regarded as unfit for the work that the government could subsequently commission." So too the "prix décennaux," the great prize foundation with which he wants to give the arts a new impetus, have, according to the foundation charter itself, their root entirely in state considerations. Not even the trouble that every ruler since the 19th century takes to feign personal participation and purely artistic motivation is reflected in the document. The opening formula reads: "Intending to encourage the sciences, literature and arts, which contribute

extraordinarily to the distinction and fame of nations; in the wish that France not only maintain the preeminence it has attained in sciences and arts, but that the beginning century may still surpass its predecessors in them; likewise also determined to favor the

"that with the establishment of the Prix décennaux he pursued no other purpose than to offer the minds an occupation, to prevent them from occupying themselves with more serious things." And in fact the distribution of the prizes never came about. Nevertheless, the Emperor with that disparaging remark does not do justice to the deeper motives of the plan. Certainly that moment also played a part. But the harsh formula gives it a significance that does not belong to it. It belongs in that domain of sarcasms with which Napoleon sometimes wanted to give his political action an exaggeratedly realistic coloring, himself the appearance of a pure opportunist politician. In truth, the basic trait of his state being always remains bound by a definitively unconditional work-goal resting in his creative person.

Even less than the visual can architecture boast of having come close to Napoleon's spirit, even if it occupied a wide space in his planning and acting. Even less than that does a particular disposition in his nature correspond to this. The sequence in which Napoleon's capacity of reception for the individual arts diminishes stands in accord with the decreasing measure of world-stuff that these embody. Poetry, as the most universal among them, as a perfect and independent creation, is of one being with him: he lives in it with the whole of his nature, indeed streams over from it immediately into it. The visual art, which does not create spirit and body in unison, but only "incorporates" the former in and with the latter, makes only form, not also being, and therefore must always follow — as an art of second times — after poetry as that of the first, meets Napoleon only in his general drive for sensory expression, his longing for embodiment of the spirit, for shaped representation of his being: for the heroic figure. From there he finds an access to the

he holds here to what his sensory nature first refers him to: the determination of purpose of the building (which sometimes at least grants him a certain insight into the most general of the laws of building) and to that which has little to do with its core as art, the "detail," the external decorative forms. That same minister who already doubted his receptivity for the visual arts notes, not without astonishment, that he, who in other fields gave himself up to the impression of the thing in its whole, often to the point of preference for the brutally large, the mass, here stuck to the individual forms. This is certainly insofar incorrect as Napoleon also here, as will immediately be shown, was not only receptive to the great total effect, but often went directly after it. But it remains besides that indeed true that he here more than elsewhere let himself be taken by the individual, the particular. His much-occupied spirit, which had never found time to familiarize itself with the requirements and laws of this art, is more strongly and immediately struck by the more conspicuous charm of ornamentation than by the power of the constructive building-idea that conceals itself in the formation of spatial relations. Only thus can it be explained that he — especially under the spell of his medieval-romantic ideas — did justice to Gothic buildings, the Milan Cathedral, the Château of Fontainebleau, occasionally even Notre-Dame. The total artistic apparition of a Gothic building, the Gothic art-spirit as such, certainly cannot have awakened his participation. For it his wholly Romanesque, wholly antique spirit surely had no organ. As soon as a building of this style comes into comparison with a classical one or one of the Renaissance, it loses its significance for him. He writes in 1807 on the occasion of the designs for the Temple de la Gloire: "What could one build as a church that would be capable of

without a particular organ for it, to a general grasp of the artistic significance of its monuments. That wondrous glorification of the amphitheater of Verona in his report to the Directory had caught fire at the idea of the immense capacity, the hundred thousand spectators who could follow the spectacle here: it had opened for

him the artistic power of the building. Not much else holds for his appreciation of the Romanesque building wonder of the Église de Brou, which he calls one of the most beautiful churches of France, and of which he regrets that no service is held in it. Let one not deceive oneself: here too it was not what one today calls the building idea, the native artistic conception, that he grasped and admired. Here it was entirely only the impression of the building in the large, its externally powerful form that drew his gaze and worked its effect upon him (which thus refutes that one-sided observation of Chaptal). In this culminates all that he himself knows to say about architecture, where he once expresses himself fundamentally about it. That word "What is great is beautiful," which already emerged in his judgments about poetry and visual art, gains here a completely exclusive significance. It forms the concluding word in one of the many consultations about the treatment of the space between the Louvre and the Tuileries. Fontaine, the architect of the Emperor's trust, had as always urged a building link; Murat and Fesch wanted, like Napoleon, to leave the space free. The Emperor ends the session with the declaration: "What is great is always beautiful; and I cannot bring myself to divide into two a space whose main advantage must be its grandeur. Everything that one can put between the Louvre and the Tuileries will never outweigh a beautiful courtyard." And when he nevertheless, through the unceasing pressure of Fontaine, conceded a connecting wing

may be impaired. Nothing else, when in 1811 during the expansion of the Château of Versailles he demands that the eye must be able to survey the whole of the palace from the front, and orders the freeing of the side wings for this reason. And when for the same building he proposes the creation of a system of colonnades, encloses the Rue de Rivoli with the still today impressive arcades, even there that same basic view is operative. He leaves no doubt about this. He says of the column arrangement for Versailles: "This whole would present on the Paris side a courtyard surrounded by a peristyle, which could have a character of grandeur." What touches this feeling of

grandeur ignites him immediately. And it can happen that even the economical state spirit is outrun by such inspirations. An occasional suggestion thrown out in conversation by Fontaine to build a palace on the Chaillot hill "fermented," as his palace prefect, to whom we owe many valuable reports from this field, expresses it, "in Napoleon's imagination, which was necessarily directed toward everything that bore the character of grandeur or beauty," and gradually condensed into the commission for a corresponding design. Beyond this most general principle rooted in his nature, Napoleon did not venture far in his discussions of the being of architecture. The word is transmitted from him: "Unity, beautiful arrangement, and planfulness are conditions without which, in architecture, as in more important affairs in general, nothing can be beautiful and impressive." These are leading principles of organic creation in general, as they have resulted for Napoleon partly from his nature, partly from his all-sided activity, without any reference to the particular needs of architecture. Nothing here indicates that he had even an intimation of its character as an

quickly have a plaster model made for the union of the Louvre with the Tuileries. That will be exhibited in the next Salon, and the public's judgments will be collected." "Fontaine will also make a beautiful design for the opera in relief. It will be submitted for criticism." Compare with this his self-confident stance in questions of poetry. When would it ever have occurred to him to call upon the public or committees as judge here, to make his judgment dependent on theirs!? Of those generally held conditions, at bottom only a single one attained a more concrete significance, a certain effect on the architecture of his time. The "unity" — his own being's ownmost law — which expressed itself in the thin but pure forms of classicist building style, made this style immediately acceptable to him, indeed self-evident. It let him feel with necessity its elements — straight line, symmetry — as the art-expression suited to him, turned his preference to the long, uniformly directed, well-arranged colonnades, just as in the landscape he lined the highways with the linear ornament of

poplars, with both repeating the beloved uniformity of his well-aligned parades. To be sure, he also remained not inaccessible to the countercurrents of this style. His life is too rich, his spirit too extended, for any significant apparition to have been able to remain out of connection with him and his effect. It cannot be overlooked that Egypto- and Gothomania found in episodic radiations of his life — the Egyptian campaign and the Charlemagne dream — intensified impetus and at the same time temporarily receptive soil. But the great main artery of his life — the unremitting drive of the universal I to make its classical-heroic measure, its rounded unity, the law of the world — touched the heroizing line of the native, if also

the longing for the free space between Louvre and Tuileries had damaged regularity for the sake of grandeur. Not the regularity of arbitrary parts of space mattered to Napoleon, but only that of a unified whole. Only there was his elemental thingly nature involved, not however in perspectival demands of the artist's eye. He indicates this — in a passage to be cited later more precisely — by declaring that only the experts noticed such faults. He saw the Louvre, he saw the Tuileries, and sought to emphasize each in its own uniqueness, not to compose from their differences a whole more painterly than bodily. Classical and great are one for him. Therefore he demands that the Louvre be remarkable through its size and form like the Temple of Minerva in Athens or the Imperial Library in Vienna. But this demand does not remain a mere vague impression or mood. Quite similarly as in dramatic art, he attempts to go back to the genuine style, the primal image of antiquity. He wants — as was already mentioned on the occasion of the visual arts — the "Temple de la Gloire" as an actual temple, not as a church. He insists emphatically: "By temple I have meant a building monument such as existed in Athens and does not exist in Paris." Doubtless the wish to get away from the usual types of sacred buildings to a fundamentally new style, already impressive through that, played a part here. "Napoleon wanted to create something new, to surpass the buildings of former kings in grandeur, to link his name with a

gigantic creation," says that same state councillor on another occasion. But it is characteristic that this new type was found as a matter of course precisely in the form of the ancient temple. This is obviously caused by Napoleon's ownmost disposition. Despite the already far

he saw before him "bizarre buildings." Accordingly he also rejects the fashion of English gardens. He mocks the owners who, at great expense, had small lakes built by their architects, most of the time without water, little rocks in miniature, and little immovable rivers. "These stupidities," he said, "are bankers' whims. My English garden is the forest of Fontainebleau." The law of nature is different from that of art. He rejects their arbitrary mixing, the hybrid intrusion of the human spirit into the impenetrable creation and its artificial imitation. Apart from this great basic law of his own nature, the law of unity, he had no artistic standards for judging architecture: he did not regard it as an independent art like poetry, painting, or sculpture, but more as a state utility or decorative form. It has to adapt itself to the given tasks. "Right down to the charcoal-burner's hut one can do architecture," he says once with regard to a clumsy barracks facade. His examination and judgment of designs therefore directs itself mainly to the manner in which the determination of purpose of the buildings is satisfied. And here his nature, hungry for sense and substance, works itself out in a methodical questioning about the details of construction and furnishing. In connection with the prize competition for the conversion of the Madeleine church into the Temple de la Gloire, he orders the convocation of a commission that is to examine the four award-winning designs according to thirteen questions elaborated by him for their feasibility and usefulness. There are found the necessities of the intended use, so often forgotten by princely art-lovers: questions about access for court and public, about capacity, lighting, acoustics, and the like. But strangely: precisely this exact attention to the building's purpose then inadvertently leads to a stylistic demand: not

the building is destined." To this also belongs when, on a hunting visit in the Château of Raincy, he criticizes that the owners had sunk enormous sums into trifling and arbitrary things. He especially criticizes the facade, which at the entrance to the castle offered a columned hall in Ionic style and then for the rest went back to the form and plan of a simple hunting lodge. That is a contradiction, he thinks.

Occasionally Napoleon advances from the primitive impressiveness of the outer form to the higher one of the inner building laws. But as a rule, the consideration of the building's purpose does not lead him so far. It stops at the suitability of the building for its purpose. There are basic differences here between utility buildings, private structures, and those that have to embody the state's prestige. For the construction of the so-called Palace of the King of Rome, which Napoleon intended as a kind of summer house in Paris, he dictates in 1813 a note that says among other things: "I want this palace to be in some way a reinforced Sans Souci. I want above all that this be more a pleasant than a beautiful palace, two things that are incompatible; it is to lie between garden and courtyard like the Tuileries; I must be able to walk from my room into the garden and park ... my rooms must face north and south, so that I can change my quarters according to the temperature ... my living quarters are to be those of a rich private individual ... my rooms must be very close to those of the Empress and on the same floor. In short, it is to be a castle for relaxation or a residence for a man on the decline of life ... I want a small theater, a small chapel, and above all one must be very careful that there is no standing water around the castle." Versailles, the Louvre, and the Tuileries, however, are buildings of state significance. Here architecture means a piece of representation and decoration, intended to express the state's

On St. Helena he returns to these plans: "I disapproved of Versailles in its layout, but in my sometimes gigantic designs for Paris I dreamed of making use of it and with time turning it into

something like a mere kind of suburb, a neighboring place, a point of view for the capital." He wanted, he said, "to banish all those tasteless nymphs" from the gardens and replace them with panoramas of all the capitals his armies had entered, and of all the battles his arms had glorified — and indeed in authentic masonry. "These would have become as many eternal monuments of our triumphs and national glory, erected before the gates of the capital of Europe, which would necessarily have to be visited by the whole rest of the world." Similar points of view also appeared in the renovation of the Louvre. "The Louvre will never be a comfortable residence. I regard it as a state palace, in which one must unite everything one possesses in treasures of objects of art and science, such as statues, bronzes, paintings, libraries, archives, medals, casts." And according to another report: "Grandeur and majesty shall be the distinguishing character of this palace, which the ruler will visit only temporarily to receive here the homage and marks of reverence due to his station: for comfort and convenience of his private life he must seek in a dwelling of less extensive mass, must seek far from the throne and outside the representation of which he cannot divest himself." Thus the renovation is to work through its size and forms like the Temple of Minerva in Athens or the Imperial Library in Vienna. Naturally, the longing for a worthy expression of the new state power makes itself felt above all in its center itself, the capital. From his spirit and hands went forth a renewed and rejuvenated Paris. "One must,"

for its own sake, but as historical documents of state existence. This its significance certainly promoted his tolerance of styles otherwise not very congenial to him, e.g., Gothic. He has deep reverence for everything organically grown, everything historically become, insofar as it at the same time guarantees his own validity for posterity. Thus he resists with all emphasis, in the Louvre construction, the architects' plans to replace the various style-forms of this great building with a unified one. "The architects," he says in a note to his interior minister from 1805, "would like to follow a single plan and change everything.

Economy, sound sense, and good taste lead to a completely different view; one must leave to each of the existing parts the character of its century." The Château of Fontainebleau he loves, praises, expands as "the residence of kings, the house of centuries." In Versailles he abhors the wasteful extravagance of Louis XIV's show-palace. But nevertheless he cannot bring himself to intervene violently in what exists, to eliminate it; rather he renounces even living there longer himself. In the state council he complains: "Why did the Revolution, which destroyed so much, not tear down the Château of Versailles? I would then not have today one of Louis XIV's mistakes on my neck and an old, badly built castle to make tolerable." He proclaims it indeed as a basic law of architecture that great state buildings, destined for centuries, can also only be built by centuries and must preserve their form. That is what he meant by that previously communicated strange word about the renovation of Versailles, that it was a thing that would have to be done with centuries. With all emphasis he sets this principle against the ever-recurring proposals of Fontaine for creating a connecting link between

perpetuate memory on earth. A few days after his birthday in 1811, which had been celebrated with brilliant events in the gardens of St. Cloud, illuminations, theater, fireworks, and popular festivities, Napoleon remarks thoughtfully to his entourage: "Well yes, what remains of so many, so beautiful and costly things? Which of you will still be able to remember in six months how these things were, when you admired them. There will hopefully come a time when we can arrange better things to preserve our memory and not let our joys go up in smoke. Buildings, installations, institutions of public utility shall then be the annals of the Empire, and the date of a happy event, the celebration of a memorable festival, shall be marked by the erection of the building that will preserve its date." When, in falsely understood concern for his incomparable greatness, it is proposed to him to remove all old inscriptions and coats of arms from the Louvre, he emphasizes all the more forcefully the

significance precisely of these symbols of the past for his own historical standing: "I believe that the signs and coats of arms that rulers have affixed to their works are dates that no one has the right to erase. Let each one mark what he has created; I see nothing wrong in it; on the contrary, art and curiosity can only gain by it. Does one not see at St. Peter's in Rome the names, the signs of all the popes who participated in the erection of this great building? I would not be angry if one day my name were found next to that of Henry IV; one will see which of us has done the most for the welfare and glory of his country." And so at various places of the building parts erected by him in the Louvre, his great symbol N as well as his full name are found, and in the tympanum of the colonnade

Duroc with all sharpness: "Augustus only had the battle of Actium; Germanicus could win the Romans for himself through his misfortune, but he distinguished his life only through very moderate memoirs. One sees in the memoirs of the Roman emperors nothing one could wish for. One of the greatest cares of the Institute and of scholars must be to strive to make a great difference between them (the Roman emperors) and the tablets of our history." ... The Emperor's title is "Emperor of the French." So he wants no assimilation, neither the name "Augustus," nor "Germanicus," not even "Caesar." The language in which the inscriptions must be composed is French... And then he himself drafts eight different inscriptions, all terse and brief, but full of compressed pictorial and striking force, hammering his being and effect into spirits and times, and precisely for that reason a more genuine recurrence of Roman spirit than any artificial imitation. The first and most beautiful begins: "The Emperor Napoleon planted in the same year in which he was crowned Emperor his eagles on the walls of Vienna and carried off, one year after his coronation, the victory of the three emperors." Historical document, political means of expression, state utility and decorative form — all that architecture is for Napoleon, only no actual art. Accordingly durability, speed, economy are the essential guidelines that he sets for the execution of his

buildings. That is what on the whole remained of those general basic thoughts of organic effect, of "unity, beautiful arrangement, and planfulness" in their actual application to architecture. How to produce what he built as the external symbol of his power, as imperishable as possible, but at the same time as quickly as possible and at as low a cost as possible — that occupied him. The first of these

the material of this building would have to be." He asks: "Why should one not use iron or even baked clay for the vault that has given rise to disputes?" In the construction of the Pantheon some time before, he had considered having the pillars made of cast iron; he inquired about the advantages and disadvantages of such construction, and similarly some time later he asks his minister: "Let me know what there is to say against the idea of making the Pont d'Iéna of iron like the Pont des Arts." But he also does not entirely approve this bridge; would have preferred it built of stone. On an inspection of the Louvre, he suddenly stops at one of the windows overlooking the river and remarks: "I understand that in England, where stone is scarce, they use iron even for bridges of great span. But in France, where everything is in abundance!" Incidentally, his desire for iron constructions is itself a further proof of how foreign he was to the formal conditions and tasks of architecture. Speed of execution was his second law of building. As the Temple de la Gloire was to be imperishable, it was also to be finished as soon as possible. For "this building touches politics, it therefore belongs to those that must be constructed rapidly." No other law held here than for state affairs in general — war, administration, legislation. Three months were to suffice for the preliminary work on the definitive version of the Code civil, and it is still in force today. A couplet of the time says: "En paix, en guerre également / Son génie ardent l'accompagne; / Il fait construire un monument / Comme il termine une campagne." The political, the contemporary effect of the Temple de la Gloire was so important to the Emperor that even the thought of posterity had to yield: "If, however, it should

be proved that the use of granite would entail too great expenses or too long a delay

the spot." Hardly has he returned from Elba in 1815, when — on March 26 already — he commands Fontaine to resume his building plans. He says to him: "I have given the intendant of the household orders to make me a report on the buildings to be executed. But since I am not disposed to lose a moment, I authorize you to put the workshops for the new gallery and the exterior works at the Louvre back into operation as early as tomorrow." Where it concerns the prompt execution of his great glory-buildings, he can even postpone the third principle of his building activity, economy. In June 1810 he writes to his minister: "Make me a report on the triumphal arch, on the sums allocated for it this year. Push the work on it forward vigorously. If necessary, I will give you a supplementary credit of 500,000–600,000 francs." Otherwise, however, he is inexorable also in observing this principle. Speed of building may extort some extra expense, but durability, his other law of building, must yield even to cost-saving. As to the state's contemporary effect, he also sacrifices it to the requirements of state economy. To save money, he occasionally does not shrink from using false materials. "In the Luxembourg," the architects complain, "everything is false." The walls, the columns are painted marble, the candelabra painted bronze; for the Pantheon he had even proposed cast-iron columns. Like the Prussian soldier-kings of the 18th century, he had an insuperable suspicion against mismanagement and swindling by architects. It sounds like a pronouncement of the first Frederick William when he storms against them: "They ruin the state and private individuals alike... One would not find a family in Paris that they have not ruined... One should hold them responsible

Napoleon notes in the margin: "What do I care about Monsieur Beaujon, and what he may have done! The builder has lost my confidence and will hand over his accounts to the one who has been proposed to me and whom I will appoint within eight days."

Another case gives him occasion for the following decree to his police minister: "They suspect Calmelet and a certain Bataille, whom he uses as architect and decorator, of being in collusion in a way contrary to my interests, and I would be quite inclined to give credit to the various reports reaching me, when I consider that they have presented me with a bill of one million in expenses for a house of Prince Eugene that they furnished and for which they certainly did not spend two hundred thousand francs." He commissions Fouché with the investigation of the matter within fourteen days to create "a strict and useful example" if necessary. Eugène himself must endure reproaches: "My son, you have arranged your affairs in Paris very badly; a bill of 1,500,000 francs for your house is presented to me; this sum is monstrous. Calmelet, Bataille, and that little intendant are rascals; and I see that they have confused everything so that one will not be able to avoid paying a great deal. I see this with sorrow; I thought you more orderly. One must have nothing done without a cost estimate, with the obligation not to exceed it. You have done just the opposite. The architect has feasted on it as much as he wanted, and thus enormous sums have been thrown into the water. Apply more care and understanding than here to the affairs of my Italian civil list; architects are the same everywhere." His suspicion of builders even led him — despite his inner strangeness to their art and his aversion

to be incurred for it: thus for the renovation of the Château of Versailles. And when in 1813, after long resistance to the equalization of architecture with the visual arts in Fontaine, he appoints his "Premier Architecte," it does not happen without linking to it the task of checking all plans and accounts of civil and military buildings.

This deep distrust of architects has its last, its true ground in the fact that their actual intentions are impenetrable to the Emperor, able to escape his influence. He sees in them nothing but unmastered personal inspirations and whims that run counter to his higher state necessities, his own needs. Actually he is

satisfied with none of the European princely palaces. "Why," he exclaims, "have all architects who had to build rulers' residences managed so badly?" "He had," a state councillor further reports, "seen no castle, no palace that could please him. Frederick's Sans Souci was uncomfortable and tasteless. Trianon in the park of Versailles was uninhabitable; Marly, which had been destroyed, was no longer. All the villas of Italy presupposed masters who always lived in the open air and sun. The great palaces of Germany were insipid, ponderous, boring." He admits "that it is more difficult to build a house for a head of state than for anyone else ... Majesty and comfort do not go well together; one always suffers." He himself, as shown, strictly separated both in his building instructions, but nonetheless suffered from this separation, from the constraint of representational buildings that confined his expansive nature, just as from the constraint of etiquette and gala. He believes he may demand of architecture that it must find a means of resolving these difficulties, and blames the builders

when he makes preparations for his stay in the Strasbourg palace, he orders: "Recommend Fontaine to work neither with paste nor smell. That is the worst of all." That architecture would like to count as art, pursue its own work-goals and laws, appears to him as an unbearable presumption, only as an attempt to enrich itself at the expense of the state and to evade its order and supervision. With the same means as those Prussian soldier-kings, he therefore seeks to remedy this state-endangering disorder fundamentally: by trying to transfer it from its impenetrable guild and art-fog into the transparent atmosphere of his state-military household. In that conversation with Fontaine in which he complains about the incomprehensible confusion of building accounts, he threatens to appoint, to counter all this, an engineer whom the interior minister had proposed to him. To be sure, it does not seem to have been without effect on him when Fontaine frankly countered him: "to degrade a profession is not the right means to help it flourish, and to put architects under the direction of an engineer is to give

a pupil as superior to his masters, for architects also master the whole engineering field, not the reverse." In fact, however, Napoleon at least in general had recourse to the help of engineers. In his engineering corps, whose training he had taken especially to heart since his earliest beginnings, whose leaders (Gassendi, Marescot) counted among his trusted friends and advisors, he had a militarily organized, at the same time with the necessary professional knowledge equipped organization, on which he could rely when it came to countering the self-willed and opaque claims of the architects. From this corps he takes several of his interior ministers, to whose business area the

to see recognized as works of architecture. In December the interior minister must write to the president of the Class of Fine Arts in the Institut National: "His Majesty wishes to know for what reason the Institute in its report on the Prix décennaux ... on the occasion of the seventeenth grand prize made no mention of the canal of St. Quentin, the Mont Cenis and Simplon roads, which can obviously be considered as architectural works" (to which the class then replies that the canals and roads "do not belong to the fine arts"). It cannot be overlooked that Napoleon's almost passionate interest in road-building — for which still today in all countries under his dominion the poplar-lined great connecting roads bear witness — is also involved here. One need not yet believe in an intention of the Emperor to degrade architecture through equalization with the technical achievements of his engineers. Indirectly, however, such utterances did amount to that. But there is no lack of obvious proofs of his contempt. Neither in the decree that introduces the Prix décennaux nor in the administrative constitution of the Kingdom of Italy is architecture mentioned among the fine arts. In the former case, the Institute permits itself the timid remark as to whether there might not be an oversight here. A contemporary, however, confides in the time before 1813, before the appointment of the Premier Architecte, to his diary the lament: "Nothing is forgotten, except poor, unhappy architecture. Who will build buildings, who will maintain those built? Napoleon

has appointed no First Architect. Louis XIV did not forget him." It is generally known among contemporaries that Napoleon harbored the utmost aversion for this art and its creators. The same witness notes: "The ruler does not love architecture; consequently they fear

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VIII. MUSIC

he saw before him "bizarre buildings." Accordingly he also rejects the fashion of English gardens. He mocks the owners who, at great expense, had small lakes built by their architects, most of the time without water, little rocks in miniature, and little immovable rivers. "These stupidities," he said, "are bankers' whims. My English garden is the forest of Fontainebleau." The law of nature is different from that of art. He rejects their arbitrary mixing, the hybrid intrusion of the human spirit into the impenetrable creation and its artificial imitation. Apart from this great basic law of his own nature, the law of unity, he had no artistic standards for judging architecture: he did not regard it as an independent art like poetry, painting, or sculpture, but more as a state utility or decorative form. It must adapt itself to the given tasks. "Right down to the charcoal-burner's hut one can do architecture," he says once with regard to a clumsy barracks facade. His examination and judgment of designs therefore directs itself mainly to the manner in which the determination of purpose of the buildings is satisfied. And here his nature, hungry for sense and substance, works itself out in a methodical questioning about the details of construction and furnishing. In connection with the prize competition for the conversion of the Madeleine church into the Temple de la Gloire, he orders the convocation of a commission that is to examine the four award-winning designs according to thirteen questions elaborated by him for their feasibility and usefulness. There are found the necessities of the intended use, so often forgotten by princely art-lovers: questions about access for court and public, about capacity, lighting, acoustics, and the like. But strangely: precisely this exact attention to the building's purpose then inadvertently leads to a stylistic demand: not

the building is destined." To this also belongs when, on a hunting visit in the Château of Raincy, he criticizes that the owners had sunk enormous sums into trifling and arbitrary things. He especially criticizes the facade, which at the entrance to the

castle offered a columned hall in Ionic style and then for the rest went back to the form and plan of a simple hunting lodge. That is a contradiction, he thinks. Occasionally Napoleon advances from the primitive impressiveness of the outer form to the higher one of the inner building laws. But as a rule, the consideration of the building's purpose does not lead him so far. It stops at the suitability of the building for its purpose. There are basic differences here between utility buildings, private structures, and those that have to embody the state's prestige.

For the construction of the so-called Palace of the King of Rome, which Napoleon intended as a kind of summer house in Paris, he dictates in 1813 a note that says among other things: "I want this palace to be in some way a reinforced Sans Souci. I want above all that this be more a pleasant than a beautiful palace, two things that are incompatible; it is to lie between garden and courtyard like the Tuileries; I must be able to walk from my room into the garden and park ... my rooms must face north and south, so that I can change my quarters according to the temperature ... my living quarters are to be those of a rich private individual ... my rooms must be very close to those of the Empress and on the same floor. In short, it is to be a castle for relaxation or a residence for a man on the decline of life ... I want a small theater, a small chapel, and above all one must be very careful that there is no standing water around the castle." Versailles, the Louvre, and the Tuileries, however, are buildings of state significance. Here architecture means a piece of representation and decoration, intended to express the state's

On St. Helena he returns to these plans: "I disapproved of Versailles in its layout, but in my sometimes gigantic designs for Paris I dreamed of making use of it and with time turning it into something like a mere kind of suburb, a neighboring place, a point of view for the capital." He wanted, he said, to banish all those tasteless nymphs from the gardens and replace them with panoramas of all the capitals his armies had entered, and of all the battles his arms had glorified — and indeed in authentic

masonry. "These would have become as many eternal monuments of our triumphs and national glory, erected before the gates of the capital of Europe, which would necessarily have to be visited by the whole rest of the world." Similar points of view also appeared in the renovation of the Louvre. "The Louvre will never be a comfortable residence. I regard it as a state palace, in which one must unite everything one possesses in treasures of objects of art and science, such as statues, bronzes, paintings, libraries, archives, medals, casts." And according to another report: "Grandeur and majesty shall be the distinguishing character of this palace, which the ruler will visit only temporarily to receive here the homage and marks of reverence due to his station: for comfort and convenience of his private life he must seek in a dwelling of less extensive mass, must seek far from the throne and outside the representation of which he cannot divest himself." Thus the renovation is to work through its size and forms like the Temple of Minerva in Athens or the Imperial Library in Vienna. Naturally, the longing for a worthy expression of the new state power makes itself felt above all in its center itself, the capital. From his spirit and hands went forth a renewed and rejuvenated Paris. "One must,"

for its own sake, but as historical documents of state existence. This its significance certainly promoted his tolerance of styles otherwise not very congenial to him, e.g., Gothic. He has deep reverence for everything organically grown, everything historically become, insofar as it at the same time guarantees his own validity for posterity. Thus he resists with all emphasis, in the Louvre construction, the architects' plans to replace the various style-forms of this great building with a unified one. "The architects," he says in a note to his interior minister from 1805, "would like to follow a single plan and change everything. Economy, sound sense, and good taste lead to a completely different view; one must leave to each of the existing parts the character of its century." The Château of Fontainebleau he loves, praises, expands as "the residence of kings, the house of centuries." In Versailles he abhors the wasteful extravagance of

Louis XIV's show-palace. But nevertheless he cannot bring himself to intervene violently in what exists, to eliminate it; rather he renounces even living there longer himself. In the state council he complains: "Why did the Revolution, which destroyed so much, not tear down the Château of Versailles? I would then not have today one of Louis XIV's mistakes on my neck and an old, badly built castle to make tolerable." He proclaims it indeed as a basic law of architecture that great state buildings, destined for centuries, can also only be built by centuries and must preserve their form. That is what he meant by that previously communicated strange word about the renovation of Versailles, that it was a thing that would have to be done with centuries. With all emphasis he sets this principle against the ever-recurring proposals of Fontaine for creating a connecting link between

perpetuate memory on earth. A few days after his birthday in 1811, which had been celebrated with brilliant events in the gardens of St. Cloud, illuminations, theater, fireworks, and popular festivities, Napoleon remarks thoughtfully to his entourage: "Well yes, what remains of so many, so beautiful and costly things? Which of you will still be able to remember in six months how these things were, when you admired them. There will hopefully come a time when we can arrange better things to preserve our memory and not let our joys go up in smoke. Buildings, installations, institutions of public utility shall then be the annals of the Empire, and the date of a happy event, the celebration of a memorable festival, shall be marked by the erection of the building that will preserve its date." When, in falsely understood concern for his incomparable greatness, it is proposed to him to remove all old inscriptions and coats of arms from the Louvre, he emphasizes all the more forcefully the significance precisely of these symbols of the past for his own historical standing: "I believe that the signs and coats of arms that rulers have affixed to their works are dates that no one has the right to erase. Let each one mark what he has created; I see nothing wrong in it; on the contrary, art and curiosity can only

gain by it. Does one not see at St. Peter's in Rome the names, the signs of all the popes who participated in the erection of this great building? I would not be angry if one day my name were found next to that of Henry IV; one will see which of us has done the most for the welfare and glory of his country." And so at various places of the building parts erected by him in the Louvre, his great symbol N as well as his full name are found, and in the tympanum of the colonnade

Duroc with all sharpness: "Augustus only had the battle of Actium; Germanicus could win the Romans for himself through his misfortune, but he distinguished his life only through very moderate memoirs. One sees in the memoirs of the Roman emperors nothing one could wish for. One of the greatest cares of the Institute and of scholars must be to strive to make a great difference between them (the Roman emperors) and the tablets of our history." ... The Emperor's title is "Emperor of the French." So he wants no assimilation, neither the name "Augustus," nor "Germanicus," not even "Caesar." The language in which the inscriptions must be composed is French... And then he himself drafts eight different inscriptions, all terse and brief, but full of compressed pictorial and striking force, hammering his being and effect into spirits and times, and precisely for that reason a more genuine recurrence of Roman spirit than any artificial imitation. The first and most beautiful begins: "The Emperor Napoleon planted in the same year in which he was crowned Emperor his eagles on the walls of Vienna and carried off, one year after his coronation, the victory of the three emperors." Historical document, political means of expression, state utility and decorative form — all that architecture is for Napoleon, only no actual art. Accordingly durability, speed, economy are the essential guidelines that he sets for the execution of his buildings. That is what on the whole remained of those general basic thoughts of organic effect, of "unity, beautiful arrangement, and planfulness" in their actual application to architecture. How to produce what he built as the external symbol of his power, as

imperishable as possible, but at the same time as quickly as possible and at as low a cost as possible — that occupied him.

the material of this building would have to be." He asks: "Why should one not use iron or even baked clay for the vault that has given rise to disputes?" In the construction of the Pantheon some time before, he had considered having the pillars made of cast iron; he inquired about the advantages and disadvantages of such construction, and similarly some time later he asks his minister: "Let me know what there is to say against the idea of making the Pont d'Iéna of iron like the Pont des Arts." But he also does not entirely approve this bridge; would have preferred it built of stone. On an inspection of the Louvre, he suddenly stops at one of the windows overlooking the river and remarks: "I understand that in England, where stone is scarce, they use iron even for bridges of great span. But in France, where everything is in abundance!" Incidentally, his desire for iron constructions is itself a further proof of how foreign he was to the formal conditions and tasks of architecture. Speed of execution was his second law of building. As the Temple de la Gloire was to be imperishable, it was also to be finished as soon as possible. For "this building touches politics, it therefore belongs to those that must be constructed rapidly." No other law held here than for state affairs in general — war, administration, legislation. Three months were to suffice for the preliminary work on the definitive version of the Code civil, and it is still in force today. A couplet of the time says: "En paix, en guerre également / Son génie ardent l'accompagne; / Il fait construire un monument / Comme il termine une campagne." The political, the contemporary effect of the Temple de la Gloire was so important to the Emperor that even the thought of posterity had to yield: "If, however, it should be proved that the use of granite would entail too great expenses or too long a delay

the spot." Hardly has he returned from Elba in 1815, when — on March 26 already — he commands Fontaine to resume his building plans. He says to him: "I have given the intendant of the

household orders to make me a report on the buildings to be executed. But since I am not disposed to lose a moment, I authorize you to put the workshops for the new gallery and the exterior works at the Louvre back into operation as early as tomorrow." Where it concerns the prompt execution of his great glory-buildings, he can even postpone the third principle of his building activity, economy. In June 1810 he writes to his minister: "Make me a report on the triumphal arch, on the sums allocated for it this year. Push the work on it forward vigorously. If necessary, I will give you a supplementary credit of 500,000-600,000 francs." Otherwise, however, he is inexorable also in observing this principle. Speed of building may extort some extra expense, but durability, his other law of building, must yield even to cost-saving. As to the state's contemporary effect, he also sacrifices it to the requirements of state economy. To save money, he occasionally does not shrink from using false materials. "In the Luxembourg," the architects complain, "everything is false." The walls, the columns are painted marble, the candelabra painted bronze; for the Pantheon he had even proposed cast-iron columns. Like the Prussian soldier-kings of the 18th century, he had an insuperable suspicion against mismanagement and swindling by architects. It sounds like a pronouncement of the first Frederick William when he storms against them: "They ruin the state and private individuals alike... One would not find a family in Paris that they have not ruined..."

Napoleon notes in the margin: "What do I care about Monsieur Beaujon, and what he may have done! The builder has lost my confidence and will hand over his accounts to the one who has been proposed to me and whom I will appoint within eight days." Another case gives him occasion for the following decree to his police minister: "They suspect Calmelet and a certain Bataille, whom he uses as architect and decorator, of being in collusion in a way contrary to my interests, and I would be quite inclined to give credit to the various reports reaching me, when I consider that they have presented me with a bill of one million in expenses for a house of Prince Eugène that they furnished and for which

they certainly did not spend two hundred thousand francs." He commissions Fouché with the investigation of the matter within fourteen days to create "a strict and useful example" if necessary. Eugène himself must endure reproaches: "My son, you have arranged your affairs in Paris very badly; a bill of 1,500,000 francs for your house is presented to me; this sum is monstrous. Calmelet, Bataille, and that little intendant are rascals; and I see that they have confused everything so that one will not be able to avoid paying a great deal. I see this with sorrow; I thought you more orderly. One must have nothing done without a cost estimate, with the obligation not to exceed it. You have done just the opposite. The architect has feasted on it as much as he wanted, and thus enormous sums have been thrown into the water. Apply more care and understanding than here to the affairs of my Italian civil list; architects are the same everywhere."

His suspicion of builders even led him — despite his inner strangeness to their art and his aversion

to be incurred for it: thus for the renovation of the Château of Versailles. And when in 1813, after long resistance to the equalization of architecture with the visual arts in Fontaine, he appoints his "Premier Architecte," it does not happen without linking to it the task of checking all plans and accounts of civil and military buildings. This deep distrust of architects has its last, its true ground in the fact that their actual intentions are impenetrable to the Emperor, able to escape his influence. He sees in them nothing but unmastered personal inspirations and whims that run counter to his higher state necessities, his own needs. Actually he is satisfied with none of the European princely palaces. "Why," he exclaims, "have all architects who had to build rulers' residences managed so badly?" "He had," a state councillor further reports, "seen no castle, no palace that could please him. Frederick's Sans Souci was uncomfortable and tasteless. Trianon in the park of Versailles was uninhabitable; Marly, which had been destroyed, was no longer. All the villas of

Italy presupposed masters who always lived in the open air and sun. The great palaces of Germany were insipid, ponderous, boring." He admits "that it is more difficult to build a house for a head of state than for anyone else ... Majesty and comfort do not go well together; one always suffers." He himself, as shown, strictly separated both in his building instructions, but nonetheless suffered from this separation, from the constraint of representational buildings that confined his expansive nature, just as from the constraint of etiquette and gala. He believes he may demand of architecture that it must find a means of resolving these difficulties, and blames the builders

when he makes preparations for his stay in the Strasbourg palace, he orders: "Recommend Fontaine to work neither with paste nor smell. That is the worst of all." That architecture would like to count as art, pursue its own work-goals and laws, appears to him as an unbearable presumption, only as an attempt to enrich itself at the expense of the state and to evade its order and supervision. With the same means as those Prussian soldier-kings, he therefore seeks to remedy this state-endangering disorder fundamentally: by trying to transfer it from its impenetrable guild and art-fog into the transparent atmosphere of his state-military household. In that conversation with Fontaine in which he complains about the incomprehensible confusion of building accounts, he threatens to appoint, to counter all this, an engineer whom the interior minister had proposed to him. To be sure, it does not seem to have been without effect on him when Fontaine frankly countered him: "to degrade a profession is not the right means to help it flourish, and to put architects under the direction of an engineer is to give a pupil as superior to his masters, for architects also master the whole engineering field, not the reverse." In fact, however, Napoleon at least in general had recourse to the help of engineers. In his engineering corps, whose training he had taken especially to heart since his earliest beginnings, whose leaders (Gassendi, Marescot) counted among his trusted friends and advisors, he had a militarily organized, at the same time with the

necessary professional knowledge equipped organization, on which he could rely when it came to countering the self-willed and opaque claims of the architects. From this corps he takes several of his interior ministers, to whose business area the

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From this conception, but also limited to it, music counts for him as a particularly essential, to some extent superior to the other arts, expedient and component of his new state-creation. It appears here in the task and significance that Plato assigns to it for the state. About six years after that literary appreciation of music, Napoleon writes, in the first possession of public standing, from his headquarters in Milan to the inspectors of the Music Conservatory in Paris: "Of all the fine arts, music has the most influence on the passions; the legislator must encourage it the most. A piece of morally uplifting music, made by a master hand, infallibly seizes the feeling and has more influence than a fine work on morality that convinces reason without gaining influence on our habits." The obvious intention of the writer to say something pleasing to the recipients no more impairs

one could doubt whether the author had it before his eyes when writing his work. So literally can no one, let alone such a creative nature as Napoleon, repeat himself after more than twenty years. To be sure, Napoleon does not go so far as to except music from the other arts. He holds fast to the generic concept under which modern European culture groups music with poetry, painting, sculpture, architecture. But the force for which he elevates it above these arts — that immediate effect on feelings and passions which, by skipping all conscious ideas, strikes man in his innermost being, stirs and transforms him — this force means, without his being properly aware of it, an essential difference that separates music from the other arts: it is rooted in a deeper domain than the — spiritual — germs and forces of the other arts, an unconscious nature-stratum, exercises an immediate magical-demonic power. This elementary force of music, felt by him dully and deeply, is also the object of a practical application of that programmatic declaration to the

Paris Conservatory of 1797 — an army order from the next year in Egypt: "Every day at noon, on the squares opposite the hospitals, national melodies will be played by the bands of the various troop units, to give the sick courage to live and to recall the most beautiful moments of past campaigns." To awaken an echo in the hearts of the soldiers of fallen great commanders, he orders at their funeral ceremonies the singing of appropriate songs: thus at Hoche's funeral the singing of Chénier's hymn to the fallen and Lebrun's hymn to the 18th Fructidor. He believes he cannot strengthen their memory among their former comrades-in-arms more effectively than by linking their name with music dedicated to them. One day before the

IX. PORTRAITS

IX. PORTRAITS

. . . should awaken this [heroic] manhood itself in the spirits of the nation, form a new heroic race, much as Goethe described as the task of the great tragic poet. Music, however — that is the differential meaning of the above saying — can directly kindle the heroic feeling in the individual listener (without first engaging the imagination and first reshaping the disposition of the man in his consciousness). Therefore the development that music was about to take in his time had to disturb him greatly.

After music had served — through the Middle Ages even more closely than the other arts — in the service of the church as accompaniment and framework for its cult, with the shattering and fragmentation of the old church forms, with the advance of Protestantism, it faced new destinies. At first it remained for centuries in the old path of a pure singing proficiency, adapting and integrating itself, as once to the cult of the church, now to the sociability of the courts and the new bourgeois society. The claim, indeed the very idea, of a special art equal to the others was still remote. Especially in Italy it was cultivated in this way. From Germany began the new movement toward an independent art-genre, as the skill so long practiced in the service of other powers now underwent a technical development for its own sake, for its particular charms, and, permeated with intellectual elements, was developed partly into fugue and symphony, partly into dramatic opera. In the eighteenth century this movement reached France. Until then here too pure song-art in the form of Italian opera had dominated social life. Now, under the influence of Gluck, the transformation took place. The dramatic content, which in Italian opera had been limited to a few traditional types and served only as a foundation for the singing, was, according to the . . .

. . . spoke to feelings, immediately awakened those heroic emotions of which he himself was capable and which he wished

others capable and partaking. This music contradicted from the start his — already manifest in poetry — need for purity of genres, his preference for a decisive style, the "genre tranché." To his nature the connection of the acoustic with phenomena of foreign sensory domains, especially the optical, was already little suited; but above all the mixture of what spoke directly to feeling — melodies and rhythms — with pure ideational and conscious content had to confuse him, hinder him from surrendering freely to its living effect. His interest, from the start more lively for poetry than for all other arts, was naturally soon claimed more by the text than by the music and diverted from it. At a rehearsal of Paësiello's "Proserpina," which he ordered held in his presence, he made a host of remarks to the composer "about faulty French prosody, about violently separated and improperly repeated words," while on the other hand objecting to the interludes that interrupted the singing. . . . And yet he had expressly ordered this very opera — as will be discussed more closely — as a counter-example and agitational means against the new direction he disliked. His aversion to this was further increased by the fact that music here itself became more and more de-sensualized, vaulted over the original flow of melody with the structure of its harmonies, and thus made it opaque, sacrificed its elemental effect, the enchantment of the senses and feeling, to the satisfaction of an isolated culture of taste, to self-gratification in the refinement of its artistic means. Napoleon stood opposed to this — not only through the pull of kinship — but through his whole inner disposition on the side of the older . . .

. . . and right after him came Zingarelli, which drew the grimly murmured reply: "Paësiello, perhaps. But Zingarelli!" His veneration for the latter composer went so far that he — quite against his habit — did not hold even open state insubordination against him. Zingarelli, director of the chapel of St. Peter's in Rome, refused to conduct the festive music ordered by Napoleon for this church on the occasion of the birth of the King of Rome, declaring that in Rome he knew only one sovereign, the Pope. Napoleon indeed had him brought to Paris as a prisoner, but

treated him with all honors en route and in Paris, indeed twice handed him four thousand francs each time for his maintenance. On another occasion, when Zingarelli had fallen into straitened circumstances, he immediately granted him state assistance upon the appropriate representation of a chamberlain. For Spontini the Emperor intervened most emphatically. His "Vestalin" received one of the prix décennaux. He himself had had to push through its performance against the opposition of the Parisians, who resisted the Italian opera they considered outdated. Only on his express command could the opera be performed. Then it had an enormous success. Napoleon felt so satisfied with this kind of music that he himself assigned the composer a new task, the "Cortez," for composition. Napoleon notes with satisfaction when he can hear Italian music on his campaigns. From Posen in December 1806 he adds a postscript to a letter to Joséphine: "The famous musician Paër, his wife, an artiste whom you saw in Milan twelve years ago, and Brizzi are here; they make me a little music every evening." He — probably after the end of the campaign in July 1807 — heard Paër's opera "Achille" at Dresden, where Paër was Kapellmeister, with such pleasure that he engaged the composer on diplomatic . . .

. . . opera "Romeo and Juliet" by Zingarelli in Vienna in 1805, he immediately engaged the singer Crescentini at an annual salary of fifty thousand francs for his court theater in Paris, in order later to bestow upon him, as the first among all artists, even the Order of the Iron Crown: an unusual distinction that so aroused the wrath of his officers and the court society that Napoleon still jested on St. Helena that he, who had been able to distribute scepters at will — which people had willingly bowed to — could not successfully bestow a simple order!

Just as original and immediate as his inclination toward Italian music was Napoleon's aversion to German music, from which — though this perhaps never became conscious to him — the newer movement in music so distasteful to him had taken its departure. Just as innate as the pure sensuous element was to Italian music,

so German music had from the outset a relation to intellectual or emotional elements. These formed the natural breeding-ground of the new movement. But even without connection with this, German music must have appeared to Napoleon, according to his unified nature, alien, strange, arbitrary. "In the midst of war," he writes in October 1805 from Ludwigsburg to one of his ministers, "I heard very good music yesterday. Yet German song struck me as somewhat 'baroque.'" The music he heard was Mozart's "Don Juan." And he indeed repeats also in a letter to Joseph that this music "seemed very good" to him, but he shows at the same time how unknown this work, already enjoying European fame, had remained to him until then. "I imagine," he writes, "that the music of this opera is the same as that of the opera given in Paris." And just a few months earlier, in June 1805, he had inquired of his Police Minister "what that piece 'Don Juan' is that they give at the opera . . ."

. . . general (according to one source as a brigadier general, thus probably in that Paris summer of 1795 when he associated so much in the circle of young artists; according to others only shortly before his campaign to Egypt in 1798), he remarks to Cherubini that his music was too learned and not singable enough, which earned him the reply: "General, concern yourself with winning battles, that is your trade. And let me do mine, of which you understand nothing." This reply was never forgotten and reinforced the factual rejection, which always remained the same and found the same expression. "Though an Italian," the Emperor later says, "Cherubini made no Italian music." And he persisted in his aversion, even when Cherubini in 1809 with his "Pygmalion" returned to the paths of his native music. Indeed, he rather accepted that the Méhul he esteemed declined the position of court Kapellmeister than that he should have yielded to his magnanimous request to share this position with the needy Cherubini, whom Méhul on this occasion called "our common master in the domain of sacred music." — Méhul himself had to let the Consul Bonaparte make the same reproaches about his own music as his friend Cherubini had received from General

Bonaparte a few years before. Again and again Napoleon tells him that his works were very beautiful, but they contained no vocal parts comparable to those of the Italian masters. "Science you give us, and always science, my dear fellow. But grace, song, and cheerfulness — you Frenchmen have as little of that as the Germans." It is almost word for word the same that Napoleon expressed to and about Cherubini — a word that unambiguously designates the direction of newer music, the opposition of the various schools, and Napoleon's principled position toward it. Méhul believed he could teach the Consul better about his ability, and succeeded . . .

. . . to the end. Again and again he declares: "Decidedly, there is only Italian music." Then when, according to French custom, at the end of the performance the name of the real composer is announced, the Consul graciously lets the deception pass. (A quite similar trait of his is reported on another occasion. An aria by Cimarosa had been inserted into an opera by Paësiello, whom Napoleon greatly esteemed. Napoleon, who did not know this, expressed his approval to Paësiello in his box in the most extraordinary manner: "The man who composed this aria can call himself the greatest composer in Europe." Paësiello, well knowing that the Emperor did not like Cimarosa, timidly remarked that this was the author of the piece so admired by the Emperor: "A pity," the Emperor replied, "but what I have said I cannot take back.")

All these utterances, made at such various times and occasions, make Napoleon's inner position toward musical problems appear more definite and principled than one might suppose given his poetically endowed nature. "Baroque" was the word with which Grétry too designated the new kind of music. It may have been a general battle-cry of the older against the newer direction and taken up by Napoleon from this polemic, as well as the characterization of this direction as "musique savante." But that Napoleon applies both also to German music shows that these expressions are probably based on a more original, personal

moment of experience. That word about "all the German dreamers" resonates. In Napoleon's conception and language, "baroque" means the arbitrary deviation from the uniform, the lawful, the caprice and extravagance of individual artistry: his innate state sense, which on all domains wants general bindingness, vents itself therein. Napoleon does not remain with mere partisanship . . .

. . . could not have demanded from the Italian melodist an opera to a French text, which of necessity had to lie in the direction of that tragic expressive art and hinder him. This attempt had to fail. But Napoleon's criticism proves — precisely as Reichardt reports it — that he blamed the failure on the text, which pursued its own dramatic-declamatory intentions without regard to the vocal-musical unfolding of the opera and thereby disturbed it. So this failed attempt left the prestige of Italian music and Napoleon's preference for it unshaken, although he seems not to have repeated it. Indeed, Napoleon showed himself very angry over the failure of "Proserpina" and blamed the listeners, repeatedly saying "the French understood nothing of music." Conversely, however, the adherents of the new school for their part — as Reichardt had already done — reproached Napoleon with lacking understanding of music, foremost among them the often disapproved and even ill-treated Cherubini. In him, if one surveys the whole development of music under Napoleon, the counter-direction seems to have condensed as it were into a counter-pole that drew the sharpest imperial attacks upon itself, but also gave back no less sharply, or even provoked them. One such utterance of Cherubini from early times has already been mentioned. Still in his old age he declares in retrospect: "Napoleon did not love music because he did not understand it, and because the sensation he felt from it was for him only equivalent to the effect of a noise that got on his nerves and was unpleasant to him. The necessity of hearing music caused him to reproach me for the strength of the orchestras under my direction" — a reproach that Cherubini had met at the time with

the remark wounding to the Consul: "You like music that does not . . ."

. . . represented a courtly institution, a partial expression of the old "gloire" of France, the continuation of the courtly splendor of its kings. Hence that saying: the opera was the soul of Paris, as Paris was the soul of France. From this consciousness he wants to support the Grand Opera of Paris at the expense of all other theaters. Before the Council of State he expounds: "The opera costs the government eight hundred thousand francs annually; but one must maintain an institution that flatters national vanity. One can support it without resorting to a new tax. One need only favor the opera at the expense of the other theaters through certain privileges. . . . Only the Grand Opera may have the right to give ballets." He knew what attractive power the ballets in particular exerted on the Parisian population, and therefore did not disdain to turn his personal attention to them as well. He himself occasionally encouraged composers to write such spectacles, gave them the subjects, and later supervised the execution — sometimes from the midst of a campaign. Here purely political moments often coincided with the cultural-political ones. About a ballet "Le Retour d'Ulysse" by Gardel he writes in October 1806 from Potsdam to his Police Minister: "I send you my approval for the expenditure on the staging of the ballet 'Le Retour d'Ulysse.' Have a detailed report on this ballet made for you, and attend its first performance to assure yourself that nothing bad occurs in it — you understand in what sense. The subject appears to me beautiful, moreover. I myself gave it to Gardel." (About the mysterious hint, Napoleon later spoke again to Fouché: not an allusion to Kosciuszko was in question, but one in another direction — that is, probably to himself.) That the actual opera as the most distinguished of the theatrical . . .

. . . Besides the Grand Opera, he also extended his protection to the Opéra-Comique. It too has an old tradition, is grown together with the social life of France, and so he wished to help it regain its old splendor. A petition about the distressed situation of this

institution he resolved in 1806 as follows: "I will gladly give the theater a hundred thousand francs for promotion, but on condition that the leading actors return there and that it shows itself worthy of its old reputation. Otherwise I will cease to give it any assistance whatever." His state-economic sense always demanded to see a tangible return for the expenses incurred. Where this was not evident, neither intercession nor tradition could induce him to such expenditures. Something similar must have been the reason for cutting the Conservatory by two-thirds of its revenues. Meanwhile, what its defender, that German musician, believed he could adduce in its favor — that "instrumental music was practiced there far more and with far better success than singing" — may have worked to the institute's disadvantage. That could certainly hardly be a recommendation for this institution in Napoleon's eyes. To composers who with successful works increased the prestige of the Grand Opera or otherwise helped promote opera, Napoleon — regardless of whether they suited his personal taste, even if they paid homage to the new school — did not withhold recognition and reward. Grétry, who admittedly came to meet Napoleon's inclination with buffo-opera and Singspiel — individual refrains of his were often heard on Napoleon's lips — received an annual pension of four thousand francs from the Emperor's private purse; Monsigny for his opera "Le Déserteur" one of six thousand and the Cross of the Legion of Honor. Likewise, on the day after the first performance of the opera "Les Bá . . ."

. . . occasion probably prompted that hint to Fouché regarding the "Retour d'Ulysse". . . On the other hand, to produce a politically desired mood, the composition of certain operas was commissioned: related historical events were to be heightened into strengthened symbols for the present with the help of music. The opera "Triomphe de Trajan," whose text Fouché ordered from Esmenard, has already been mentioned. The composition was entrusted to Lesueur. During the disastrous winter campaign of 1814, the government in Paris even called upon four of the

most renowned composers, including Cherubini and Boïeldieu, to lift the depressed spirits through their collaborative work on a "Bayard à Mézières." And indeed, individual passages, especially an ensemble by Cherubini, had an astonishing effect in this direction. It is characteristic that Napoleon, who continually exploited the impression-power of religion for the strengthening of his monarchical prestige, sometimes did not fail to add that of music alongside it. He wrote in 1805 to the Viceroy Eugène in Italy: "Inform us whether at the end of Masses a prayer for the King is ordered in all churches of the kingdom. Have a particularly beautiful music composed for it and let it be sung constantly." The music for the Mass in the Consul's private chapel was conducted by Paësiello and furnished with his own compositions, among which the German musician who once attended it emphasizes a "very gallant, fashionable duet." But he also does not fail to note emphatically: "The Consul seemed to pay as little attention to the music as to the Mass itself: one saw quite unmistakably that in the spiritual act only a political act was being performed." Music too, like religion and the other arts, becomes in the course of development ever more purely a state means in Napoleon's service. Ever more emphatically . . .

. . . need for immediate heroic impressions on his own soul and the souls of his army and people. Hence those orders about the music in the market at Cairo, hence those words of recognition to Méhul: personal experience interpenetrates with the state-heroic. But his care for opera and ballet in Paris, his honors to — especially non-Italian — composers in later times, his commissions for particular operas and pieces of music, the supervision of their performance: all these are only measures of state administration — an administration, to be sure, that for the genius is broader and means more than for the ruler of inherited right: it is exhalation and final precipitate of his personal creation, which it seeks to preserve and perpetuate, though it cannot. The heroic originary power that animated the creation trickles away into the channels of the mechanical system: the state-heroic congeals into the monarchical-legitimate, the mission

into *raison d'état*. And with the core, all forces that radiated livingly from it and served it: so too music, its validity and cultivation. What was first livingly felt, then livingly applied, dies as a member of a rigidifying organism. But this rigidifying organism preserves, in its greatly formed and far-stretched forms, something of the spirit of the primal creation, indeed contains more thereof than the "establishments" of all later state regimes: so much that they could all nourish their apparent life-force from it. How here music — the once living power, the last remnant of extinguished social culture — received its state stamp as a genre-art with university and academy, that is only a schematic takeover of those once internally animated forms into a dead present.

CARLO BUONAPARTE (drawing by Pontormini, 1785)

AMBROGIO (drawing by Guérin, 1797)

GROS: Napoleon on the Bridge of Arcole, 1797 (Louvre, Paris)

DAVID: sketch, 1797 (Collection of the Duke of Bassano)

INGRES: Bonaparte as First Consul, 1805 (Museum, Liège)

ISABEY: The First Consul at Malmaison (Museum, Versailles)

DAVID: Portrait of Napoleon from the Coronation, 1806 (Louvre, Paris)

CANOVA: Standing Figure in the Courtyard of the Brera

CONCLUSION

The progressive liberation of personality from commonly binding orders, the fruit of the Renaissance, passing through the Reformation — the liberation of conscience — led in the Age of Enlightenment to the — admittedly initially theoretical — recognition of the equal value and equal rights of all individual beings, which necessarily abolished the significance of the great individual being. The circle of development seemed to have been run through, but a difference remained compared with the starting point. The new universal validity to which the living individual was sacrificed did not rest, as that of antiquity and the Middle Ages, on a life-power growing from generation to generation, but solely on a represented, from the needs of the time out of thought and demand constructed life-order. And this was much more inexorable than the former, since as an abstract ordinance (the hard law of tolerance, the harder law of socialism) it lacked the imponderable mitigations that multiform nature imparts even to its sternest creations and bonds. Today the ground seems entirely withdrawn from the creative formation of the individual; the fate of the world is abandoned to the impulse of movements that, in their apparition ungraspable, exhaust their content in ideas and programs as they arise namelessly from the depth of the age. —

So far the development had not yet progressed when Napoleon entered the midst of events. Around the great turning-point of the age, in which the new world-condition established itself — the French Revolution — the circle of activity for the individual was not yet so narrowed. Its elemental significance still demanded elemental powers. The new depersonalized world-constitution also needed — strange as it is — for its definitive breakthrough the great self-responsibility of personal agency, and thus it was its fate to nourish in its own womb the counter-force that, beyond itself, continued the continuity of human . . .

. . . the — by him himself determined — boundary of all that had existed, a measure driven to the extreme. Ideas, programs, actions signify here, as in all ages not yet wholly torn from their human ground, two things: they are indeed once the willed aids with which the epoch seeks to move itself forward from its given situation, to develop. But they are at the same time also involuntary life-expression, necessary realization of the great person who sums up the direction and goal of the epoch. Therefore all these things have a different face, according to whether they are seen in their reference to the time or as a constituent part of the spirit that moves it. The same thought, the same deed can appear once as the purposive satisfaction of cultural or political needs of the age and then again as elemental utterance of a personal creative will. The Egyptian expedition, Brumaire, the Congress of Erfurt, the Russian campaign have their temporal conditionality as results of the world-situation and their trans-temporal unconditionality as existence-expression of the great person who draws these results, thinks thoughts, accomplishes deeds, indeed suffers fate. Even where he does not actually "do," but something seems to be done, to happen with him, this double aspect is given. St. Helena seals not only the definitive overcoming of Napoleonic rule by the allied powers of civilized Europe, but at the same time also the martyrdom of this heroic creator-man, which completes his legendary personal power. For this person, the agent, the accomplisher, and thereby for the definitive fate and face of the epoch, ideas and programs count only insofar as they had value for the embodiment of his own power-will. Napoleon could in his beginnings set out from the revolution-conditioning ideas of Rousseau, could then nevertheless employ the anarchic shattering of the state regime with its destructive excesses . . .

. . . state-theories of the century, the extensively and opaquely combined constitutional draft of Sieyès. But it lies in the nature of the matter that even the great accomplisher regularly conceives and expresses his thoughts only out of the age, with its representations and imaginings. This has its ground, first, in the

fact that even the hero — and precisely he, who is more rooted than others in the concrete — accomplishes his creation only out of the given. Precisely he cannot, like the political project-maker or literary sign-reader, act in airless space. To draft out of individual fantasy the dream-image of a future state and to mirror himself therein is not his way. Caesars invent no utopias. Napoleon has only a shrug for Theophilanthropy. He has, as he says, on the dark paths of life the principle of following those who would have gone before him. To make state from the existing material, to build world, is the deed assigned to him, necessarily his own. But this his work too initially retains for his eye the forms of visible present. Even insofar as it reaches beyond the frame of contemporary events, it presents itself to him first as the fulfillment of temporal tasks. Secondly, however, even to him, the doer in contrast to the poet, only in special cases is another language, another conceptual domain available than that which his age has. Thereby the true face that the hero bears within himself of his person and his deeds — beyond that time-conditioned view — as the kernel-husk of his creation, as the feeling of his "mission," is necessarily darkened, the unconditionality of his face obscured by the conditionality of the age and its expression. The spirit that creatively changes state and world must, however little conscious, carry such a preformed image of his creation (like the artist) within him. Genius is no machine of the world-spirit, but . . .

. . . gives things of the age their face, which in truth is his own — his own, nourished from all living forces of the past and contemporary world. Only by the formation of the chain of creative geniuses, by the showing-forth of the passing-on of the world-substance embodied in them from one creator-hand into another, will a true history of the operative world-forces be created. From them, from the geniuses and not conversely from the time-conditioned individuals, from us, our needs and views, must history be written. Not the age can judge him who gave it its face creatively, but conversely the age and what it was worth must be measured with the eyes, from the visual domain and

thoughts of the genius. Napoleon himself once repelled criticism of his deeds with the indignant outburst: "Does that not mean that the creature gives his creator the lie?"

Only from this shift of standpoint was the recently advanced historical view possible, which sees in Napoleon the close of occidental culture and the beginning of modern civilization, and his tragic fate in the fact that he actually led the power of England — which he had wanted to fight — to victory himself. Such a conclusion could only be drawn by grasping the being and work of Napoleon entirely from his conditioned actuality. Such a view differs only in degree, not essentially, from the opinions that the previous bourgeois age developed of Napoleon: opinions that limited Napoleon's significance to his fall and saw his influence on the course of the world as exhausted in the course of his statesmanlike and military activity. That newer historical view, like the preceding age whose last expression it in truth is, overlooked that all external empire exists only "of its time and for its time," and that the ever-effective universal . . .

. . . symbolically establishes, stamps its myth. But what do the vicissitudes of Napoleonic politics and warfare matter to such a creator-poet? He will be inflamed by other events and powers in the life of his hero — those that lie beyond his time and its conditions in his world-lawfulness. For the creative poet answers with his innermost only to the great determining forces of the world. His participation and enthusiasm show where these are present. Political and state actions are the rightly notorious domain of the dramatic litterateur. In the work of the great poet who forms the Napoleonic spirit as a creation, his temporal activity might not even need to be spoken of. Indeed it would be conceivable that even his name not be mentioned. Only his great world-sustaining, world-forming soul would have to grow to figure therein.

When Napoleon appeared, humane civilization from England had long been on its triumphal march. Napoleon — considered as his whole person, as acting apparition — certainly did not submit to

this march. All his being and working is on the contrary an indelible protest against the power of civilization. One need only recall that word of Talleyrand about the "personal enmity of Napoleon against good taste," from which he, in the Grand Chancellor's opinion, would most gladly have freed himself with cannon. That is indeed the symbolically compressed core of his being. He set up, in the midst of modern civilization, once more the figure of the heroic doer, of him for whom, as he himself says, the laws of morality and custom are not made — i.e., can only count insofar as they serve the completion of his own I — but this I is the embodied world. Nor is it his fate, let alone his tragedy, that he perhaps unwittingly or even against his will led this triumph of the civilized counter-powers . . .

. . . that moves the world in a direction opposed to the bourgeois, mechanizing spirit: toward the man who completes himself in the world and the world in himself. To make Napoleon the inaugurator or even merely the bearer of modern civilization would mean not wanting to see his apparitional being, his great personal existence; it would mean: Lodi, Egypt, Brumaire, Austerlitz, Moscow, Elba, Waterloo, St. Helena — narrowing them to the significance of political daily events; while they are the monstrous outbreaks of a rising world-power against the rigidifying stream of time. They are eternal names, in that they pass this power beyond their time into the course of generations. And it matters little what the fate and situation of a people may be, what its form of thought and state, as long as those names still hold and, still partaking of their power, make the people certain of the immortal present of its hero.

CHRONOLOGY

1769 — August 15. Napoleon born in Ajaccio (Corsica).

1779 — Napoleon is brought to France by his father. First schooling at Autun.

1779-1784 — Military school at Brienne.

1784-1785 — Military school at Paris.

1785 — Second lieutenant in the La Fère artillery regiment.

1785-1786 — Garrison at Valence.

1786-1787 — Leave in Corsica and Paris.

1788-1789 — Garrison at Auxonne.

1789-1791 — Leave in Corsica. The Revolution spreads to Corsica. Napoleon actively involved, meets Paoli.

1791 — Garrison at Auxonne. First lieutenant in the 4th Artillery Regiment. Garrison at Valence ("Discours de Lyon").

1791-1792 — Leave in Corsica. Commander of the volunteer battalion. Party struggles in Corsica.

1792 — Leave in Paris. Captain.

1792-1793 — Service in Corsica. Expeditions against La Maddalena.

1793 — Captain-commandant in the 4th Artillery Regiment. Struggles in Corsica with the Paolists. Napoleon leaves Corsica definitively with his family. Struggles in southern France ("Le Souper de Beaucaire"). Toulon. Commander-in-chief of the siege artillery. Brigadier general.

1794-1795 — Commander-in-chief of the artillery with the Army of Italy. Arrest after the fall of Robespierre (July 1794).

1795 — Summer in Paris. Napoleon struck from the list of active generals. Projects, friendships, connections: Barras. Vendémiaire: suppression of the Sections. Divisional general. Commanding general of the Army of the Interior.

1796 — Supreme command of the Army of Italy. Marriage to Joséphine.

1796-1797 — First Italian campaign: Montenotte. Lodi. Milan. Florence. Arcole. Rivoli. Peace of Tolentino (with the Pope). Sojourn at Mombello and Passariano. 18 Fructidor. Peace of Campoformio.

1797 — Commanding general of the Army against England. Congress of Rastatt. Paris.

1798-1799 — Egyptian expedition.

1799 — Brumaire: coup d'état. Napoleon First Consul.

1800 — Second Italian campaign. Crossing of the Great St. Bernard. Marengo.

1801 — Peace of Lunéville. Concordat. Expedition to Santo Domingo.

1802 — Consular plebiscite. Consulta at Lyon. Peace of Amiens.

1803 — Rupture of the Peace of Amiens. Occupation of Hanover. Expedition against Haiti.

1804 — Conspiracy of Cadoudal, Pichegru, Moreau. Execution of the Duke of Enghien. Proclamation of the Empire. First distributions of the Legion of Honor. Camp at Boulogne.

1805 — King of Italy. Coronation in Milan. Battle of Trafalgar. Austrian campaign: Ulm. Austerlitz. Peace of Pressburg.

1806 — Kingdom of Holland: Louis King. Confederation of the Rhine. Prussian campaign: Jena and Auerstädt. Berlin Decree (Continental Blockade).

1807 — Eylau. Peace of Tilsit. Foundation of the Kingdom of Westphalia: Jérôme King.

1808 — Spanish campaign (until 1814). Joseph King of Spain. Murat King of Naples. Congress of Erfurt. Goethe. Weimar. Napoleon on the Spanish theater of war. Capitulation of Madrid.

1809 — Campaign against Austria. Eckmühl. Aspern. Wagram. Peace of Schönbrunn. Divorce from Joséphine.

1810 — Marriage to Marie Louise. Incorporation of the Papal States and Holland.

1811 — Birth of the King of Rome. National Council.

1812 — The Pope at Fontainebleau. Russian campaign. Battle of the Moskowa. Moscow. Beresina.

1813 — War with Prussia, Russia, Austria. Leipzig.

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1815-1821 — St. Helena.

1821 — May 5. Death of Napoleon.

CORRECTIONS

p. 17, l. 28: Barbé-Marbois instead of Barbé-Marois.

p. 27, l. 14: Leoben instead of Tolentino.

p. 161, l. 4: Landsman Pontornini instead of schoolmate Pontormini.

p. 200, l. 11 fr. b.: autochthon instead of antochthon.

p. 262, l. 10 fr. b.: Geoffroy instead of Geoffoy.

p. 282, l. 9 fr. b.: Bohême instead of Bohème.

CHRONOLOGY

1769 — August 15. Napoleon born in Ajaccio (Corsica).

1779 — Napoleon is brought to France by his father. First schooling at Autun.

1779-1784 — Military school at Brienne.

1784-1785 — Military school at Paris.

1785 — Second lieutenant in the La Fère artillery regiment.

1785-1786 — Garrison at Valence.

1786-1787 — Leave in Corsica and Paris.

1788-1789 — Garrison at Auxonne.

1789-1791 — Leave in Corsica. The Revolution spreads to Corsica. Napoleon actively involved, meets Paoli.

1791 — Garrison at Auxonne. First lieutenant in the 4th Artillery Regiment. Garrison at Valence ("Discours de Lyon").

1791-1792 — Leave in Corsica. Commander of the volunteer battalion. Party struggles in Corsica.

1792 — Leave in Paris. Captain.

1792-1793 — Service in Corsica. Expeditions against La Maddalena.

1793 — Captain-commandant in the 4th Artillery Regiment. Struggles in Corsica with the Paolists. Napoleon leaves Corsica definitively with his family. Struggles in southern France ("Le Souper de Beaucaire"). Toulon. Commander-in-chief of the siege artillery. Brigadier general.

1794-1795 — Commander-in-chief of the artillery with the Army of Italy. Arrest after the fall of Robespierre (July 1794).

1795 — Summer in Paris. Napoleon struck from the list of active generals. Projects, friendships, connections: Barras. Vendémiaire: suppression of the Sections. Divisional general. Commanding general of the Army of the Interior.

1796 — Supreme command of the Army of Italy. Marriage to Joséphine.

1796-1797 — First Italian campaign: Montenotte. Lodi. Milan. Florence. Arcole. Rivoli. Peace of Tolentino (with the Pope). Sojourn at Mombello and Passariano. 18 Fructidor. Peace of Campoformio.

1797 — Commanding general of the Army against England. Congress of Rastatt. Paris.

1798-1799 — Egyptian expedition.

1799 — Brumaire: coup d'état. Napoleon First Consul.

1800 — Second Italian campaign. Crossing of the Great St. Bernard. Marengo.

1801 — Peace of Lunéville. Concordat. Expedition to Santo Domingo.

1802 — Consular plebiscite. Consulta at Lyon. Peace of Amiens.

1803 — Rupture of the Peace of Amiens. Occupation of Hanover. Expedition against Haiti.

1804 — Conspiracy of Cadoudal, Pichegru, Moreau. Execution of the Duke of Enghien. Proclamation of the Empire. First distributions of the Legion of Honor. Camp at Boulogne.

1805 — King of Italy. Coronation in Milan. Battle of Trafalgar. Austrian campaign: Ulm. Austerlitz. Peace of Pressburg.

1806 — Kingdom of Holland: Louis King. Confederation of the Rhine. Prussian campaign: Jena and Auerstädt. Berlin Decree (Continental Blockade).

1807 — Eylau. Peace of Tilsit. Foundation of the Kingdom of Westphalia: Jérôme King.

1808 — Spanish campaign (until 1814). Joseph King of Spain. Murat King of Naples. Congress of Erfurt. Goethe. Weimar. Napoleon on the Spanish theater of war. Capitulation of Madrid.

1809 — Campaign against Austria. Eckmühl. Aspern. Wagram. Peace of Schönbrunn. Divorce from Joséphine.

1810 — Marriage to Marie Louise. Incorporation of the Papal States and Holland.

1811 — Birth of the King of Rome. National Council.

1812 — The Pope at Fontainebleau. Russian campaign. Battle of the Moskowa. Moscow. Beresina.

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